

Chapter 1 - WHY WE FIGHT JOINTLY

JOINTNESS

The term “jointness,” as defined in Joint Publication (JP) 1, Doctrine for the Armed Forces of the United States, implies the cross-service combination wherein the capability of the Joint Force is understood to be synergistic, with the sum greater than its parts (the capabilities of the individual components). The Joint Force is a values-based organization. The character, professionalism, and values of service members across the Joint Force are vital for operational success.

The nature of the challenges facing the United States and its interests demand that the Armed Forces operate as a closely integrated joint team. This joint construct leverages the unique capabilities and characteristics of the Army, Marine Corps, Navy, Air Force, Space Force, Coast Guard, and National Guard to enhance operational effectiveness. Each service possesses distinct capabilities and roles as well as rich culture and tradition, which, when blended appropriately, serve to achieve unique operational objectives across the range of military operations.

Jointness also requires effective coordination with interagency and multinational partners. Using a whole of government approach is essential to advancing our interests to strengthen security relationships and capacity by, with, and through military forces of partner nations, U.S. and foreign government agencies, state and local governments, and intergovernmental and nongovernmental organizations. To succeed, the Armed Forces must refine and proportionally integrate the military with all the tools of American power while working with partner nations to do the same.

Effective integration of joint forces is intended to address geographic and functional vulnerabilities. This does not mean that all forces are represented equally in all operations. Rather, Joint Force Commanders (JFC) choose the capabilities they need from the forces at their disposal. Each service contributes distinct capabilities to the Joint Force; however, overall joint effectiveness is dependent on each service’s purposeful reliance on the other services’ capabilities to maximize complementary and reinforcing effects. The degree of interdependence varies based on operational needs and objectives. Jointness has become the fundamental organizing construct across all echelons. When the United States military operates as a cohesive team, its capabilities exceed those of individual components. Jointness is a force multiplier that empowers the United States military to defeat adversaries and dominate all domains of warfare (air, land, maritime, space, cyberspace, and information warfare) during competition, crisis, and conflict.

For more information: [JP 1, Doctrine for the Armed Forces of the United States](#)

- https://www.jcs.mil/Portals/36/Documents/Doctrine/pubs/jp1_ch1.pdf

“We must never fight another war the way we fought the last two. I have a feeling that if the Army and Navy had fought our enemies as hard as they fought each other, the war would have ended much earlier.”

President Harry S. Truman
33rd President of the United States



HISTORICAL AND LEGAL CONTEXT

National Security Act of 1947. Prior to 1947, the United States military consisted of two distinct organizations in a fragmented structure – the Department of War and the Department of the Navy. On July 26, 1947, President Harry S. Truman executed a major restructuring of military forces by signing the National Security Act of 1947 into law. The National Security Act merged the Department of the Army (formerly the Department of War), the Department of the Navy, and the newly established Department of the Air Force into a single Department of Defense (DoD) under the Secretary of Defense (SecDef). The purpose of the reorganization was to integrate the policies and procedures of all military departments and to provide for their unified direction under civilian control of the SecDef, but not to merge the departments of the services. It also established Unified Combatant Commands to provide strategic direction of combatant forces and their integration into an efficient team of land, naval, and air forces. In addition to restructuring the U.S. military, the National Security Act of 1947 established the Central Intelligence Agency and the National Security Council (NSC). These organizations serve to assist Presidents in forming and implementing foreign policy.

For more information: [National Security Act of 1947](#)

- <https://history.state.gov/milestones/1945-1952/national-security-act>

Department of Defense Reorganization Act of 1958. Just more than a decade after the enactment of the National Security Act of 1947 and the subsequent merging of the military departments into a single DoD, the services still made overlapping efforts, requiring further policy intervention to increase joint interoperability. Thus, the Department of Defense Reorganization Act of 1958 was signed into law by President Dwight D. Eisenhower on August 6, 1958, building upon the efforts of the previous law. The Reorganization Act streamlined channels of authority, limiting service responsibilities and empowering the combatant commands in the employment of combat forces. Additionally, it authorized the President, acting through the SecDef, to establish unified or specified commands, assign missions, and determine their structure. It established a clear line of command from the President, through the SecDef, to combatant commanders. President Eisenhower's goal was "a complete unification of all military planning and combat forces and commands." The law requires that each service maintain a responsibility to organize, train, and equip forces under the direction of their respective service secretary. When a crisis requires a military response, authority is granted to combatant commanders to direct, deploy, or mobilize assigned forces provided by each service component.

For more information: [Department of Defense Reorganization Act of 1958](#)

- <https://www.govinfo.gov/content/pkg/STATUTE-72/pdf/STATUTE-72-Pg514.pdf>

Goldwater Nichols Act of 1986. In April 1980, President Jimmy Carter authorized OPERATION EAGLE CLAW to rescue 53 American hostages in Tehran, Iran. The operation included assets from all military services—Army, Navy, Air Force, and Marines. According to the operations plan, Navy RH-53 helicopters were to launch from the aircraft carrier, USS Nimitz, headed for a remote site known as Desert One. Meanwhile, Air Force MC-130s and EC-130s would transport a 118-man assault force comprised of Army Rangers, Delta Operators, and Air Force Combat Controllers to Desert One where they would rendezvous and refuel the helicopters. From there, the assault force was to enter the U.S. Embassy compound in Tehran, rescue the hostages, and transport them to safety aboard Air Force C-141 aircraft. Despite the bravery and dedication of all involved, the operation was ultimately a failure and resulted in the loss of eight service members. As a result, retired Admiral James L. Holloway III led an official investigation into the operation's failure and recorded the findings in the "The Holloway Commission Report." The report highlighted 23 key findings; among them were deficiencies in command and control, joint training, and alterations to joint task force composition.

The lessons learned during OPERATION EAGLE CLAW prompted U.S. military and civilian leaders to pursue new legislation to codify joint organizing, training, and operating procedures. In October 1986, President Ronald W. Regan signed the Goldwater-Nichols Department of Defense Reorganization Act, sponsored by Senator Barry Goldwater and Representative Bill Nichols. The Goldwater-Nichols Act empowered the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff (CJCS) with greater influence, increased the authority of unified combatant commands, and enriched the Joint Staff by mandating that officers must have at least one joint tour for promotion eligibility to general or flag officer ranks (generals or admirals). Additionally, the Goldwater-Nichols Act established United States Special Operations Command to execute specialized, joint operations.

For more information: [H.R.3622 - Goldwater-Nichols Department of Defense Reorganization Act of 1986](#)

- <https://www.congress.gov/bill/99th-congress/house-bill/3622>

OPERATION INHERENT RESOLVE. Since the passage of the Goldwater-Nichols Act, the military services have planned and executed successful joint operations across the globe. For example, in response to the attacks on American soil on September 11, 2001, the joint team has conducted operations to defend the sovereignty of the U.S., destroy terrorist networks in Iraq and Afghanistan, and stabilize governments during threats of insurgency. Fighting alongside and in support of joint service partners, Airmen have secured forward operating bases, cleared roadways of improvised explosive devices, conducted airstrikes, and provided countless other capabilities to bring American military might to bear on U.S. adversaries.

The successful campaign against Islamic State of Iraq and Syria (ISIS) is one of many examples of the effectiveness of intentional Joint Force integration. This operation seamlessly integrated the capabilities of multiple services and allied nations. Combined Joint Task Force – Operation Inherent Resolve (CJTF-OIR) was established in 2014 to eliminate ISIS and ensure peace and stability for the people of Iraq and Syria. Throughout the nearly five years of operations, CJTF-OIR conducted over 34,000 airstrikes, 39,970 airlift sorties, and 331,454 aerial refueling missions. Remotely piloted aircraft provided support to partner forces and conducted Intelligence, Surveillance, and Reconnaissance missions throughout the area of responsibility. The Command and Control capabilities Airmen provided increased situational awareness and aircraft deconfliction and helped fuse battlefield information for distribution to the Joint Force.

By March 2019, ISIS had suffered a crippling defeat, losing all the territory they once held. In addition to the territorial defeat, ISIS's leadership degraded, and its ideology became widely condemned. Following ISIS's defeat, CJTF-OIR continued operations with a revised mission to advise, assist, and enable partner forces until they can independently defeat Daesh in designated areas of Iraq and Syria in order to set conditions for long-term security cooperation frameworks. The heroic efforts of United States Airmen, their joint service counterparts, and partner nation allies led to the liberation of more than 42,000 square miles and almost eight million people who had been under ISIS's oppressive control.

Chapter 2 - WHAT IS THE JOINT MISSION

INSTRUMENTS OF NATIONAL POWER

The United States' vital national interests have endured since the founding of our Nation. Vital interests represent the matters and ideals for which the Nation is willing to sacrifice and are considered necessary for America's survival. America's core vital interests include security of the homeland, safety of Americans at home and abroad, economic prosperity, and preservation of the American way of life.

As the global security landscape evolves, U.S. Presidents emphasize broad objectives in the National Security Strategy (NSS) to address enduring and emerging threats that endanger these interests. Subsequently, U.S. government departments and agencies build their own strategies to translate and refine the NSS into more detailed guidance for their individual organizations. To advance national interests, appropriate government officials, often with National Security Council direction, employ the instruments of national power to achieve strategic objectives. These instruments include diplomatic, informational, military, economic, financial, intelligence, and law enforcement (DIME-FIL) activities. Each instrument of national power works most effectively when it is supported by and operates harmoniously with the other elements. Accordingly, all departments and agencies work within their unique lanes to support the President's foundational strategy via what is often referred to as a whole of government approach.

- ★ **Diplomatic.** Diplomacy is the principal instrument for engagement with other states and foreign groups to advance U.S. values, interests, and objectives and to solicit foreign support for U.S. military operations.
- ★ **Information.** Every DoD action that is planned or executed, every word that is written or spoken, and every image that is displayed or relayed communicates the intent of DoD and, by extension, the U.S. government, to achieve strategic effects.
- ★ **Military.** The U.S. employs the military at home and abroad in support of its national security goals. While the ultimate purpose of the U.S. Armed Forces is to fight and win the Nation's wars, military activities also include capacity and capability building of partner militaries and humanitarian aid and assistance operations.
- ★ **Economic.** A strong economy with free access to global markets and resources is fundamental to general welfare, the enabler of a strong national defense. The Department of Treasury works with other U.S. Government agencies, governments of other nations, and international finance institutions to encourage economic growth and prevent economic or financial crises.
- ★ **Financial.** The U.S. Government utilizes an array of resources to deny access to specified individuals or groups, including states and non-state actors, from formal or informal financial systems, networks, or sources of funding. Some of these resources include foreign aid, trade agreements, tariffs, embargos, and economic sanctions.
- ★ **Intelligence.** Intelligence consists of data collected by various organizations through a variety of mediums. Ambiguous data is translated into coherent information about the environment, future capabilities and intentions, and relevant actors to provide advantage to decision makers, including commanders and policy makers.
- ★ **Law Enforcement.** The U.S. Government enforces laws through government agencies, intergovernmental organizations, and host-nation partners. Law enforcement enables the U.S.

Government to secure the homeland, detain criminals, and assist mission partners with security needs.

The United States leverages DIME-FIL activities in both proactive and retaliatory forms to shape behaviors and outcomes of foreign nations and situations. Proactively applied, DIME-FIL instruments ensure U.S. investment in critical relationships with like-minded foreign allies and partners. Conversely, retaliatory application of the instruments of national power is crucial to preventing aggression of bad actors that threaten the United States and its partners. The first Gulf War is one example of the U.S. Government's employment of the instruments of national power to achieve strategic effects. When Saddam Hussein's forces invaded Kuwait, President George H. W. Bush utilized diplomacy to energize a coalition of nations to develop specific rules of engagement for the counter operation. Through diplomacy and measured military action, the coalition successfully removed Iraqi forces from Kuwait while minimizing casualties.

For more information: [*The First Gulf War; JP 1, Doctrine for the Armed Forces of the United States*](#)

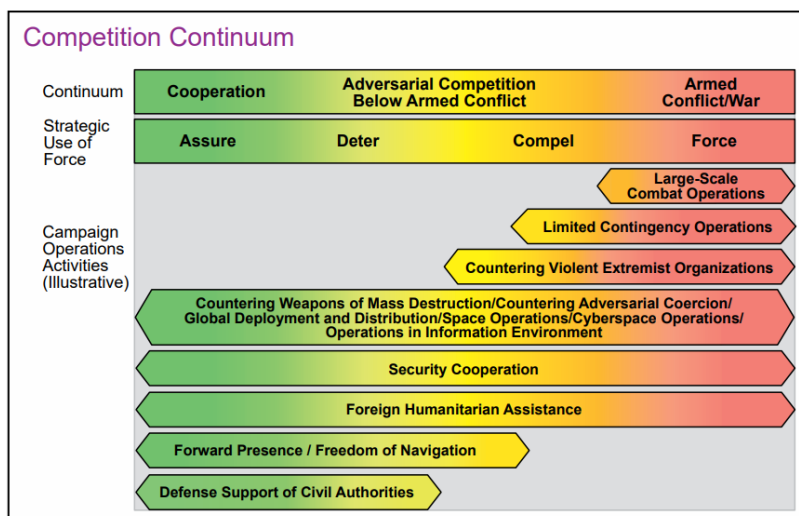
- <https://history.state.gov/departmenthistory/short-history/firstgulf>
- https://www.jcs.mil/Portals/36/Documents/Doctrine/pubs/jp1_ch1.pdf

THE COMPETITION CONTINUUM

The U.S. military's mission extends beyond waging war on adversaries. The military plays an integral role in all aspects of DIME-FIL and provides a credible threat of force that empowers and enables our elected civilian leaders to leverage all instruments of national power to achieve objectives in accordance with national interests and policies.

Competition is a fundamental aspect of international relations. As state and non-state actors seek to protect and advance their interests, they continually compete over incompatible aims. The competition continuum describes a world of enduring competition conducted through a mixture of cooperation, competition, and armed conflict. These descriptors refer to the relationship between the United States and another strategic actor concerning a set of policy objectives. This description allows for simultaneous interaction with the same strategic actor at different points along the competition continuum.

For instance, the United States might be in a state of competition with a strategic competitor regarding some interests, such as freedom of navigation in disputed areas, and cooperation in others, such as counter-piracy. By providing a lexicon to describe this complexity, the competition continuum facilitates shared understanding, both within the DoD and with interagency partners who often have a leading role. The elements of the competition continuum include:



- ★ **Cooperation:** Situations in which joint forces take actions with another strategic partner in pursuit of policy objectives. Cooperation does not preclude some element of competition or even armed conflict when their objectives are not in complete alignment.
- ★ **Competition:** Competition is when joint forces or multinational forces take actions outside of armed conflict against a state or non-state adversary in pursuit of policy objectives, but neither

seeks armed conflict. These actions are typically nonviolent and conducted under greater legal or policy constraints than in armed conflict but can include lethal and nonlethal actions by the joint force or sponsorship of surrogates or partners. Competition does not preclude some cooperation in other areas.

- ★ **Armed Conflict/War:** Armed conflict/war occurs when military forces take actions against an enemy in hostilities or declared war. International law distinguishes armed conflict from disturbances, including riots and protests, by the intensity of the conflict and the organization of the parties.

For more information: [*JP 3-0, Joint Campaigns and Operations*](#)

- https://jdeis.js.mil/jdeis/new_pubs/jp3_0.pdf

MILITARY ACTIVITIES

The emerging strategic environment presents ever-increasing threats to the security and interest of our Nation across the range of the DIME-FIL domains. The character of war is not static, and the full spectrum of the instruments of national power are essential to deterrence and victory in future high-end fights with great power competitors. For its part, the Joint Force focuses on six primary activities in fulfilling its obligation to the Nation:

- ★ **Secure the Homeland.** Securing the U.S. homeland is the Nation's first priority. Defense of the homeland is the DoD's highest priority, aiming to identify and defeat threats as far away from the homeland as possible.
- ★ **Win the Nation's Wars.** Winning the Nation's wars remains the preeminent justification for maintaining capable and credible military forces in the event that deterrence should fail.
- ★ **Deter our Adversaries.** Deterring adversarial powers from making the decision to utilize armed force is one of the most vital tasks of national defense. Defending national interests requires the capability to prevail in conflict and deter potential adversaries that threaten the vital interests of the U.S. or its partners.
- ★ **Security Cooperation.** Security cooperation encompasses all DoD interactions with foreign defense establishments to build defense relationships that promote specific U.S. security interests, develop allied and friendly military capabilities for self-defense and multinational operations, and provide U.S. forces with peacetime and contingency access to host nations.
- ★ **Support to Civil Authorities.** The U.S. responds to a variety of civil crises to relieve human suffering and restore civil function. These crises may be foreign or domestic and may occur independently, as in a natural disaster disrupting an otherwise functioning society, or within the context of a conflict, such as widespread suffering in a nation embroiled in insurgency.
- ★ **Adapt to a Changing Environment.** The strategic security environment is constantly changing. Effectiveness in addressing an evolving environment and meeting unique security challenges requires appropriate employment of the instruments of national power and the capabilities of the joint team to conduct military operations worldwide. The Joint Force must be innovative and agile.

For more information: [*JP 1, Doctrine for the Armed Forces of the United States*](#)

- https://www.jcs.mil/Portals/36/Documents/Doctrine/pubs/jp1_ch1.pdf

SERVICE MISSIONS AND IDENTITIES

Each service maintains the responsibility to organize, train, and equip forces to conduct specific missions. Service members from each military branch are employed as a Joint Force to execute military operations under the direction of combatant commanders. Each service maintains its own organic mission, identity, culture, and values. When employed as a joint team, the services blend their unique elements to complement the strengths, capabilities, and values of the other services to achieve mission success.

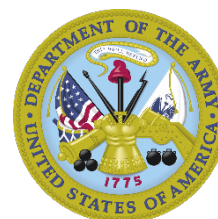
United States Air Force. The Air Force's mission is *"To Fly, Fight, and Win...Airpower Anytime, Anywhere."* The Air Force mission statement reflects a commitment to achieve and maintain superiority across all domains through the application of airpower to gain a distinct advantage over our adversaries. The Air Force's identity is grounded in independence and ingenuity, and its culture emphasizes the term *Airman*. This term refers to anyone who understands and appreciates the full range of air and space capabilities and can employ or support some aspect of airpower. The Air Force core values include integrity, service before self, and excellence in all we do.



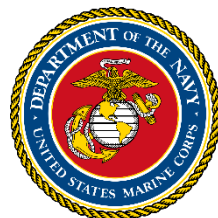
United States Space Force. The Space Force provides Guardians to conduct global space operations that enhance the way our joint and coalition forces fight, while also offering decision makers military options to achieve national objectives. Guardians comprise those forces that protect, defend, and project spacepower. They provide support, security, stability, and strategic effects by employing spacepower in, from, and to the space domain. The Space Force is a lean, mission-focused, digital service that relentlessly pursues new ideas, takes calculated risk, and rapidly learns from failure. Guardians value agility, innovation, and boldness.



United States Army. The Army's mission is to deploy, fight and win our Nation's wars by providing ready, prompt, and sustained land dominance by Army forces across the full spectrum of conflict as part of the Joint Force. The Army's mission is vital to the Nation as it propels the service capable of defeating enemy ground forces and indefinitely seizing and controlling adversary centers of gravity – its land, resources, and population. Army culture is founded on a fundamental belief in the human dimension of war and the centrality of land combat in its prosecution. Soldiers identify as warriors; accordingly, they value troop duty to the staff, training to education, and the practical to the theoretical. The Army core values include loyalty, duty, respect, selfless service, honor, integrity, and personal courage.



United States Marine Corps. The Marine Corps provides fleet marine forces of combined arms, together with supporting air components, for service with the fleet in the seizure or defense of advanced naval bases and for the conduct of such land operations as may be essential to the prosecution of a naval campaign. The culture of the Marine Corp is unique from that of the other services; Marines are proud to be "one of the few" and value being a Marine over any rank or occupational specialty. All Marines are riflemen first and selflessly take care of their own. The core values of the Marine Corps include honor, courage, and commitment.



United States Navy. The United States is a maritime Nation, and the Navy protects America at sea. The U.S. Navy defends freedom, preserves economic prosperity, and keeps the seas open and free. It remains prepared to execute its timeless role, as directed by Congress and the President, to defend American interests around the globe. Navy culture is a deployment culture, and Sailors pride themselves on the months and years they spend at sea. Accordingly, the Navy is the most independent of the services and prizes autonomy of command at sea and technical expertise. The Navy core values include honor, courage, and commitment.



United States National Guard. The National Guard has a unique dual mission that consists of both Federal and state roles. For state missions, the governor, through the state Adjutant General, commands Guard forces. The governor can call the National Guard into action during local or statewide emergencies, such as storms, fires, earthquakes, or civil disturbances. Additionally, the President of the United States can activate the National Guard for participation in federal missions. When federalized, Guard units are commanded by the combatant commander of the theater in which they are operating. The National Guard comprises the primary combat reserve of the Army and the Air Force, leveraging the civilian skillsets of its Soldiers and Airmen in a military capacity. Guardsmen prioritize readiness, people, and innovation.



United States Coast Guard. Organized under the U.S. Department of Homeland Security, the United States Coast Guard fulfills its mission to ensure our Nation's maritime safety, security, and stewardship. The Coast Guard saves those in peril and protects the Nation from all maritime threats. During times of war or conflict, the Coast Guard serves under the Department of the Navy. Its legal core is as a military service, vested with unique law enforcement authorities and leavened with a well-earned reputation for humanitarian service. These attributes enable Coast Guardsmen to satisfy a broad, multi-mission mandate to the Nation. The Coast Guard core values include honor, respect, and devotion to duty.



For more information: [*The Noncommissioned Officer and Petty Officer, Spacepower*](#)

- <https://www.jcs.mil/Portals/36/Documents/Doctrine/nco/NCO-Backbone.pdf>
- https://www.spaceforce.mil/Portals/1/Space%20Capstone%20Publication_10%20Aug%202020.pdf

Chapter 3 - WHAT ARE JOINT ORGANIZATIONS

Joint warfare is team warfare. The Armed Forces of the United States—all military organizations at all levels—are a team. The capacity of the Armed Forces to operate as a cohesive unit, in collaboration with governmental, non-governmental, civil, and public entities as well as international allies and partners, is a key advantage in any operational environment. The term “joint” connotes activities, operations, organizations, etc. in which elements of two or more military departments participate. The term “combined” identifies two or more forces or agencies of two or more allies operating together. Success depends on well-integrated command headquarters, supporting organizations, and forces that operate in concert with one another.

The Armed Forces of the United States are most effective when employed as a Joint Force. A Joint Force is defined as a force composed of elements, assigned or attached, of two or more military departments operating under a single Joint Force Commander (JFC). This comprehensive approach, involving all participating organizations, both military and nonmilitary, within an operational area requires the JFC to understand the capabilities, limitations, and mandates of those organizations involved and effectively communicate the mission of the Joint Force. The major components of the Joint Force include the Joint Staff, Combatant Commands (CCMD), Joint Task Forces (JTF), and Defense Agencies and DoD Field Activities (often referred to as 4th Estate Agencies). It is further bolstered by a powerful complement of international alliances and partnerships.

For more information: [*DoD Dictionary of Military and Associated Terms*](#)

- https://jdeis.js.mil/jdeis/new_pubs/dictionary.pdf

JOINT STAFF

The Joint Chiefs of Staff. The Joint Chiefs of Staff (JCS) consist of the Chairman, the Vice Chairman, the Chief of Staff of the Army, the Commandant of the Marine Corps, the Chief of Naval Operations, the Chief of Staff of the Air Force, the Chief of Space Operations, and the Chief of the National Guard Bureau. Headquartered at the Pentagon in Washington D.C., the Joint Staff is comprised of approximately 1,500 personnel from all six services and charged with assisting the Chairman in discharging their responsibility to the SecDef to provide unified strategic direction, operation, and integration of combatant land, naval, air, and space forces.



The Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff. The Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff (CJCS) is the principal military advisor to the President, the National Security Council, the Homeland Security Council, and the Secretary of Defense. Although the Chairman does not have command authority, in matters requiring global military strategic and operational integration, the Chairman, as global integrator, is responsible for providing advice to the SecDef on the arrangement of cohesive military actions in time, space, and purpose, executed as a whole to address trans-regional, all-domain, and multi-functional challenges.

The Vice Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff. The DoD Reorganization Act of 1986 created the position of the Vice Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff (VCJCS), who performs such duties as the CJCS may prescribe. By law, he is the second ranking member of the Armed Forces and replaces the CJCS in his absence or disability. Though the Vice Chairman was not originally included as a member of the JCS, Section 911 of the National Defense Authorization Act of 1992 made him a full voting member of the JCS.

The Senior Enlisted Advisor to the CJCS. The Senior Enlisted Advisor to the Chairman (SEAC) is a distinct military position and rank within the United States DoD and is designated the most senior enlisted service member, by position, in the United States Armed Forces. The SEAC serves as the principal advisor to the Chairman on all matters involving joint and combined total force integration, utilization, health of the force, and joint development for enlisted personnel. The SEAC represents the enlisted voice during engagements with leaders ranging from the Office of the Secretary of Defense to the civilian community to service leaders of foreign nations. Though not in the immediate chain of command, the SEAC serves as a vital conduit from the Chairman to the Service Senior Enlisted Advisors and the Command Senior Enlisted Leaders for the combatant commands to all enlisted members throughout the Joint Force.



"Today's operating environment is increasingly ambiguous, volatile, and complex. No longer is violent extremism the paramount threat. Rather, the 21st Century has witnessed the emergence of highly capable strategic competitors who are rapidly closing the gap in military capabilities and honing their capacity to disrupt rules-based order and reshape the international system. To deter adversarial aggression and win in a high-end fight, it is imperative that we build an innovative, adaptable, and lethal Joint Force. Our military services do not operate in a vacuum. Rather, they must synchronize unique capabilities to deliver the full complement of capabilities of the U.S. Armed Forces.

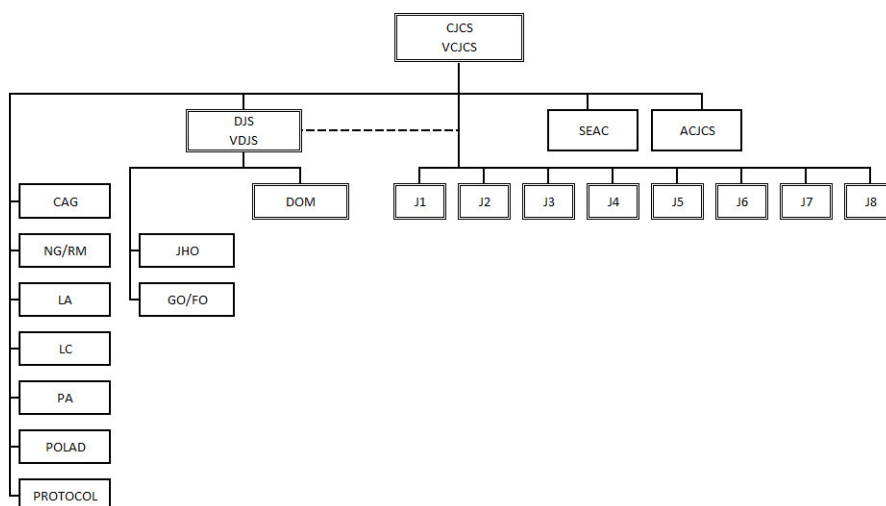


In 1947, Congress established an Air Force capable of preserving peace and security, providing defense, supporting national policies and objectives, and overcoming hostile enemies in conjunction with the other armed forces. Accordingly, our six services, in concert with international allies and partners, plan, train, and fight together as a team. Airmen are well equipped to support and execute all aspects of airpower, but it is only in tandem with our fellow Soldiers, Marines, Sailors, Guardians, and Coast Guardsmen that we advance and safeguard vital U.S. interests.

It is therefore imperative that today's Airmen understand why and how service members in the Profession of Arms fight jointly. We must educate and equip ourselves with knowledge of joint concepts and of the other services' unique capabilities. We must know the Air Force's core missions and appreciate airpower's contribution to the joint purpose and mission. We must recognize that each individual we stand and fight beside swore the same oath that we did, to support and defend the Constitution of the United States."

Ramon "CZ" Colon Lopez
Senior Enlisted Advisor to the CJCS

The Joint Staff. The Joint Staff is comprised of unique departments and directorates tasked with the execution of distinct functions. These include the Joint Staff Information Management Division, Directorate of Management, J1 – Personnel and Manpower, J2 – Intelligence, J3 – Operations, J4 – Logistics, J5 – Strategic Plans and Policy, J6 – Command, Control, Communications, and Computers/Cyber, J7 – Joint Force Development, and J8 – Joint Force Structure, Resources, and Assessment. These departments ensure planning, policies, intelligence, manpower, communications, and logistics function are translated into action. The Office of the Chairman also contains supporting elements that provide assistance to the CJCS, VCJCS, and the JCS on matters of advisement.



For more information: [*The Joint Staff*](#)

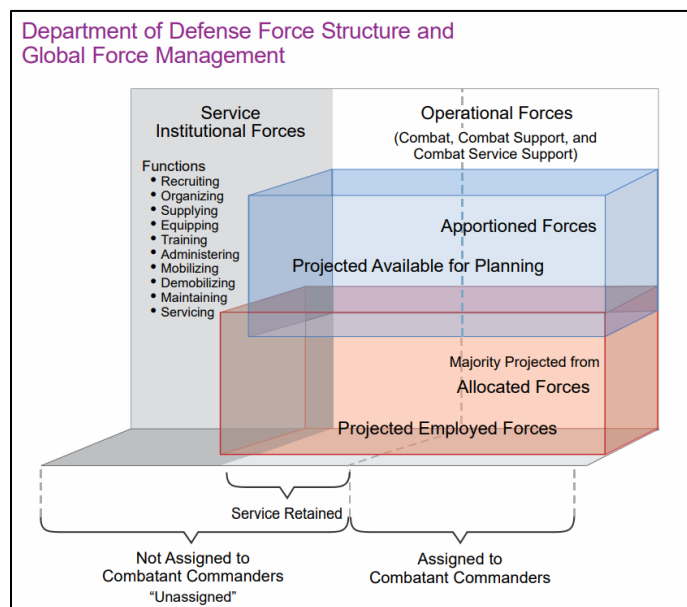
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COMBATANT COMMANDS

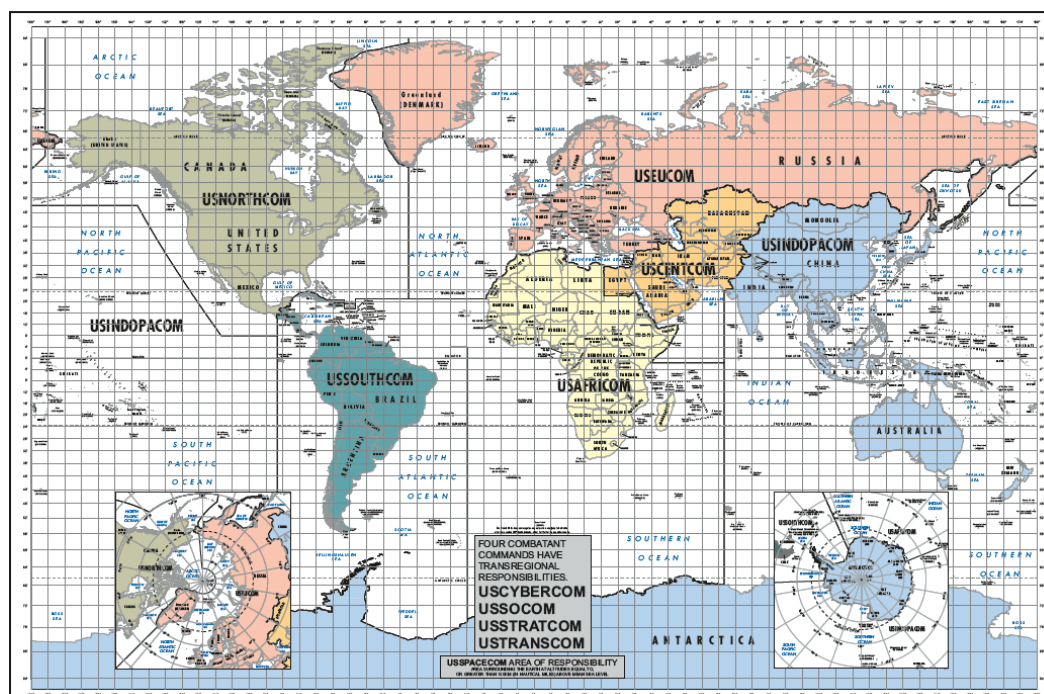
The National Security Act of 1947 and Title 10, U.S. Code provide the basis for establishment of unified command of U.S. military forces. The Unified Command Plan (UCP) establishes the missions and responsibilities for CCMD Commanders (CCDR). The President, through the Secretary of Defense and with the advice and assistance of the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff, establishes combatant commands for the performance of military missions and prescribes the force structure of such commands.

CCDRs exercise command authority (COCOM) of assigned forces. The CCDR may delegate operational control (OPCON), tactical control (TACON), or establish support command relationships of assigned forces. Airmen assigned to CCMDs perform their missions under the command authority of the CCDR to which they are assigned and support the mission and strategic objectives of that CCMD. Relative to their commands, CCDRs develop geographic or functional strategies which determine force employment. These strategies articulate the pursuit of global, regional, or functional objectives within the context of national strategy to achieve national policy objectives specific to designated region or function.

Assignment of forces is managed through Global Force Management (GFM). GFM is a series of processes that weigh the services' capacity to generate forces against CCMD requirements while building readiness and a credible deterrent force. Through the GFM process, Services provide sufficient, ready, and available forces to execute national strategy. GFM enables proper distribution of forces among the CCMDs through the assignment of forces, provides a mechanism to temporarily adjust force distribution to meet dynamic global challenges through the allocation process, and ensures the availability of apportioned forces, described as the services' estimate of the number of forces that can reasonably be made available over a general timeline should a surge of forces be required.



In total, there are eleven CCMDs, seven of which are geographic and four of which are functional. The geographic commands include U.S. Africa Command, U.S. Central Command, U.S. European Command, U.S. Indo-Pacific Command, U.S. Northern Command, U.S. Southern Command, and U.S. Space Command. The functional commands include U.S. Cyber Command, U.S. Special Operations Command, U.S. Strategic Command, and U.S. Transportation Command.



U.S. Africa Command. USAFRICOM, with partners, counters trans-national threats and malign actors, strengthens security forces, and responds to humanitarian crises in order to advance U.S. national interests and promote regional security, stability, and prosperity.



U.S. Central Command. USCENTCOM directs and enables military operations and activities with allies and partners to increase regional security and stability in support of enduring U.S. interests.



U.S. Cyber Command. USCYBERCOM directs, synchronizes, and coordinates cyberspace planning and operations – to defend and advance national interests – in collaboration with domestic and international partners.



U.S. European Command. USEUCOM executes a full range of multi-domain operations in coordination with Allies and partners to support NATO, deter Russia, enable global operations, and counter trans-national threats in order to defend the Homeland forward and fortify Euro-Atlantic security. Should deterrence fail, USEUCOM is prepared to fight alongside allies and partners to prevail in any conflict.



U.S. Indo-Pacific Command. USINDOPACOM implements a combat credible deterrence strategy capable of denying our adversaries' sustained air and sea dominance by focusing on posturing the Joint Force to win before fighting while being ready to fight and win, if required.



U.S. Northern Command. USNORTHCOM defends our homeland – deters, detects, denies, and defeats threats to the United States, conducts security cooperation activities with allies and partners, and supports civil authorities.



The Joint Team

U.S. Southern Command. USSOUTHCOM deters aggression, defeats threats, rapidly responds to crises, and builds regional capacity, working with our allies, partner nations, and U.S. Government team members to enhance security and defend the U.S. homeland and our national interests.



U.S. Space Command. USSPACECOM conducts operations in, from, and to space to deter conflict and, if necessary, defeat aggression, deliver space combat power for the Joint/Combined Force, and defend U.S. vital interests with allies and partners.



U.S. Special Operations Command. USSOCOM develops and employs fully capable Special Operations Forces to conduct global special operations and activities as part of the Joint Force to support persistent, networked, and distributed combatant command operations and campaigns against state and non-state actors to protect and advance U.S. policies and objectives.



U.S. Strategic Command. USSTRATCOM employs nuclear, cyber, global strike, joint electronic warfare, missile defense, and intelligence capabilities to deter aggression, decisively and accurately respond if deterrence fails, assure allies, shape adversary behavior, defeat terror, and define the force of the future.



U.S. Transportation Command. USTRANSCOM conducts globally integrated mobility operations, leads the broader Joint Deployment and Distribution Enterprise, and provides enabling capabilities to project and sustain the Joint Force in support of national objectives.



For more information: [Title 10, U.S. Code, JP 5-0, Joint Planning](#)

- <https://uscode.house.gov/view.xhtml?path=/prelim@title10&edition=prelim>
- https://www.jcs.mil/Portals/36/Documents/Doctrine/pubs/jp5_0.pdf?ver=us_fQ_pGS_u65ateysmAng%3d%3d

JOINT COMPONENT COMMANDS AND JOINT TASK FORCES

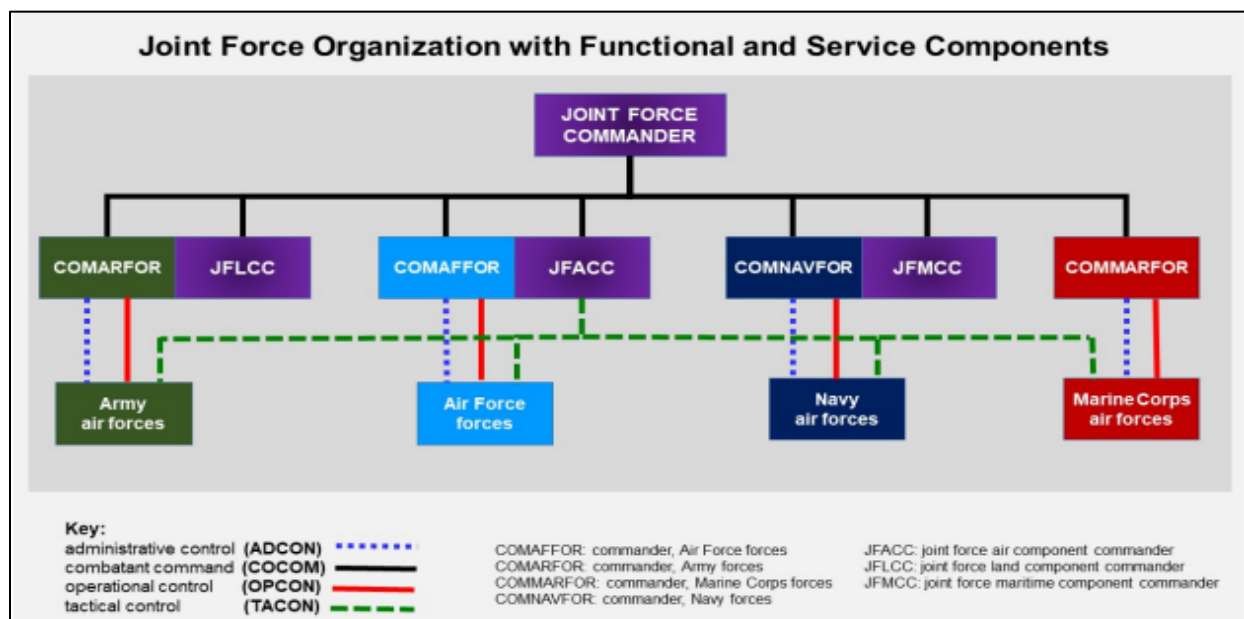
The JFC normally assigns broad missions to the component commanders. Each mission is assigned a specification of a supported commander for that mission. The designation of Joint Force air, land, maritime and special operations component commanders (Joint Force Air Component Commander [JFACC], Joint Force Land Component Commander [JFLCC], Joint Force Maritime Component Commander [JFMCC], and Joint Force Special Operations Component Commander [JFSOCC])

respectively) is at the discretion of the JFC. As an example, the JFC may designate the JFACC as the supported commander for counter air, strategic attack, air interdiction, and theater airborne intelligence, surveillance, and reconnaissance. As such, the JFACC is responsible to the JFC for planning, coordinating, executing, and assessing primary mission activities, while other component commanders support the JFACC. Because most services have forces that operate in the air domain, the designation of functional commanders allows greater synergy by integrating similar activities across service boundaries.

U.S. Forces are required by national command authorities to respond on short notice to spontaneous, unpredictable crises. When a crisis requires a military response, the Secretary of Defense, combatant commander, subordinate unified commander, or an existing JFC can form a Joint Task Force (JTF) tailored to address the crisis. The JTF is the primary construct for joint operations, and its organizational structure capitalizes on the unique capabilities of each service, providing flexibility to tailor the size and makeup of the force to accomplish specific tasks during peace, crisis, or war.

Some JTFs, known as Combined Joint Task Forces (CJTF) include partner nations. A CJTF is a deployable multinational, multiservice task force generated and tailored primarily but not exclusively for military operations not involving the defense of the alliance territory, such as humanitarian relief and peacekeeping. CJTFs provide a flexible and efficient means to enable partner nations to generate forces on short notice, providing rapidly deployable task forces with appropriate command and control.

Joint Task Forces do not normally have standing Air Force structures and require the Air Force establish an Air Expeditionary Task Force (AETF) as a temporary Air Force Service component command. The commander of the AETF would either be the commander, Air Force Forces (COMAFFOR) directly responsible to the JTF commander, or established in a supporting role to the JTF under the authority of the theater air component commander.



JTFs have a specific, limited objective, and once they have executed their missions, they are dissolved. Historically, JTFs have been constructed to execute disaster and humanitarian relief missions, combat operations, and counterdrug operations. Some examples of present-day JTFs and CJTFs include:

Combined Joint Task Force – Horn of Africa. CJTF-HOA is the USAFRICOM organization that conducts operations in the region to enhance partner nation capacity, promote regional security and stability, dissuade conflict, and protect U.S. and coalition interests. CJTF-HOA is comprised of multiple U.S. military service branches as well as allied and partner armed services personnel, working together against malign actors to strengthen collective security forces and respond to crises to promote regional security, stability, and prosperity.



Combined Joint Task Force – Operation Inherent Resolve. Established in 2014 at the request of Iraqi and Syrian governments to degrade and destroy the Islamic State of Iraq and the Levant (ISIL), CJTF-OIR is comprised of forces from over 77 nations and five international organizations. This combined JTF advises, assists, and enables partner forces until they can independently defeat Daesh in designated areas of Iraq and Syria in order to set conditions for long-term security cooperation frameworks.



Joint Task Force – Bravo. Stood up at the request of the Honduran government to increase the number and size of combined training exercises in the Republic of Honduras, JTF-Bravo was established in 1984, making it the longest standing JTF in the U.S. military. JTF-Bravo conducts and supports USSOUTHCOM operations, activities, and investments across all domains in support of U.S. Government agencies and partner nations in Central America, in order to enhance regional security and defend the U.S. homeland and national interests.



Joint Task Force – Civil Support. JTF-CS provides command and control for DoD forces deployed in support of the National Response Plan, specifically, managing the consequences of a domestic chemical, biological, radiological, nuclear, or high-yield explosive (CBRNE) incident. JTF-CS supports USNORTHCOM and is able to respond anywhere within North America within twenty-four hours to lead technical and non-technical search and rescue, security, hazard analysis, evidence collection, mission command, logistics support, aviation support, and medical support after an actual or threatened CBRNE incident.



Joint Task Force – National Capital Region. JTF-NCR was established in the aftermath of the September 11, 2001 attacks to address threats to the National Capital Region and provide DoD support to civil authorities. A joint command subordinate to USNORTHCOM, JTF-NCR conducts homeland defense and defense support of civil authorities. It is a collaborative, regional team focused on safeguarding the National Capital Region.



For more information: [*JP 3-30, Joint Air Operations*](#), [*The Combined Joint Task Forces Concept*](#)

- https://www.jcs.mil/Portals/36/Documents/Doctrine/pubs/jp3_30.pdf
- <https://www.nato.int/docu/comm/1999/9904-wsh/pres-eng/16cjtf.pdf>

DEFENSE AGENCIES AND DOD FIELD ACTIVITIES

The Department of Defense cannot operate without support from defense agencies and field activities outside the military services that perform functions critical to the joint mission. Pursuant to U.S. Code Title 10, Section 191, the Secretary of Defense, when they determine that it is more effective, economical, or efficient, may provide for the performance or supply of a service activity that is common to more than one military department by a single DoD agency. Such agencies are designated Defense Agencies or DoD Field Activities and are commonly referred to as the 4th Estate.

There are more than two dozen defense agencies and field activities outside of the military branches which have been established for specific purposes in support of the DoD mission to provide the military forces needed to deter war and ensure the Nation's security. These organizations' missions range from combat support to research and development to security cooperation. Some examples of these agencies include:

Defense Contract Management Agency. The Defense Contract Management Agency (DCMA) is the independent eyes and ears of DoD and its partners, enhancing warfighter lethality by ensuring timely delivery of quality products, and providing relevant acquisition insight supporting affordability and readiness. The Defense Contract Management Agency is, first and foremost, a product delivery organization. Our Nation's warfighters expect our defense industry to produce and deliver the equipment they need to fight, survive, and win. DCMA's integrated team of acquisition and support professionals makes this happen.



Defense Health Agency. The Defense Health Agency (DHA) is a joint, integrated Combat Support Agency that enables the Army, Navy, and Air Force medical services to provide a medically ready force and ready medical force to combatant commands in both peacetime and wartime. The DHA uses the principles of Ready Reliable Care to advance high reliability practices across the Military Health System by improving our system operations, driving innovative solutions, and cultivating a culture of safety.



Defense Information Systems Agency. The Defense Information Systems Agency (DISA) conducts Department of Defense Information Networks (DODIN) operations for the joint warfighter to enable lethality across all warfighting domains in defense of our Nation. DISA plans, engineers, acquires, tests, fields, operates, and assures information-sharing capabilities, command and control solutions, and a global enterprise infrastructure to support DoD and national-level leadership.



Defense Intelligence Agency. The Defense Intelligence Agency (DIA) provides intelligence on foreign militaries to prevent and decisively win wars. Additionally, DIA provides military intelligence to warfighters, defense policymakers, and force planners in the DoD and Intelligence Community, in support of U.S. military planning, operations, and weapons systems acquisition. DIA plans, manages, and executes intelligence operations during peacetime, crisis, and war.



Defense Logistics Agency. The Defense Logistics Agency (DLA) delivers readiness and lethality to the "Warfighter Always" and supports our Nation through quality, proactive global logistics. DLA is the Nation's combat logistics support agency that manages the end-to-end global defense supply chain – from raw materials to end user disposition – for the military services, combatant commands, other federal, state, and local agencies, and partner and allied nations.



Defense Security Cooperation Agency. The Defense Security Cooperation Agency (DSCA) advances U.S. defense and foreign policy interests by building the capacity of foreign partners in order to encourage and enable allies and partners to respond to shared challenges. DSCA's vision is to lead the Security Cooperation enterprise in delivering effective, enduring, and timely solutions, and serve as the source for security cooperation expertise and innovation for our defense and foreign policy stakeholders to ensure the United States remains the global partner of choice.



Defense Threat Reduction Agency. The Defense Threat Reduction Agency (DTRA) enables the DoD, the U.S. Government, and international partners to counter and deter Weapons of Mass Destruction (WMD) and emerging threats. It enables the services and USSTRATCOM to ensure strategic deterrence is safe and credible and directly supports strategic response through nuclear readiness and modernization.



National Security Agency. The National Security Agency (NSA) provides intelligence support to military operations through signals intelligence activities, while cybersecurity personnel, products, and services ensure that military communications and data remain secure and out of the hands of our adversaries. NSA's cybersecurity mission also produces and packages the codes that secure our Nation's weapons systems. Additionally, it sets common protocols and standards so that our military can securely share information with our allies, NATO, and coalition forces around the world.



National Geospatial-Intelligence Agency. The National Geospatial-Intelligence Agency (NGA) provides geospatial intelligence for our Nation's security. NGA has a responsibility to provide the products and services that decision makers, military service members, and first responders need, when they need it most. As a member of the Intelligence Community and the Department of Defense, NGA supports a unique mission set. NGA is committed to acquiring, developing, and maintaining the proper technology, people, and processes that will enable overall mission success.



ALLIANCES AND PARTNERSHIPS

The Joint Force is significantly strengthened via a robust network of multinational alliances and partnerships. In terms of national security, alliances are formal agreements between two or more nations, formalized by means of a treaty, binding the signatories to support the other(s), particularly in time of war. Partnerships, often referred to as "strategic partnerships" are less formal than alliances and are not endorsed via treaty. Rather, partnerships are understandings between two or more nations that enable parties on both sides to learn from each other to enhance cooperation and build mutually beneficial relationships.

"Our world is at an inflection point. Global dynamics have shifted. New crises demand our attention. And in this moment of accelerating global challenges...one thing is certain: we will only succeed in advancing American interests and upholding our universal values by working in common cause with our closest allies and partners."

President Joseph R. Biden, Jr.
46th President of the United States



The United States has an unmatched network of alliances and partnerships that enables our Nation to disrupt threats before they can reach our shores and ensures peace, security, and prosperity for the American people. Some of these include:

Five Eyes. Five Eyes (FVEY) is a cooperative intelligence alliance comprised of the United States, United Kingdom, Canada, Australia, and New Zealand. Founded by the United Kingdom-United States of

America Agreement (UKUSA) in 1946, FVEY is the world's oldest intelligence-sharing relationship, enabling partner nations to share collected multi-source intelligence to safeguard and advance common objectives and interests.

North American Aerospace Defense Command. The North American Aerospace Defense Command (NORAD) is a combined organization of the United States and Canada responsible for providing aerospace warning, air sovereignty, and protection for North America and the nations' critical infrastructure from any aerospace or maritime threat. NORAD maintains that a capable and persistent defense at home is a prerequisite to projecting power to a globally integrated forward fight. Accordingly, it engages in improving critical infrastructure resiliency, strengthening partnerships, and providing rapid, flexible options and decision space for national leaders to respond to threats against the homeland.

North Atlantic Treaty Organization. Founded in 1949 with the signing of the Washington Treaty, the North Atlantic Treaty Organization (NATO) is a security alliance comprised of 30 member nations in North America and Europe. The foundational goal of this organization is to safeguard the allies' freedom and security by political and military means. At the core of the alliance is the concept that an attack against one ally is an attack against all. NATO ensures collaboration of member states to prevent and respond to global threats such as cyber-attacks, terrorism, piracy, and various forms of aggression that jeopardize the alliance and its global network of partners.

Quadrilateral Security Dialogue. Initiated in 2007 by Japanese Prime Minister Shinzo Abe, the Quadrilateral Security Dialogue, often referred to as the Quad, is a diplomatic and military arrangement between Australia, India, Japan, and the United States. Members of the Quad assert a shared vision for a "Free and Open Indo-Pacific" and a "rules-based maritime order in the East and South China seas," necessary to counter Chinese maritime claims.

Pacific Partnership. Established in 2006, the Pacific Partnership is an annual deployment of the U.S. Navy's Pacific Fleet, in coordination with regional governments, militaries, humanitarian, and other non-governmental organizations, to visit countries in the Indo-Pacific region to enhance relationships, interoperability, and security ties among the nations. The Pacific Partnership provides humanitarian, medical, dental, and civil engineering assistance to the nations of the Pacific.

State Partnership Program. The State Partnership Program (SPP), established in 1993, is a joint program of the United States DoD and individual states, territories, and the District of Columbia. The program is managed by the National Guard Bureau (NGB). The SPP matches NGB units of the various states, territories, and the District of Columbia with foreign nations around the world in support of security cooperation objectives, crisis relief, and humanitarian activities. The SPP has been successfully building relationships for over 25 years and now includes 85 partnerships with 93 nations around the globe.

Chapter 4 - WHAT IS JOINT WARFIGHTING

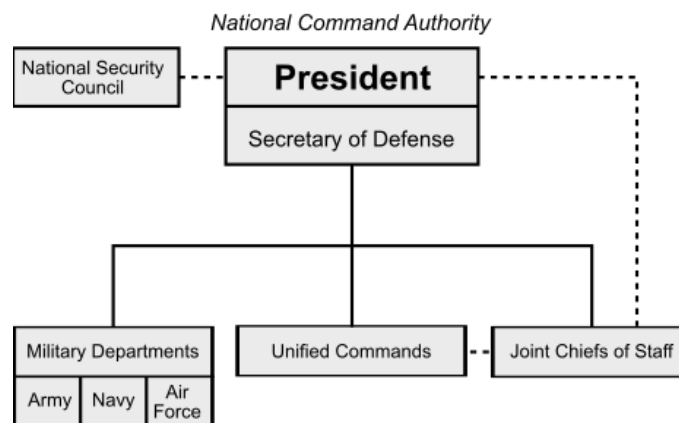
JOINT OPERATIONS OVERVIEW

A multitude of DIME-FIL factors affect national security in today's complex operating environment, requiring a whole of government approach and an atmosphere of inclusiveness to advance and safeguard vital U.S. national interests – protecting the American people, expanding America's prosperity, and realizing and defending our democratic values.

The success of joint operations requires unity of effort and unified action between military forces, governmental and nongovernmental entities, international partners, and the private sector. This necessitates that all stakeholders, regardless of service, organization, or other affiliation, coordinate activities and synchronize efforts toward common objectives.

Joint operations address regional and trans-regional threats across a dynamic geo-political landscape in which problems and mission partner interests, roles, and approaches evolve continually. In the past, militaries engaged in conflict primarily in the land, maritime, and air domains. Future conflict will likely be trans-regional, multi-domain, and multifunctional, spanning the full spectrum of the conflict and competition continuums. To defeat our adversaries and abate the advancement of our pacing threats, a coordinated and unified effort across the joint team is imperative.

Global Integration. As the global integrator, the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff considers and balances the demands and requirements of the geographic and functional commands in a complex and resource-constrained operational landscape to prepare best military advice for civil leader decisions and actions. Global integration requires a balanced, universally-oriented, and regionally-aware perspective to expand the Joint Force's competitive space both geographically and functionally across all domains. Thus, the Chairman, in collaboration with the Joint Staff and the services, "sets the globe" in force management, force readiness, and force movement by providing a global perspective on risk, assumptions, priorities, and options to inform Presidential and SecDef decision-making, setting the conditions for CCMDs at the speed of relevancy.



Mission Command and Operational Art. The primary way the Department of Defense employs two or more services, from at least two military departments, in a single operation is through joint operations. Joint operations are military actions conducted by joint forces and those service forces employed in specified command relationships with each other. A Joint Force is one composed of significant elements,

assigned or attached, of two or more military departments operating under a single Joint Force Commander (JFC) who exercises mission command.

Based on guidance from the President and SecDef, Geographic Combatant Commanders (GCCs) and Functional Combatant Commanders (FCCs) translate national security policy, strategy, and available military forces into theater and functional strategies to achieve national and regional strategic objectives. CCMD strategies are broad statements consisting of the CCCR's vision, guided by and prepared in the context of SecDef priorities outlined in the Guidance for Employment of the Force and the CJCS's objectives articulated in the National Military Strategy.

Service members at all echelons must understand mission command, defined as the conduct of military operations through decentralized execution based on mission-type orders. The three attributes of mission command – trust, understanding, and intent – ensure the disciplined initiative of subordinates to operate at the speed of the problem while providing senior leaders the decision space to better set conditions.

- ★ **Trust.** Trust is the reliance on the integrity, strength, and ability of a person or thing. In the Joint Force, trust fortifies relationships both up and down the chain of command and across services and organizations. Service members are assured that they can rely on each other based on their shared values of the Profession of Arms and joint core values.
- ★ **Understanding.** Understanding is built on continual dialogue, feedback, and investment in relationships. It entails exposure to and consideration of diverse perspectives, interests, authorities, capabilities, and policies of partners.
- ★ **Intent.** Commander's intent describes the desired end state and provides unified focus for subordinates at all levels. Service members that understand commander's intent are empowered to employ disciplined initiative in a complex, fast-paced, and unpredictable operational environment.

Mission command enables speed, agility, and decisiveness of the Joint Force. When effectively highlighted and employed, the three attributes of mission command assure empowerment of stakeholders as well as harmony and effectiveness of joint operations.

PRINCIPLES OF JOINT OPERATIONS

The Principles of Joint Operations are formed around the nine traditional Principles of War – Objective, Offensive, Mass, Maneuver, Economy of Force, Unity of Command, Security, Surprise, and Simplicity. Three additional principles – Restraint, Perseverance, and Legitimacy – are relevant to how the Armed Forces of the United States use combat power across the range of military operations. These principles are rules and guidelines that represent fundamental truths in the practice of war and military operations.

Objective. The purpose of specifying the objective is to direct every military operation toward a clearly defined, decisive, and achievable goal. The purpose of military operations is to achieve the military objectives that support attainment of the overall political goals of the conflict. This frequently involves the destruction of the enemy armed forces' capabilities and their will to fight. The objective of joint operations not involving this destruction might be more difficult to define; nonetheless, it too must be clear from the beginning. Objectives must directly, quickly, and economically contribute to the purpose of the operation. Each operation must contribute to strategic objectives. Additionally, changes to the military objectives may occur because political and military leaders gain a better understanding of the situation, or they may occur because the situation itself changes. The changes may be very subtle, but if not made, achievement of the military objectives may no longer support the political goals, legitimacy may be undermined, and force security may be compromised.

Offensive. The purpose of an offensive action is to seize, retain, and exploit the initiative. Offensive action is the most effective and decisive way to achieve a clearly defined objective. Offensive operations are the means by which a military force seizes and holds the initiative while maintaining freedom of action and achieving decisive results. The importance of offensive action is fundamentally true across all levels of war. Commanders adopt the defensive only as a temporary expedient and must seek every opportunity to seize or regain the initiative. An offensive spirit must be inherent in the conduct of all defensive operations.

Mass. The purpose of mass is to concentrate the effects of combat power at the most advantageous place and time to produce decisive results. To achieve mass, appropriate Joint Force capabilities are integrated and synchronized where they will have a decisive effect in a short period of time. Mass often must be sustained to have the desired effect. Massing effects of combat power, rather than concentrating forces, can enable even numerically inferior forces to produce decisive results and minimize human losses and waste of resources.

Maneuver. The purpose of maneuver is to place the enemy in a position of disadvantage through the flexible application of combat power. Maneuver is the movement of forces in relation to the enemy to secure or retain positional advantage, usually to deliver—or threaten delivery of—the direct and indirect fires of the maneuvering force. Effective maneuver keeps the enemy off balance, thus also protecting the friendly force. It contributes materially to exploiting successes, preserving freedom of action, and reducing vulnerability by continually posing new problems for the enemy.

Economy of Force. The purpose of economy of force is to expend minimum essential combat power on secondary efforts in order to allocate the maximum possible combat power on primary efforts. Economy of force is the judicious employment and distribution of forces. It is the measured allocation of available combat power to such tasks as limited attacks, defense, delays, deception, or even retrograde operations to achieve mass elsewhere at the decisive point and time.

Unity of Command. The purpose of unity of command is to ensure unity of effort under one responsible commander for every objective. Unity of command means that all forces operate under a single commander with the requisite authority to direct all forces employed in pursuit of a common purpose. During multinational operations and interagency coordination, unity of command may not be possible, but the requirement for unity of effort becomes paramount. Unity of effort—the coordination and cooperation toward common objectives, even if the participants are not necessarily part of the same command or organization—is the product of successful unified action.

Security. The purpose of security is to prevent the enemy from acquiring unexpected advantage. Security enhances freedom of action by reducing friendly vulnerability to hostile acts, influence, or surprise. Security results from the measures taken by commanders to protect their forces. Staff planning and an understanding of enemy strategy, tactics, and doctrine enhance security. Risk is inherent in military operations. Application of this principle includes prudent risk management, not undue caution.

Surprise. The purpose of surprise is to strike at a time or place or in a manner for which the enemy is unprepared. Surprise can help the commander shift the balance of combat power, thus achieving success well out of proportion to the effort expended. Factors contributing to surprise include speed in decision-making, information sharing and force movement, effective intelligence, deception, application of unexpected combat power, operations security, and variations in tactics and methods of operation.

Simplicity. The purpose of simplicity is to increase the probability that plans and operations will be executed as intended by preparing clear, uncomplicated plans and concise orders. Simplicity contributes to successful operations. Simple plans and clear, concise orders minimize misunderstanding and

confusion. When other factors are equal, the simplest plan is preferable. Simplicity in plans allows better understanding and execution planning at all echelons. Simplicity and clarity of expression greatly facilitate mission execution in the stress, fatigue, fog of war, and complexities of modern combat, and are especially critical to success in multinational operations.

Restraint. The purpose of restraint is to limit collateral damage and prevent the unnecessary use of force. A single act could cause significant military and political consequences; therefore, judicious use of force is necessary. Restraint requires the careful and disciplined balancing of the need for security, the conduct of military operations, and the national strategic end state. Failure to understand and comply with established Rules of Engagement (ROEs) can result in fratricide, mission failure, or national embarrassment. Restraint is best achieved when ROEs issued at the beginning of an operation address the most anticipated situations that may arise.

Perseverance. The purpose of perseverance is to ensure the commitment necessary to attain the national strategic end state. Perseverance involves preparation for measured, protracted military operations in pursuit of the national strategic end state. Some joint operations may require years to reach the termination criteria. The underlying causes of the crisis may be elusive, making it difficult to achieve decisive resolution. The patient, resolute, and persistent pursuit of national goals and objectives often is essential to success. This will frequently involve diplomatic, economic, and informational measures to supplement military efforts.

Legitimacy. The purpose of legitimacy is to maintain legal and moral authority in the conduct of operations. Legitimacy, which can be a decisive factor in operations, is based on the actual and perceived legality, morality, and rightness of the actions from the various perspectives of interested audiences. These audiences include national leadership, domestic populations, governments in the operational area, and nations and organizations around the world. Committed forces must sustain the legitimacy of the operation and the host government, where applicable. Security actions must be balanced with legitimacy concerns. All actions must be considered in the light of potentially competing strategic and tactical requirements, and must exhibit fairness in dealing with competing factions where appropriate.

For more information: [*JP 3-0, Joint Campaigns and Operations*](#)

- https://jdeis.js.mil/jdeis/new_pubs/jp3_0.pdf

JOINT FUNCTIONS

A joint function is a grouping of capabilities and activities that enable Joint Force Commanders to synchronize, integrate, and direct joint operations. There are seven joint functions common to joint operations: command and control (C2), information, intelligence, fires, movements and maneuver, protection, and sustainment. Commanders leverage the capabilities of multiple joint functions during operations. The joint functions apply to all joint operations across the competition continuum and enable both traditional and information warfare, but to different degrees, conditions, and standards, while employing different tactics, techniques, and procedures. The integration of activities across joint functions to accomplish tasks and missions occurs at all levels of command. Joint functions reinforce and complement one another, and integration across them is essential to mission accomplishment.

- ★ **Command and Control.** C2 encompasses the exercise of authority and direction by a commander over assigned and attached forces to accomplish the mission. The JFC provides operational vision, guidance, and direction to the joint force.
- ★ **Information.** The information function encompasses the management and application of information to support achievement of objectives. It is the deliberate integration with other joint functions to change or maintain perceptions, attitudes, and other elements that drive desired

relevant actor behaviors and to support human and automated decision making.

- ★ **Intelligence.** The intelligence function informs JFCs about adversary intentions, capabilities, centers of gravity, critical factors, vulnerabilities, and future courses of action and helps commanders and staffs understand friendly, neutral, and threat networks.
- ★ **Fires.** Fires is the use of weapon systems or other actions to create specific lethal or non-lethal effects on a target or objects of influence in accordance with U.S. and international law. Joint fires are delivered during the employment of forces from two or more components in coordinated action to produce desired results in support of a common objective.
- ★ **Movement and Maneuver.** The movement and maneuver function encompasses the disposition of joint forces to conduct operations by securing positional or informational advantages across the competition continuum and exploiting tactical success to achieve operational and strategic objectives.
- ★ **Protection.** Protection is all efforts to secure and defend the effectiveness and survivability of mission-related military and non-military personnel, equipment, facilities, information, and infrastructure deployed or located within or outside the boundaries of a given operational area to maintain mission effectiveness.
- ★ **Sustainment.** Sustainment is the provision of logistics and personnel services support to maintain operations through mission accomplishment and redeployment of the force. Sustainment gives the JFC the means for freedom of action, endurance, and extending operational reach.

For more information: [*JP 3-0, Joint Campaigns and Operations*](#)

- https://jdeis.js.mil/jdeis/new_pubs/jp3_0.pdf

THE JOINT SERVICE MEMBER

The success of joint operations hinges on the competence and professionalism of the individual members of the Joint Force. Accordingly, the greatest and most valuable competitive advantage the Joint Force maintains in a high-end fight is the individual service member that has dedicated their purpose and industry to the Profession of Arms. The service members that comprise the most distinguished and capable military force in the world adhere to the following Joint Core Values:

- ★ **Duty.** Duty is our foremost value. It binds us together and conveys our moral commitment or obligation as defenders of the Constitution and servants of the Nation. As members of the Profession of Arms, we fulfill our duty without consideration of self-interest, sacrificing our lives if needed. From duty comes responsibility.
- ★ **Honor.** Honor is the code of behavior that defines the ethical fulfillment of our duties. It is that quality that guides us to exemplify ethical and moral behavior; never to lie, cheat or steal; to abide by an uncompromising code of integrity, to respect human dignity; to have respect and concern for each other. It is the quality of maturity, dedication, trust, and dependability that commits members of the Profession of Arms to act responsibly, to be accountable for actions, to fulfill obligations, and to hold others accountable for their actions.
- ★ **Courage.** The United States of America is blessed with service members whose courage knows no boundaries. Even in warfare characterized by advanced technology, individual fighting spirit and courage remain essential. Courage has both physical and moral aspects, encompassing both bravery and fortitude.
 - Physical Courage has, throughout history, defined warriors. It is the ability to confront

physical pain, hardship, death, or threat of death. Physical courage in a leader is most often expressed in a willingness to act, even alone if necessary, in situations of danger and uncertainty.

- Moral courage is the ability to act rightly in the face of popular opposition, or discouragement. This includes the willingness to stand up for what one believes to be right even if that stand is unpopular or contrary to conventional wisdom. This involves risk taking, tenacity, and accountability.
- ★ **Integrity.** Integrity is the quality of being honest and having strong moral principles. Integrity is the bedrock of our character and the cornerstone for building trust. Trust is an essential trait among service members—trust by seniors in the abilities of their subordinates and by juniors in the competence and support of their seniors. American service members must be able to rely on each other, regardless of the challenge at hand; they must individually and collectively say what they mean and do what they say.
- ★ **Selfless Service.** Selfless service epitomizes the quality of putting our Nation, our military mission(s), and others before ourselves. Members of the Profession of Arms do not serve to pursue fame, position, or money. They give of themselves for the greater good. Selfless service is the enabler of teamwork, the cooperative effort by the members of a group to achieve common goals.

Members of the Armed Forces of the United States must internalize and embody these values of the Profession of Arms. Their adherence to duty, honor, courage, integrity, and selfless service helps promulgate a joint warfighting mindset, producing a synergy that multiplies the effects of individual actions. They are the cornerstones of the freedom that we secure across the globe.

For more information: [*Guidance on Fostering Professionalism within the Department of Defense*](#)

- https://comptroller.defense.gov/Portals/45/documents/micp_docs/Topical/OSD001895-15_FOD_Final.pdf

CODE OF CONDUCT FOR MEMBERS OF THE U.S. ARMED FORCES

- I.** I am an American, fighting in the forces which guard my country and our way of life. I am prepared to give my life in their defense.
- II.** I will never surrender of my own free will. If in command, I will never surrender the members of my command while they still have the means to resist.
- III.** If I am captured I will continue to resist by all means available. I will make every effort to escape and aid others to escape. I will accept neither parole nor special favors from the enemy.
- IV.** If I become a prisoner of war, I will keep faith with my fellow prisoners. I will give no information or take part in any action which might be harmful to my comrades. If I am senior, I will take command. If not, I will obey the lawful orders of those appointed over me and will back them up in every way.
- V.** When questioned, should I become a prisoner of war, I am required to give name, rank, service number and date of birth. I will evade answering further questions to the utmost of my ability. I will make no oral or written statements disloyal to my country and its allies or harmful to their cause.
- VI.** I will never forget that I am an American, fighting for freedom, responsible for my actions, and dedicated to the principles which made my country free. I will trust in my God and in the United States of America.

For more information: [*Executive Orders | National Archives*](#)

- <https://www.archives.gov/federal-register/codification/executive-order/10631.html>

Chapter 5 - HOW THE AIR FORCE FITS INTO THE JOINT FIGHT

AIR FORCE FUNCTIONS

The Department of the Air Force (DAF) is composed of air, space, and cyber forces and is responsible to organize, train, and equip forces to project power for the conduct of prompt and sustained combat operations, military engagement, and security cooperation in defense of the Nation. In a variety of capacities, Total Force Airmen support the other military services and the Joint Force. The Air Force provides the Nation with global vigilance, global reach, and global power in the form of in-place, forward based, and expeditionary forces. These forces possess the capacity to deter aggression and violence by state, non-state, and individual actors to prevent conflict. Should deterrence fail, the Air Force stands ready to prosecute the full range of military operations in support of U.S. national interests.

In addition to service functions common to each military branch, the Air Force develops concepts, doctrine, tactics, techniques, and procedures to deliver forces to perform the following specific functions:

- ★ Conduct nuclear operations in support of strategic deterrence, to include providing and maintaining nuclear surety and capabilities.
- ★ Conduct offensive and defensive operations, to include appropriate air and missile defense, to gain and maintain air superiority and air supremacy as required, to enable the conduct of operations by U.S. and allied land, sea, air, space, and special operations forces.
- ★ Conduct global precision attack, to include strategic attack, interdiction, close air support, and prompt global strike.
- ★ Provide timely, globally integrated intelligence, surveillance, and reconnaissance capability and capacity from forward deployed locations and globally distributed centers to support world-wide operations.
- ★ Provide rapid global mobility to employ and sustain organic air and space forces and other military service and U. S. Special Operations Command forces, as directed, to include airlift forces for airborne operations, air logistical support, tanker forces for in-flight refueling, and assets for aeromedical evacuation.
- ★ Provide agile combat support to enhance the air and space campaign and the deployment, employment, sustainment, and redeployment of air and space forces and other forces operating within the air and space domains, to include joint air and space bases, and for the Armed Forces other than which is organic to the individual military services and U.S. Special Operations Command in coordination with the other military services, combatant commands, and U.S. Government departments and agencies.
- ★ Conduct global personnel recovery operations including theater-wide combat and civil search and rescue in coordination with the other military services, combatant commands, and DoD components.
- ★ Conduct globally integrated command and control for air and space operations.

"If we lose war in the air, we lose the war, and we lose it quickly."

Field Marshal Bernard Montgomery
1887-1976



For more information: [DoD Directive 5100.1, Reference a](#)

- <https://www.esd.whs.mil/Portals/54/Documents/DD/issuances/dodd/510001p.pdf>

AIR FORCE CORE MISSIONS

Since the birth of our service, we have trained, built, and employed the world's most skilled Airmen, who, in various roles, support or directly conduct combat operations. Operations that Airmen are involved in also incorporate the men and women of our sister services.

At its founding on September 18, 1947, the Air Force was assigned a set of five core functions and tasked with providing those distinct capabilities to complement the roles of our sister services in a joint endeavor. Though the core missions of the Air Force have been re-designated since that time, they have not changed fundamentally. These specific missions pinpoint the Air Force's unique role within the joint team and assure our brothers and sisters in arms that we can deliver. Joint organizations are comprised of a varied mix of service personnel, assets, and capabilities; thus, it is imperative that Airmen understand what they bring to the fight. Airmen must know that they can be counted on to deliver:

- ★ Air Superiority
- ★ Intelligence, Surveillance, and Reconnaissance (ISR)
- ★ Rapid Global Mobility
- ★ Global Strike
- ★ Command & Control

There is no shortage of examples in our service's storied history of what Airmen have achieved through the execution of our core missions. It is essential that they understand how these missions have been employed in concert with those of the other services and how they have contributed to Joint Force objectives.

Air Superiority. Control of the air domain is crucial to the success of modern and emergent warfare. For decades, combatant commanders have come to rely on the mission-essential protection that Air Superiority ensures. The opening offensive of OPERATION DESERT STORM serves well to illustrate this point. In August 1990, coalition forces launched 812 combat sorties within a 24-hour period, effectively neutralizing Iraq's command and control capability. Within 25 days, the Iraqi Air Force halted flight operations entirely, freeing the coalition of concern over any credible enemy air attack. From the outset, Air Superiority effectively destroyed Iraq's warfighting capability, ensuring a protected military offensive on the ground. USAF Chief of Staff, General Merrill "Tony" McPeak, asserted, "The Iraqi Air Force never recovered from the opening attack. We took the initiative at the beginning, and we held it throughout the war."

Intelligence, Surveillance, and Reconnaissance. Intelligence, Surveillance, and Reconnaissance (ISR) provides situational awareness of the battlespace, allowing decision space for command elements. ISR played a crucial role in providing a holistic picture and developing a common operational graphic during OPERATION UNIFIED RESPONSE in January 2010. The operation was launched after a 7.0 magnitude earthquake struck Haiti, killing more than 316,000 people and collapsing more than 100,000 structures. During this operation, a wide array of intelligence disciplines contributed to damage assessment, identification of ports of access and travel routes, and protection of relief workers. Imagery provided from unmanned aerial vehicles and satellites, as well as open source and human intelligence gathered on the ground, helped planners determine how to get relief workers and supplies where they were needed and to ensure their safety once in country. The employment of ISR enabled ground forces to execute the operation's objectives, providing relief rapidly and effectively to survivors and saving lives.

Rapid Global Mobility. American power can be projected quickly to anywhere on the face of the earth because of the Air Force's capability for rapid mobility. During OPERATION JUST CAUSE, a joint operation to oust the Panamanian leader Manuel Noriega, who was wanted in the U.S. for racketeering and drug trafficking, the Air Force's rapid global reach was on display. The Air Force launched critical Joint Force elements from bases such as Charleston Air Force Base, used for personnel and supply transport, and Pope Air Force Base, used to deploy Army Rangers from the 82d Airborne Division. Overall, the Air Force employed 80 C-141, 22 C-130, and 11 C-5 aircraft which played a crucial role in OPERATION JUST CAUSE ending in just over 40 days. Rapid Global Mobility's effects safeguarded the lives of 30,000 U.S. citizens residing in Panama, protected the integrity of the Panama Canal, helped the Panamanian opposition establish genuine democracy, and brought Noriega to justice.

Global Strike. The Air Force demonstrated its command of Global Strike during the North Atlantic Treaty Organization's (NATO) 1995 offensive, OPERATION DELIBERATE FORCE. This three-week campaign targeted military capabilities of the Army of the Serb Republic, which had, throughout the Bosnian War, persisted in indiscriminately attacking United Nations-designated "safe zones." Partnered with 15 nations as well as ground and naval forces, U.S. aircraft flew roughly two-thirds of the operation's 3,515 sorties, hitting 97 percent of intended targets and destroying or significantly damaging 80 percent of them. After just three weeks since the dropping of the first bomb, the war's aggressors were prepared for serious negotiations. Ambassador Richard Holbrook, special negotiator to the Balkans, stated of the campaign, "without the United States Air Force and Navy and precision bombing," diplomatic efforts would not have succeeded.

Command and Control. Airmen employ the Air Force's other four interdependent and enduring core missions through robust, adaptable, and survivable Command and Control systems. This vital core function was evident in OPERATION ODYSSEY DAWN which offered protection to the people of Libya from attacks by its dictator, Muammar Al-Qaddafi. A complement of unique service capabilities secured mission success. While the U.S. Navy played a critical role in command and control with the placement of the USS Mount Whitney in the Mediterranean, the Air Force's employment of E-3 Airborne Warning and Control System (AWACS) and the E-8 Joint Surveillance Target Attack Radar System (JSTARS) coupled with our service's innate use of Air Operations Centers eventually brought down Al-Qaddafi and his regime.

For more information: [*The Enlisted Force Structure*](#); [*Global Vigilance*](#), [*Global Reach*](#), [*Global Power for America*](#)

- https://www.doctrine.af.mil/Portals/61/documents/Airman_Development/BrownBook.pdf
- https://www.af.mil/Portals/1/documents/af%20events/2015/newGV_GR_GP_PRINT.pdf

JOINT OPERATIONS ACROSS ALL DOMAINS

Total Force Airmen are engaged both directly and indirectly in support of joint operations across all domains every minute of every day. Domains are those spheres of activity or influence that have common and distinct characteristics in which a force can conduct joint functions. To achieve strategic objectives, technicians in every field – air, space, cyber, security, logistics, information, administration, maintenance, etc. – play a critical role in reinforcing the Joint Force.

The Air Force's ability to operate is challenged by anti-access and area denial threats and the rapid proliferation of advanced technologies that restrict freedom of maneuver. Airmen do not fight alone, and Joint Force operations are increasingly interconnected, interdependent, and challenged. Success in this operating environment requires the convergence of effects globally and across all domains to consecutively or simultaneously present an adversary with multiple dilemmas, those situations in which one must make a difficult choice between two or more alternatives often equally undesirable.

Synergistic employment of capabilities in different domains enhances effectiveness and compensates for vulnerabilities, creating outcomes not readily attainable through single-domain action. Such dilemmas, when presented at an operational tempo that complicates or negates an adversary's response, enable the Joint Force to operate inside an adversary's decision cycle. Joint All Domain Operations (JADO) occur in air, land, maritime, cyberspace, space, and electromagnetic spectrum domains. When the Joint Force synchronizes action across multiple domains, integrated in planning and execution and at the speed needed to gain advantage, it achieves mission success.

For more information: [*AFDP 3-99, SDP 3-99 The Department of the Air Force Role in Joint All-Domain Operations; Joint Doctrine Home*](#)

- https://www.doctrine.af.mil/Portals/61/documents/AFDP_3-99/AFDP%203-99%20DAF%20role%20in%20JADO.pdf
- <https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/>

CONCLUSION

Airmen comprise an integral part of a larger team, made up of other military services, departments, and institutions of the federal government as well as allies and partners around the world. The Joint Force, through seamless integration of all components, advances national security against any and all threats to the American people and Nation's interests. Our "one fight" is our effort to deter, and if necessary, prevail in a conflict against strategic competitors. We must adapt our force design to address these and other pacing threats that challenge our Nation.

All service members must understand the importance of the Joint Force's contribution to advancing national objectives and recognize their role in fusing unique service capabilities when called upon. Jointness is not a concept; it is an agile, deliberate, and diverse integration of the strengths of all services that brings together the tools and resources needed to complement the other elements to advance our strategic objectives. Jointness is fused in military operations from the strategic to the tactical level, and each service member has a unique role within the joint mission.

The Joint Team, grounded in doctrine and aligned in purpose and values, assures mission success in all operations, from peacekeeping, to humanitarian need, to national security imperatives. All service members must do their part to educate and sharpen themselves, their fellow service members, and the joint partners they work alongside. The ability of the Joint Force to operate at its maximum effectiveness requires that all warfighters bring their best.

UNITED STATES MILITARY RANKS

Enlisted Ranks

	E-1	E-2	E-3	E-4	E-5	E-6	E-7	E-8		E-9		Special		
Army	Private (PV1) No Insignia	Private (PV2) 	Private First Class (PFC) 	Corporal (CPL) Specialist (SPC) 	Sergeant (SGT) 	Staff Sergeant (SSG) 	Sergeant First Class (SFC) 	Master Sergeant (MSG) 	First Sergeant (1SG) 	Sergeant Major (SGM) 	Command Sergeant Major (CSM) 	Sergeant Major of the Army (SMA) 	Senior Enlisted Advisor to the Chairman (SEAC) 	
	Private (Pvt) No Insignia	Private First Class (PFC) 	Lance Corporal (LCpl) 	Corporal (Cpl) 	Sergeant (Sgt) 	Staff Sergeant (SSgt) 	Gunnery Sergeant (GySgt) 	Master Sergeant (MSGt) 	First Sergeant (1stSgt) 	Master Gunnery Sergeant (MGySgt) 	Sergeant Major (SgtMaj) 	Sergeant Major of the Marine Corps (SMMC) 	Senior Enlisted Advisor to the Chairman (SEAC) 	
Marines	Seaman Recruit (SR) No Insignia	Seaman Apprentice (SA) 	Seaman (SN) 	Petty Officer Third Class (PO3) 	Petty Officer Second Class (PO2) 	Petty Officer First Class (PO1) 	Chief Petty Officer (CPO) 	Senior Chief Petty Officer (SCPO) 	Command Senior Chief Petty Officer (CMDSCS) 	Master Chief Petty Officer (MCPO) 	Command Master Chief Petty Officer (CMDCM) 	Force/Fleet Master Chief Petty Officer (FORMC) (FLTMC) 	Senior Enlisted Advisor to the Chairman (SEAC) 	
	Airman Basic (AB) No Insignia	Airman (Amm) 	Airman First Class (A1C) 	Senior Airman (SrA) 	Staff Sergeant (SSgt) 	Technical Sergeant (TSgt) 	Master Sergeant (MSgt) 	First Sergeant (MSgt) 	Senior Master Sergeant (SMSgt) 	First Sergeant (SMSgt) 	Chief Master Sergeant (CMSgt) 	First Sergeant (CMSgt) 	Command Chief Master Sergeant (CCM) 	Chief Master Sergeant of the Air Force (CMSAF)
Air Force	Specialist 1 (Spec 1) No Insignia	Specialist 2 (Spec 2) 	Specialist 3 (Spec 3) 	Specialist 4 (Spec 4) 	Sergeant (Sgt) 	Technical Sergeant (TSgt) 	Master Sergeant (MSgt) 	Senior Master Sergeant (SMSgt) 	Chief Master Sergeant (CMSgt) 	Chief Master Sergeant of the Space Force (CMSSF) 	Senior Enlisted Advisor to the Chairman (SEAC) 	No Insignia		
	Seaman Recruit (SR) No Insignia	Seaman Apprentice (SA) 	Seaman (SN) 	Petty Officer Third Class (PO3) 	Petty Officer Second Class (PO2) 	Petty Officer First Class (PO1) 	Chief Petty Officer (CPO) 	Senior Chief Petty Officer (SCPO) 	Master Chief Petty Officer (MCPO) 	Fleet/Command Master Chief (CMC) 	Master Chief Petty Officer of the Coast Guard (MCPOCG) 			
Space Force														
Coast Guard														

Officer Ranks

	O-1	O-2	O-3	O-4	O-5	O-6	O-7	O-8	O-9	O-10	Special
Army	Second Lieutenant (2LT) 	First Lieutenant (1LT) 	Captain (CPT) 	Major (MAJ) 	Lieutenant Colonel (LTC) 	Colonel (COL) 	Brigadier General (BG) 	Major General (MG) 	Lieutenant General (LTG) 	General (GEN) 	General of the Army (GA)
Marines	Second Lieutenant (2nd Lt) 	First Lieutenant (1st Lt) 	Captain (Capt) 	Major (Maj) 	Lieutenant Colonel (Lt Col) 	Colonel (Col) 	Brigadier General (BGen) 	Major General (Maj Gen) 	Lieutenant General (Lt Gen) 	General (Gen) 	Not Used
Navy	Ensign (ENS) 	Lieutenant Junior Grade (LTJG) 	Lieutenant (LT) 	Lieutenant Commander (LCDR) 	Commander (CDR) 	Captain (CAPT) 	Rear Admiral (RDML) 	Rear Admiral (RADM) 	Vice Admiral (VADM) 	Admiral (ADM) 	Fleet Admiral (FADM)
Air Force	Second Lieutenant (2d Lt) 	First Lieutenant (1st Lt) 	Captain (Capt) 	Major (Maj) 	Lieutenant Colonel (Lt Col) 	Colonel (Col) 	Brigadier General (Brig Gen) 	Major General (Maj Gen) 	Lieutenant General (Lt Gen) 	General (Gen) 	General of the Air Force (GAF)
Space Force	Second Lieutenant (2d Lt) 	First Lieutenant (1st Lt) 	Captain (Capt) 	Major (Maj) 	Lieutenant Colonel (Lt Col) 	Colonel (Col) 	Brigadier General (Brig Gen) 	Major General (Maj Gen) 	Lieutenant General (Lt Gen) 	General (Gen) 	Not Used
Coast Guard	Ensign (ENS) 	Lieutenant Junior Grade (LTJG) 	Lieutenant (LT) 	Lieutenant Commander (LCDR) 	Commander (CDR) 	Captain (CAPT) 	Rear Admiral (RDML) 	Rear Admiral (RADM) 	Vice Admiral (VADM) 	Admiral (ADM) 	Not Used

Warrant Officer Ranks

Army					Navy				
W-1 Warrant Officer (WO1) 	W-2 Chief Warrant Officer (CW2) 	W-3 Chief Warrant Officer (CW3) 	W-4 Chief Warrant Officer (CW4) 	W-5 Chief Warrant Officer (CW5) 	W-1 Warrant Officer (WO1) 	W-2 Chief Warrant Officer (CWO2) 	W-3 Chief Warrant Officer (CWO3) 	W-4 Chief Warrant Officer (CWO4) 	W-5 Chief Warrant Officer (CWO5)
Marines					Coast Guard				
W-1 Warrant Officer (WO) 	W-2 Chief Warrant Officer (CWO2) 	W-3 Chief Warrant Officer (CWO3) 	W-4 Chief Warrant Officer (CWO4) 	W-5 Chief Warrant Officer (CWO5) 	W-1 Not Used	W-2 Chief Warrant Officer (CWO2) 	W-3 Chief Warrant Officer (CWO3) 	W-4 Chief Warrant Officer (CWO4) 	W-5 Not Used
Air Force					Space Force				
Not Used					Not Used				

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U.S. AIR FORCE

Joint Doctrine Note 1-18



Strategy



25 April 2018



Unclassified

PREFACE

1. Scope

This joint doctrine note (JDN) provides guidance to develop, implement strategy, and assess strategy. It focuses on the development of national-level military strategy and how the military instrument of power is used, in combination with the other instruments of national power, in pursuit of policy objectives. It discusses the essential elements of any strategy; the relationship of ends, ways, and means; and the interaction among strategic objectives, national strategy, and military strategy. It also examines strategies that may be developed in different situations. Finally, it looks at how strategy is made, who makes it, what moral criteria guide strategic decisions, and what pitfalls may occur in the making of strategy.

2. Purpose

This JDN provides the baseline structure for understanding the fundamental principles of strategy and provides understanding and perspective on its development, execution, and assessment that strategists, planners, trainers, commanders, and staffs can use. It provides a short-term bridging solution for joint doctrine. The JDN supplements current joint doctrine and provides context for those who develop national strategy and implement it at subordinate levels. In addition to using current joint and Service doctrine, extant procedures, and existing policy guidance, this document uses the extensive literature on strategy found in academia, professional military education institutions, and the private sector.

3. Application

The guidance in this JDN is not authoritative. If conflicts arise between the contents of this JDN and the contents of a joint publication (JP), the JP will take precedence for the activities of joint forces unless the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff issues guidance that is more current. This JDN may supplement strategy discussions in JP 1, *Doctrine for the Armed Forces of the United States*; JP 3-0, *Joint Operations*; and JP 5-0, *Joint Planning*.



KEVIN D. SCOTT
Vice Admiral, USN
Director, Joint Force Development

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EXECUTIVE SUMMARY

- **Presents an Introduction and Overview of Strategic Theory**
- **Describes a Strategy Formulation Framework and Methodology**
- **Discusses a Fundamental Strategic Approach in Today's Complex Security Environment**
- **Explains the Value and Benefits of Continued Assessments**
- **Explains How to Determine Costs and Risks in Assessing Strategy**
- **Discusses How to Evaluate Strategy**

Theory

Overview

Strategy is about how nations use the power available to them to exercise control over people, places, things, and events to achieve objectives in accordance with their national interests and policies. The challenge for the strategist is to coordinate the various levers of national power in a coherent or smart way.

Joint doctrine advises, “Strategy is a prudent idea or set of ideas for employing the instruments of national power in a synchronized and integrated fashion to achieve theater or multinational objectives.”

Ends—Ways—Means—Risk Methodology

All strategies entail the same fundamental logic of ends, ways, and means. A comprehensive and effective strategy answers three basic questions:

- Where do we want to go, or what are the desired **ends**?
- How do we get there, or what are the **ways**?
- What resources are available, or what are the **means**?
- What are the **risks and costs** associated with the strategy?

Policy, Strategy, and National Power

National strategy orchestrates the instruments of national power in support of policy objectives and outlines a broad course of action or guidance statements adopted by the government at the national level in pursuit of national objectives.

The Nature and Character of Warfare

The strategist must recognize the nature of warfare and understand its implications for how to prosecute the war.

The character of warfare at any point in time and in any area reflects the nature of the societies waging it.

Grand Strategy

Grand strategy aims to secure and advance a nation's long-term, enduring, core interests over time.

At the grand strategic level, the ways and means to achieve US core national interests are based on the national leadership's strategic vision of America's role in the world.

National Security Strategy

The national security strategy outlines the nation's major national security concerns and how the nation plans to deal with them.

National Military Strategy

The national military strategy provides the joint force with a framework to protect and advance US national interests. It reflects the collective wisdom of the Joint Chiefs of Staff and the combatant commanders, and represents their best military advice.

Combatant Command Strategy

Combatant command strategies bridge national strategic guidance and joint operational planning as it guides the development of the Combatant Command Campaign Plan.

Combatant commands develop campaign plans that outline their vision for integrating and synchronizing military activities and operations with the other instruments of national power to attain national strategic ends.

Strategic Ends and Means

Introduction

Unraveling the complexity and resolving the uncertainty calls for the ability to think strategically about the problem at hand.

Thinking strategically reconciles the **ends** with the **means** and **ways**.

The key to developing a strategy lies in devising an ends-ways-means-risks/costs relationship that helps the strategic situation and attains the desired end state.

Defining the Desired Ends

A nation's interests are those fundamental, enduring conditions a state chooses to pursue.

The security environment's complexity forces strategists and policy makers to make hard choices.

One approach is to categorize national interests as **vital**, **important**, and **peripheral**.

- **Vital interests:** What are we willing to die for? States generally have four vital interests: security of the home territory, safety of citizens at home and abroad, economic prosperity, and preservation of the national way of life.
- **Important interests:** What are we willing to fight for? Nations important interests generally include freedom of access to the global commons, regional stability, secure alliances, or the promotion of the state's values.
- **Peripheral interests:** What are we willing to fund (deploy peacekeepers, balance trade deficits)?

The Instruments of National Power

The 'DIME' acronym (diplomatic, informational, military, and economic) has been used for many years to describe the instruments of national power. Despite how long the DIME has been used for describing the instruments of national power, US policy makers and strategists have long understood that there are many more instruments involved in

national security policy development and implementation.

New acronyms such as MIDFIELD (military, informational, diplomatic, financial, intelligence, economic, law, and development) convey a much broader array of options for the strategic and policymaker to use.

Orchestrating the Instruments of National Power

Each instruments of national power works most effectively when it is supported by and operates harmoniously with, the other instruments of national power.

These elements align to the major executive branches applying the power: the Departments of State, Defense, and Commerce, as well as the intelligence community.

Strategic Ways

Strategic Competition

The US is facing several complex challenges requiring innovative responses and is already facing rivals that it cannot optimally engage.

These rival actors are evading US strength by competing at a level below the threshold of a coercive US or allied military response.

They interact in the international arena across a comprehensive strategic competition continuum that ranges from **peaceful cooperation**, through **competition below armed conflict**, to **armed conflict**.

- **Cooperation** includes mutually beneficial relationships between strategic actors with similar or compatible interests. Although interests will rarely be in complete alignment, cooperative relations underpin the international order, enhance collective security, and deter conflict.
- **Competition below armed conflict** exists when two or more strategic actors view one another as competitors (as opposed to

adversaries) that have incompatible interests. Competitors may cooperate with one another or engage in behavior detrimental to other strategic actor's interests.

- **Armed conflict** involves the use of violence as the primary means by which a strategic actor seeks to satisfy its interests or react to provocation.

Relationship Between Strategic Ends and Military Ways

Planning for conflict termination is just as important as designing a successful military campaign.

The whole point of warfare is to seek a better or more permanent political condition through conflict termination. How a nation ends its war with a foe can determine future relations.

Assessing Strategy

Introduction

Assessing costs and risks must permeate the process of developing strategy.

Strategies at any level normally lack resources or the ability to employ resources in a manner sufficient for complete assurance of success.

Continual Assessment

Continuous assessment should be a formalized, recurring process during the life of the strategy that assesses and evaluates the strategy's ends, ways, means, and risks against the evolving realities and possibilities in the strategic environment.

National interests and policy often change over time. As a result, new strategies or modification(s) to extant strategies may be appropriate.

Costs and Risks

Costs represent the outlay of resources and other assets needed to attain strategic ends.

Risks are elements that could go wrong in a strategy.

There is no magic formula for calculating risk. Risks emerge as the strategist brings insightful, objective analysis and judgment to bear on what research and intelligence has revealed about the nature and dynamics of the problem.

Assessing Validity

Strategists must continuously apply these basic validity tests of validity throughout the strategy development process.

Evaluating Strategy

The preeminent metric for judging a strategy's success is whether it achieves the desired political aim at an acceptable cost.

CHAPTER I

THEORY

“Without a strategy, facing up to any problem or striving for any objective would be considered negligent.”

Sir Lawrence Freedman
Strategy: A History

1. Introduction

Joint Publication (JP) 1, *Doctrine for the Armed Forces of the United States*, tells us: “War is socially sanctioned violence to achieve a strategic purpose.” What matters ultimately is achieving political and strategic objectives that protect or advance national interests and preferably attained within the less-costly portions of the strategic competition environment (described in Chapter III).

2. Overview

a. Strategy is about how nations use the power available to them to exercise control over people, places, things, and events to achieve objectives in accordance with their national interests and policies. The challenge for the strategist is to coordinate the various levers of national power in a coherent or smart way. Joint doctrine advises, “Strategy is a prudent idea or set of ideas for employing the instruments of national power in a synchronized and integrated fashion to achieve theater or multinational objectives” (JP 1, *Doctrine for the Armed Forces of the United States*). Coherent and effective strategy is essential to achieving a specific objective or sets of objectives. Strategy makes action purposeful; without it, action tends to be ad hoc, incoherent, and potentially counterproductive.

b. Strategy is both practical and purposeful. It entails a coherent design for using appropriate instruments of national power to produce a specific outcome. All strategies entail the same fundamental logic of ends, ways, and means that will be discussed in detail in the next chapter. Each strategy’s context, applicability, capability, and purpose determines the specific factors that are considered in its development. A comprehensive and effective strategy answers three basic questions:

- (1) Where do we want to go, or what are the desired ends?
- (2) How do we get there, or what are the ways?
- (3) What resources are available, or what are the means?
- (4) What are the risks and costs associated with the strategy?

c. Strategy is also scalable. In the national security arena, it occurs or applies:

(1) At multiple levels from international (e.g., United Nations, North Atlantic Treaty Organization, European Union, African Union, Association of Southeast Asia Nations, et al) to local and regional non-state actors;

(2) With respect to different instruments of national power (e.g., traditionally aligned in the ‘DIME’ model of diplomatic, informational, military, and economic); but also includes financial, intelligence, rule of law, and development.

(3) For a variety of objectives, from shaping the global security arena to dealing with a specific security challenges.

d. Practitioners. The highest political and military officials (the President, Secretary of Defense, the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff, and combatant commanders) develop and implement strategy. In addition to strategic leaders, US military strategists includes theorists and planners who are not only officers and civilians within the Pentagon, but also members of the staffs of the Services, combatant commands, subordinate unified commands, joint task forces, and combat support agencies.

3. Policy, Strategy, and National Power

a. National policy articulates national objectives. National policy is a broad course of action or guidance statements adopted by national governments in pursuit of national objectives. While policy is different from politics, it is produced via a political process, and is usually the result of compromises among the political leadership. National strategy orchestrates the instruments of national power in support of policy objectives.

b. Politics concerns power. Power can be material in nature, e.g., possession of money, or resources, or weapons and armed personnel. Power also can be psychological in nature: legal, religious, or scientific authority; intellectual or social prestige; a charismatic personality able to excite or persuade; or a reputation for diplomatic or military skill. Politics deals with how power is distributed and used in a society. The process of distributing power may be peaceful and orderly, or it may be violent and chaotic.

c. Politics is inherently dynamic, both because the process for distributing power is under constant pressure for change and because it is interactive—a simultaneously cooperative and competitive process. Political events and their outcomes are the product of reinforcing, conflicting, contradictory, sometimes compromising, and often adversarial forces. This complex political process is neither a linear nor a wholly predictable process. Actual outcomes often differ from what the participants intended. The addition of violence into the political process frequently serves to amplify problems controlling, or even predicting, its ultimate course.

d. Thinking usefully about making and carrying out strategy requires an understanding of the fundamental nature of politics and the violent expression of politics called warfare. An understanding of warfare must start with the assertion by the early nineteenth century Prussian general and military theorist, Carl von Clausewitz, that warfare is the continuation of politics by other means. Clausewitz teaches that warfare is a social phenomenon and its logic driven by more than just scientific principles and engineering as

a uniquely human endeavor, it is the logic of social transactions. In warfare, the critical social transaction is political interaction, adding organized violence to political interaction has powerful and unique effects.

e. Thus, warfare is a product of both politics and policy, which has two implications for strategists. First, to be viable, strategy must aim to achieve the policy goals set by the political leadership. Second, the strategist must recognize and accept that those policy goals are created within the chaotic and emotional realm of politics. The military professional who believes politics has no place in strategy does not understand the fundamentals of strategy. Strategists necessarily operate within the constraints of politics and policy.

4. The Political Action Spectrum

States, non-states, and other actors continually interact with other parties in the international arena; this interaction can be cooperative or antagonistic. Eventually they find themselves in competition/conflict with other parties in the international arena. This occurs when interests are incompatible and they contest with one another as each seeks to protect or advance its own interests. This competition can take many forms ranging from diplomatic, economic, or informational interactions that are within the norms of peaceful international interactions. It can also take the form of large-scale international armed conflict. In between are a variety of aggressive and hostile actions that states and non-state actors can mix and match in an effort to create leverage and gain advantage. These levels of cooperation, competition below armed conflict, and armed conflict can include a variety of military actions short of the use of force. The use of military force, however, is a point beyond which the involved parties are engaged in warfare that has a nature and character all its own.

5. The Nature and Character of Warfare

Warfare is, most fundamentally, the use of force to make an enemy to do one's will. When a party finds itself unable to achieve its goals short of the use of force, it may turn to violence to make its enemy change behavior.

a. **Warfare's Constant Nature.** The fact that warfare entails the use of force to attain its ends gives it fundamental, constant qualities that define it as a distinct social phenomenon. Violence against other human beings arouses a level of emotion—passion—in both combatants and bystanders that is orders of magnitude greater than that aroused by any other social interaction. If warfare is to support interests, the political leadership must work to overcome domestic political discord to establish a clear objective and ensure that objective controls the scope, intensity, and shape of military operations. Clausewitz, summarized the fundamental nature of warfare neatly in his description of warfare as a “remarkable trinity, composed of primordial violence, hatred, and enmity.” Clausewitz saw the nature of warfare as defined by the interplay of passion, chance and creativity, and reason. At any given moment in a war, one of these elements may dominate, but the other two are always at work. The strategist must recognize the nature of warfare and understand its implications for how to prosecute the war.

b. **Warfare's Variable Character.** A critical job of the strategist is to determine the character of the warfare that might occur. While warfare's fundamental nature remains constant, its character—what war looks like at any point in time and space—reflects the nature of the societies waging it (see Figure I-1). It reflects political, economic, social, cultural, and technological dynamics at work in the societies at war at that time. It manifests itself in who fights, why they fight and how they fight. As Clausewitz warns, "The first, the supreme, the most far-reaching act of judgment that the statesman and commander have to make is to establish ... the kind of war on which they are embarking." That judgment should inform the political decision to fight or to take action that could lead to warfare.

6. Levels of Strategy

a. **Grand Strategy.** Grand strategy exists at a level above those strategies intended to secure particular ends, and above the use of military power alone to achieve strategic objectives. Grand strategy aims to secure and advance a nation's long-term, enduring, core interests over time. A nation's grand strategy also shows great persistence over time, orienting on those interests deemed most important; interests for which virtually any nation will spend, legislate, threaten, or fight to defend or advance. At the grand strategic level, the ways and means to attain US core national interests are based on the national leadership's strategic vision of America's role in the world. Enduring values and beliefs embodied in the national interests represent the legal, philosophical, and moral basis for continuation of the nation's system.

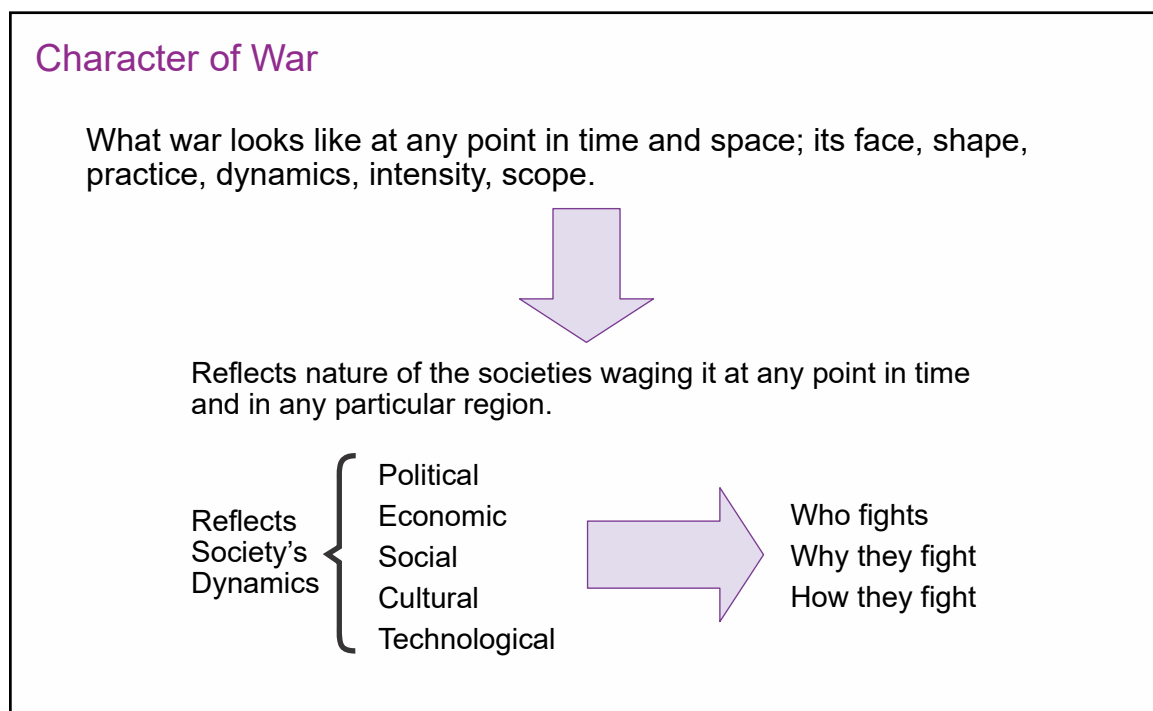


Figure I-1. Character of War

NATIONAL SECURITY STRATEGY

Required by the 1986 Goldwater-Nichols Act, the strategy describes: the worldwide interests, goals, and objectives...the foreign policy, worldwide commitments, and national defense capabilities of the US necessary to deter aggression ... the short-term and long term uses of the political, economic, military, and other elements of national power to protect or promote the interests ... the adequacy of the capabilities of the US to carry out the national security strategy. Since the statutory requirement, there have been 11 national security strategies released by US Presidents (two from Ronald Reagan, two from George H.W. Bush, three from Bill Clinton, two from George W. Bush, and two from Barack Obama).

**From National to Theater, Developing Strategy Joint Forces Quarterly,
3rd Qtr 2013**

b. **National Security Strategy (NSS).** The Executive Branch of the US Government publishes the NSS. The NSS outlines the nation's major national security concerns and how the nation plans to deal with them.

(1) National security strategists rely on selected institutions and actors to secure the national policy objectives; they pursue objectives by employing the instruments of national power. Each instrument of national power comprises a set of broad capabilities available to the strategist. For example, the military instrument revolves around employing capabilities such as security cooperation; force enabling (that lends credibility to the threat of force); and/or the actual use of force (should the capabilities, influence or threats not achieve the desired objectives).

(2) Policy makers' articulate their perceptions of national interests in policy objectives that may be too broad to serve as concrete goals for a strategy; however, these policy objectives are used in the formulation of the strategy's objectives. Strategic objectives define the outcome the strategist believes will preserve, protect, and/or advance the national interests at stake. Identifying the national interests in a particular strategic challenge clarifies why dealing with it is important, as the purpose of the strategy is to reshape these challenges into a state of affairs that is either less troubling and/or more promising. The national strategy may also describe the distinct achievements required to produce the strategic objectives; these are the strategy's supporting objectives. Strategy coherence results from a tight linkage between the national interests at stake, the policy objectives pursued to secure the national interests, and the strategic ends, reinforced by supporting objectives that will inevitably attain the strategy's desired end state.

(3) Conceptually, strategists must distinguish institutions that wield the instruments of national power from the instruments themselves. Military institutions are those organizations principally organized, trained, and equipped to wield the military instrument of power, but they do not solely comprise the military instrument itself. For example, the Department of Defense (DOD) is the institution most likely to wield the military instrument of

NATIONAL MILITARY STRATEGY IN LAW

The Chairman shall determine each even-numbered year whether to prepare a new National Military Strategy (NMS) in accordance with this paragraph or to update a strategy previously prepared in accordance with this paragraph. The Chairman shall provide such NMS or update to the Secretary of Defense in time for transmittal to Congress pursuant to paragraph (3), including in time for inclusion in the report of the Secretary of Defense ...

Each NMS (or update) under this paragraph shall be based on a comprehensive review conducted by the Chairman in conjunction with the other members of the Joint Chiefs of Staff and the commanders of the unified and specified combatant commands. Each update shall address only those parts of the most recent NMS for which the Chairman determines, on the basis of the review, that a modification is needed ...

Each NMS (or update) submitted under this paragraph shall describe how the military will support the objectives of the United States as articulated in:

- The most recent National Security Strategy prescribed by the President...;
- Pursuant to section 108 of the National Security Act of 1947 ...;
- The most recent annual report of the Secretary of Defense submitted to the President and Congress ...;
- The most recent national defense strategy presented by the Secretary of Defense ...;
- The most recent policy guidance provided by the Secretary of Defense ...;
- Any other national security or defense strategic guidance issued by the President or the Secretary of Defense.

At a minimum, each NMS (or update) submitted under this paragraph shall:

- Assess the strategic environment, threats, opportunities, and challenges that affect the national security of the United States ...;
- Assess military ends, ways, and means to support the objectives ...;
- Provide the framework for the assessment by the Chairman of military strategic and operational risks, and for the development of risk mitigation options ...;
- Develop military options to address threats and opportunities ...;
- Assess joint force capabilities, capacities, and resources ...;

- **Establish military guidance for the development of the joint force and the total force building on guidance by the President and the Secretary of Defense ...**

Title 10, United States Code, 153, Chairman: Functions

power, but when the Central Intelligence Agency eliminates a terrorist using a remotely piloted aircraft, it is exercising lethal force usually attributed to the military instrument of power.

c. **National Military Strategy (NMS).** The NMS provides the joint force with a framework to protect and advance US national interests. It is strategic direction for the military contribution to pursue the objectives of the NSS to advance national interests. The principal focus of this joint doctrine note is military strategy, the art and science of employing force and the threat of force to secure the objectives of national policy.

(1) The NMS provides an overarching military strategic framework that will better inform resource planning and allocation priorities, risk distribution, and Joint Force development. It recognizes the challenges posed by an evolving security environment and seeks to address them through a comprehensive and globally integrated approach to planning, operations, and capability development that retains a competitive advantage over potential adversaries.

(2) Military strategy should relate to the state's overall NSS. Military strategy supports, and should be compatible and complementary with the NSS.

(3) Military strategy applies the military instrument of national power towards attaining the overall NSS end states. The fundamental challenge for the military strategist is three-fold: first, define the objectives that will help attain the national end state(s); second, develop a plan to achieve the objectives; and third, ensure compatibility with the other instruments of national power. The next chapters will explore various aspects of developing military strategy in more detail.

(4) Military strategy must relate to the US' overall NSS that orchestrates the instruments of national power to secure political objectives.

d. Combatant Command Strategy

(1) Using national strategy as a guide, combatant commanders develop campaign plans that outline their vision for integrating and synchronizing military activities and operations with the other instruments of national power to attain strategic ends.

(2) Combatant command strategies bridge national strategic guidance and joint operational planning as it guides the development of the Combatant Command Campaign Plan (CCP). Their strategies and the CCPs that operationalizes them offer an integrated approach to achieving security objectives. More broadly, theater strategies should seek to make conflicts less likely by achieving US ends through activities (such as security

cooperation) as well as other tools of national power. The CCP flows from the commander's theater strategy and provides the action plan to implement the strategy. The current construct for nesting plans for a theater is first to build a campaign plan that implements the activities required to achieve the desired outcomes for the theater from a comprehensive, proactive, and integrated strategy then deal with deviations from the strategy as branches requiring contingency plans.

CHAPTER II

STRATEGIC ENDS AND MEANS

“The most fundamental task in devising a grand strategy is to determine a nation’s national interests. Once they are identified, they drive a nation’s foreign policy and military strategy; they determine the basic direction that it takes, the types and amounts of resources that it needs, and the manner in which the state must employ them to succeed. Because of the critical role that national interests play, they must be carefully justified, not merely assumed.”

Robert J. Art, A Grand Strategy for America

1. Introduction

Strategy is about how nations use the instruments of national power to exercise control over people, places, things, and events to achieve strategic objectives in accordance with national interests and policies.

a. Complexity and uncertainty are inherent in any strategic challenge. Unraveling the complexity and resolving the uncertainty is difficult and calls for the ability to think strategically about the problem at hand. Thinking strategically reconciles the ends with the means and circumstances. The following fundamental elements should be considered when developing strategy:

(1) Analyzing the strategic **situation** (the challenge, the security environment and its international and domestic components).

(2) Defining the desired **ends** (the outcomes sought or end states), to include first defining the overarching national or strategic objectives, and then the subordinate objectives.

(3) Developing the **means** (resources and capabilities) to bring to bear.

(4) Designing the **ways** to use the means to attain the desired ends (see Chapter III, “Strategic Ways”).

(5) Assessing the **risks** and **costs** associated with the strategy (see Chapter IV, “Assessing Strategy”).

b. Strategy formulation demands creativity, critical thinking, insight, and judgment, as well as the courage to act on that judgment. Determining the strategic security environment illustrated below requires the strategist to answer innumerable questions to produce an effective strategy. Unfortunately, the strategist may find definitive answers to only some of those questions; for the rest, the strategist must rely on assumptions. In developing strategies, unknown factors often outnumber known factors. Thus, the strategist always operates in an atmosphere of widespread volatility, uncertainty, complexity, and ambiguity. The key for the strategist is to thoroughly understand the

national decision maker's "red lines" for unacceptable outcomes and then design strategies that will steer future outcomes into a range of acceptable end states.

c. Figure II-1 illustrates one way to visualize the interrelationships of the strategic security environment in any situation. It depicts the strategic situation as a cloud; it is shapeless, ever shifting, and considerably opaque. Comprising that cloud are considerations such as the problem's parameters, international and domestic conditions that bear on the problem, national interests and political objectives, threats to those interests (or opportunities for advancing them), and constraints on freedom of action. Identifying national interests is crucial for the development of strategy, national interests are essential to establishing the objectives or ends that serve as the goals for policy and strategy.

d. The key to developing a strategy lies in devising an ends-ways-means-risks/costs relationship that helps the strategic situation and attains the desired end state. Strategists should begin with national interests as a starting point to determine ends. The strategist cannot formulate the ends without considering available means, possible ways, and likely risks and costs. When the calculus does not support the desired end state due to an unacceptable level of risk, cost, or a lack of means, or will then the ends must be adjusted: either changed, limited, or delayed until more favorable conditions exist. The cyclical

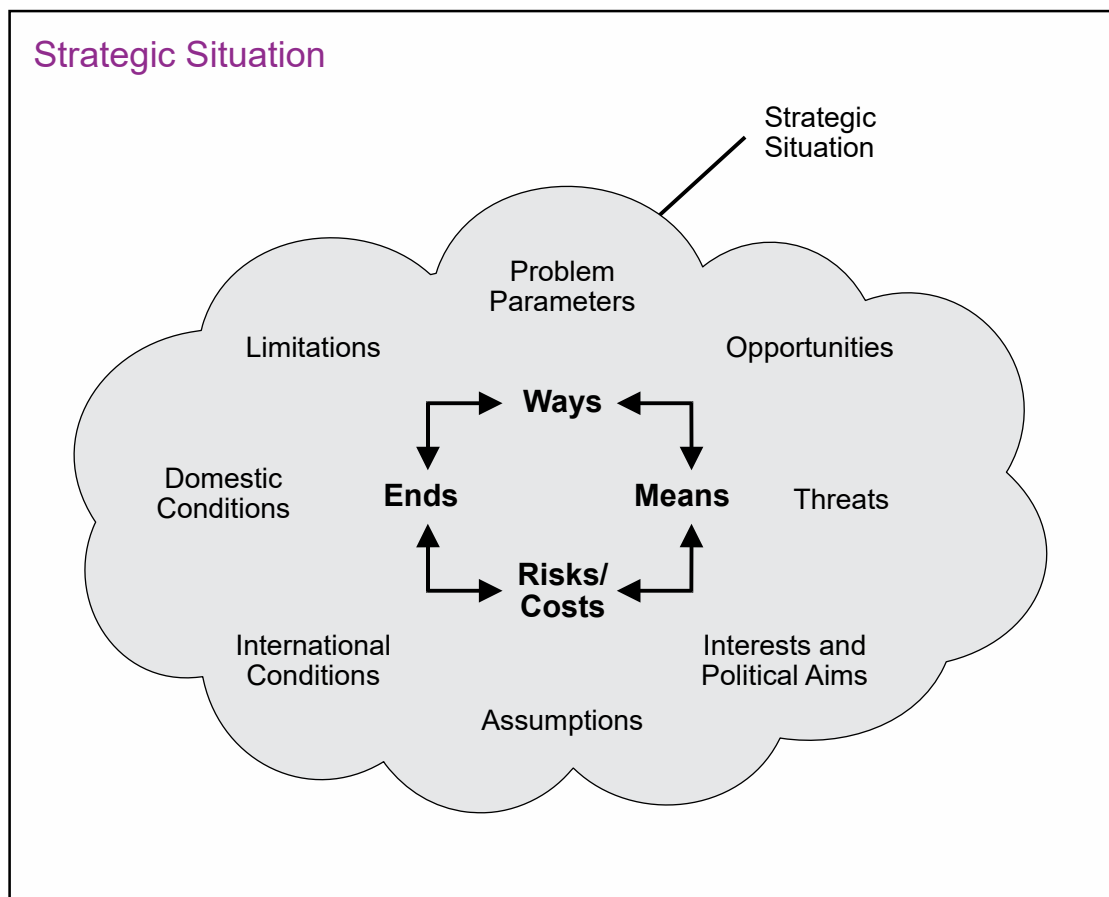


Figure II-1. Strategic Situation

relationship in Figure II-1 demonstrates that there is no end to the process, the strategist should continually reassess the strategy across its execution.

2. Analyzing the Strategic Situation

a. Every security challenge occurs within a broader strategic situation. To provide definitive focus for strategy development, a clear, concise summary problem statement is essential. The strategist should identify the relevant factors (political, military, economic, social/cultural, historical, technological, informational, legal, etc.) essential to producing an accurate description of the security challenge at hand. Included in this elaboration is the strategist's best judgment about the interests, perceptions, and intentions of the other actors associated with the challenge.

b. Events across the strategic security environment powerfully shape both the challenge itself and possible approaches to dealing with it. The strategist should identify the most important regional and global conditions and dynamics that bear on the nature of the challenge and the range of potential strategic responses. National security threats have evolved and future conflicts will likely be dealt with across multiple borders, boundaries, domains and functions. Strategists must think their way to success in incredibly complex scenarios.

3. Defining the Desired Ends

a. The desired ends get to the "why" the strategy is being developed and seeks to answer the question: "How does the state's leadership want the adversary to behave?" Attaining the desired ends defines strategic success.

b. Defining strategic ends begins with determining a nation's interests; those fundamental, enduring conditions a state chooses to pursue. National leaders evaluate the interests to determine if a state has a stake in a particular security issue, determining both why the problem is important and how serious a challenge the problem presents. For the US, the executive branch of the federal government has primary responsibility for determining the national interests that address perceived needs and aspirations external to the geographic borders of the nation. Determining internal or domestic interests is complex with executive and legislative bodies at federal, state, and local levels interacting in the political process to reach.

c. Once the appropriate interests have been determined, the next question for the strategist is to answer why the nation should care enough to do anything about them. The security environment's complexity forces strategists and policy makers to make hard choices. One approach is to categorize national interests as vital, important, and peripheral.

(1) **Vital** interests: What are we willing to die for? States generally have four vital interests: security of the home territory, safety of citizens at home and abroad, economic prosperity, and preservation of the national way of life.

DEVELOPING AN ENDURING STRATEGY—COLD WAR EXAMPLE

In May 1953, shortly after Dwight Eisenhower succeeded Truman as president of the United States, Eisenhower authorized Project Solarium in which three teams would operate in secret at the National War College to propose various strategies for dealing with a Soviet Union that was projected to field an arsenal of thousands of thermonuclear weapons and missiles for delivering them. George Kennan headed Team-A of Project Solarium, and in July 1953, President Eisenhower attended a daylong conference at the White House to hear the various teams make their cases for their strategies. Eisenhower opted for Team-A's approach, which was largely a continuation of the Truman administration's containment policy.

By that autumn, as the National War College Class of 1954 was setting into its academic routine, Eisenhower's National Security Council would turn Team-A's proposal into NSC-162/2, which like NSC-68 strove to contain the Soviet Union, but unlike NSC-68, NSC-162/2 relied to a much greater degree on nuclear weapons and deterrence and less on an expensive conventional military force buildup.

Although later administrations would produce updated National Security Strategy documents, the fundamental concepts developed in Roosevelt Hall in the early years of the Cold War remained the basis for American foreign policy and strategy until the Cold War's end.

Strategic Leadership Foundation Course National War College,
Fall 2017

(2) **Important** interests: What are we willing to fight for? Nations important interests generally include freedom of access to the global commons, regional stability, secure alliances, or the promotion of the state's values.

(3) **Peripheral** interests: What are we willing to fund (deploy peacekeepers, balance trade deficits)?

d. Former Secretary of Defense Donald Rumsfeld proposed similar questions in 2002 by asking, "Is the proposed action truly necessary? If people could be killed, ours or others, the US must have a darn good reason." These questions act as a way to understand the intensity of national interests and defining ends. Not all foreign policy crises result in deploying ground forces, and we argue that the type of force deployed (air, ground, or allies) is a good empirical way to understand the intensity of national interests.

e. Should the political leadership decide it wants to use the military instrument of power to attain a desired strategic end, the challenge for the military strategist is to develop options that are coordinated with the other national instruments of power. Taking into account the strategic objective and the strategic situation, the strategist must identify what objective(s), once achieved, will attain the desired strategic end.

f. Military strategists face difficult challenges in formulating the objectives of a wartime military strategy. The strategist must gauge the types and level of effects that will attain the strategic end. Clearly, some wars will call for much wider application of force than others will.

(1) The use or threat of force works via death and destruction. However, death and destruction in and of themselves are seldom warfare's objective. States and non-state actors go to war to attain a particular political, social, economic, or ideological objective. This is of critical importance when the destruction of an enemy's military is either unattainable or undesirable. In these cases, in designing and executing a military strategy, the strategist must identify and recognize the point of victory.

(2) The military instrument must be wielded in combination with the other instruments of power. The use or threat of force must work in concert with the other instruments. Force and violence must be contained at appropriate levels to ensure it does not undermine the effectiveness of concurrent diplomatic, informational, and economic efforts and strategic designs. Since warfare emanates from a desire to produce a different state of affairs, preserving the effectiveness of the other instruments of power is essential to achieving the desired political and strategic objectives. Excessive force can diminish the utility of the non-military instruments of power, and thus irrevocably undermine the desired strategic end.

(3) Military operations may produce tactical and operational gains, but not achieve desired political objectives and enduring outcomes sought. Failure to translate military gains into strategic success may reflect, to some extent, a tendency to focus primarily on affecting the enemy's material capabilities rather than their will to develop and employ those capabilities.

4. Developing the Means

a. The means are the capabilities and resources one can bring to bear in the effort to attain the desired strategic ends. In warfare, the means employed are military capabilities and resources. Warfare is never, however, limited to purely military means. Each of the instruments of national power has its own essential role when adversaries go to war.

b. The 'DIME' acronym (diplomatic, informational, military, and economic) has been used for many years to describe the instruments of national power. These elements align to the major executive branches applying the power: the Departments of State, Defense, and Commerce, as well as the intelligence community.

(1) **Diplomatic Instrument.** The essence of the diplomatic instrument is engagement—how a nation interacts with state or non-state actors, generally to secure some form of agreement that allows the conflicting parties to coexist peacefully. Two important considerations for any strategist contemplating economic action in pursuit of strategic ends are globalization and the particular natures of individual state economies.

(a) Globalization has woven state economies worldwide into an increasingly interdependent web. A disturbance in one state's economy can reverberate widely across

the globe with unexpected consequences. Efforts to influence another's economy can end up producing unintended and often negative outcomes in one's own economy. States have less ability to shape their trade and financial activities to suit a particular strategic purpose when a considerable portion of their economic activity is controlled privately and they rely on free-market forces to generate economic prosperity.

(b) The more another state's economy is privatized and governed by free-market forces, the less effective trade, finance or aid actions will likely produce a particular strategic outcome. On the other hand, in states with authoritarian governments, the state's leaders can often redirect economic activity within the state to blunt the effects results of efforts to use economic tools to coerce the state.

(2) **Information Instrument.** The informational instrument is about creating, exploiting, and disrupting knowledge. A state or non-state actor generally benefits when it enjoys an information advantage over another party. Creating and exploiting that information advantage is key to the employment of the information instrument in NSS. The infrastructure, capabilities, and processes by which a state or non-state gathers, analyzes, disseminates, and exploits information are crucial foundational and institutional dimensions of power. Communication synchronization and information activities are two primary effects created to achieve the state's strategic informational objectives.

(a) Communication synchronization entails focused efforts to understand and engage key audiences to create, strengthen, or preserve conditions favorable for the advancement of national interests, policies, and objectives. It actively engages key audiences with coordinated programs, plans, themes, messages, and products synchronized with the actions of all instruments of national power. Public diplomacy is good example of strategic communication.

(b) Information activities entail efforts by one party to deny another the ability to acquire and use information, and to protect and enhance its own ability to do the same. This includes protecting not only the information the state has, but also the capabilities for gathering information, analyzing and interpreting it, feeding knowledge gained into decision-making processes, and using information to shape and control state activities. In democratic states, increasingly, this inward focus also includes efforts to ensure the reliability of information available to one's domestic audience so that they can effectively exercise their democratic responsibilities.

(3) **Military Instrument.** The essence of the military instrument is the use of force by one party in an attempt to impose its will on another. This use can entail applying force, threatening the application of force, or enabling other parties to apply force in furtherance of strategic ends.

(a) Force can be applied across a broad spectrum and in multiple forms. It can occur in any domain (land, maritime, air, space) and the information environment (to include cyberspace).

(b) Threat of force is used to compel an adversary to modify current behavior or shape future action. It works by deploying and posturing military capabilities and issuing warning statements that convey a decision to use force if one's conditions are not met.

(c) Force enabling entails increasing the capability of international partners to apply force and usually occurs in close coordination with the diplomatic and economic instruments. It can include providing weapons and materiel, training and education, joint combined exercises, foreign internal defense, and advisory missions.

(d) Security cooperation sets conditions that prevent conflict, shape the security environment, compete for influence below the threshold of armed conflict, and prepare US forces to respond to contingencies. Security cooperation includes military engagements with foreign defense and security establishments, DOD-administered security assistance programs, combined exercises, international armaments cooperation, and information sharing and collaboration. Security cooperation programs and activities are normally integrated and synchronized with the other instruments of national power.

(4) Economic Instrument. The economic instrument focuses on furthering or constraining others' prosperity. Economic power is frequently considered the heart of national power. Whether the state has the economic power to pursue a particular strategy, or whether the effort to attain a strategic end will consume too much of the state's economic power are crucial national strategy judgments. Few, if any, strategies' ends are worth putting the nation's economic power in jeopardy. The economic instrument consists of the following basic capabilities:

(a) Trade of goods and services generally increases the wealth and prosperity of trading partners. Conversely, limits or restrictions on trade (including sanctions and tariffs) can harm an adversary's economy.

(b) Finance and access to capital markets is required for modern businesses to undertake investments to increase productive capacity, and for modern governments to provide expected services (infrastructure, health, welfare, education) to their citizens. Restricting or impeding access to finance and banking systems can undermine others' economic prosperity.

(c) Aid is money (or goods or materiel) given by one party to another to increase the recipient's capability and/or capacity. Granting aid adds to the recipient's ability to develop capabilities, while its withdrawal or reduction hinders that ability.

c. Despite how long the DIME has been used for describing the instruments of national power, US policy makers and strategists have long understood that there are many more instruments involved in national security policy development and implementation. Strategists should be aware that a whole-of-government view might better define US instruments of national power. However, the whole-of-government approach should not be viewed simply as everyone developing the respective plans and then coming together, piecing together the strategies, and deciding which way to go. When different agencies,

DESCRIBING THE ELEMENTS OF NATIONAL POWER: CHANGING THE PARADIGM

New acronyms such as MIDFIELD (military, informational, diplomatic, financial, intelligence, economic, law, and development) convey a much broader array of options for the strategic and policymaker to use.

One of the most important additions to this new acronym is the letter L. Americans take great pride that their nation is governed by the rule of law. Reaffirming the American commitment to the rule of law by simply adding it to our national security dialogue is a step in the right direction to restoring what Joseph Nye termed soft power, which he defines as the “ability to get what you want through attraction rather than coercion or payments.” Nye contends that soft power “arises from the attractiveness of a country’s culture, political ideas, and policies. When our policies are seen as legitimate in the eyes of others, our soft power is enhanced” (Nye, *Soft Power: The Means to Success in World Politics*, p. x). Ultimately, it is our policy actions and not our words that will carry the day, but we must begin by expanding our national security vocabulary.

Another important addition to this acronym is the D for development. The US Agency for international Development has played an integral role in advancing America’s soft power image since its foundation in 1961. Despite the agency’s numerous contributions to furthering US interests; until recently, it was rarely included in US foreign policy dialogue.

Recent Secretaries of State and Defense have both renewed the US commitment to the role of development by making it part of their 3D (diplomacy, development, and defense) approach to foreign policy. If American leaders wish to shape today’s environment, then development is, without questions, a key instrument of national security power.

Harnessing America’s Power Joint Force Quarterly, 4th QTR, 2011

each wielding instruments of national power, do not coordinate sufficiently, there is the risk that agencies interpret national policy guidance differently and develop misaligned objectives. As a result, agencies develop different objectives and strategies, set different priorities, and ultimately fail to achieve a **unity of effort** toward attaining unified national strategic ends states.

5. Orchestrating the Instruments of National Power

a. Each instrument of national power works most effectively when it supports and operates harmoniously with the other instruments of national power. Consequently, the strategist should consider what the proposed strategy is asking each instrument to do at any point in time and space. The strategist should ensure each is doing all it can to achieve its particular objective and to support the efforts of the other instruments of national power. Moreover, at any point in time, one of the instruments is usually playing the principal role in advancing the strategy, while the others are supporting. Strategists normally seek to

attain strategic ends at as little cost in lives, resources, property damage, sovereignty, and stability to any of the involved parties as feasible considering national or multinational objectives. Strategists should take care to identify the right combination of instruments of national power. Strategists should also recognize and accept that the available combination of means will be greatly affected by the strategic ends sought and the kind of strategy pursued.

b. Military professionals naturally concentrate on the military means of strategy, but they should also be conscious to exploit and defend other means. They must effectively evaluate the utility of the military instrument. Force is an inappropriate tool for the solution of most political difficulties. Force is at best a necessary means for clearing obstacles to more peaceful solutions. In appraising the relationship between the military instrument and diplomacy, economics, and information in any given situation, military leaders must be prepared to ask the following three questions:

(1) How can military capabilities complement or assist the other instruments in achieving the political objective?

(2) How can diplomatic, informational, and economic capabilities aid military efforts?

(3) How might contemplated uses of force impede or imperil the achievement of the political objective?

6. Adapting the Means

a. Strategy discussions in the abstract often treat means as fixed. In practice, however, in the development and progress of a strategy, strategists frequently tend to adjust means. The occurrences of warfare, successes and failures, lessons learned, new concepts, the emergence of new technologies, the entry of new combatants, may cause the strategist to alter means as reframing occurs and an emergent strategy develops.

b. As resources increase, confidence in one's abilities grows, and as the enemy proves increasingly vulnerable, goals tend to expand. On the other hand, when resources or capabilities prove inadequate, ambitions ought to contract. Means are adjustable to some degree at every level. State or non-states can develop the means to attain their desired ends given time, will, and creativity.

7. Strategy's Relationship with Time

Strategic thinking requires the ability to foresee continuity of strategic choices with the past and the consequences of their intended or unintentional effects in the future. The strategist is concerned with continuity and change. The strategist extrapolates possible futures from the present situation and then constructs a paradigm of change from which strategic planning seeks to shape a more favorable future. Strategists deal with time horizons in terms of years and not only the immediate future.

AMERICA'S COLD WAR STRATEGY—ADJUSTING MEANS TO ENDS

An example of the different ways strategic means can be adjusted to match strategic ends can be found in America's shifting strategy during the Cold War. Beginning with the Truman administration, the American government pursued the political objective of containing the Soviet Union. The means adopted, however, evolved from administration to administration. President Eisenhower's administration employed a strategy labeled "massive retaliation," which relied on the United States' nuclear superiority to deter Soviet expansion. The Soviet Union enjoyed a huge conventional force superiority, but could not match American nuclear capability. Eisenhower wished to avoid building and maintaining large conventional forces, arguing that nuclear weapons provided "more bang for the buck." President Kennedy's administration had an entirely different approach to means. Partly because of the success of the massive retaliation strategy, the Soviets built up their nuclear arsenal to negate the US strategy. At the same time, they found a way around America's nuclear capability by sponsoring numerous "wars of national liberation."

When the resources and commitments needed to implement "flexible response" in Vietnam proved too costly, President Nixon's administration increased the emphasis on diplomatic means in its pursuit of the political objective of containment. Nixon's strategy of détente employed a combination of coercion and inducements designed to convince the Soviets to restrain themselves. Among those policies were the conduct of direct negotiations with the Soviet Union on issues such as arms control, the establishment of links to the People's Republic of China, and a new set of policies toward American allies subsequently known as "the Nixon doctrine."

The Nixon doctrine emphasized establishment of a series of bilateral and multilateral alliances to contain Soviet expansion. The United States would provide economic and military support to its allies, many of whom bordered the Soviet Union or one of its clients.

In 1981, with the country emerging from the national "soul searching" that followed its defeat in Vietnam, the incoming Reagan administration chose to adjust the means of containment one last time. Taking advantage of an economic upturn, Reagan embarked on a significant military buildup coupled with the development of new military technologies, particularly a ballistic missile defense capability and by aiding proxy forces in Afghanistan fighting the Soviets. Their efforts to match the increase in US defense resources cracked a state already beset by formidable political, economic, and social weaknesses, and in 1991, the Soviet Union collapsed.

More recently in 2003, the US entered southern Iraq as liberators. When this assumption was disproved, the strategy changed to counterinsurgency that required a much longer time horizon.

Thus, over nearly half a century, the US adjusted the means brought to bear in its effort to produce the political objective it first adopted in 1947—containment of the Soviet Union. As these episodes from the Cold War and Operation IRAQI FREEDOM show, strategy is never static, and strategists must recommend adjustments to address current realities on the ground. Successes and failures, and the recognition of assumptions proved too bold or too timid, mandate strategists continually reassess their ends and means and the relationship between them.

Foundations of Strategic Logic
National War College

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CHAPTER III STRATEGIC WAYS

"The most complete and happy victory is this: to compel one's enemy to give up his purpose, while suffering no harm oneself."

Flavius Belisarius (505-565)

1. Introduction

Strategic ways are how the strategist proposes to use the means available, or can be developed, to attain the desired ends. Those ends consist of the national interests at stake in the security challenge at hand, the political objectives (the condition or state of affairs) that will secure the national interests at stake, and the subordinate objectives that must be accomplished.

2. Fundamental Strategic Approaches

a. The US is facing several complex challenges requiring innovative responses from rivals that it cannot optimally engage. These rivals are evading US strength by competing at levels below the threshold of a coercive US military response. They are contesting the rules and norms established in the post-WWII order to create a system more sympathetic to their interests.

b. Figure III-1 reflects a view of a the competitive environment characterized by US relationships with other actors relative to a specific interest or grouping of interests. It is more reflective of how nations, nation states, and non-state actors interact in a comprehensive and flexible spectrum of strategic relations. The relationships range from **peaceful cooperation**, to **competition below armed conflict**, to **armed conflict**. Moving

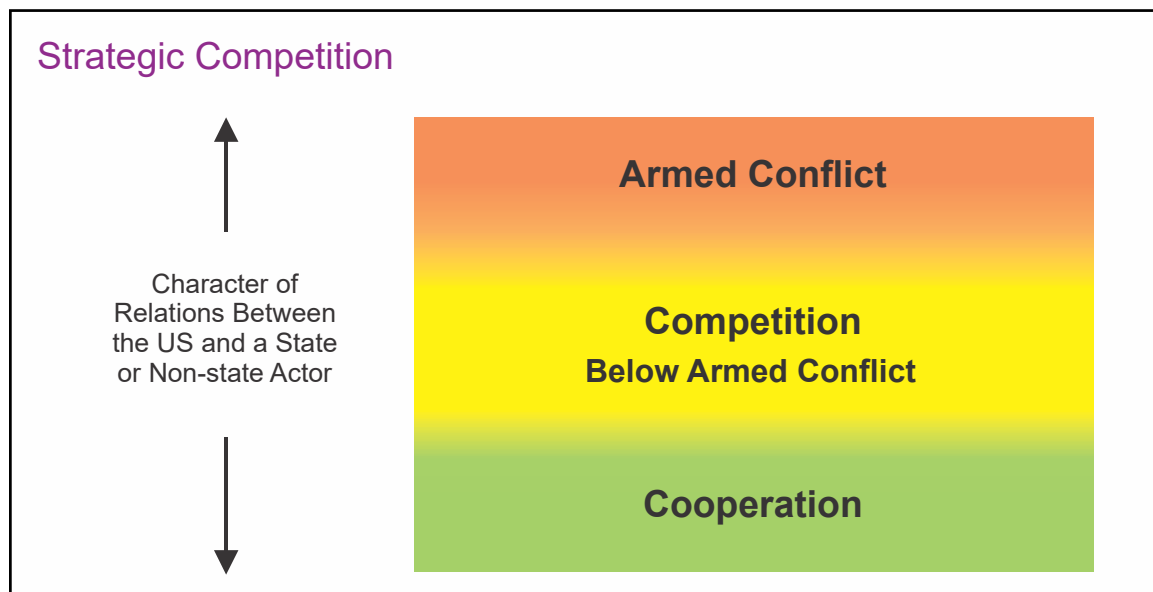


Figure III-1. Strategic Competition

through the spectrum crosses important conceptual thresholds as parties shift from generally friendly to increasingly adversarial interactions.

(1) **Cooperation** includes mutually beneficial relationships between strategic actors with similar or compatible interests. Although interests will rarely be in complete alignment, cooperative relations underpin the international order, enhance collective security, and deter conflict. Cooperation is the desired condition with the least cost and risk is cooperation, since actors primarily use cooperative activities to facilitate mutually beneficial relationships.

(2) **Competition below armed conflict** exists when two or more strategic actors view one another as competitors (as opposed to adversaries) that have incompatible interests. Competitors may cooperate with one another or engage in behavior detrimental to other strategic actor's interests (e.g., removing 'most favored nation' status or increasing tariffs). Influence (pressure to act a certain way) and coercion (the use of threats to influence the behavior of an adversary) are central to the condition of competition below armed conflict.

(3) **Armed conflict** involves the use of force as the primary means by which a strategic actor seeks to satisfy its interests or react to provocation. Armed conflict involves the highest intensity of coercive force.

c. Across the strategic competition environment, the actors may employ numerous approaches in dealing with strategic challenges. The broad strategic approach chosen will then shape the ways each of the instruments of national power is brought to bear to deal with the challenge and to produce the desired strategic end.

(1) **Observe** is the least active strategic approach and is often appropriate when threats to interests are minimal, international partners independently address an issue sufficiently, or when assessed costs and risks of greater action outweigh potential benefits.

(2) **Accommodate** involves acceding to others' interests to attain the desired strategic end. Depending on the situation, accommodation can take multiple forms, including appeasement, adaptation, abrogation, retraction, abandonment, etc.

(3) **Compromise** is reached when parties adjust conflicting or opposing positions to achieve a mutually agreed end state without violating either's core values. Compromise should not be regarded in the context of win/lose.

(4) **Shape** may be appropriate when threats are not immediate or severe and an opportunity creates a chance to mold the general strategic situation in one's favor.

(5) **Persuade** has limited application, and generally entails trying to convince another actor through force of argument. Where the parties' interests align or overlap, persuasion may be viable. Otherwise, its utility is often restricted.

(6) **Enable** occurs when interests align, to improve capability of an actor already taking action that will produce or benefit one's strategic end. Enabling can occur in myriad

ways, such as force enabling of a partner military, or providing information or financial aid.

(7) **Induce** involves offering something positive, for example promises of aid, security guarantees, or tariff concessions. Inducement differs from enabling as it seeks to change another state or actor's behavior.

(8) **Assure** entails the forward presence or stationing of military capabilities in a friendly country that provides political leverage giving substance to diplomacy and credibility to agreements.

(9) **Deter** involves the defensive use of credible threats generally to preserve the status quo. Threatens negative reaction in response to adversary aggression. Deterrence seeks to change the risk/reward calculation of the adversary thus preventing undesirable action and preserving the status quo. Ultimately leaves the choice to act or not act with the adversary.

(10) **Coercion** persuades an adversary to stop an ongoing action or start a new course of action by changing their cost/benefit analysis.

(11) **Compel** refers to the use of credible threats or actual actions that seek to change the status quo. Compellence threatens imposition or continuation of a condition undesirable to the adversary until they accede to demands. Compel involves the use of unlimited or decisive force to remove the ability to resist.

(12) **Subdue** involves applying sufficient force to make an adversary do what one wants, essentially removing any response other than capitulation. Subdue is generally heavy on force and often includes occupation, regime change, and destruction or severe degradation of the adversary's capacity to employ force.

(13) **Eradicate** seeks the absolute elimination of the target state or actor, including, possibly, the ideology guiding it.

d. Present realities and future uncertainties prompt a paradigm shift in the way strategists view the strategic security environment. The model in Figure III-1 describes a comprehensive approach to understanding strategic relationships in an increasingly complex world. Categorizing relationships in terms of **cooperation**, **competition below armed conflict**, and **armed conflict** equips joint leaders with an improved lexicon for providing best military advice and guidance.

3. Relationship Between Strategic Ends and Military Ways

a. Military leaders spend a tremendous amount of time and effort developing and planning the instruments of national power to wage warfare. The immediate threat posed by an adversary can force leaders to think and react in the present without sufficient flexibility to adapt to future conditions. Time constraints and insufficient information can also limit choices available to leaders. Planning for conflict termination is just as important as designing a successful military campaign. The whole point of warfare is to seek a better

or more permanent political condition, however a nation ends its war with a foe can determine future relations. If the state's strategic end is the elimination of the opponent as a political entity, and it chooses to employ force in the effort to attain its strategic ends, then eradication will likely, though not always, be the most appropriate military strategy. Military strategies of eradication are conceptually simple. The focus of operational efforts is the enemy's armed forces; the object is to render them powerless. While those forces may be destroyed in battle, they also may be rendered powerless in other ways, for example: through destruction of the social or industrial infrastructure that supports them.

b. In deciding the best way to employ military force, there are different tacks a strategist can take to build a strategic design. In deciding how to orient a particular strategic design, the strategist needs to consider whether a particular mode of action fits the strategic situation, will attain strategic end and achieve its subordinate objectives, and can do so with the available means at acceptable levels of cost and risk.

CHAPTER IV ASSESSING STRATEGY

"No plan of operation extends with certainty beyond contact with the enemy's main hostile force."

**Field Marshal General Helmuth von Moltke the Elder Chief
of the German General Staff (1857-1888)**

1. Introduction

Assessing the costs and risks stemming from a strategic plan is the fifth fundamental element of the strategic logic formulation model presented in Chapter 1. Assessing costs and risks must permeate the process of developing strategy. Both analyzing the strategic situation and assessing risks and costs should not be applied iteratively and with regular frequency. Strategies normally lack the resources or the ability to employ them in a manner sufficient for complete assurance of success. As a result, a final and essential test is to assess the risk of less than full attainment of strategic objectives, as well as assess the risk of second and third order effects that strategy implementation could have (e.g., effects on the economy, relationships with allies, etc.). Living with risk is part of the strategist's business in the modern world, and being able to articulate its character and extent is one of the initial steps in reducing its impact.

2. Continual Assessment

a. Continuous assessment should be a formalized, recurring process during the life of the strategy that assesses and evaluates the strategy's ends, ways, means, and risks against the evolving realities and possibilities in the strategic environment.

b. The strategic environment is dynamic and continuous change is inherent to it. Successful strategies may present new opportunities or require a new strategy to account for the conditions of success. Strategies that are failing beg for replacement. Unforeseen changes in the strategic environment that may occur justify modification of some aspects of an existing strategy, but are not significant enough to invalidate the entire strategy.

c. National interests and policies often change over time. As a result, new strategies or modifications to extant strategies may be appropriate. Ideally, properly formulated strategy is constructed with inherent flexibility and adaptability in its ends, ways, and means—in the strategy itself. Continuous changes beyond requirements of success, failure and changed conditions, or beyond the control of the strategist, may be an indicator of poor strategic thinking or a flawed strategy formulation process. Proposed strategies for which the likely costs significantly exceed the value of the hoped-for benefits ought to be rethought. This cost-benefit analysis reinforces the criticality of having defined precisely the interests at stake in the problem, the value of those interests, threats to those interests, and the seriousness of those threats. The essential question in the cost-benefit analysis of any strategy is whether it protects/advances the state's interests at an acceptable cost.

Ultimately, many national strategy debates revolve around value tradeoffs (e.g., lives vs. economic harm, that are difficult, if not impossible, to resolve).

3. Costs and Risks

a. Costs represent the outlay of resources and other assets needed to attain strategic ends. They include the funding required to acquire, build, enable, protect, convert, achieve, or maintain something of strategic value, whether tangible or intangible. Costs also can include people killed and injured; infrastructure damaged or destroyed, diminished capital, accumulated debt, weakened economy, or diminished influence. They can be transactional, political, temporal, or stem from forfeited opportunities.

b. Risks are elements that could go wrong in a strategy. Risk severity is determined by both the likelihood of its occurrence and the magnitude of damage that would ensue if the risk became manifest and risks you assume elsewhere against other adversaries when executing a strategy and committing finite means. Thus, a state that employs force against an enemy that possesses nuclear weapons runs the risk that state will retaliate with a nuclear strike. The magnitude of the ensuing damage would be huge, but if there is little or no likelihood that the other state would respond with a nuclear strike, then the severity of the risk is diminished dramatically.

c. There is no magic formula for calculating risk. Risks emerge as the strategist brings insightful, objective analysis and judgment to bear on what research and intelligence has revealed about the nature and dynamics of the problem. Despite the strategist's best efforts, however, both the likelihood and severity of any identified risks and potential mitigation measures will remain only probabilities. Therefore, it is critical that the strategist develops a scheme for valuing both the likelihood and the severity of risks and uses that scheme to characterize each of the risks considered by decision makers. Strategists must assess both risks to the strategy and risks from the strategy.

d. Risks to the strategy are things that could cause it to fail, and they arise particularly from assumptions that prove invalid in whole or in part. Risks from the strategy are additional threats, costs, or otherwise undesired consequences caused by the strategy's implementation.

4. Assessing Validity

a. Throughout the strategy development process, strategists must continuously assess and reassess their strategy's validity. Multiple factors can affect a strategy's prospects for successful implementation. Strategists should use several criteria allow them to use the "...ilities" tests, which allow them to evaluate the strategy from multiple vantage points. There are several versions of the "...ilities," but at a minimum, a strategist should begin by considering:

(1) **Suitability** addresses whether the strategy will attain the desired ends. Will it protect/advance the national interests at stake, attain the desire ends, and not work against other national-level strategies, policies, and goals?

(2) **Feasibility** examines whether the nation can afford the proposed strategy. Are sufficient means available (or attainable) to attain the strategic ends? Can the necessary resources and popular support be sustained long enough to attain the strategic ends? Will the national economy be able to absorb the overall costs of the strategic effort without putting in jeopardy other, higher priority strategic ends?

(3) **Acceptability** examines the strategy's practicality and rationality. Will the expected benefits of achieving attaining the strategic end outweigh the anticipated costs? Is the plan of action consistent with the state's values, the national mood, domestic concerns, and partners' interests and the personal goals of political national leaders?

b. Strategists must continuously apply these basic validity tests of validity throughout the strategy development process. If the answer to any one of these tests is ever "no," then the strategist should modify or develop a new strategic approach that ensures an affirmative answer to all the "...ilities" tests.

5. Course Corrections

a. No strategy is infallible. Strategies are built upon a foundation of assumptions, some of those assumptions will prove flawed to some degree. As objectives and ends change to address current realities and emerging problem sets, the strategist must adjust the strategy's ends, ways, and/or means to accommodate the new reality. Some of the most powerful and insidious assumptions are unconscious judgments about the how the adversary will react to the various aspects of the strategy.

b. Those involved with analyzing complex situations and making conclusions are prone to the influences that shape and mold their view of the world and their ability to reason. Adversaries act in line with their own interests, logic, and analyses of the situation, which may lead them to respond in unexpected ways. Moreover, adversaries are not passive targets of a strategy, but active players invested in the outcome. As such, they will do all they can to frustrate or prevent an opposing plan's success, and to maximize their own gains.

c. Successful execution of any strategy entails constant adjustments to an adversary's moves, both those that are integral to his strategy, and those he takes in response to his opponent's strategic moves. As soon as a strategy is put into action, it begins changing the strategic situation in numerous ways. The adversary or enemy is also a strategic actor, with his own strategy that has passed its own tests of costs and benefits. The implementation of strategy is a test of which actor can best and more rapidly adapt to the other. Analyzing the strategic situation is one of the fundamental elements of strategic logic. As the situation changes, the strategist must revisit his analysis to ensure the plan of action continues to rest on a comprehensive, objective and insightful appreciation of the most important conditions and dynamics shaping the unfolding strategic situation, and how they are doing so. As with assumptions that later prove flawed, significant changes in the strategic situation should force the strategist to adjust the strategy's ends, means, and/or ways.

6. Recognizing and Avoiding Traps

Given the complexity of designing strategy, it is understandable that some strategists seek ways to simplify the process. There are, however, several traps to recognize and avoid:

a. **Searching for Strategic Panaceas.** Strategists have long sought strategic panaceas: prescriptions that will guarantee success in any situation. The strategic panacea denies any need for understanding the unique characteristics or context of each strategic situation, offering instead a ready-made and universal solution or defaulting to a successful approach from a previous conflict with similar (but not same) set of circumstances and conditions. In the mid-1800s, Army officers left West Point immersed in the example and concepts of Napoleonic warfare: offensive action; rapid, disruptive maneuver; and decisive battle. However, the American Civil War demonstrated that the growth of nationalism and the ability to mobilize society, along with the emergence of technologies such as the rifled musket, railroads, and the telegraph, had made rapid offensive maneuver to bring about a climactic decisive battle a thing of the past.

b. **Emphasizing Process over Product.** A second trap is the attempt to reduce the development of strategy to a routine. The danger in standardizing strategy making is accepting that the process alone will ensure development of sound strategies. Just as there is no strategic panacea, there is no optimal process for developing strategy. Nonetheless, to simplify, standardize, and control the strategy-making process, political organizations, bureaucracies, and military staffs normally seek to systematize the development of strategy. Such systems make a useful contribution. When the entire process of developing strategy is run by routine, the outcome is unimaginative, pedestrian and predictable strategies that adversaries can easily anticipate and counter. The key to the effective development of a strategy is how objective, open-minded, insightful, and creative the strategist is in answering all the fundamental questions inherent in each of the five fundamental elements of strategic logic the strategist employed.

c. **Seeking the Decisive Fait Accompli.** A fait accompli, or “done deal”, aims to present an adversary with a political/military achievement that cannot be undone. The danger is that what was intended can open the door to a more extended conflict or commitment. In 1982, the Argentines attempted a fait accompli by swiftly seizing the nearby British-governed Falkland Islands. Rather than accept the Argentine action, however, Great Britain mounted a months-long expeditionary campaign that took the islands back at some cost to the Argentine military. Indeed, the Argentine leaders who started the conflict were soon deposed. Whether a fait accompli works as designed depends almost wholly, on whether and how the targeted party chooses to respond.

d. Using labels such as **limited warfare** in attempting to simplify the nature of the problem. When a superior power goes to war against a distinctly less capable enemy, it generally can defeat conventional military forces relatively quickly and easily with a relatively limited effort and commitment of resources. Thus, there is a tendency for the superior power to consider that effort a “limited war,” and to shape its strategy and expectations accordingly. However, the strategic outcome often drives its intensity rather

than the means employed. This can create an asymmetry of interests that works to the disadvantage of the superior power. The result can be the enemy's willingness to wage warfare at an unexpected level of intensity that forces the superior power to expend resources and effort at a rate that is disproportionate to the interests at stake. The "limited" warfare the superior power envisioned at the outset has now escalated, probably significantly. Witness the American efforts in Afghanistan and Iraq.

e. **Mismatching Political-Military Outcomes.** Clausewitz emphasizes that the sole purpose of warfare should be to attain a desired strategic end. Any effective military strategy must be grounded in policy and national interests to effectively achieve results that will attain the desired strategic end. Often however, there is no connection between the destruction caused and the strategic ends sought. While military operations can impose costs of various kinds on the enemy, in the end, the enemy has to change his behavior for the strategy to succeed. It is hard to know how much and what kind of military action needed to produce the enemy's desired behavior. Enemies often react quite differently—and usually less desirably—than the strategist anticipates to military operations designed to produce a change in their behavior. To be effective, a military strategy in pursuit of a strategic end must lay out a scheme of operations that will prompt the enemy's decision to modify his behavior as the strategist desires. Military action can defeat the enemy security forces, remove the regime, restore security, repair/rebuild infrastructure, foster the regeneration of the economy, and even provide governance and essential social services. However, unless the objective is to replace the eliminated regime with a military occupation government indefinitely, extensive skilled and creative political action will eventually be required to enable an effective government to emerge. Even had the US leaned predominantly on its non-military instruments to carry out the "nation building" task in Afghanistan and Iraq, it would have discovered quickly that those instruments were woefully under-resourced for the task because the political, social, cultural, and economic dynamics make nation-building an almost impossible task.

7. Evaluating Strategy

a. The preeminent metric for judging a strategy's success is whether it achieves the desired political aim at an acceptable cost. As a strategy proceeds, the strategist must constantly and honestly judge the prospects of achieving the political aim. At some point, if those prospects are not increasing—or worse, are decreasing—then one must explore alternative courses of action. This might entail defining a new political aim, bringing new or additional means to bear, formulating a new strategic approach, or abandoning the effort altogether. In assessing an ongoing effort, the strategist must focus on the desired outcome, especially when waging war. It does not matter if one is winning on the battlefield if the cumulative effects of tactical/operational victories are not helping achieve the desired political aim. In Vietnam, the US won most of the battles but failed utterly to achieve its political aim. The only test of a successful strategy is whether it produces the outcome sought, at an acceptable cost.

b. As discussed in Chapter II, strategists must rely on logic if they hope to produce an effective strategy. The key to the effective development of a strategy is how objective, open-minded, insightful, and creative the strategist is in answering all the fundamental

questions inherent in whichever strategy development model, framework, or methodology the strategist employs. While organizations normally establish a subordinate directorate and process for strategy making, it may find that directorate may not always be the ideal entity to bring the necessary degree of objectivity, open-mindedness, insight, and/or creativity to bear on developing a strategy to deal with the problem. Process should yield to a determination to obtain the highest quality product when it comes to developing strategy.

APPENDIX A

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GLOSSARY

PART I—ABBREVIATIONS, ACRONYMS, AND INITIALISMS

CCP	Command Campaign Plan
DIME	diplomatic, informational, military, and economic
DOD	Department of Defense
JDN	joint doctrine note
JP	joint publication
NMS	national military strategy
NSS	national security strategy

PART II—TERMS AND DEFINITIONS

national military strategy. A document approved by the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff for distributing and applying military power to attain national security strategy and National Defense Strategy objectives. Also called NMS. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 1)

national security interests. The foundation for the development of valid national objectives that define United States goals or purposes. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 1)

national security strategy. A document approved by the President of the United States for developing and coordinating the instruments of national power to achieve objectives that contribute to national security. Also called NSS. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 1)

strategic direction. The strategy and intent of the President, Secretary of Defense, and Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff in pursuit of national interests. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 5-0)

strategic guidance. The written products by which the President, Secretary of Defense, and Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff provide strategic direction. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 5-0)

strategy. A prudent idea or set of ideas for employing the instruments of national power in a synchronized and integrated fashion to achieve theater, national, and/or multinational objectives. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

theater strategy. An overarching construct outlining a combatant commander's vision for integrating and synchronizing military activities and operations with the other instruments of national power in order to achieve national strategic objectives. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)





Joint Military Operations Historical Collection



15 July 1997





Knowing the past and being able to use its lessons are major responsibilities of all military professionals. The Joint Military Operations Historical Collection (JMOHC) presents historical events that illustrate Joint Doctrine principles in Joint Force Employment. The selected US joint military operations include historical and modern operations that teach us universal lessons directly applicable to Joint Force Employment.

I want all leaders, action officers, planners, and commanders in the Armed Forces of the United States to know Joint Doctrine and be able to plan and execute operations based on its principles. By knowing how combat and other operations shaped our doctrine, military professionals and students will be able to judge new situations and take proper actions in accordance with Joint Doctrine. I hope that the JMOHC will inspire further study of the evolution of Joint Doctrine.

The military actions covered in the JMOHC helped shape our current Joint Doctrine. By studying, understanding, and practicing this doctrine, we will enhance joint warfighting throughout the Armed Forces of the United States.

A handwritten signature in black ink, appearing to read "John M. Shalikashvili". The signature is stylized with a large, sweeping initial "J" and a long, horizontal stroke extending to the right.

JOHN M. SHALIKASHVILI
Chairman
of the Joint Chiefs of Staff

PREFACE

1. Scope

The Joint Military Operations Historical Collection (JMOHC) complements joint doctrine by providing historical military operations that illustrate fundamental principles of joint operations. These historical joint operations teach primary lessons in planning, deploying, and employing joint forces.

2. Purpose

The JMOHC has been developed to help military students, action officers, and planners understand key principles of Joint Force Employment. Joint doctrine is largely developed from the lessons of past operations. The JMOHC distills seven case histories for their relevance to Joint Force Employment and fundamental principles of joint doctrine.

3. Application

a. This document examines general principles of Joint Force Employment to link relevant historical lessons to current planning and joint operations. Each of the historical operations illustrates how fundamental joint doctrine principles were applied in specific circumstances. Military students and practitioners are invited to compare the case histories in this book to today's joint operations and principles to stimulate original thought and effective responses to future military challenges.

b. Great leaders have always studied history. In their study they hope to see not only what happened but why. What were the processes that led to a certain action? Why was one action successful and another a failure? How can these lessons learned be used to help US forces fight as a team?

c. Military personnel should take the time to read, study, and reflect upon thousands of years of recorded military history. Thucydides, Sun Tzu, Napoleon, and others have much to offer today's leaders. While historical case studies can extend the experience base of today's commanders and senior staff officers they should not, however, be viewed as a checklist for future operations. The purpose of the historical study is to stimulate thought, not rote imitation.

d. Joint doctrine consists of many principles and guidelines. Do they work on paper? Probably. Do they work in actual military situations? By studying actual joint operations of the past the answers may be determined. While not an absolute guide to present decision making, history frequently suggests the right questions for action officers, planners, and commanders to consider.

e. In using these case histories, several points should be considered using personal judgement. What decisions could have been different? Could the outcome have been better or worse? Imagine a complicating factor — weather or system breakdown — What would have happened? Finally, how does this relate to the present situation?

f. The JMOHC will aid action officers, planners, and commanders in understanding and using the lessons of joint doctrine and force employment in real world situations. Knowledge is essential to convert today's military students into the leaders of future joint operations. When the warning order comes it is too late to start thinking about how to respond. It takes a robust system of education, teaching, and critical examination to prepare leaders. The JMOHC should serve as a primary reference for today's leaders.

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EXECUTIVE SUMMARY

COMMANDER'S OVERVIEW

- Discusses the Uses of Historical Study to Understand and Illuminate the Principles of Joint Doctrine
- Outlines the Key Employment Principles Demonstrated by Seven Historical Joint Operations
- Illustrates the Key Aspects of Joint Operations through these Selected Joint Case Histories
- Emphasizes the Importance of Joint Doctrine in Effective Decision Making at All Levels of Conflict
- Synthesizes Common Threads in Historical Joint Operations and Current Requirements

The Role of History in Joint Doctrine

"War is a matter of vital importance to the state, the province of life or death, the road to survival or ruin. It is mandatory that it be thoroughly studied."

Sun Tzu
The Art of War, 400-320 B.C.

The challenges inherent in coordinating different military forces arose soon after military forces specialized in ground or naval combat.

Joint doctrine's roots reach back to the commanders who first dealt with the timeless problems of coordinating military operations among land, sea and, later, air forces. **The challenges inherent in coordinating different military forces have existed since armies became distinct from navies.** The nation-states of ancient Greece that maintained both armies and navies faced the same challenges of joint coordination that General Grant and Admiral Porter addressed at the battle of Vicksburg.

"It is now accepted with naval and military men who study their profession, that history supplies the raw material from which they are to draw their lessons, and reach their working conclusions. Its teachings are not, indeed, pedantic precedents; but they are the illustrations of living principles."

Rear Adm. Alfred Thayer Mahan

Adding air power to the joint coordination equation made multi-Service coordination more complex.

As technological developments added air power to the joint coordination equation, **multi-Service coordination became even more complex**. The nature of multi-Service coordination seen in World War II convinced Congress in 1947 that a permanent institution was required to control its complexities. **The result was legislation that created the Joint Chiefs of Staff**. Establishing a permanent structure to coordinate US land, sea, and air forces recognized that multiplying force effectiveness through joint action was critical to military success.

Nations successfully coordinate land, air, sea, and space forces to multiply combat effectiveness; those that do not, lose.

Throughout history, **nations that successfully coordinated simultaneous land and sea actions won their battles. Those that did not, lost**. Although the ancients coordinated forces on land and sea, modern military planners must also deal with air and space. These new media change the situation quantitatively, not qualitatively. **Multi-Service coordination** still seeks to solve problems revealed when Pericles balanced his naval and land forces to defend Athens.

"A single unwise tactical move by a soldier on patrol can instantly change the character of an operation and when broadcast by the ever present media pool, can also affect strategic considerations."

Kenneth Allard
Somalia Operations: Lessons Learned

Modern weapons and communications demand rapid and effective decision making.

Since Athens fought Sparta, **technological advances** have greatly reduced the time available for military decision making. In the age of sail, governments had months to decide how to coordinate land and sea responses to military threats. With **modern weapons and communications**, the luxury of time has virtually disappeared. The pace of events requires **rapid and more effective decision making**. Lacking time and facing critical decisions, military planners who know their history can base their choices on useful knowledge.

"It is too late to learn the technique of warfare when military operations are already in progress, especially when the enemy is an expert at it."

General Aleksei A. Brusilov

The Value of Studying History

The Joint Military Operations Historical Collection exists to allow historical military knowledge to support current decisions.

While history can not guarantee valid answers to every military question, **past events frequently can illuminate present problems.** Even though technology has changed the pace and increased the violence of war, many of the problems leaders and planners face today are similar to challenges met in earlier days. **Learning the facts of military history, analyzing them in light of enduring principles, and applying them within the context of current military technologies and techniques is critical to success.** The fighters who learn, interpret, and correctly apply the lessons of earlier conflicts are known as “victors.” The Joint Military Operations Historical Collection presents historical case studies to allow leaders, joint planners, and action officers to plan and fight by using the experience of historical planners and leaders who faced similar problems and solved them. The value of studying history derives from putting military events in the context of fundamental principles. The **seven historical joint operations** illustrate specific universal lessons. Each case study demonstrates several general joint employment principles.

History relates military events to fundamental principles.

“Only study of the past can give us a sense of reality and show us how the soldier will fight in the future.”

Ardant du Picq

Historical Joint Military Operations

Calculated risks, deception, and expanded operational reach enabled surprise.

The Federal campaign against Vicksburg, as executed by General Ulysses S. Grant and Admiral David D. Porter, showed how joint doctrine principles applied even before the development of modern communications and the internal combustion engine. The Union Army and naval forces jointly used **unity of effort, mass, leverage, and seizing the initiative.** Headquarters had given General Grant no orders, but he independently recognized that he had to take the offensive and concentrate his forces to preserve his army and use **speed** to achieve Union strategic goals. He understood the importance of Vicksburg as a major **center of gravity.** In fact, after the battle of Vicksburg the Confederacy lost the military benefit of its entire western sector. To bring this about Grant took **calculated risks** and used **deception**

effectively. By boldly casting aside the traditional reliance on lines of communications, he demonstrated his agility, mobility, and flexibility in order to **expand operational reach**. The opposing forces were unable to react to this operational **surprise**. However, the key to Grant's maneuvers and success were consciously coordinated efforts of land and naval forces in a classic joint operation.

"There exists a small number of fundamental principles of war which could not be deviated from without danger, and the application of which, on the contrary, has been in almost all time crowned with success."

Lieutenant General Antoine-Henri, Baron de Jomini

The Early Joint Chiefs of Staff Era

At Inchon UN forces seized the initiative.

At Inchon, General Douglas MacArthur **seized the initiative**. The landing amidst the communist lines of supply allowed **asymmetric action** through **synchronized application of sea, land, and air power**. General MacArthur outlined **simple objectives** and applied **unity of effort** to achieve them. At the time of the operation, UN forces were desperately defending at the Pusan perimeter; MacArthur's bold stroke completely reversed this tenuous situation through a **rapid transition from defense to offense**. He forced a **favorable overall combat ratio** by taking a **calculated risk** that protected a friendly **center of gravity** while striking directly at an enemy center of gravity. His classic example of the **joint approach to modern warfare** was the first major joint operation after Congress established the Joint Chiefs of Staff.

"A great captain can only be formed by long experience and intense study."

Archduke Charles of Austria

Joint Operations Before Goldwater-Nichols

Grenada required a "coup de main," a sudden and decisive attack, in which Operations Security (OPSEC) was critical.

Operation URGENT FURY, the restoration of democracy in Grenada, was an overall success as a military operation and pointed the way for continued improvements in the US approach to joint military operations. As a **coup de main**, Grenada demonstrated how to apply simultaneous air-land-sea action to eliminate an untenable political situation. The operation required a **forcible entry** to rescue the American medical students. As in all forcible entries, **operations**

security (OPSEC) was a prime concern. Although Cuba had strategic warning, OPSEC and US **speed of execution** limited Cuban ability to take advantage of foreknowledge. From the beginning of the operation, clear **objectives** were stated and followed. The US forces knew that their job was to rescue the students, drive out the New Jewel Movement government, and restore the legitimate governor. To do this, Vice Admiral Joseph Metcalf, commander of the US and Caribbean nations' forces, used operational **surprise** to force **asymmetric domination of the battlespace**. As a result of the operation, the US medical students were released, democracy was restored, and a powerful strategic message was sent. However, this short conflict revealed the need for improvement in both joint doctrine and joint organization. The Goldwater-Nichols act, passed in 1986, rationalized joint organization and paved the way for additional military success by supporting **unity of command**.

"Nothing is more important than unity of command."

Napoleon

The Goldwater-Nichols Era

The Goldwater-Nichols legislation contributed to success in Operation JUST CAUSE.

Coordinated land, sea, and air action achieved clear objectives.

US forces set clear conflict termination criteria.

Economy of force supported mass.

Operation JUST CAUSE, the invasion of Panama, took advantage of the organizational changes wrought by the Goldwater-Nichols legislation and doctrinal lessons from Operation URGENT FURY. In a **forcible entry** that demanded a long **operational reach**, the commander, General Maxwell Thurman, **coordinated air, sea, and land action** to achieve clearly stated, rational **objectives**. General Thurman planned and executed attacks on **centers of gravity**. Among these centers of gravity was the person of the Panamanian dictator. Making President Manuel Noriega an objective put the dictator on the run, kept him from coordinating his defense, and established a clearly recognizable criterion for conflict termination. United States Southern Command operations took the offensive throughout the Panamanian area, shocked the Panamanian forces, and reduced their effectiveness. With the multiple US bases on Panamanian territory requiring defense while Thurman's forces attacked Noriega's centers of gravity, **economy of force** allowed sufficient **mass** to prevail quickly through coordinated maneuver. General Thurman relied on **security, surprise, simplicity**, and **strengthened unity of command** ensured by the Goldwater-Nichols act.

Major Campaigns at Extreme Operational Reach

Speed and operational reach deterred Saddam Hussein from attacking Saudi Arabia.

OPSEC, speed, and deception dislocated Iraqi forces.

Economy of force was the key to massing against centers of gravity.

Operation DESERT STORM demonstrated virtually every principle of war and element of joint doctrine in action. At the beginning of the crisis, when it appeared that Saddam Hussein might try to push into Saudi Arabia, **speed** combined with **operational reach** to stabilize the US base of operations. Throughout the deployment and employment phases, **flexibility** and **timing** were applied with skill to allow **maneuver** to **leverage** and multiply **mass**. By combining **OPSEC** and **deception** under **unity of command**, General H. Norman Schwarzkopf was able to maneuver coalition forces to surprise, shock, and dislocate Iraqi forces. General Schwarzkopf's hint of an amphibious landing drew critical Iraqi forces away from the real coalition plan. When Schwarzkopf topped this deception with an attack at blinding speed, Saddam's battered forces could not react. The coalition used **mass** to smash Iraqi **centers of gravity** before the land war began. This mass resulted from reliance on **economy of force** defense to free selected air and sea assets for massed attacks on priority targets. The principle of **objective** was honored by coalition forces, who understood what needed to be done and went after it without distraction. The swift conclusion of the land war resulted from superb **coordination of air, land, and sea** forces to make the 100-hour victory possible. The speed of the ground victory was clear evidence of **synergy** at work.

Military Operations Other Than War

Military operations other than war (MOOTW) are inherently complex.

MOOTW coordination includes outside agencies.

After the clarity and measurable results of the Gulf War, operations in Somalia demonstrated how complex and demanding military operations other than war can be. Peace enforcement in Somalia relied on **economy of force**, intelligence, logistics, and **coordination** with nongovernmental organizations (NGOs). The **objective** was clearly established and carried out in Operation RESTORE HOPE, as millions of Somalis were rescued from starvation. US Forces demonstrated **operational reach** as airlift and sealift, protected by joint force operations, provided critical logistic support to deliver food in time to save hundreds of thousands of lives. **Complexity** is a defining feature of multinational operations of this type. When NGOs are critical to the mission, **coordination** is critical to **unity of effort**.

Restraint reinforces legitimacy.

Restraint by US forces was crucial, and supported the **legitimacy** of the operation. Despite the chaotic situation and the large numbers of US personnel in Somalia, discipline and dedication minimized incidents which could have damaged the operation. **Security** of US forces was critical to the mission, particularly as the mission transitioned to UN control with a diminished US role.

Multinational Nation Assistance

Legitimacy and unity of effort were key to achieving objectives in Haiti.

Operation UPHOLD DEMOCRACY achieved its clear **objective** in Haiti. Lieutenant General Henry H. Shelton relied on **legitimacy, unity of effort**, and **flexibility** to keep his multinational operation on course. **Restraint** once again demonstrated its critical relationship to legitimacy both within Haiti and on the international scene. **Security** ensured that the operation could not be derailed politically by excessive friendly casualties. Democracy restoration missions depend on public support in two places — in the United States and in the operational area. In the case of Haiti, the mission was completed effectively and quickly, so that **legitimacy** outlasted the operation. US forces displayed **perseverance**, both in pursuing the objectives and in appropriately reducing forces and efforts once the stated goals had been achieved.

Security reduces casualties and maintains public support.

Perseverance means continuing until the objective is achieved — and no longer.

“Just as the simplest and most natural of movements, walking, cannot easily be performed in water, so in war it is difficult for normal efforts to achieve even moderate results.”

Major General Carl von Clausewitz

The Complexity of Modern Joint Operations

Joint operations are inherently complex.

The outstanding characteristic of all joint operations is their **relative complexity** compared to single Service operations. The **increasing capability** of today’s forces exacerbates the coordination problem, while the lethality and accuracy of modern weaponry demand a higher standard of control. For example, in DESERT STORM coalition forces dropped more bomb tonnage in 100 days than the allies dropped in all of World War II. Coordinating the logistics, maneuver, and timing of huge forces over great distances increases the opportunities for friction, the fog of war, and enemy action to

Modern warfare can require coordination of huge forces over great distances.

Experience and applied knowledge lead to military success.

destroy plans. **The case histories each show specific actions taken to handle the coordination of large forces.** These US joint and multinational operations also demonstrate the efforts required to make **operational reach** over extreme distances work for, rather than against, US goals. Prosecuting the war on the adversary's territory is always a good plan, but it requires **long term investment, enormous planning capabilities**, and the **ability to synchronize activities** on land, on the sea, and in the air for long periods. Leader, planner, and action officer accomplishments demonstrated in these case histories show how the proper use of experience and applied knowledge leads to military success.

"To triumph strategically it is necessary to survive tactically."

**John Francis Guilmartin, Jr.
Gunpowder and Galleys, 1974**

Military Incident #1:

THE IMPORTANCE OF TACTICS: CHAMBERLAIN HOLDS AT GETTYSBURG

The fate of the Union rested on guarding Meade's left flank.

On the second day of the battle of Gettysburg, Brigadier General Gouverneur K. Warren ordered Colonel Joshua L. Chamberlain's 20th Maine Regiment to hold Little Round Top, a critical hill on the left end of the Union line. If Confederate forces took the hill, they could roll up the Union flank, precipitating a general collapse. Then General Robert E. Lee could move toward Washington as he liked, and the war might be lost. Chamberlain was ordered to hold that ground at all costs. The fate of the Union depended on the tactical performance of fewer than 400 men and officers.

Chamberlain's men executed fire and movement with skill and determination.

Confederate forces attacked up the hill repeatedly. Chamberlain recognized that the more numerous Confederates were spreading to the unprotected left of his force. Under fire, he thinned his ranks to extend his line and bent back (refused) his left flank to prevent being attacked from behind. With each Confederate charge, his force shrank. As the day wore on, the Confederates were near exhaustion, but the 20th Maine was down to 200 men, all short on ammunition.

The 20th Maine held on, finishing the fight with a bold and desperate charge.

In a tactical inspiration, Colonel Chamberlain ordered bayonets to be fixed, and his entire regiment charged. The men on the refused flank spontaneously raced to straighten the line. Faced with what seemed like two regiments, the Confederates began a retreat, which soon turned into a rout. As the fight ended, the 20th took 400 prisoners. More important, they took from the Confederates all chance of turning the Union's flank.

Without Colonel Chamberlain's judgment, ability to react, and tactical knowledge, as well as the brave performance of his troops, Union strategic plans would have been meaningless. As planners, action officers, and commanders study joint doctrine, they must remember this military truth: tactical competence is a prerequisite to victory at operational and strategic levels.

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Military Incident #2: BUILDING ON EXPERIENCE: GRANT COMMANDS HIS FIRST CIVIL WAR FIGHT

Grant kept his intentions secret even from his own men.

General Grant's first Civil War action began when Major General John Charles Fremont ordered him to harass Major General Leonidas Polk's forces headquartered at Columbus, Kentucky, on the Mississippi River. The overall objective was to drive the Confederate forces into Arkansas. Grant told his troops to pack 2 days' rations, but gave no further information. On the afternoon of 5 November 1861, he personally led 3,000 men onto four river transports, accompanied by two Union river gunboats. The goal was to attack Brigadier General Gideon Johnson Pillow's Confederate camp at Belmont, Missouri. Pillow's and Polk's camps straddled and controlled the Mississippi at that point.

As Grant marched toward Belmont, the Navy gunboats bombarded Polk's forts at Columbus.

The force landed 3 miles upriver from Belmont on the morning of 7 November 1861. Grant had allowed his senior naval officer, Captain Henry Walke, to select the landing point. As Grant disembarked, Walke took the gunboats downstream to exchange fire with Polk's batteries at Columbus. Despite the thick woods, which hindered command and control, Grant ably coordinated the force, which he had split into two columns. The surprised Confederate camp was quickly overrun.

Lack of discipline among the Union troops nearly led to disaster.

Polk reacted by rushing reinforcements across the river to support Pillow. Additionally, two batteries at Columbus began to bombard the Belmont camp from a range of about 1,000 yards. This support coincided with a total breakdown of discipline within Grant's inexperienced forces, who were plundering Pillow's camp. Meanwhile, Pillow landed two regiments a mile upstream, and moved to counterattack. Recognizing that his retreat would be cut off, Grant managed to rally his looting troops just in time. Personally directing the force back to the original landing place, Grant was the last Union soldier to board the waiting transports. Both sides claimed victory.

This account, condensed from *Grant the Commander* by General Sir James Marshall-Cornwall, shows that Grant had much to learn about leading military operations. He had maintained no reserve and failed to ensure discipline in his troops. On the other hand, the riverine movement, cloaked in total secrecy, had shocked the opposing forces into quick defeat. At Vicksburg Grant demonstrated how well he had learned the operational and tactical lessons of Belmont.

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CHAPTER I

VICKSBURG

"You never have suggested to me any plan of operations in this department..."

Grant to Halleck, 26 October 1862

1. Introduction

When the Civil War erupted, there was no agreed-upon plan or strategy for restoring the Union. No leader on either side had experience commanding the large bodies of troops that would be the norm during this war. Little if any coordination took place between the Services. Confederate forces bested the Union armies in most early encounters in the East, although the loss of New Orleans and Baton Rouge made their position less secure in the West. The final issue remained very much in doubt in the autumn of 1862.

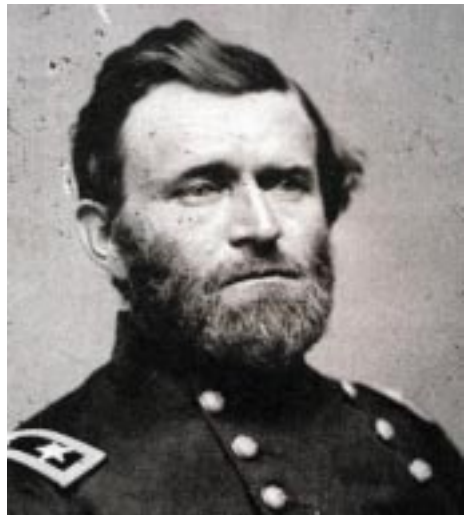
2. Grant Takes Command

a. This was the situation in late October 1862, when General U. S. Grant took command of the Department of Tennessee (Kentucky and Tennessee west of the Tennessee River and northern Mississippi) and the roughly 60,000 troops therein. He was replacing General Henry W. Halleck, who had been called to Washington in July to take over as general-in-chief of the Army. From the time Halleck departed, Grant never received more than vague direction on how to employ his force.

b. Grant realized that the military and political situation in the East demanded that he mount offensive operations. To remain on the strategic defensive, as the Department had since the end of May, would result in his army being broken up and used to support further operations by Major General Don Carlos Buell in the Department of the Ohio or to bolster the defenses in front of Washington.

3. The Situation on the Ground

Vicksburg occupied the highest ground on the eastern bank of the Mississippi River between Memphis and New Orleans. This commanding position made it the key point upon which hinged continued Confederate control of the central portion of the Mississippi River. Further, it served as the remaining major link to Confederate supplies and sympathizers in the West. Until Vicksburg was taken, the Mississippi remained closed to Union use. Unless the Confederate forces operating in front of Grant were defeated or diverted, they would be free to attack the flank and rear of any move by Buell toward north Georgia and the strategic rear of General Lee's forces in northern Virginia.



General Ulysses S. Grant

4. Grant Threatens Vicksburg

a. On 2 November, Grant initiated operations against Vicksburg by moving down the Mississippi Central Railroad from Bolivar, Tennessee, through Grand Junction, and then onward into Mississippi by way of Holly Springs, Oxford, and Grenada (Figure I-1). This advance threatened the land approach to Vicksburg and caused Major General John C. Pemberton, the Confederate commander in Mississippi, to concentrate his forces to oppose it. If successful, Grant would be in an advantageous position, with adequate supplies and communications guaranteed by rail links to Memphis and river links from there to St. Louis. His front and right flank would be protected from attack by the river network south of Grenada.

b. The advance progressed well, and by mid-November Grant was at Holly Springs. Here he ordered Major General William Tecumseh Sherman, then one of his division commanders, to move from Memphis with all the fighting men he could muster and join the move toward Grenada. By the 29th Sherman was 10 miles north of Oxford with three divisions.

5. Grant Changes Plans

a. By early December, Grant recognized that guarding his ever-lengthening supply lines in enemy territory was forcing him to divert too many soldiers from his fighting force to allow him to prudently continue his southern advance. He understood that the fragile Union cause could not sustain another major defeat. This, coupled with the knowledge that the force opposing him was the principal garrison for the defense of Vicksburg, caused him to conclude that another approach would be more effective.

b. On 3 December, Grant suggested to Halleck that, given sufficient forces, the best

course of action might be to continue to hold Pemberton's force in place with his troops and mount a simultaneous attack on Vicksburg along the Mississippi. On the 4th, Grant took command of the Union forces immediately west of the Mississippi. These troops, together with reinforcements arriving from the north, would give him sufficient forces to mount the second approach. Halleck agreed, and on the 5th he directed Grant to concentrate 25,000 troops at Memphis by the 20th for this purpose.

c. On 9 December, Sherman (with one division) departed for Memphis to lead the attack. His orders clearly stated that his approach and attack were to be made in cooperation with Admiral David Porter, the commander of the Union fleet operating on the Mississippi. Grant's stated intent was to cooperate with Sherman's advance either by holding Pemberton in place as far north as possible, or to follow him "even to the gates of Vicksburg" if he withdrew toward the city.



Admiral David Porter, USN



Figure I-1. Joint Campaigning in the American Civil War 1862-1864

6. Halleck Threatens Unity of Command

As these events transpired, political maneuvering in Washington was about to result in the appointment of Major General John A. McClernand to a separate command independent of the Mississippi River advance on Vicksburg. Although Grant had been assured by Halleck that he was in complete command, when rumor of the appointment first came to his attention, he was ordered to divide his army into four corps, with McClernand to command one of these corps and operate independently against Vicksburg along the Mississippi. Grant considered the appointment of a second commander within the Department a mistake and a sure prescription for failure. Additionally, he was not confident of McClernand's ability to command. Nonetheless, he issued the necessary orders.

7. Grant Withdraws

a. At almost the same time, Confederate forces under Major General Earl Van Dorn launched a large scale raid behind Grant's lines, capturing an unprepared garrison at Holly Springs and destroying a large quantity of supplies. This caused Grant to reassess his ability to maintain his force so deep in enemy territory. Deciding that he could not maintain a sufficiently powerful presence, he began to withdraw, without pressure, back up the Mississippi Central Railroad toward Holly Springs, arriving there on 23 December.

b. Sherman put together a force of approximately 30,000 men and, with Porter, moved on Vicksburg. He was unaware of the raid at Holly Springs and Grant's subsequent retrograde movement. Pemberton, however, was aware of both events. Recognizing that the threat to Vicksburg was now greatest from the river, he repositioned his force, doubling the

defenders of Vicksburg to 12,000. He paid particular attention to the high ground around Haines' Bluff and Walnut Hills, completing his dispositions in time to repulse the initial attacks launched by Sherman and Porter against this high ground on 29 December.

c. On 10 January 1863, aware of the strengthened defenses at Vicksburg and with General McClernand having arrived in the area, Grant shifted his headquarters to Memphis. He realized that once he abandoned the Mississippi Central Railroad approach he could not go back to it. To retreat in the face of the enemy opposite Vicksburg and retry a route that had already failed would demoralize his troops and deal a heavy blow to the Union. Additionally, it would likely result in his removal from command.

d. Shortly thereafter, Grant visited McClernand and then met with Sherman and Porter. He concluded that the Army and the Navy so lacked trust in McClernand that it was necessary to exercise one of the options open to him and assume command himself. He did this on 30 January.

"At this time the North had become very discouraged, and strong Union men believed the war must prove a failure. The elections of 1862 had gone against the party which was for the prosecution of the war to save the Union . . . It was my judgement at the time that to make a backward movement . . . would be interpreted as a defeat. There was nothing left to be done but to go forward to a decisive victory."

Ulysses S. Grant
Personal Memoirs, 1885-1886

8. Winter Action

a. The task now facing Grant was to somehow get his army across the Mississippi and secure a foothold on the high side of the river that would allow him to bring his forces to bear on Vicksburg. It was winter; the heavy



Grant's capture of Vicksburg required joint coordination of land and naval forces.

rains were causing additional flooding to the area that was already broken up by numerous streams and channels and was, at best, just a few feet above water. Grant recognized that he had to wait until the weather changed and the water levels dropped.

b. Inactivity through the winter would be demoralizing and damaging to the health of his troops. Additionally, stories of the lack of action in the face of the enemy would encourage those who wanted to compromise the Union. Grant therefore initiated several projects to keep his forces employed. While all would offer some degree of advantage in the most optimistic scenario, he did not expect any to provide a solution to the problem of Vicksburg. The first project involved widening and deepening a canal at Young's Point opposite Vicksburg. This would allow Porter's ships to avoid a portion of the main channel of the Mississippi and reduce their exposure to the enemy's batteries. Unfortunately, the Confederates discovered the project and shifted some guns to bring the excavation under fire.

c. The second project attempted to open a new channel for the Mississippi from Lake Providence to the Red River. This would allow Union forces to bypass Vicksburg and navigate the Mississippi freely. The new

channel would, however, still be vulnerable to rebel forces operating along its entire length. Grant had no faith in this scheme, but it kept the soldiers busy and, more importantly, "served as a cover for other efforts which gave a better prospect of success."

"These boats are made with sides sloping . . . The iron is two-and-a-half inches thick, and . . . is supposed to be sufficient to turn a shot that does not hit it in a direct line . . . The boats are also roofed with iron, and the pilots who steer the vessel stand encased, as it were, under an iron cupola . . . The boats . . . will probably succeed in driving the secessionist armies away from the great river banks. By what machinery the secessionist armies are to be followed into the interior is altogether another question."

**Anthony Trollope
Observing Union gunboats
at Cairo**

d. The third project was to move down the Yazoo Pass from Moon Lake (opposite Helena, Arkansas) to a position where Haines' Bluff might be flanked. While initially appearing to offer some chance for success, it was stopped when well entrenched Confederate forces at Ft. Pemberton could not be dislodged. The final

project was an unsuccessful attempt to bypass Ft. Pemberton by way of Steele's Bayou.

9. A Coordinated Plan Emerges

a. As March ended and the river level began to fall, Grant's real plan began to emerge — "I had had in contemplation the whole winter the movement by land to a point below Vicksburg from which to operate — my recollection was that Admiral Porter was the first one to whom I mentioned it. The cooperation of the Navy was absolutely essential to the success (even to the contemplation) of such an enterprise."

"It is not so much the mode of formation as the proper combined use of the different arms which will insure victory."

**Lieutenant General Antoine-Henri,
Baron de Jomini**

b. The first requirement of the new plan was to shift the fleet and some civilian steamers, then north of the city, to the south of Vicksburg. Once in place they could protect and transport any troops Grant moved there. To the rebels, who had seen the Union fleet perform similar maneuvers several times over the past year, this would appear as just another running of the batteries. Porter supervised the preparation of the shipping, with extensive effort being made to protect the boilers of the unarmored steamers by layering the decks and hulls with bags of grain and bales of cotton and hay. All three of these commodities would be needed below the city and could not be efficiently transported in another manner.

c. On 29 March, Grant ordered McClernand and his four divisions to move by land south from Milliken's Bend to New Carthage (Figure I-2), hoping he could get sufficient forces in place to take Grand Gulf. The march was exceedingly tough, with water levels still restricting movement, particularly of supplies and artillery. Joining McClernand

on 17 April at New Carthage, Grant realized that the route would have to be changed and major improvements made if the rest of the army was to use it. McClernand had found a longer but better route and commenced improving it immediately. This was to prove successful.

d. On the night of 16 April Admiral Porter shifted the fleet to capitalize on the element of surprise and utilize the advantage of darkness. Unfortunately, the movement was detected and each ship in the flotilla was under fire for several hours, with most sustaining several hits. The enemy had been expecting the move, and upon detecting it lit bonfires along the river to provide illumination for their guns. Despite the best efforts of the rebel gunners, the gunboats stood up well and only one steamer was sunk.

e. On 17 April, Colonel Benjamin Grierson and a force of 1,700 Union cavalymen started out from Grand Junction on a large raid into the interior of Mississippi. Ten days later the raiding column succeeded in reaching Union lines at Baton Rouge. While the actual damage inflicted by this raid was minimal, the consternation and confusion it created was significant. Grant was not aware of the raid until he read about it after the fact — but it was important to his operations because the outcry it caused diverted Pemberton's attention from Grant during a critical 10-day period.

f. On 20 April, Grant ordered the remainder of his army to sequentially and rapidly move to New Carthage. It was evident that the roads could not support the supply of this force and that another run past the batteries would be required. This was carried out on the night of the 22nd, when six steamers and twelve barges, boilers and decks protected as before, headed south. Although all sustained damage, they succeeded in bringing much needed supplies to the force.

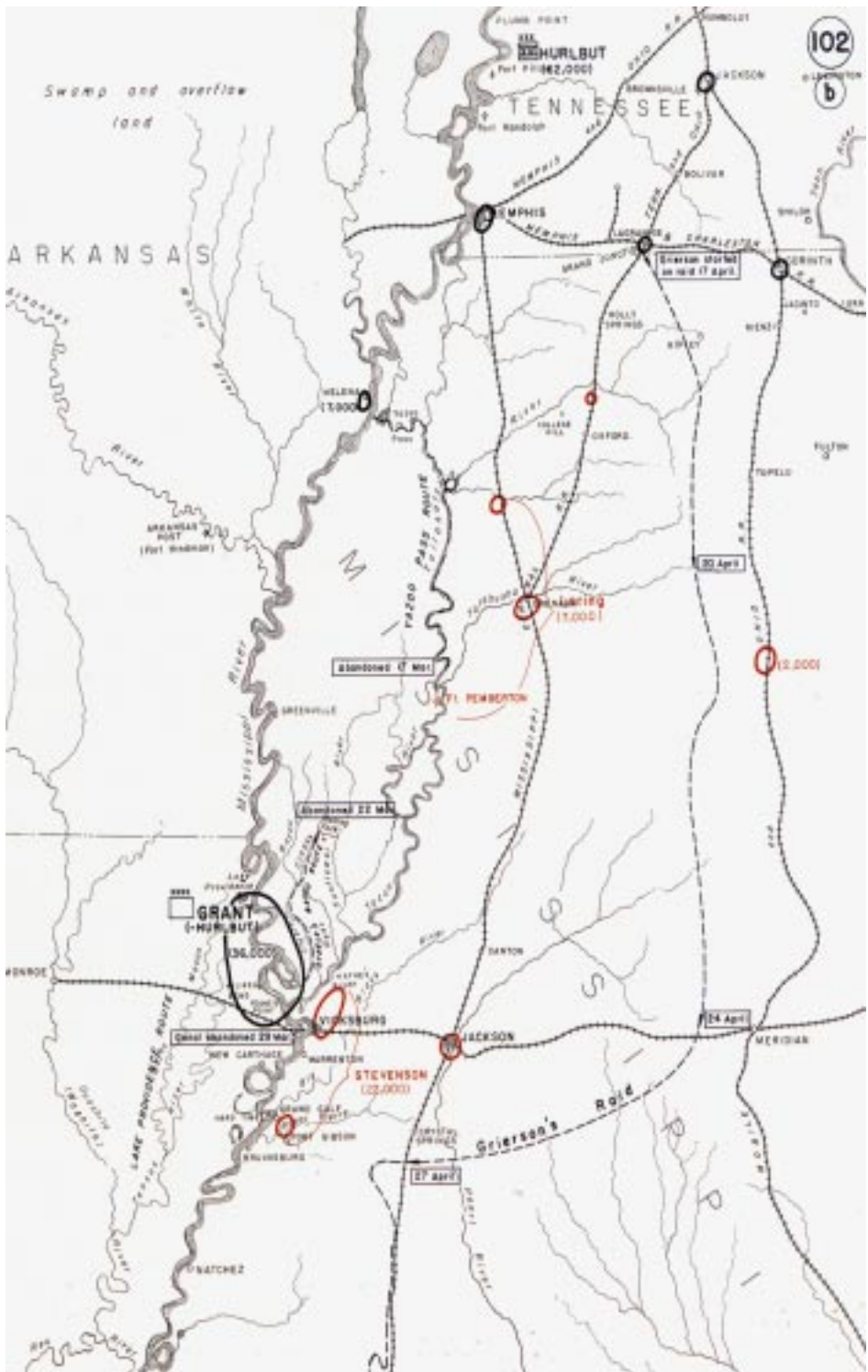


Figure I-2. Grant's Approach to Vicksburg



Grant's use of local resources to supply the army relieved him of the need for a defensible supply line.

g. On 24 April, reconnaissance revealed that there were no suitable landing sites where the high ground could be seized between New Carthage and Grand Gulf. Grant ordered the march continued to Hard Times. Because of Porter's determined and successful efforts, sufficient capability now was available to protect and transport over 10,000 soldiers by steamer and barge.

h. By 27 April, McClernand's Corps was at Hard Times. McPherson's Corps was moving up rapidly, while Sherman still remained opposite Vicksburg. Union forces operating throughout the entire area kept the enemy unsure of Grant's intent. To further this uncertainty, Grant ordered Sherman to send a strong force back up the Yazoo River and create a diversion in the neighborhood of Haines' Bluff. These operations further confused Pemberton as to Grant's real objective and probably contributed to the slow reaction when landings were made in force below Grand Gulf.

"The art of war is simple enough. Find out where your enemy is. Get at him as soon as you can. Strike at him as hard as you can, and keep moving on."

Ulysses S. Grant

10. The Joint River Crossing

a. On 29 April, Grant launched a truly joint operation designed to get his forces across the river. His plan called for Porter and the fleet to silence the Confederate batteries at Grand Gulf, followed by a rapid landing of McClernand's Corps to seize the fortifications and secure a foothold for the rest of the army. The plan contained several flexible provisions to allow for alternative actions if the enemy failed to cooperate.

b. After a 5½ hour exchange of fire, all the rebel guns were still in operation. Grant stopped the operation and decided he would have to find a new landing site. In consultation with Porter, he decided to run the gunboats and transports past Grand Gulf while McClernand marched his force past on a recently discovered route that was hidden from Confederate view. By dawn, the Army and Navy were at Bruinsburg, where a local man told them that a crossing was possible. Without hesitation, Grant seized the opportunity. By early morning all of McClernand's Corps and the lead division of McPherson's Corps landed safely without opposition on the Vicksburg side of the river.

"When this was effected I felt a degree of relief scarcely ever equaled since. Vicksburg was not yet taken it is true, nor were its defenders demoralized by any of our previous moves. I was now in the enemy's country, with a vast river and the stronghold of Vicksburg between me and my base of supplies. But I was on dry ground on the same side of the river with the enemy. All the campaigns, labors, hardships and exposure from the month of December previous to this time that had been made and endured, were for the accomplishment of this one object."

Ulysses S. Grant

11. Grant Enhances His Operational Reach

a. At this point Grant had to reevaluate how best to proceed. Initially he pushed McClernand forward toward Port Gibson to keep the enemy from gathering and counterattacking before the main body was over the river, while at the same time pressing his other subordinates to speed their advance. He was inclined to detach McClernand, after the capture of a suitable base at Grand Gulf, and send him south along the east bank to cooperate with General Banks' move north from Baton Rouge. However, he learned that Banks would not move for several days and felt the advantage would be lost. At this point Grant decided to "cut loose from my base, destroy the rebel force in rear of Vicksburg and invest or capture the city."

b. On 3 May after constant fighting (of which Grant sometimes took personal charge), Grand Gulf was secured. Grant then took advantage of the August 1862 authority to seize and use rebel property to support prosecution of the war by ordering all transport to be collected to supply his army. He restricted rations to three days hard bread,



The capture of Vicksburg was essential for Union control of the Mississippi River.

coffee, and salt and, confident from earlier experience that it was feasible, ordered that all other needs would be met from the surrounding countryside.

c. By 6 May, more than 33,000 Union troops in three corps were across the Mississippi on dry ground and advancing northward. Grant believed the enemy force opposing him to be around 18,000 (in reality there were more than twice that number), but they were spread out from Haines' Bluff through Vicksburg to Jackson. Grant also recognized that the enemy could not move against him with overwhelming force, and so he resolved to defeat Pemberton in detail. The first step would be the capture and destruction of Jackson, crushing any hope for aid from the east. Grant would then lay siege to Vicksburg.

12. The Fall of Vicksburg

General Joseph E. Johnston arrived at Jackson on 13 May and assumed command of all Confederate forces in Mississippi. Discovering that Grant was between his force and Vicksburg, and seeing a classic opportunity to inflict a crushing defeat, he ordered Pemberton to attack the Union forces from the rear. Pemberton failed to follow this order and instead moved to cut Grant's nonexistent supply lines. This allowed Grant to take Jackson on the 14th and force Johnston to retreat northward up the Mississippi Central. The last real opportunity to defeat Grant had slipped away. Grant turned his army, defeated Pemberton at Champion's Hill on the 16th, and invested the city by the 18th. It was now just a matter of time until Vicksburg fell, finally surrendering on 4 July 1863.

13. Grant and Joint Employment Principles

While circumstances today are much different than those Grant faced before Vicksburg, some aspects of his approach serve to underscore and illuminate key principles of joint military operations.

a. The failure to issue directions or guidance to Grant clearly indicates the lack of a coherent national strategy to restore the Union. General Winfield Scott had proposed a blockade around the rebel areas in order to slowly strangle rebel ability to sustain war. Then he retired. His approach, known as the Anaconda plan, was neither formally adopted nor systematically pursued. Its very nature would require time to work — and Lincoln did not have time. While a blockade of Southern ports was established by the Navy and efforts were made to open the Mississippi, a succession of generals-in-chief, aware of the popular and political press to find a quicker solution, embarked on the equally doomed strategy of seeking the 'one decisive

battle' which would end the war. Lincoln still had not devised a national strategy.

b. Grant knew what needed to be done in his Department (seize the geographic objective of Vicksburg), and realized how his success or failure related to operations in the other theaters. His decision to go on the offensive was motivated by a grasp of the realities of the political situation in the East. Going on the offensive would be viewed as a positive act by the supporters of the Union, while remaining on the defensive would be almost equivalent to another Union defeat. Grant's sensitivity to political reality and the impact of his actions on this reality demonstrated a clear understanding of the concept of **unity of effort** at the strategic level.

c. Grant was also aware that if he remained on the defensive, the Confederate forces in Mississippi would have been free to turn on Buell in Ohio, effectively preventing him from attacking the strategic rear of the Army of Northern Virginia. By advancing, Grant showed an understanding of how his operations could support or interfere with the efforts to defeat the enemy in the other Departments.

d. Within the Department, Grant assured operational unity of effort by taking firm action to preclude dissipation of his authority. His decision to assume tactical command himself rather than allow McClelland to operate independently down the Mississippi was not an act of pettiness, but rather a clear understanding of how disruptive two sets of direction would have been in achieving the goal. This was further demonstrated by Grant's repeated efforts to ensure that he and his subordinates capitalized on the advantages Admiral Porter and his fleet provided. From his initial instructions to Sherman until the surrender of the city, the Navy was kept closely involved in all operations. By leading this force from the

front, Grant kept himself aware of the tactical and operational realities that he faced. Although unity of command was not formalized by regulation, Grant worked hard to ensure that good relations, constant communication, and division of labor fostered unity of effort.

e. The operations outside of Vicksburg illustrated Grant's understanding of how the **principle of mass** requires attention to **economy of force**. As he moved down the Mississippi Central Railroad, his assignment of forces to protect lines of communication threatened to dissipate his mass. Further, his advance down the Mississippi Central Railroad had caused the Confederate forces defending the city to mass at Haines Bluff and Walnut Hills. This development required that he quickly secure additional assets for a second maneuver further down the river. This second movement, designed to attack the city before the enemy realized what had happened, resulted from the **leverage** that Porter's fleet added to his command.

f. Grant understood the importance of **seizing and maintaining the initiative**. He provided critical details and emphasized **speed** in his order for the sequential and rapid movement of the army from Milliken's Bend toward New Carthage and eventually across the Mississippi. This clearly demonstrated an awareness that, to be successful, Grant had to **concentrate** and act faster than the enemy reacted.

g. Grant's grasp of the fundamental considerations of joint operations was demonstrated conclusively by his actions after crossing the Mississippi. He first maximized his fighting strength and **concentrated his combat power** by eliminating his supply lines (and the need to guard them) and by deciding not to send McClernand's Corps south toward Baton Rouge. Then, taking the **calculated risk** of exposing his rear to attack

by Pemberton, Grant focused on taking Jackson and defeating Johnston. This victory effectively precluded reinforcements or aid from reaching the city during the siege. Grant was then free to turn and defeat Pemberton at Champion's Hill and force him back on the city.

h. Several times in this operation Grant displayed a thorough understanding of the fundamental concept of **agility**. His willingness to deviate from the established plan when opportunity presented itself was evident throughout the campaign. For example, he concluded that his initial advance down the Mississippi Central Railroad would not work and had to be adjusted. Without hesitation, he switched the main effort and launched the second attack because it offered greater prospects for success. His immediate reaction to the failure to carry Grand Gulf by naval gunfire on 29 April was similar. Instead of wasting time over why the original plan failed, Grant and Porter developed and successfully executed an amphibious landing at another site within 24 hours. Once across the river, he recognized that the slow reaction of the enemy presented an opportunity to inflict a major defeat. He quickly recast his plans, kept McClernand's Corps with him, and moved the army toward Jackson.

i. Grant further demonstrated his command ability in the use of **deception** to mask the real intent of the Union forces. Knowing that the rebel forces were informed of his moves, Grant actively mounted operations designed to obscure his real intent. The three most visible projects (Young's Point, Yazoo River, and Steele's Bayou) were concentrated to the northern side of Vicksburg — the most conventional and predictable direction from which the Union might attack. These joint feints, when seen in the light of the failed joint attack on Haines' Bluff in late December

1862, reinforced the enemy's expectation of the direction of the main effort and effectively screened Grant's real intent.

j. The **simultaneity** and **depth** of Grant's move south of Vicksburg, Sherman's strong feint against Haines' Bluff, and the confusion caused by the Grierson raid expanded the battlefield, paralyzed the enemy, and slowed reaction until it was too late. Vicksburg provided this classic example of the importance of knowing the enemy and seeing the battlefield. Despite operating deep in enemy territory, Grant was able to conceal his real intent. When the best opportunity to defeat Grant arose, Pemberton acted based on his expectations of what Grant would do, rather than knowledge of what Grant was actually doing. This Confederate intelligence failure contributed significantly to the Union victory.

k. Realizing that the enemy would see his lines of communications as his **center of gravity** and attack accordingly, Grant used this fact to totally deceive the rebels. Grant's decision to depart from the accepted military logistic norm and live off the land demonstrated his knowledge of his own vulnerabilities and his ability to lessen (or in this case, negate) their effect upon his own campaign.

l. Grant's logistic coup played a critical role in the operation. He initially intended to move forward from a secure rear base and follow the conventional military doctrine of moving along a secure line of communication. He gradually realized that, while these lines were bringing up the

resources necessary to prosecute his advance, protecting them drained his fighting strength. Aware of the many resources available to him in the agricultural heart of Mississippi, he began to see another possibility. When faced by impassable roads on the west side of the Mississippi, Grant turned to Porter to move the required bulk supplies by river, securing the secondary benefit of protection from the fire of the rebel batteries for the shipping.

m. Grant's approach to solving his logistic problems provided him the additional **mobility and flexibility** necessary to defeat his more conventionally-led enemy. By eliminating his lines of communications and living off the land, Grant **extended his operational reach** deep into the rear of the enemy and generated combat power to apply at Jackson and Champion's Hill. His army was able to move sooner and travel faster, maintaining the momentum gained by the successful crossing of the Mississippi. Finally, his creative solution totally **surprised** the enemy. Grant learned from his initial approach down the Mississippi Central Railroad that protecting lines of communications diminished **mass**. In his final move to Vicksburg, he sidestepped the problem with a brilliant logistic inspiration. Grant's abandonment of conventional means of supply allowed him to concentrate superior force first against Johnston, then Pemberton — and was the key to the success of the operation. In one move, Grant eliminated his principal vulnerability, increased his combat power and endurance, kept the enemy off balance, and maintained the **initiative**.

Military Incident #3

THE PRICE OF POOR PLANNING: CAESAR LANDS IN BRITAIN

Lack of coordination delayed a critical force component.

Although the short days of winter neared, Julius Caesar was determined to chastise Britain for supporting the Gauls. Seeking intelligence for a full invasion, Caesar decided on a reconnaissance-in-force. While one ship scouted the British coast, Caesar gathered an 80-ship fleet, enough to carry two legions across the narrow Channel. The cavalry, embarking at a separate port, failed to depart on time.

Amphibious landing techniques had not been practiced.

Arriving at the British coast, Caesar rejected the initial landfall because its cliffs allowed descending fire onto the beaches, and anchored offshore to await the cavalry. Meanwhile he assembled his staff and prepared them to react to sketchy orders on short notice. Still lacking cavalry, the force landed on an open and evenly shelved beach. The British chariots and cavalry met the Roman landing force on the sand. Since Caesar's deep draft ships could not fully beach, his heavily armored troops had to jump into the water and fight their way through the surf. Inexperienced in amphibious operations, most of the Romans were terrified.

Having complete unity of command, Caesar maneuvered naval forces to support the failing ground component assault.

In response to the British attack, Caesar maneuvered his warships to bombard the defenders' right flank with slings, arrows, and (catapult) artillery. The Britons fell back, but on the confused and crowded battlefield, the Romans were unable to assemble cohesive units. The Britons attacked isolated individuals and small groups. Caesar then directed the ships' boats to be loaded with ground troops and row as needed to reinforce groups in difficulty. This mobile reserve enabled the Legions to assemble their units in fighting order and push the Britons up the beach. Without cavalry, Caesar could not exploit the victory and expand the beachhead. On a stormy night 4 days later the cavalry finally arrived, but the full moon exaggerated the tide and numbers of the beached warships were swamped, while the anchored transports were severely damaged by the surf. Cavalry units, critical to reconnaissance, could not be landed.

Improvised logistics methods demonstrated Caesar's flexibility.

With their supply lines cut, Caesar's troops foraged grain and supplies and salvaged timber and bronze from the wrecked and damaged ships. The force soon repaired all but 12 ships. After a daring and skillful British attack on a foraging expedition required him to ride to the rescue, Caesar determined to enlarge his beachhead to gain security for a

Military Incident #3

controlled withdrawal. With enough space to form his infantry in classic formation on the beach, and supported by only 30 horses finally brought over from Gaul, Caesar temporarily drove back the defenders. Under cover of darkness, the troops used this interval of security to slip aboard the ships.

This account, condensed from Caesar's own writings, reveals that his first excursion on British soil was a near disaster redeemed by clever improvisation. Multiple failures in planning and coordination can be identified in the paragraphs above. Readers are invited to observe the differences and similarities between Caesar's and MacArthur's approaches to essentially similar problems in planning and execution.



Legionnaire in typical uniform and armament of the period of Caesar's first invasion of Britain.



Legionnaire re-enactor in typical uniform and armament of the period 150 years later.

CHAPTER II

OPERATION CHROMITE

"The military student does not seek to learn from history the minutiae of method and technique. In every age these are decisively influenced by the characteristics of weapons currently available and by means at hand for maneuvering, supplying, and controlling combat forces. But research does bring to light those fundamental principles and their combinations and applications, which in the past, have been productive of success. These principles have no limitation of time. Consequently the army extends its analytical interest to the dust buried accounts of wars long past as well as to those still reeking with the scent of battle."

General Douglas MacArthur

"The vulnerability of the enemy is his supply position."

General Douglas MacArthur

1. Introduction

a. In the predawn darkness of 25 June 1950, forces of the North Korean People's Army (NKPA) smashed southward across the border marked by the 38th Parallel to invade the Republic of Korea (ROK). The NKPA was a formidable force of at least 135,000 men. Many had been conscripts of the Chinese and Japanese armies and they were equipped with modern Soviet-supplied tanks, artillery and aircraft. In comparison, the ROK armed forces were trained only as a constabulary force and poorly equipped. Numbering less than 100,000, the army lacked armor, antitank weapons, and heavy artillery. Most soldiers were conscripts, and few units had ever trained above the company level. Air and naval forces were nearly nonexistent.

b. Although an ancient culture, Korea was an underdeveloped nation which had suffered greatly under Japanese occupation. The entire peninsula was extremely mountainous and compartmentalized, while the limited number of north-south and east-west lines of communication constricted

mobility. The Korean infrastructure was woefully inadequate; the scarcity of improved roads, airfields and ports in particular would frustrate and complicate the application of US military power (Figure II-1).

c. Within hours, news of the invasion was flashed to General MacArthur in Tokyo. On 25 June 1950, President Truman ordered MacArthur, as Commander-in-Chief Far East (CINCFE), to use his air and sea forces to support the ROK forces south of the 38th Parallel. MacArthur personally visited Korea on 29 June to protect evacuation of US personnel, help formulate an appreciation of the situation, and to develop recommendations for the Joint Chiefs of Staff (JCS) and the President.

2. Status of US Military Forces

a. American military power available within the theater was unprepared for the struggle it would face in the next few months. Army forces consisted of four understrength divisions equipped with worn-out weapons from WW II. They were manned by young men who, for the most part, lacked combat

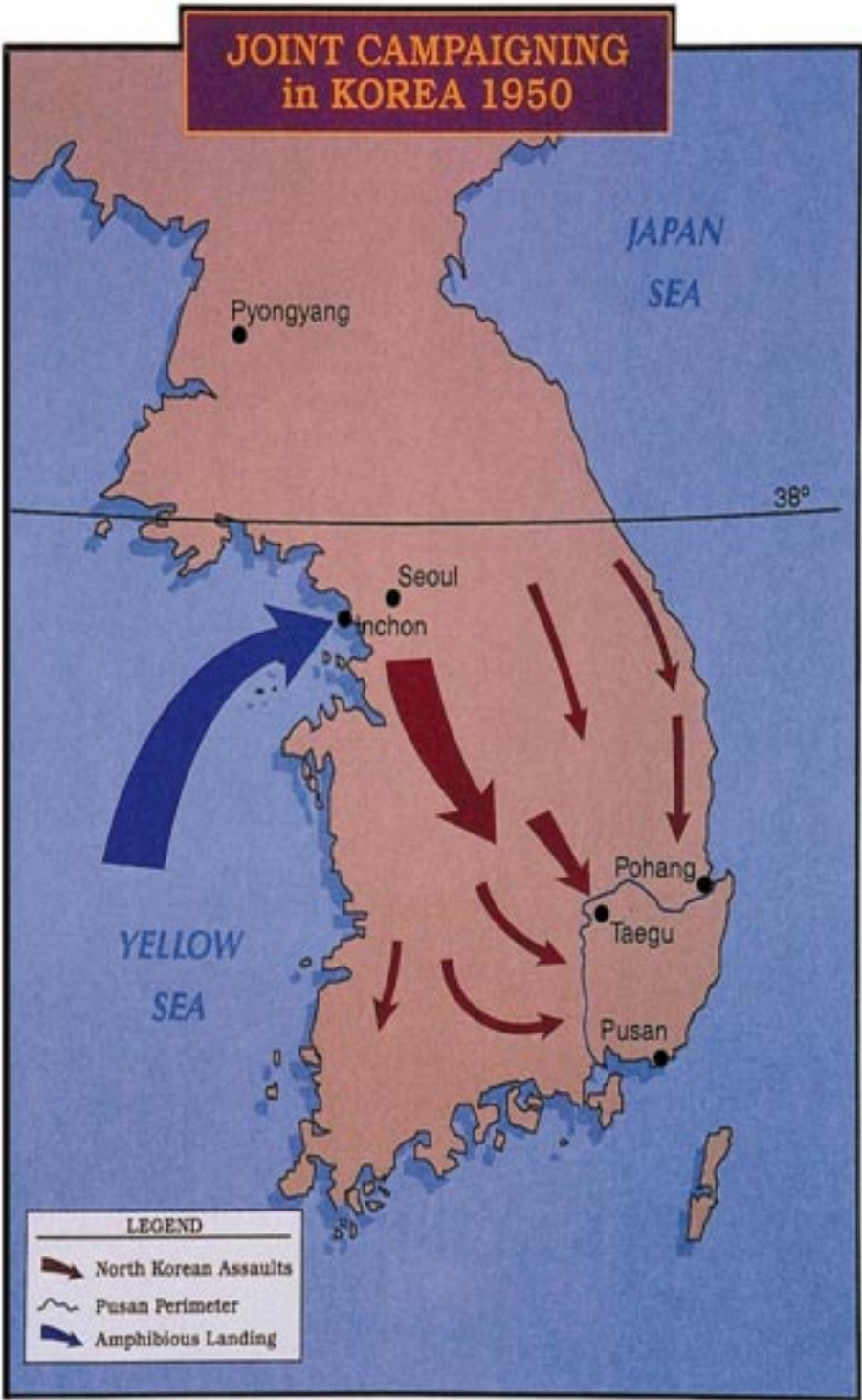


Figure II-1. Joint Campaigning in Korea 1950

seasoning. Focused on occupation duties, training was marginal and most units lacked the heavy weapons called for by their Tables of Organization.

b. The newly independent Air Force was represented in theater by the Far East Air Forces (FEAF) commanded by Lieutenant General George E. Stratemeyer. FEAF was primarily equipped with jet interceptors, designed for air defense of Japan against the perceived Soviet and Chinese threats. Reconnaissance, transportation and ground attack aircraft were scarce. Despite the shortage of transport aircraft, the Air Force was to play a critical role in delivering supplies and personnel to support ROK and US forces in the early stages of the war.

c. Vice Admiral Charles T. Joy, Commander, Naval Forces Far East (COMNAVFE), led a force which consisted of just one cruiser and four old destroyers. However, the US 7th Fleet, with an aircraft carrier, a cruiser, eight destroyers, and three submarines and commanded by Vice Admiral Arthur Struble, would soon be made available and would significantly improve the naval posture.

d. American forces in the rest of the world were just as poorly manned and prepared. This situation was the legacy of the rapid drawdown following the end of WW II and post-war budget cuts, driven partly by the belief that the atomic bomb had made conventional forces less relevant to national defense. The failure to maintain an adequately prepared force would extract a high cost in human suffering over the next few months.

e. MacArthur's experience and capability as a joint force commander, the experienced Far East Command (FEC) joint planning staff in his headquarters (HQ) in Tokyo, and the leadership abilities of the officers who would serve as his subordinate commanders to some

degree offset the disadvantages that faced the United States that gloomy June morning.

3. US Response to the Invasion

a. Half a world away, President Truman and his advisors viewed the invasion from the north as a part of the ongoing communist confrontation with the free world. The President reversed previous US policy (which did not see Korea as vital to US interests) and ordered that actions be taken to evacuate US and United Nations (UN) dependents from Korea and to supply the ROK forces with ammunition and equipment. At the same time, the UN called for the People's Democratic Republic of Korea to halt its aggression and withdraw north of the 38th Parallel. This resolution was ignored, and the North Korean onslaught continued. While some ROK units resisted heroically, others dissolved in panic.

b. The President placed the US 7th Fleet under MacArthur's operational control (OPCON) and authorized its movement to the waters off Formosa. This move signalled the Chinese that the United States would not tolerate any widening of the conflict. Concern about expansion of the fighting, both in the Pacific and to other parts of the world, overshadowed all US decisions that followed.

4. United Nations Reaction

On 27 June, with NKPA forces continuing the invasion, the UN passed a milestone resolution calling on member states to furnish military assistance to the ROK to "... repel the armed attack." This was the first time that the UN took such action. On that date Truman expanded his 25 June authorization of air and naval attacks south of the 38th Parallel to include all of Korea. He also authorized the employment of Army forces at the southern port of Pusan. The next day Seoul fell.

5. MacArthur Assesses the Situation in Korea

a. On 29 June, MacArthur arrived in Korea and rapidly assessed the situation. He realized that he was facing a tough opponent and that half measures would not be effective. From the south bank of the Han River, he watched the retreating ROK forces and realized that “only immediate commitment of ground troops” could stem the invasion. Unfortunately, he had few ready forces and only limited transport available to rapidly commit them. Additionally, he had no authority to commit ground forces outside of the southern port of Pusan.

b. MacArthur quickly informed the JCS that he felt the ROK forces would be unable to stop the invasion and that a major commitment of American power was required. His clear understanding of the nature of modern warfare was evident in his words — “. . . To continue to use the forces of our air and navy without an effective ground element can not be decisive. Unless provisions are made for the full utilization of our Army-Navy-Air team in this shattered area, our mission will at best be needlessly costly in life, money and prestige. At worst, it might be doomed.” The employment of ground forces was authorized within 24 hours of receipt of this message.

c. MacArthur first began to consider an amphibious landing in the enemy rear area while he stood on the south bank of the Han River. He was predisposed to favor this type of an operation; his successful campaigns across the Pacific in the Second World War were based on the concept of applying Allied air, naval, and ground strength against enemy weakness. Amphibious landings in areas where they weren’t expected had kept the enemy off balance and allowed the Allies to maintain the initiative. It was only natural that he would consider this type of operation when assessing his options to save the situation in Korea.

“The deep envelopment based on surprise, which severs the enemy’s supply lines, is and always has been the most decisive maneuver of war. A short envelopment which fails to envelop and leaves the enemy’s supply system intact merely divides your own forces and can lead to heavy loss and even jeopardy.”

General Douglas MacArthur

6. Communist Forces Advance

a. Unconcerned with UN and US actions, and ignoring significant losses inflicted by the retreating ROK forces, the enemy reinforced its initial success and continued the advance. On 3 July the airfield at Kimpo and the port of Inchon fell. Enemy aircraft began operating out of Kimpo, although US forces soon secured air supremacy and NKPA air played little role in the battles to come. Concurrently, the small northern navy was completely destroyed and a tight blockade of the sea approaches to the peninsula established. By 4 July, the enemy ground advance had reached Suwon, 25 miles south of Seoul. At the same time the lead elements of the 24th Infantry Division, better known to history as Task Force Smith, were landing at Pusan.

b. These unprepared soldiers were committed to buy additional time to bring appropriate forces into the area. MacArthur later characterized his costly piecemeal commitment of these units as an “arrogant display of strength.” He and his staff hoped that this desperate rear guard action would stabilize the front by causing the enemy to slow his advance and proceed cautiously when he realized he was up against US troops. It would also boost the morale of the ROK armed forces by showing them they were not alone. Dawn on 5 July found Task Force Smith blocking

the main road between Suwon and Osan. Despite the task force's heroic efforts, a lack of effective anti-tank weapons led to defeat.

7. The Defense of Pusan

a. While these desperate battles were fought, the United States and UN continued to take the actions necessary to bring their power to bear on the peninsula. On 8 July, at the request of the UN, Truman named MacArthur Commander-in-Chief of the United Nations Command. On the 13th, Lieutenant General Walton H. Walker, commanding the Eighth United States Army, assumed command of all ground troops and responsibility for ground operations in Korea. MacArthur's air and naval component commanders likewise assumed responsibility for their respective areas, with forces of other nations joining them as they arrived in theater.

b. As June gave way to July, NKPA spearheads continued their southward advance. South of Taejon they divided into two separate thrusts, one along the west coast and the second straight for Pusan, but their pace was slowed by logistic difficulties and terrain and by the increasing tempo of air interdiction. The cost of advancing in the face of heavy and effective UN air attacks continued to mount for the NKPA. Air interdiction alone, however, would not suffice. By late July, the US 25th Infantry and 1st Cavalry divisions had deployed from Japan and joined the 24th Division in Korea. They were shortly followed by elements of the 5th Marine Regiment, filled out to a provisional brigade by other Marine units. This infusion of fresh manpower, armed with 3.5 inch anti-tank rockets airlifted from the United States along with other US and UN troops deploying from around the world, began to turn the tide. UN forces were slowly pushed back until they reached the Naktong River. Here Walker and MacArthur decided that they must stand and fight or be ejected

from Korea, and the 140 mile long Pusan Perimeter (Figure II-2) was established. The desperate fight to keep this foothold on the peninsula absorbed all reinforcements arriving in theater. Without the strength and resilience these forces provided, it is doubtful that Eighth Army could have held on.

8. MacArthur Plans His Riposte

a. While these events transpired, MacArthur remained focused on regaining the initiative. Already he had intuitively arrived at the solution; now he needed a fleshed-out plan and a force to execute it. Elements of his staff at FEC, led by Major General Edward M. Almond, went to work on the plan as early as 4 July. In his first request for reinforcements sent to the JCS on 7 July, MacArthur stated that his main purpose was to "... fully ... exploit our air and sea control and, by amphibious maneuver, strike behind his mass of ground forces."

b. Preliminary planning called for a late July landing, but the reality of the strength of the enemy and the weakness of the UN forces compelled delaying the operation. The forces which would have conducted the landing were instead being rushed ashore to maintain the defenses around Pusan.

c. Planning for the landings was conducted at FEC HQ in Japan by the Joint Strategic Plans and Operations Group (JSPOG). A number of alternatives were developed and considered in great detail. By the 23rd of July, JSPOG came up with three options for consideration. Plans 100B, 100C, and 100D called for landings at Inchon (west coast), Kunson (west coast), or Chumunjin-up (east coast), respectively.

d. On 12 August, MacArthur issued CINCFE Operation Plan 100B, code named Operation CHROMITE, with Inchon as the target to be seized by the amphibious assault.

In recognition of the complex nature of an amphibious operation, ten Marine Corps officers and two Navy officers were attached to the planning staff on 19 August. This would guarantee that their special expertise was immediately available.

from the FEC staff. The staff assumed that the landings would end the conflict and they would return to their normal billets in Japan.

General Douglas MacArthur

9. Forces for the Landing

a. Putting together the forces to make the landing was a major challenge. The enemy continued to threaten the Pusan perimeter, and MacArthur had no forces to spare. The continued NKPA pressure on Walker at Pusan forced MacArthur to throw units into the fight as they became available. Additionally, MacArthur felt strongly that a successful amphibious operation required a Marine

division. Washington initially balked because a Marine division was not available, the Corps having shrunk to a post war low of less than 80,000. A major reserve callup would be necessary to field a full division; but MacArthur was adamant and his persistent arguments, coupled with his status and reputation, carried the day.

b. Major General Oliver P. Smith assumed command of the 1st Marine Division at Camp Pendleton in late July and was ordered to bring it to full strength (less one regiment) by combining it with the cadre forces of the 2nd Marine Division and recalled reservists. The division was to sail for Korea by 15 August. Trained Marines were so scarce that, in order to fill the division, a battalion was pieced together from various Marine forces in the Mediterranean and sent directly to Korea.

c. One brigade assigned to this newly fleshed out division was already fighting in the Pusan area. The 1st Marine Provisional Brigade had been activated on 5 July at Camp Pendleton. It was composed of the 5th Marine Regiment, a battalion of the 11th Marines, and Marine Air Group 33. It sailed for Japan on the 14th, but the situation at Pusan was so desperate that it was diverted directly to Korea. It landed at Pusan on 2 August and went straight into the battleline. Prior to the Inchon landing, it had to be pulled out of combat, moved back to Pusan, refitted, embarked, and landed as a part of the assault force — all in less than 10 days.

d. The Army's 7th Division was, by August, at less than half strength. Key officers and noncommissioned officers as well as equipment had been diverted to bring the 24th, 25th, and 1st Cavalry Divisions up to

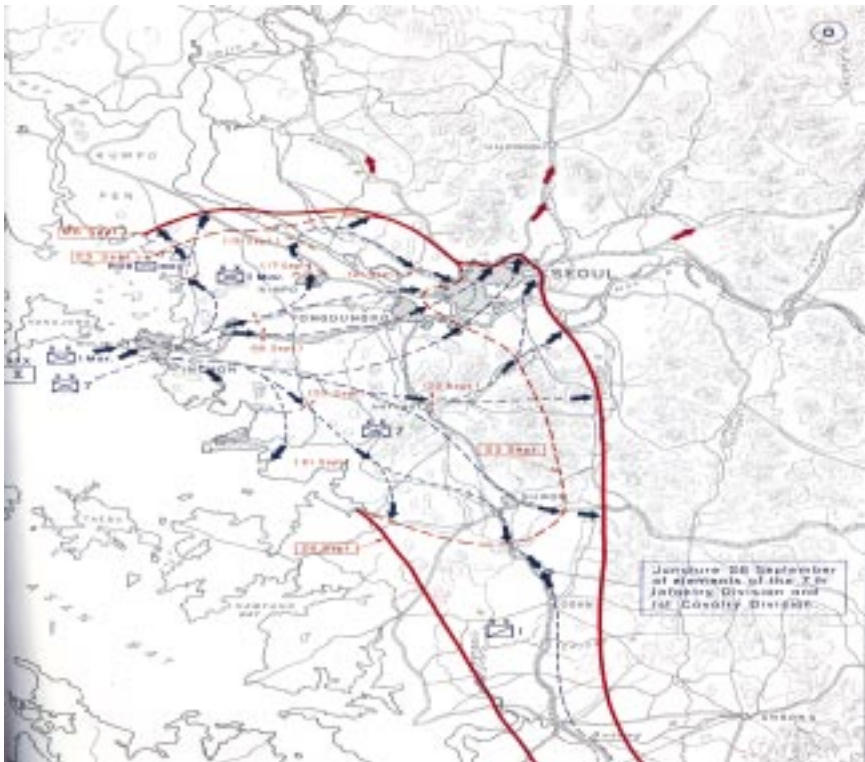


Figure II-3. The Inchon Landing

strength. Between mid-August and early September, the 7th received priority of replacements and was augmented with nearly 8,000 Korean soldiers. By the time of the landings, both the 1st Marine and 7th Infantry Divisions were fully manned and equipped.

"The best I can say about Inchon is it is not impossible."

RADM James H. Doyle
Commander Assault Force (TF 90)
23 August 1950

10. Amphibious Landing Challenges

a. Inchon presented a vast array of challenges to the landing force (Figure II-4). Extremely high tides, narrow channels, high seawalls, extensive mudflats, and enemy resistance would all have to be overcome if the landings were to succeed. Additionally, the harbor approaches to Inchon were guarded by the fortified island of Wolmi-do. While the staff worked to address these problems, MacArthur focused his effort on convincing the JCS that the risks were minimal and that the operation should go ahead.

"The Marquis de Montcalm believed in 1759 that it was impossible for an armed force to scale the precipitous river banks south of the then walled city of Quebec, and therefore concentrated his formidable defenses along the more vulnerable banks north of the city. But General James Wolfe and a small force did indeed come up the St. Lawrence River and scale those heights. On the Plains of Abraham, Wolfe won a stunning victory that was made possible almost entirely by surprise . . . Like Montcalm, the North Koreans would regard an Inchon landing as impossible. Like Wolfe, I could take them by surprise."

General Douglas MacArthur

b. Washington was concerned that the geographic problems at Inchon would cause the landings to flounder and result in a major reverse and heavy loss of life. Conversely, MacArthur was utterly convinced that the landings would succeed, and his confidence won the day. Weighing the risk against the potential gain, MacArthur was certain that a less ambitious amphibious envelopment at a less difficult site, as favored by many in Washington, would not be decisive and would condemn the Eighth Army to a brutal fight north from Pusan.

c. Two weeks prior to the landings, the Navy introduced a three-man team into the Inchon area to pinpoint enemy defenses and verify tide and terrain data. This daring and resourceful team, led by LT E. F. Clark (USN), enlisted the aid of loyal ROK civilians and succeeded in passing a great amount of essential information to the planners. On the night preceding the landings Clark even succeeded in lighting one of the principal navigation lights in the approach channel to guide the attack fleet.

d. Even without the geographic challenges presented by Inchon, MacArthur understood amphibious operations to be highly complex. He established Joint Task Force (JTF) 7, under the command of Admiral Struble, to finalize the plan and execute the landings. The operation plan (OPLAN) directed naval Task Force (TF) 90, RADM J. H. Doyle commanding, to isolate the landing site, conduct the amphibious assault to secure the Inchon area, land the follow-on and reserve forces, provide air and fire support, and provide other support as necessary. The landing was to be preceded and supported by a heavy naval bombardment from US and British ships of the naval Gunfire Support Group (TF 90.6, RADM J. M. Higgins) anchored close offshore.

e. Air Force bombers flying from Japan would help isolate the landing area by

INCHON CHALLENGES

- *Necessity to hold Pusan perimeter*
- *Extreme operational reach for US based forces*
- *Lack of US operational amphibious landing or sufficient practice since 1945*
- *Military requirement and political effect of recalling reserves to provide sufficient forces*
- *Scarcity and piecemeal arrival of trained and ready forces*
- *Limited operational range and numbers of land-based close air support aircraft*
- *OPSEC*
- *Potential for discovery of invasion fleet in Yellow Sea*
- *Hours of daylight available*
- *Number of days available per month with sufficient channel depth for large craft*
- *Extreme tidal range, causing inability to reinforce from sea except at high tide and immobility of landing craft at low tide*
- *Landing sites featured concrete seawalls, not shelved beaches*
- *Unknown number and strength of defenders*
- *Restricted, narrow, tortuous, single ship channel for entry*
- *Fortified Wolmi-do Island dominated the single harbor entry channel*

Figure II-4. Inchon Challenges

attacking strategic targets so that the enemy could not move reinforcements by land. While these actions were underway, TF 91 (RADM W. G. Andrews, R.N.) would serve as a blocking and covering force so the landings would be free from interference from the sea.

11. The Amphibious Landing

a. The amphibious objective area was established as an arc extending 30 miles inland from the landing beaches. Priority close air support within this area would be provided by Navy, Marine Corps and British air units of the Fast Carrier Group (TF 77) and the Air Support Group (TF 90.5). Air Force close air support for the landings was not part of the plan. Long flight times from Japan as well as communications and other coordination challenges made such geographic divisions of labor among the components the norm in Korea.

b. Fifth Air Force (Major General Earle E. Partridge) provided general air support for the invasion by isolating the objective area. As part of this effort commencing on D-10, a major, 7-day effort was launched against the rail network north of Seoul. Fifth Air Force was also charged with furnishing air-ground support to the Eighth Army in the south and with the on-order mission of air delivery of the 187th Airborne Regimental Combat Team.

c. The 3rd Battalion, 5th Marines, the lead element of the 1st Marine Division — the Landing Force — made the initial assault on Wolmi-do with the high tide at dawn on 15 September and crushed enemy resistance. The main landings by the rest of the division followed on the next high tide 11 hours later. The enemy was completely surprised. Intelligence estimates prior to the landings put as many as 18,000 troops in the Inchon - Seoul area but, as it turned out, only 5,000



Inchon presented a vast array of challenges to the Marine landing force, including the Inchon sea wall.

combat troops were there initially to oppose the operation. Although they put up stiff resistance, X Corps' powerful and unexpected thrust could not be turned back. By the evening of the 16th, MajGen Smith informed Admiral Struble that he was sufficiently established to assume responsibility for operations ashore.

12. A Simultaneous Attack

a. As events unfolded in the north, the second part of the operation was about to kick off in the south. On the morning of 16 September, Eighth Army launched its supporting attack against the more than twelve enemy divisions deployed against it. The enemy had just drained its strength in an unsuccessful 2-week offensive aimed at breaking the UN perimeter. Attacking UN forces still met fierce resistance but, under heavy air attack by Fifth Air Force (over 640 close air support sorties were flown in support of the US I Corps on 18 and 19 September), with its rear area threatened by X Corps, and with its supply lines under increasingly heavy air attack, NKPA resistance began to wane. On 19 September US and British units succeeded in breaking out, and by the 20th were exerting strong pressure as they moved toward Taejon.

b. The two nearly simultaneous attacks were beginning to have the desired effect. Unable to resupply or reinforce, and under constant air and ground attack, the enemy was pushed back along the entire Pusan line more than 70 miles within a week. To help demoralize the enemy, tens of thousands of psychological warfare leaflets were dropped over enemy lines to encourage surrender.

UNITED NATIONS FORCES HAVE LANDED AT INCHON

Officers and men of North Korea. Powerful UN forces have landed at Inchon and are advancing rapidly. You can see from this map how hopeless your situation has become. Your supply line cannot reach you, nor can you withdraw to the north. The odds against you are tremendous. Fifty-three of the fifty-nine countries of the UN are opposing you. You are outnumbered in equipment, manpower, and firepower. Surrender or die. Come over to the UN side and you will get good food and prompt medical care.

Translation of UN leaflet
dropped throughout Korea



US Marine landing forces were carefully timed for maximum effect.

c. By 17 September, the 1st Marine Division had recaptured Kimp'o airfield. Kimp'o was back in action as a UN air base by the 18th. The Fifth Air Force immediately began an airlift of over 200 tons of supplies a day, which permitted Marine Aviation to move off the carriers. Now ashore, they could fly more, longer, and deeper missions. The next morning, the 7th Division and ROK Marine forces landed at Inchon and moved rapidly inland. The 7th Division turned to block any enemy attack from Suwon and the south, while the ROK Marines joined the 1st Marine Division in the attack to secure Seoul. With its flanks secured, the 1st Marine Division turned north on the morning of the 20th to begin the 6-day battle to clear Seoul. Bitter NKPA resistance ultimately forced commitment of the ROK Marines, 7th Division's 32nd Infantry Regiment, and 187th Airborne Regimental Combat Team (a portion of the theater reserve) to the battle for Seoul.

d. Constant attack on all sides finally broke the NKPA resistance and the army collapsed. By the end of September the North Korean People's Army ceased to exist as an organized fighting force in South Korea. MacArthur's prediction had been accurate.

13. MacArthur and Joint Employment Considerations

a. UN operations in Korea in 1950 showed how a superior force can conduct simultaneous combat operations along **external lines** of communications. Despite extremely long lines of supply (stretching to dozens of nations), UN forces possessed sufficient strength to successfully converge upon the Korean Peninsula with overwhelming power.

b. The use of **asymmetric** action is well illustrated in this operation by the application of UN air and sea combat power against the ground forces of the NKPA. This application of joint force strength and capabilities against enemy weakness throughout the entire battlespace allowed MacArthur to stabilize the situation and find a way to exploit the potential of his forces. Throughout the campaign, the advantage of being able to operate in the air and at sea, where the enemy could not, was important to success. MacArthur's early and continuous **leveraging** of his **dimensional advantage** capitalized on UN strengths and slowed the attack of a numerically superior ground force operating along normally advantageous

internal lines. Once UN and ROK ground forces were reinforced and re-equipped, the **synergy** created by the **synchronized** application of sea, land, and air power created a **favorable overall combat ratio** which secured **strategic advantage** for MacArthur and allowed his forces to destroy the enemy.

c. From the start, MacArthur demonstrated a clear understanding that to obtain victory, he needed to seek the earliest opportunity to conduct decisive joint offensive operations. From the day he arrived in Korea to assess the situation, he began formulating a plan to capitalize on UN forces advantages to launch an amphibious landing in the enemy rear. While taking action to stabilize the situation, he envisioned how he wanted the battle to be fought and began planning for the future. His initial concept for a landing in July had to be delayed, but he and the planning staff never lost sight of the real key to victory. This vision and determination to launch an early offensive positioned the command for a **rapid transition between the defense and the offense** when circumstances in September permitted. Without his foresight and the hard work of his joint planning staff, a major operation such as Inchon could not have been launched in the short time available, and the final outcome could have been decidedly different. Preparation and continuous planning were the keys to **seizing the initiative** when the opportunity presented itself.

d. The rapid assimilation of multinational forces into an effective fighting command in this operation should not be overlooked. From the beginning, Allied forces joined the command and immediately played critical roles. Effective coordination of US and ROK army forces with supporting Australian and British air and ground forces were essential factors in stabilizing the Pusan Perimeter. Part of this effectiveness can be traced to the World War II combined operations experience of MacArthur and most senior

leaders, but part must be attributed to the **clear purpose and simple objectives** of the force. UN solidarity in condemning NKPA aggression and the willingness of so many nations to play an active part in repelling the invasion provided the **unity of effort** necessary for smooth operations on the battlefield.

e. The demonstrated professional competence of the **total force** is another point worthy of study in Operation CHROMITE. US forces were able to recover from earlier unpreparedness to a great extent because of the residual skills of the reserve forces. Many recalled troops were seasoned veterans of World War II who were able to quickly reestablish their military competence. The expeditious integration of reserve and active units into a highly successful fighting force, able to conduct an extremely complicated amphibious maneuver in an exceptionally short time with almost no opportunity for face-to-face coordination and no chance to operate together, is unparalleled. While it could be argued that MacArthur had no choice but to use this kind of force, there is no evidence that he or any other leader had less than total confidence in the ability of these units to accomplish the mission regardless of all of these difficulties.

f. Very early in the campaign, MacArthur perceived that the enemy relied on overextended lines of communications for its freedom of action and strength. Accurate identification of the enemy lines of communication in the Seoul area as a **center of gravity** was a necessary prerequisite for destroying the enemy force. Similarly, MacArthur's willingness to pay the high price of piecemeal commitment of forces as they became available to slow the NKPA advance and then to maintain the Pusan Perimeter is a good example of **protecting a friendly center of gravity**. Although this was a costly decision, he understood that it would be hard, if not impossible, to recover



The synchronized application of joint forces provided the United States with an overwhelming military advantage.

from an ejection from the peninsula. MacArthur weighed the risk and cost associated and acted as he did because he realized that the UN forces had to hold on to this foothold in order to maintain their freedom of action.

g. The landing at Inchon was a classic **coup de main** that used surprise and an aggressive supporting attack to overload the enemy's ability to resist. This horizontal escalation of operations exceeded the enemy's capacity to respond effectively. The enemy's failure to anticipate MacArthur's use of his tried and true recipe for success, amphibious assault in an unexpected quarter, allowed UN forces to control the Inchon - Seoul area. This gave the UN control of a **decisive point**: the enemy communication network that emanated from there to the NKPA forces in the south.

h. The enemy also failed to realize that it had overextended its offensive operations southward beyond the capabilities of logistic support. Failing to recognize this **culmination point** placed enemy troops in a

vulnerable position. When the Inchon landing was followed one day later by the breakout of Eighth Army, the enemy found itself in an untenable position and was routed. Unfortunately, UN forces would commit the same error in the near future when they advanced to the Yalu River.

i. MacArthur well understood the complex nature of amphibious operations. He and many of his subordinate leaders and planners had experience with amphibious landings during World War II. During that conflict, amphibious operations had only been mounted after exhaustive planning and rehearsal. In the fall of 1950 these luxuries were simply not available. MacArthur's tenacious pursuit of a Marine division to spearhead the assault, and the assignment of experienced Marine Corps and Navy officers to the planning team in Tokyo, indicates clearly that all involved understood how difficult the landings would be.

j. During the initial planning for Operation CHROMITE, X Corps reported directly to CINCFE, and all naval forces in

theater reported to MacArthur through COMNAVFE. With the establishment of JTF 7 by MacArthur, X Corps (TF 92) became a subordinate of JTF 7 for the embarkation and assault phase of the operation. During this phase, **parallel chains of command** for the naval and ground forces operated within JTF 7. This technique is essential to ensure fully integrated and coordinated effort at all levels. The complexity of amphibious operations and the interdependence of the Services makes functioning parallel chains of command a key aspect of success. Once the embarkation and assault phase was completed and the exploitation phase of the operation begun, X Corps (along with its organic supporting air) left JTF 7 and again reported directly to CINCFE.

k. Although Air Force units were not part of JTF 7, elements of the 5th Air Force did operate in support of the amphibious task force. The attacks against the rail lines north of Seoul certainly impeded enemy reaction and contributed to creating the conditions necessary for a successful landing. The **synergy** orchestrated by MacArthur through his very capable melding of the complimentary facets of ground, air, and naval power led to the success of Operation CHROMITE.

l. JTF 7 established an amphibious objective area around Inchon that clearly defined the area that had to be controlled by the invading force. It was sufficiently deep to ensure that space would be available to accomplish objectives and facilitate future operations. The commander of the landing force established three phase lines to control movement and attack over the approximately 8 miles between the landing beaches and the beachhead line. The number of control measures required underscores the difficulties involved in coordinating amphibious assault forces. These phase lines also served to control ground attack by aircraft. No attack

was permitted short of the line without ground permission. Once the beachhead line was secured, the assault phase of the operation was concluded and the exploitation phase begun.

m. The world had greatly changed in the 87 years between the fall of Vicksburg and the outbreak of the Korean War. Economic prosperity had cemented the American military leadership role that emerged from World War II and emboldened the nation to take on a greater role in world affairs. No longer did events far from US shores seem so remote. Two world wars had shown the United States how costly it was to remain uninvolved. The UN offered the promise of resolving problems before they became wars and, along with most other nations of the world, our nation actively embraced this promise.

n. While these economic, political, and social circumstances were unfolding, an explosion of technology placed additional tools in the hands of the commander. These tools were more lethal and allowed a more complete exploitation of the possibilities of three-dimensional warfare. This same technology made the world smaller and quickened the pace of operations. Only 82 days elapsed between the northern invasion of the ROK and the Inchon landing, and only another 15 days passed between the landing and the destruction of the enemy. This operation was engineered by a UN force that had to be manned, equipped, delivered, assembled, supplied, and successfully employed on a remote, undeveloped peninsula. In contrast, it took nearly 9 months to mount the Vicksburg Campaign.

o. The Korean War was the first armed conflict the United States fought after the passage of the **National Security Act of 1947** as amended in 1949. These legislative actions formalized many concepts and procedures that had informally evolved in our

defense establishment in response to the challenges of World War II. There were many reasons for adopting such changes in the roles and relationships between the Services, JCS, and theater commanders; one of these was

the recognition that success on the modern battlefield demanded that we capitalize on the synergy that jointness provides. **Modern warfare demands a joint approach.** This realization changed forever the way we fight.

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Military Incident #4

THE PRICE OF INFLEXIBILITY: VON MOLTKE PROCEEDS WITH HIS PLAN

Kaiser Wilhelm II had less than an hour to change the course of world history.

On the very brink of World War, on 1 August 1914, Kaiser Wilhelm II suddenly became aware of the possibility of fighting only Russia. His ambassador in London, Prince Lichnowsky, reported that if Germany did not attack France, Britain would stay out of the war. Additionally, Britain would act to keep France from supporting Russia militarily. Unfortunately, this intelligence came in just one hour before the scheduled German seizure of a railway junction in Luxembourg. This act would inevitably draw both France and the British Empire into full-scale war against Germany.

An exquisitely detailed deployment and employment plan for a two front war was already in motion.

Turning history around was not going to be simple. The German General Staff had planned full mobilization for war against France for years. With little command guidance, General Helmuth von Moltke's staff had spent the last 10 years perfecting the plan. The original plan, meticulously developed under General Count Alfred von Schlieffen, was a detailed mobilization, deployment, and employment plan that struck first in the West. The slower reacting Russian army would be held while the German Army enveloped the French Army by moving through Belgium and the Netherlands. After the French Army was crushed, the German Army would be transported east to defeat the Russians. The overall approach to staff work, planning, detailed construction, and expense of this massive plan gave German mobilization, once initiated, a life of its own.

The plan's inherent inflexibility and momentum led to world tragedy.

Suddenly, the Kaiser was suggesting to General von Moltke that years of dedication, incredible attention to detail, logistics, virtually a whole culture, and his own life's work be thrown out the window on an hour's notice. Von Moltke refused, and the move into Luxembourg proceeded as scheduled. Despite the obvious advantage of making war only on Russia and avoiding battle with the strongest powers of Europe, the plan's momentum took away the last opportunity to stop the chain of events that drove the world into the nightmare of World War I.

The von Schlieffen plan, this extraordinary incident, and the events which inevitably followed represent one of the greatest tragedies of modern times. Millions of soldiers, sailors, airmen, marines, and civilians died, and western culture itself changed radically as a result of World War I. Possibly history's most extreme case of a plan guaranteeing its own inflexibility, this incident shows that the events of an era can depend on a staff's ability and willingness to react to changing military and diplomatic situations. URGENT FURY, a small operation marked by flexibility in planning and execution, demonstrates that effective response requires flexible doctrine and the ability to recognize the need to adapt plans to take advantage of opportunities.

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CHAPTER III

OPERATION URGENT FURY

"The outcome was never in doubt, but the price of victory was."

Major Mark Adkin, Barbados Defense Force

1. Introduction

a. Prime Minister Maurice Bishop of Grenada was a hard line communist. His close relationships with the Soviet Union and Cuba had troubled the United States for years. In light of this, it is ironic that his 19 October 1983 murder and the brutal coup that followed triggered the US-led invasion of the tiny Caribbean island. The coup, along with growing concern over Cuban influence and presence on Grenada and the approaching completion of a modern airport usable by military aircraft, made US leaders uncomfortable. The presence of a significant number of US citizens on the island served as the impetus for action.

b. Grenada is a small (133 square miles), lush tropical island located approximately 90 miles northeast of Venezuela, 450 miles southeast of Puerto Rico, and some 1,900 miles southeast of Tampa, Florida. The island is mountainous, with heavy vegetation in the center and broad beaches along the western shore. The north and east coasts present few potential landing sites. Grenada's population was just over 100,000 at the time of the invasion. With an agriculturally-based economy, Grenada also served as the home for a major offshore US medical school — St. George's University School of Medicine. Grenada's only operational airport, Pearls, was too small to accommodate large aircraft. A second airport at Point Salines in the southeast was being built by a Cuban construction team and was close to completion. The road network on the island was minimal. The only major urban area was in the southwest end of the

island near the capital, St. George's (Figure III-1).

c. The Grenadan military consisted of 1,200 to 1,500 members of the People's Revolutionary Army (PRA) and some 2,000 to 5,000 members of the People's Revolutionary Militia (PRM). At the time of the invasion, approximately 600 Cuban construction workers and 50 military advisors were present on the island. The military efficiency of these forces varied widely; some members of the PRA were highly trained, while most members of the PRM were untrained. Nearly all the Cubans had seen military service at some time. Weapons were for the most part limited to small arms and heavy machine guns. A few mortars and anti-tank weapons were available to the PRA, and a good number of obsolete but refurbished anti-aircraft guns were deployed to protect key sites around the island. The PRA had only a handful of old armored vehicles and almost no wheeled transport.

d. Initial planning for what would become Operation URGENT FURY commenced on 13 October, as a result of a message from the US Ambassador in Barbados, Milan Bish. The message alerted the State Department to the fact that the political situation on Grenada was deteriorating and recommended that the United States be prepared to evacuate its citizens if conditions worsened. The citizens in question were the over 600 students, faculty, and family members of St. George's School of Medicine. The situation was quickly brought to the attention of the National Command Authorities because of the possibility that US citizens might become



Figure III-1. Grenada

hostages as they had in Iran. No one wanted a repeat of the circumstance in which the United States appeared powerless to influence events. The depth of this feeling is critical to viewing the context of the decision to invade.

2. Initial US Response

a. On 14 October, as a result of the concerns raised by the message, the State Department-led Interagency Group asked the JCS to review existing plans should an evacuation be deemed necessary. This prompted a call to the US Atlantic Command (LANTCOM) in Norfolk, Virginia, asking how the command would conduct an evacuation of US civilians from the island, located in the LANTCOM area of responsibility (AOR).

b. President Reagan was briefed regarding the continuing evolution of events on Grenada on 17 October, and he agreed that the situation warranted the development of contingency evacuation plans. The next day the Crisis Action Team at Norfolk began course-of-action development around JTF 120, to be commanded by Vice Admiral Joseph Metcalf, commander of the US Second Fleet. On 19 October, Bishop was murdered by members of the Revolutionary Military Council (RMC), who then seized power. Later that evening, the JCS sent a Warning Order to LANTCOM requiring that plans for an evacuation be ready within 24 hours.

c. On 20 October, the LANTCOM staff developed several courses of action to accommodate the various combinations of

situations the operation could face. Later that day, they described in detail these courses of action to the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff, General John W. Vessey, Jr., who was visiting Norfolk. At the same time, the logistic planning to support an evacuation was being arranged in the Pentagon by the Office of the Assistant Secretary of Defense for Installations and Logistics.

d. Later the same day, the approach to the crisis began to shift from evacuation to full scale intervention. The catalyst for the change of approach was a message from Prime Minister Tom Adams of Barbados to the State Department urging that military action be taken to restore a legitimate government on Grenada. The State Department responded with a message to Ambassador Bish stating that the United States would require a formal written request before such action could be considered.

"We knew we had little time and that complete secrecy was vital to ensure both the safety of the young men who would undertake the mission and the Americans they were about to rescue. The Joint Chiefs worked around the clock to come up with a plan. They had little intelligence information about conditions on the island."

**President Ronald Reagan
27 October 1983**

e. That evening, at a meeting of the Special Situation Group (SSG) chaired by Vice President Bush, it became evident that the United States had very little current information about Grenada. Lack of time and operations security (OPSEC) compartmentalization precluded participation by other intelligence-gathering agencies; none had time to redirect or place assets. The need to maintain secrecy regarding possible US action was stressed, and an amphibious task force en route to Lebanon was diverted to the waters north of Grenada. The initial draft of the decision to

evacuate US citizens was finalized and sent to the President for his review and approval.

3. US Forces Receive Orders

a. It was nearly midnight on 20 October when Captain Carl R. Erie, commander of the amphibious task force (Amphibious Squadron 4 with the 22nd Marine Amphibious Unit [MAU] embarked) then sailing north of Bermuda, received orders to turn south and take up station 500 miles north of Grenada. The task force immediately adopted an electronic emission control condition and changed course. No reason for the change of orders was given.

b. Early on 21 October, Captain Erie informed MAU Commander Colonel James P. Faulkner and his staff of the diversion. Aware of the trouble on the island they assumed that, at worst, they might be committed in a permissive evacuation situation. The unit had no maps of the island except for a copy of a 1936 British navigation chart, no intelligence on the threat, nor any information regarding the number or location of the potential evacuees. Fortunately, two officers with the task force had some experience with Grenada; one had sailed the waters around it extensively, and the other had recently written a military staff college paper on conducting a theoretical landing there.

c. Late in the afternoon of 21 October, the President concurred with the draft policy decision and plan to use military forces to evacuate US citizens. Later that evening, the National Security Council (NSC) staff, in response to the verbal request by Prime Minister Adams on behalf of the Organization of Eastern Caribbean States (OECS), directed the JCS to develop an alternative option for a full scale military operation to secure the island. As a result, General Vessey alerted LANTCOM as well as the Military Airlift Command (MAC),

Readiness Command (REDCOM), and the Joint Special Operations Command (JSOC) to plan for a potential full scale military intervention. Up to this point, LANTCOM had envisioned and planned for an evacuation operation involving the Navy and Marine Corps only. Earlier that day Vessey had advised McDonald to include Rangers and Airborne division units along with Marines. Uncertainty about size, location, and intent of enemy forces, along with size and diversity of operational terrain, dictated a joint force with airborne, amphibious, and special operations capabilities. This especially applied to a *coup de main* intended to overwhelm enemy forces before they could take Americans hostage as at Tehran. By late that night, all the units that would participate in the invasion had been alerted; some units received less than 72 hours' notice. The need and desire for strict OPSEC severely limited those who were told about the upcoming

operation. This would have a major impact during execution.

4. Organization of the Invasion Force

The task organization for the invasion is shown in Figure III-2. LANTCOM, the supported commander of a combatant command (CINC), created JTF 120 to lead the operation. JTF 120 was composed of elements from all Services. Close air and naval support would be provided by TG 20-5 (RADM Richard C. Berry) consisting of the carrier Independence and its battle group. TF 121 (MG Edward L. Trobaugh) was initially composed of the three airborne infantry battalions of the Division Ready Force under the command of COL Stephen Silvasy of the 82nd Airborne Division. This would later be reinforced by an additional three airborne infantry battalions. TF 123 (MG Richard A.

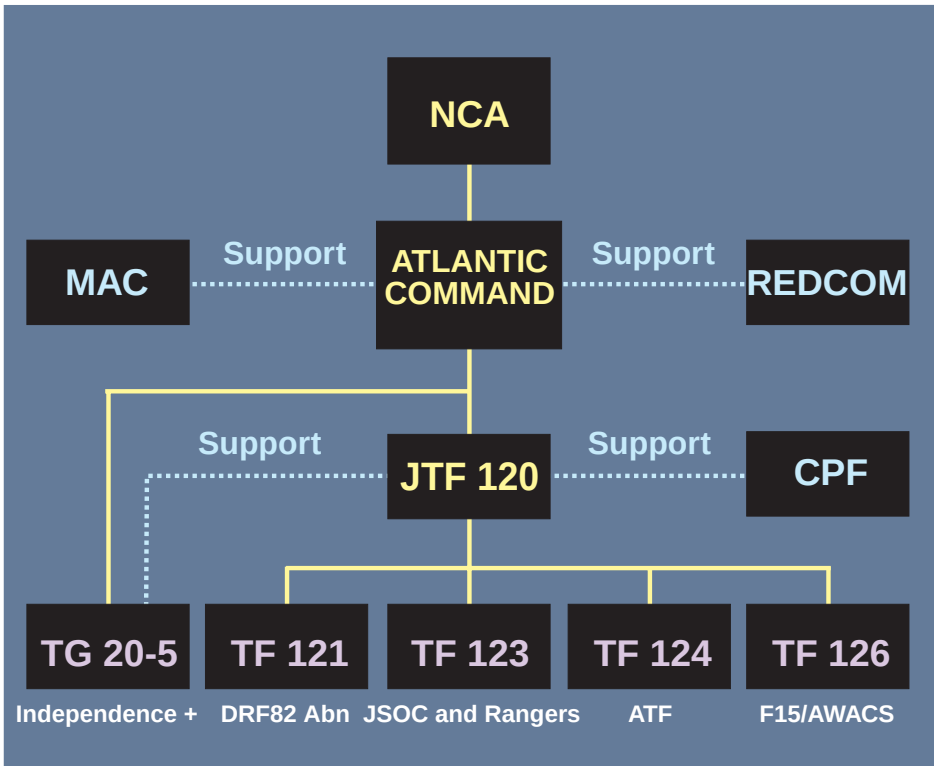


Figure III-2. Invasion Organization

Scholtes) was composed of elements of the JSOC. These elements included members of SEAL Team 6, Delta Force, and two reduced-strength Army Ranger infantry battalions. TF 124 (Captain Erie) was the Amphibious Task Force that included TF 124.2, a reinforced Marine Corps infantry battalion, and a reinforced Marine medium helicopter squadron. The Air Force provided TF 126 (Brig Gen Richard L. Meyer), consisting of eight F-15s and four Airborne Warning and Control Systems (AWACS) aircraft, which operated out of Puerto Rico to monitor Cuban air activity and, if necessary, block any attempted interference with the invasion. MAC provided the airlift and airdrop support as well as AC-130 fire support and aerial refueling. The Caribbean Peacekeeping Force (CPF) of about 300 personnel would support JTF 120 by assisting in the restoration of order after the initial landings were completed.

5. Preinvasion Preparations

a. Meanwhile, members of the Barbados Defense Force made two penetrations of Grenada in an attempt to obtain current intelligence. The information they acquired was given to US officials, but never provided to the units tasked with landing on the island. In fact, the American forces at the arrival airfield for the CPF were never told of their participation and were totally surprised by their arrival, initially thinking they might be enemy forces. The CPF was never fully informed of US plans.

b. On 22 October, a planning conference was held at Norfolk, Virginia but, because of the short notice, representatives of some units (notably MAC and JSOC) did not get there in time. Other unit representatives, notably the 82nd Airborne Division, left the conference unsure of their role. Still other units were unaware of the conference (e.g., TF 124, CPF). This lack of preinvasion coordination was complicated by tight

OPSEC that surrounded plans to invade a British Commonwealth country that had not yet been formally requested (much less approved) by the President.

c. While the planning conference was underway, the NSC staff alerted the President to the verbal request for intervention from OECS. The President concurred that it would be prudent to expand the planning parameters to include full scale action to restore order. At just before 1700 hours, the JCS issued the Warning Order for Operation URGENT FURY. The mission was to "...conduct military operations to protect and evacuate US and designated foreign nationals from Grenada, to neutralize Grenadan forces, stabilize the internal situation and maintain the peace . . . and with OECS/friendly government participation assist in the restoration of a democratic government on Grenada." The order also set the time for the invasion to be NLT daybreak 25 October 1983. LANTCOM and JTF 120 planners had less than 48 hours to assemble the participating units and execute the ever changing operation.

d. The commanding officers of the two Ranger battalions found out after 1900 hours on the 22nd that they would be invading Grenada. They were facing a situation in which no maps were available and intelligence was very thin. One company of Rangers would have to accompany the special operations forces (SOF), and there was a shortage of night drop-trained air crews. This lack of trained crews would restrict the battalions to about half strength. Their targets were the two airfields and the students at the St. George's campus. While the commanders were learning this information, their units began moving toward what they thought was an exercise.

e. On top of the invasion preparations, an incident occurred in the early morning hours of 23 October that directly affected events

unfolding in the Caribbean. A suicide bomber penetrated the security perimeter at the Beirut, Lebanon airport and detonated a powerful explosion that destroyed the Marine Barracks and killed over 240 Marines. The tragedy may have distracted some who were involved in planning for Grenada and created a resolve in all to keep Grenada from becoming another military disaster.

f. That same morning General Vessey briefed the SSG on the invasion. On Grenada, efforts were undertaken to mobilize the population to repel the invasion. The RMC had been informed of the movement of Caribbean forces, and the Cubans and the RMC knew that invasion plans were being made. Fortunately, the Grenadan people failed to respond and the PRM never really played a role in the coming fights. That afternoon President Reagan authorized the invasion and the first special operations forces took off for Grenada. Their mission was to emplace navigation beacons at the Point Salines Airport to guide the transports carrying the airborne force. Around this time the Rangers received a change in mission: both battalions were to land at Port Salines. Pearls would be handled by the Marines.

g. At 2200 hours on the night of 23 October, the first liaison officers from LANTCOM arrived aboard the *USS Guam* and briefed TF 124 about its role in the operation. At this point the Marines learned that they were not a backup for the Army, but were tasked to make both an air assault and an amphibious landing to seize Pearls airport and the Grenville area on the eastern side of the island. Simultaneously, Army forces would conduct an air landing assault at the Point Salines airport in the southwest. The rules of engagement (ROE) were issued, clearly stating that disruption of the civilian economy was to be “minimized.” The Marines quickly began planning.

h. Meanwhile, the navigation beacon team had met with unexpected problems. The night drop over water went badly; equipment failed and several men drowned. This mission was considered so essential that VADM Metcalf agreed to a second attempt the following night. This attempt also failed, but the time required to assemble additional personnel and equipment caused H hour to be delayed first from 0200 to 0400 hours, and then to 0500 hours on the 25th. The landing operations would no longer be cloaked in darkness.

i. On 24 October, planning continued at several sites and the troops began assembling and moving toward Grenada. VADM Metcalf held a final planning conference at Norfolk with Admiral Wesley McDonald (Commander in Chief, US Atlantic Fleet) and the Army commanders of his JTF. At 1745 hours that evening, he and his primarily Navy staff arrived by helicopter aboard the command ship, the *USS Guam*. At 1830 hours the first AC-130s took off for the invasion, followed at 2130 hours by the first of the C-130s carrying the Rangers.

“Battles are won by slaughter and maneuver. The greater the general, the more he contributes in maneuver, the less he demands in slaughter.”

Winston Churchill

6. Invasion Operations

a. The plan (Figure III-3) called for the Ranger battalions in fourteen MC- and C-130s to airdrop or airland on the runway at Port Salines airport. One battalion would secure the area and then evacuate the students from the St. George’s campus. The other would assist in securing the airfield and then move (on foot) to capture the reported Cuban base at Camp Calivigny 12 kilometers away. At the same time, the Marines of TF 124.2



Figure III-3. Grenada: US D-Day Plan

would assault Pears airport and the town of Grenville. Concurrently SEAL elements of TF 123, reinforced by a company of Rangers, would conduct three operations: seize the radio transmitter at Beausejour, secure Governor General Sir Paul Scoon in his residence at Government House until he could be evacuated, and seize the prison at Richmond Hill to protect all political prisoners who might be there.

b. This was an ambitious plan, considering the lack of intelligence, coordination, and planning time. The night of 24 October and early morning of the 25th were inevitably filled with last minute changes, inability to

communicate, miscommunications, and mistakes. These actions demonstrated conclusively the existence of Clausewitz's "fog and friction of war." At around 0200 hours on the 25th, the Marines learned that an amphibious landing was not possible at Grenville, and so shifted to an air assault plan. Soon thereafter, the second attempt to emplace navigation beacons at Point Salines failed. In the air, the Rangers found that the runway was blocked and that a parachute assault would be required instead of an air landing. Unfortunately, the inability to communicate in the air caused additional confusion. Some units had to re-grip parachutes at the last minute.

c. Although the Rangers began their drop nearly on time, it was completed more than 90 minutes late. There was no surprise, with the first plane coming under heavy, albeit ineffective, ground fire. Despite this, and because of Ranger professionalism, training, and determination, the airport was secured and the St. George's students were evacuated with only minimal casualties to the soldiers. It became clear, however, that the planned capture of Camp Calivigny 12 km away would be too much for the force to accomplish on D-Day.

d. By 0330 hours, the Marines had launched more than 20 helicopters for their missions. By 0730 hours, they had secured both their objectives at Pearls and the town of Grenville. Their quick success made reemployment to aid the Army and the SOF in the southern part of the island a possibility. This movement would reveal additional problems in the overall operation, such as the failure to appoint a joint force land component commander, the lack of a joint force air component commander on the *USS Guam*, as well as minimal Air Force and Army representation on the staff. These factors had an adverse impact on tactical operations equivalent to that caused by the lack of maps and the failure to exchange liaison officers and radio frequency information.

e. Much of the detail surrounding the three TF 123 missions remains classified. The first of the three post H-Hour missions, securing the radio transmitter, was initially successful. However, a counterattack by a superior force equipped with heavy weapons forced abandonment of the transmitter. The second mission, securing the Governor General in his residence, was also initially successful. But a PRA counterattack with heavy weapons and armored personnel carriers (APCs) surrounded the rescuers and required additional forces to be committed to ensure the mission was successful. The final

mission, the seizure of Richmond Hill prison, was a disaster. Aerial photographs proved unreliable, and what had appeared to be a close-in landing zone was unusable. Additionally, the defenders put up strong defensive fire and drove off the assaulting helicopters several times. Finally, the PRA guns at nearby Ft. Frederick joined in and made success impossible. These events, combined with conflicting reports and the problems with slower than anticipated progress in the south, unhinged the plan and caused anxiety aboard the *Guam*.

"The rule is; 'The ability to gain victory by changing and adapting according to opponents is called genius.'"

Liu Ji
Lessons of War, 1310-1375

7. Change of Plans

a. Around mid-day on 25 October, the invading force learned that, in addition to their other problems, as many as 200 of the American students were located at the Grand Anse annex about 3 kilometers northeast of the main St. George's campus. This was the first time anyone in the invading force knew that there was a second campus. Something would have to be done to ensure the students' safety. Again, lack of intelligence had an operational impact.

b. The more immediate problem was to aid the TF 123 elements at the Governor General's residence. VADM Metcalf, in consultation with his ground operations advisor, Army Major General H. Norman Schwarzkopf, ordered the uncommitted Marine company still aboard the amphibious vessels to move to the west side of the island to conduct a landing in the vicinity of Grand Mal Bay. The amphibious assault would be accompanied by an airlift of the company at Grenville. Delays and changes in plans intervened, and it was not until 1830 hours that the amphibious landing commenced. The airlift

from Grenville began at 0400 hours on 26 October and went off without a hitch. These two companies then moved south to relieve the pressure on the TF 123 element and the Army. Eventually, accurate fire by the AC-130s and the arrival of reinforcements drove off the PRA and permitted the evacuation of the Governor General.

c. Meanwhile, around Point Salines the AC-130s began to run short of fuel and ammunition. Without air or artillery support, movement slowed. In response, VADM Metcalf directed Marine attack helicopters from TF 124.2 to assist the Army, but there was no exchange of liaison officers or radio frequencies for either the Army or the Air Force gunships. The pilots could not raise anyone on the radio and had to return to the *Guam* for refueling. At that time the helicopters stumbled on the proper frequency and established contact with the engaged ground force. Then the problem of not having common maps arose. Despite this, two COBRA gunships were able to provide supporting fires and then pass the proper frequencies on to their two ship relief. Unfortunately, one of these ships was shot down as it attacked the PRA elements firing from Ft. Frederick. Later that same evening the Marines, attacking at night from Grand Mal Bay, secured Ft. Frederick without a fight.

d. VADM Metcalf also sent the medium helicopters of TF 124.2 to assist the Army in securing the students at Grande Anse on the 26th. MG Schwarzkopf directed the Marine helicopters to lift Army troops to Grand Anse. At first the Marine commander refused because Schwarzkopf had no official command authority. Metcalf subsequently named Schwarzkopf deputy commander of the joint task force. The helicopter force left the *Guam* thinking they were going to transport Marines and were surprised upon landing at Point Salines to hear they were to carry Army Rangers. The professionalism

exhibited by all involved again saved the day. As it turned out, the Marine helicopter squadron commander and Ranger battalion commander were VMI classmates who sat down, developed a plan, and rescued the students.

8. Concluding Events

a. There were numerous small unit operations still to take place; however, by late afternoon of 26 October, with the Governor General safe, the students protected, and the RMC crushed, all the major objectives of Operation URGENT FURY were met except for the capture of the supposed Cuban camp at Calivigny. Although there had been some exchange of fire with Cubans and a large number of prisoners had been taken, the invading force remained unsure of the Cuban intent and expected a fight. Their slow progress towards taking the camp (it was a D-Day objective) was indicative of this uncertainty. Minimal availability of supporting fires also contributed to the slow advance. Intelligence reported inflated figures and capabilities for the Cubans, with estimates that as many as 1,000 well-armed and highly trained professional soldiers remained on Grenada.

b. At midday, the JCS recommended that Camp Calivigny be taken by nightfall. The camp was situated on a barren peninsula east of the Point Salines airport. It served as the main base for the PRA and had been closed off to civilian visitors for several years. The camp consisted of a few buildings, a rifle range, and an assault course. Few PRA troops were there, as most had been deployed to other sites in preparation for the invasion, or had simply melted into the civilian population after the invasion began.

c. The plan was to lay down a 30 minute artillery preparation (augmented by AC-130s, naval gunfire, and naval air support) that would smash the camp and its defenders,

then conduct a heliborne assault with the Rangers to mop up any remaining resistance. Again, planning time was extremely limited, intelligence was minimal, and maps nonexistent. There was no time for a ground reconnaissance; planning was done from aerial photographs. Things went wrong from the start, with the approximately 500 artillery rounds fired falling harmlessly short of the target. There was no way to communicate between the batteries and the assaulting force to order an adjustment. Naval gunfire was just as ineffective, and was stopped by VADM Metcalf because of the close proximity of friendly troops. On the other hand, air support was very effective, all but completely destroying the camp. However, as the assault began, three helicopters crashed during the attempted landing, killing and seriously wounding several Rangers. All of this effort went to learn that there were no Cubans (or anyone else) in the camp.

d. The Ranger assault was the last significant action of Operation URGENT FURY. Despite numerous problems, the mission of JTF 120 had been accomplished. While restoration of democracy and the protection of American lives were important outcomes, perhaps the most important and lasting effect of the operation was the impetus it gave to improving the joint capabilities of our Armed Forces. The lessons of this operation were significant in passage of the Goldwater-Nichols Act.

"Everything in war is simple, but the simplest thing is difficult."

Clausewitz

9. Grenada and Joint Employment Principles

a. With General Vessey's urging, VADM Metcalf planned a classic and simple **coup de main** whereby the overwhelming power of the United States could **simultaneously attack** critical points across the island and

paralyze the opposition. Operating in dimensions in which the Cubans and PRA could not compete, his plan was to **asymmetrically dominate the battlespace** and defeat the enemy. The reality of the invasion was something less. The simple and effective plan unraveled when events didn't unfold as predicted, and the friction of war made its presence felt.

b. There are five key characteristics of **forcible entry** operations: OPSEC, speed, SOF, deception, and surprise. These characteristics give the entering force an initial advantage to seize and hold a lodgment area in the face of armed opposition. The ability to execute forcible entry gives JFCs another means to gain the initiative at the start of combat operations

c. **OPSEC** is critical to the success of a forcible entry operation because the attacking force is vulnerable during the initial phases. Every potential advantage must be leveraged to ensure success. Poor OPSEC can result in the loss of tactical surprise, which may doom such an operation from the start. Conversely, OPSEC must not be so restrictive as to prevent the exchange of information and planning data between the forces being committed. The desire to limit knowledge of Operation URGENT FURY during the planning stage caused great difficulty for the tactical commanders during execution and affected political, military and public affairs preparation. Forces were unable to coordinate, were unaware of each other's participation and plans, and often were forced to improvise to get the job done. Some units departed without essential equipment (special operations helicopter crews without flak jackets) because they thought they were going on an exercise. Field artillery units had no aiming circles, so they missed Camp Calivigny. Success, in spite of these obstacles, illustrates the strength that the professionalism of the US soldiers brings to the joint force commander.

d. **Speed** of execution keeps the enemy force off balance and forces it to react to planned initiatives. Planning must anticipate difficulties and provide for overcoming them so that speed is not compromised. The lack of intelligence, poor communications, and equipment failures frustrated airborne operations on D-Day. These factors caused the assault to be made in daylight and stretched the operation out over 90 minutes. These facts slowed the operation and could easily have compromised its success. If the Cubans or the PRA had decided to defend the Point Salines airport, the potential for US casualties would have greatly increased.

e. **Special operations forces** were a central element of the URGENT FURY plan. The failure of the first attempt to emplace additional navigation devices at Point Salines caused VADM Metcalf to delay H-Hour from 0200 to 0500 hours. When other complications arose, the result was that much of the initial assault was made in daylight instead of darkness. In the end, the navigation devices were never emplaced, but the Air Force easily found the landing site using the on-board navigation capability of the MC-130s.

f. The other missions of TF 123 also ran into difficulties that can be traced to poor threat intelligence as well as taskings which were inappropriate for this type of force. The lightly armed special forces did not expect and were not prepared to defeat armored vehicles. They were not equipped to handle the ferocious air defense and the lack of a secure landing site at the Richmond Hill prison. The value of SOF is not in launching an air assault in daylight, nor in holding positions against determined attack for long periods. SOF go in quietly, do the job quickly, and depart. Operation URGENT FURY planning largely overlooked these SOF characteristics. The skill and professionalism of the Service members involved prevented operational and political disaster.

g. **Surprise** allows the assaulting force to establish a foothold with limited enemy interference. Strategic surprise was lost when the Cuban government learned that the OECS had asked the United States to intervene. Nevertheless, tactical surprise remained a possibility. Had the various D-Day operations been launched in the dark, the planned coup de main would have surprised the enemy and opposition would have been nonexistent. Once dawn broke, all chance of surprise was lost. **Deception** appears to have played no part in the invasion plans. This may be traced to the assumption that, since the operation would be launched in the dark against a less sophisticated enemy and by overwhelming force across the entire island, formal deception planning would not be necessary. Full deception planning includes multiple options that help confound any potential defense.

h. The selection of LANTCOM to lead was appropriate for this operation. Grenada was within its geographic AOR. The opportunity to adapt existing LANTCOM plans to the immediate situation existed. There was an operation plan in concept format on the books for such an operation in the LANTCOM AOR, and a JTF built around the XVIII Airborne Corps Headquarters could have executed it.

i. Grenada presents a strong lesson on the need for truly integrated joint staffs. Because the LANTCOM and JTF 120 staffs were primarily naval, there was diminished understanding of the requirements for airborne and land operations. When the operation was envisioned as a permissive evacuation to be accomplished by a Navy-Marine Corps team, this lack of joint representation was not a real problem. However, when the mission changed, Army and Air Force representation became critical. Unfortunately, compartmentalization and short reaction time prevented assembly of such a staff. The naming of an Army deputy

commander for JTF 120 was conceptually valid, but the person selected had nothing to do with the units participating or the operational area. To then limit his staff to two majors and restrict his communications

made him virtually ineffective. Many of the problems encountered by the executing forces would have been anticipated and perhaps eliminated or reduced by a more representational **joint planning staff**.

Military Incident #5

UNITY OF COMMAND: PAULUS, VARRO, AND HANNIBAL FIGHT AT CANNAE

Hannibal crushed Roman forces twice, confirming the wisdom of Fabius's strategy of avoiding battle.

By 2 August, 216 B.C., Hannibal had crossed the Alps and had crushed Roman armies at Trebia and Lake Trasimene. Established in southern Italy, he hoped to win allies in Italy among states discontented with Roman domination. After the battles at Trebia and Lake Trasimene, the newly chosen Roman dictator Fabius Cunctator had studiously avoided battle with Hannibal. The time Fabius gained was critical to rebuilding Roman forces. However, Roman military tradition and doctrine revered the offensive. In October of 217 B.C., Fabius had barely been able to save M. Minucius Rufus, his former subordinate, when Rufus unwisely attacked Hannibal's forces at Geronium. Rufus learned his lesson, and deferred to Fabius from then on. Rome, unfortunately, did not.

Rome alternated command between two consuls, who completely disagreed on strategy.

Using the time gained by Fabius' policy and doctrine, Rome gathered an army of 16 legions, 8 of them Roman and 8 allied. As before, command was divided. The daily alternating commanders were Aemilius Paulus, who agreed with Fabius, and Terentius Varro, who desired an early battle. Hannibal greatly desired a battle, since he knew that delay would only weaken his forces, which had no lines of communications with Carthage. Hoping to force a battle, Hannibal marched at night to Cannae, capturing a Roman supply depot. His position also made the grain fields of southern Apulia available to his army. The Roman army followed him, camping about 6 miles away. Hannibal was aware of the Roman command arrangements, and arrayed his forces for battle on a day on which he knew Terentius Varro was to command.

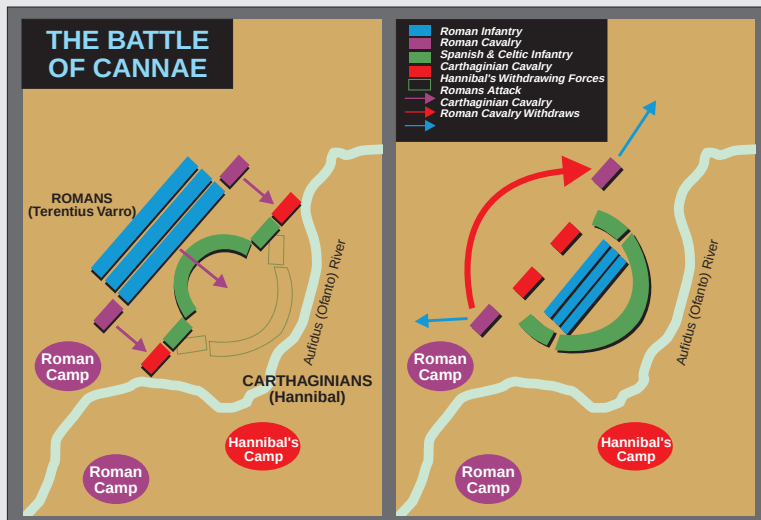
Hannibal had laid both an operational and tactical trap.

Aemilius Paulus, knowing delay favored the Romans, counseled Varro to avoid battle, especially at that place and time. Instead, impetuous Varro fell directly into Hannibal's trap. Varro narrowed his front to match the width of Hannibal's army, hoping to crush the Carthaginian center by the weight and shock of the attacking legions. Hannibal moved the infantry at his center slightly forward, while his cavalry drove off the horses of Rome's allies. Hannibal's heavy cavalry was thus suddenly on the rear of the advancing Roman infantry. To complete his plan, Hannibal's center infantry retired into a concave line as if under the pressure of virtually all of Varro's infantry.

Roman cohesion completely collapsed.

Hannibal sprung the trap, ordering his barely engaged wings to circle around the Roman infantry at the same moment his cavalry struck the Roman formations from behind. In an instant the Romans went from an illusory feeling of impending victory to sudden understanding of their plight. Panic ensued and the army became a mob. One contingent of 10,000 Romans managed to fight free, but over 60,000 died. Ironically, Terentius Varro survived, while the wise but unfortunate Aemilius Paulus died. Hannibal stood as the master of the field, at the height of his career.

No battle in history so clearly illustrates the criticality of unity of command.



The Battle of Cannae

CHAPTER IV

OPERATION JUST CAUSE

"They were well trained for the mission, and they fought the way they were trained."

General Carl W. Stiner

1. Introduction

a. Throughout the 1980's the United States' relationship with Panama fluctuated between accommodation and condemnation. The need for Panamanian assistance in support of the Nicaraguan Contras created a convenient blind spot to the growing power and excesses of Manuel Antonio Noriega, the head of the Panama Defense Forces (PDF). Efforts to rein him in proved fruitless. Diplomatic overtures to get him to resign and leave Panama were rebuffed. Under Noriega, the self-proclaimed "Maximum Leader," Panama had become a significant transshipment and financial center for drug exports to the United States. In 1988 he was indicted on Federal drug trafficking charges, making an already tense situation worse. It became clear that Noriega and the PDF were a serious threat to stability in the region. In view of the strategic importance of Panama in the Western Hemisphere and the economic necessity of the Panama Canal, something had to be done.

b. In reflection, it is clear that the military invasion of Panama, Operation JUST CAUSE, was a joint success. The military was able to translate strategic goals into real military objectives. The invasion commenced in the middle of the night with overwhelming forces and attacked numerous military targets across Panama. Heading up the operation, Lieutenant General Carl W. Stiner, USA, had knowledge of the enemy that suggested the PDF was a centralized force with vulnerable centers of gravity incapable of numerous actions at once without direction

from Noriega himself. Operation JUST CAUSE proved him right.

c. Months of harassment of Americans, anti-US demonstrations and barely controlled hostility made Panama a most difficult place to live. By mid-December 1989, there had been a failed coup, rampant brutality, and increased tension. On 15 December, the National Assembly of Corregimiento representatives declared Panama in a state of war. On the evening of 16 December, four Marines were confronted and fired upon. Two were wounded and First Lieutenant Robert Paz was killed. His death and the beating of a US Navy officer and his wife precipitated the decision to launch a military invasion. The United States was committing forces in Panama in the largest military operation since the Vietnam War to protect US citizens, secure the Panama Canal, support democracy for the people of Panama, and apprehend Manuel Noriega.

2. Planning

a. As early as 5 August 1989, Lieutenant General Stiner, then commanding general of the Army's premier XVIII Airborne Corps, received a warning that General Maxwell Thurman, the designated Commander of US Southern Command (USSOUTHCOM), intended Stiner to be his "man in Panama," to be responsible for all contingency planning and to command any actual combat operations. Stiner had the staff, intelligence assets, and communications to get a Panama contingency plan in shape. Stiner was an aggressive professional who understood "Get Ready!" Additionally, General Thurman's

choice of Stiner worked well in reducing the friction associated with a complex joint task force; the two had worked together before and shared bonds of familiarity and trust.

b. Even before receiving command, General Thurman made suggestions on the size of the forces to be involved in the invasion. He insisted that sufficient forces be massed and committed in the initial assault to overwhelm the PDF in every operational area. Thurman firmly believed that massing superior forces would save lives and lead to a quick success.

c. The standing overall Panama contingency plan, code named PRAYER BOOK (which included the BLUE SPOON plan for attacking the PDF) was examined and reworked in detail. When Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff General Colin Powell reviewed it, he emphasized surprise, speed, and night operations. General Thurman took over USSOUTHCOM on 30 September 1989. On 30 October he approved the BLUE SPOON operation order, and the name was changed to Operation JUST CAUSE. The revised plan was built on maximum surprise, with maximum combat forces using minimum force. Collateral damage was to be kept at a minimum. The forces involved would deploy rapidly and simultaneously from a number of locations, arriving in Panama with overwhelming combat power. This plan was complex, involving both SOF and conventional forces carefully synchronized for maximum disruptive effect. Lieutenant General Stiner and all key staff officers made numerous planning trips to Panama to ensure that all tactical, targeting, and logistics issues were addressed and solved.

d. Lieutenant General Stiner, as Commander, Joint Task Force (CJTF) South, was to be in overall command of all US combat forces. Stiner's plan was for swift,

violent, multiple forcible entry operations coupled with the employment of forces previously built up in-country, rather than for a drawn-out, piecemeal operation. By using in-country bases, Stiner ensured powerful operational reach. The synergy created by the synchronization of these operations is a classic example of operational art in action. Command and control would flow from the CJTF to the various component and subordinate task force commanders. Some specialized units remained under the direct control of the CJTF. An OPLAN was developed that strictly regulated everything in the air, with tight control exercised from Howard Air Force Base. The all-important unity of command was protected by new procedures created by the Goldwater-Nichols Act. The commander's clear, tight intent, an advanced plan, and command and control cells streamlined operations.

e. Using in-country bases made OPSEC a major concern for General Stiner. He and his staff used unmarked aircraft and civilian clothes for repeated trips to Panama. Briefings and operation orders were only given to those with proven needs for the information. Equipment was moved under cover of darkness and concealed. Throughout the planning stage of the operation, only senior commanders and staff knew the actual plan's link to preparations. Despite planning this operation from Fort Bragg over several months, Stiner was able to maintain tight operations security. PDF intelligence failures contributed significantly to US success in Operation JUST CAUSE. On the other hand, forward-thinking personnel assignment policies, which sent motivated, talented Spanish-speakers on repeated tours with the in-country Army and Marine units, contributed greatly to the success of this operation.

f. On the evening of 19 December, all forces involved were alerted; planning,

rehearsal, buildup, and training were over. In the first minutes of 20 December, President Guillermo Endara and his Vice Presidents, who had been elected in May, were sworn in at Fort Clayton. The United States officially recognized his government and at 0100 hours Operation JUST CAUSE began.

3. Joint Task Force South

a. Joint Task Force South planned to attack with simultaneity and depth by neutralizing, isolating, or protecting twenty seven major targets in its operational area. Major target areas included Panama City, Rio Hato, and the Torrijos Airport. The targets were more than 70 miles apart. In the Panama City area of operations, Stiner was able to concentrate his task force and prevent Noriega and the PDF from taking large numbers of hostages or seizing the initiative even briefly. The forces involved in Operation JUST CAUSE deployed to Panama from six regions across the United States and made a lightning strike into Panama. These forces demonstrated agility, and within hours most military objectives were secured with small-unit operations over an extended operating area. The rapid, overwhelming use of force shortened the invasion and reduced the loss of life. The PDF was not able to respond to multiple attacks.

b. Operation JUST CAUSE illustrated the importance of the commander's concept and intent. The entire task force was able to focus on accomplishment of USCINCSOUTH's assigned objectives and directed their major combat efforts towards the PDF's centers of gravity from the outset of the operation to its speedy conclusion. General Stiner's concept allowed the sequencing of forces to take advantage of land, naval, air, and special operations forces in concentrating combat power. The joint SOF helped to prepare the battlefield and then reinforced the main effort once the airborne attack was over.

4. Joint Special Operations Task Force

a. Major General Wayne Downing, USA, as Commander, Joint Special Operations Task Force, held responsibility for all SOF. These forces included Army Rangers, Navy SEAL units, Army Special Forces, and Air Force Special Operations Forces, totaling 4,150 soldiers, sailors, and airmen. These SOF received very difficult assignments ranging from infiltration, clandestine reconnaissance, and underwater demolition to rescuing Kurt Frederick Muse from the Carcel Modelo prison. Muse, an American, was a clandestine radio operator and focus for Panamanian opposition to Noriega. Special operations elements participated in almost every action in Operation JUST CAUSE.

b. The initial efforts to overwhelm the PDF were conducted by US SOF conducting attacks across the country (Figure IV-1). These skilled units attacked PDF strong points, garrisons, airports, transportation centers, and media locations. However, the primary objective for all special operations forces remained Noriega himself. USSOUTHCOM, aided by intelligence personnel from the National Security Agency and the Central Intelligence Agency, had been tracking and reporting Noriega's movements and activities daily. Noriega was a master of deception and disappeared prior to the attack. The dictator was so busy running, however, that he had little hand in directing the battle.

c. Naval Special Warfare Forces had three objectives in Operation JUST CAUSE: deny the PDF use of Balboa Harbor and their patrol boats; isolate certain PDF forces; and put Noriega's personal jet at Paitilla Airport out of action. SEAL Team 4 of Naval Special Warfare Group-2 was a part of General Downing's command. The highly trained

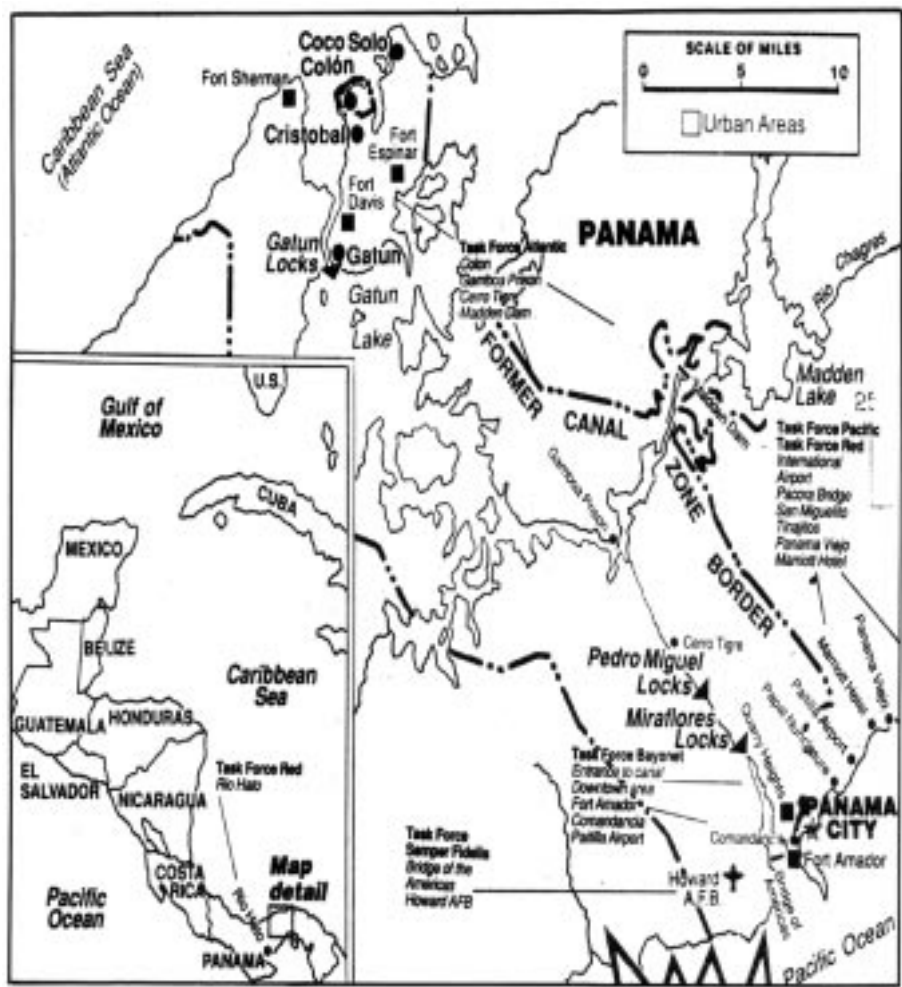


Figure IV-1. Map of Panama

commandos numbered more than 700 sailors, including special boat units and countermine personnel. These sailors became Task Force White under their own commander, Commander Tom McGrath. The attackers left their peacetime base at Rodman Naval Station and disabled the *Presidente Porras*, Noriega's yacht, precluding his escape by boat. This was the first time since World War II that US frogmen attacked a pier-side enemy vessel. At the same time, SEAL platoons attacking Paitilla Airport received devastating fire and quickly took multiple casualties. In response, Commander McGrath sent in two additional platoons. Within a few hours the reinforced SEALs silenced the PDF defenders, secured the airport, and disabled Noriega's personal Lear jet, shutting off the aerial escape route.

d. Intelligence collection was critical to the success of Operation JUST CAUSE. Noriega was watched, listened to, and tracked. The US forces received excellent intelligence on the size and loyalty of the PDF at Rio Hato, Fort Amador, and Fort Cimarron. Noriega supporters and those PDF soldiers friendly to the United States were identified. This was most helpful in making decisions associated with the civil affairs efforts that followed the battle. Senior commanders were also able to conduct a detailed reconnaissance of the operational area prior to combat. All US forces were able to talk with each other. The Joint Communications and Electronics procedures worked. Everyone who needed frequencies and call signs had them. Effective command, control, communications and control support gave the US forces a tactical edge.

"Rapidity is the essence of war: take advantage of the enemy's unreadiness, make your way by unexpected routes, and attack unguarded spots."

Sun Tzu

e. Elsewhere in the city, specially trained and equipped Army Delta Force personnel approached the Carcel Modelo prison to rescue Kurt Muse. Major General Gary Luck, who had previously commanded the JSOC, had planned this phase of the operation. He and his staff developed a well-rehearsed, detailed, minute by minute plan. In a matter of minutes, Muse was rescued and whisked away by helicopter. Before reaching safety, the helicopter was hit by ground fire. A flexible plan allowed the rescue to be completed by an APC.

f. The Rio Hato Airfield lies some 60 miles southwest of Panama City. Like many airfields, it has both commercial and military facilities. At H-hour, the 75th Ranger Regiment commanded by Colonel William F. Kernan parachuted into Rio Hato. Its missions were to capture the airfield, neutralize the PDF, and clear and isolate the military facilities. All of this was to be accomplished with minimum casualties. While collateral damage considerations denied the Rangers full use of US Air Force F-117A fighters, some offset "stun grenade" bombing was allowed. While it was reasonably successful, important Air Force training decisions regarding F-117A precision bombing resulted. These changes later proved critical in Operations DESERT SHIELD and DESERT STORM. The Rangers secured the airfield, and in less than 2 hours US Air Force planes were landing essential equipment for the operation.

g. Operation JUST CAUSE revealed the need for increased technology in order to avoid fratricide. In two cases, soldiers received friendly fire. At Rio Hato in a night operation, a helicopter fired on an Army squad and two soldiers were killed. On D-Day near La Comandancia, a Spectre, or AC-130 gunship, wounded a number of soldiers while they were attacking one of their objectives in the PDF complex. The

improvements in technology sought as a result of these incidents would assist US operations in the Gulf War.

5. Task Force Bayonet

a. Task Force Bayonet, commanded by Colonel Mike Snell of the 193rd Infantry Brigade, was the major fighting force of the task force already stationed in Panama. The task force's operations were planned with the objective of capturing and neutralizing La Comandancia, Fort Amador, and smaller PDF garrisons within Panama City. The 4th Battalion, 6th Infantry (M) from Fort Polk, Louisiana, provided reinforcements. Snell divided Task Force Bayonet into elements built around mechanized and airborne units in order to seize and secure the compound at La Comandancia. The complex was the main headquarters and command center of the PDF. The buildings were reinforced with concrete and in the center of the downtown area, a mere 600 yards from USSOUTHCOM headquarters. La Comandancia housed numerous weapons, Soviet-made grenade launchers, and small arms. Other military equipment, vehicles, armored cars, and anti-aircraft weapons were also garrisoned there. As the command post of the PDF, the facility was high on the target list, and US troops called it "Bravo One." Other companies moved against Fort Amador, Ancon Hill, and Balboa. The APCs of the 4th Battalion, 6th Infantry, with four Sheridan tanks and four Marine light armored vehicles (LAVs), protected the soldiers moving through the built-up urban areas of Panama City.

b. The element of surprise had been compromised by early special operations and general observations of troop movement. The PDF knew the Americans were leaving their assembly areas, and were on alert. As a result, Task Force Bayonet faced roadblocks and barricades. The PDF had established firing positions around the compound and made excellent use of cars and large commercial

garbage trucks. These positions were also covered by heavy weapons and RPG grenade launchers.

c. The fighting at La Comandancia was fierce and the firepower of the M-113s had been an excellent addition by the planners. US Air Force AC-130s also supported the attack with good effect. Once past the roadblocks, the troops in the final charge faced increased fire from the apartment buildings near La Comandancia. The M-113s had difficulty defending themselves from sniper fire in the taller buildings. Pockets of PDF resistance continued throughout the night. By daybreak on 20 December, La Comandancia was still not secure. The soldiers had broken through initial PDF defenses and established a perimeter around the headquarters complex. Brutal fighting continued for the rest of the morning, but resistance waned by mid-afternoon. Rangers, having secured the Omar Torrijos International Airport, joined Colonel Snell and the 193rd Infantry Brigade in subduing the PDF still holding La Comandancia and the PDF intelligence headquarters nearby. By early evening, Task Force Bayonet's mission was accomplished and Noriega's headquarters was secured.

6. Task Force Semper Fidelis

a. The US Marines of Task Force Semper Fidelis were given a number of blocking missions that included the Bridge of the Americas and portions of Howard Air Force Base. For more than a year, elements of the 2nd Light Armored Infantry Battalion had been deployed as a part of Marine Forces Panama to exercise contingency plans and provide security and surveillance of the PDF forces.

b. Company D arrived in Panama in late October 1989 to relieve Company B. They brought replacement LAV's plus additional mortar and TOW personnel. The in-country

Marines trained with Army and Air Force units using the ROUGH RIDER concept of protecting convoys by interspersing armed troops in LAV's among trucks of normal cargo. The LAV units were joined with other Marine forces to include several companies of 3rd Battalion, 6th Marines, Security Force Company, and a platoon of the First Fleet Anti-Terrorist Security Team. Later Task Force Semper Fidelis was augmented by Army MPs, engineers, and artillery troops of D Battery, 320th Field Artillery.

c. During their routine training exercises, the Marines had become acquainted with the tactics of the PDF and had patrolled around the Arraijan tank farm. As a result they were ideally suited to ensure that PDF mortarmen remained beyond the range of Howard Air Force Base. The Marines performed maintenance on the evening of 19 December. Prior to the attack, Task Force Commander Colonel Charles E. Richardson detached a platoon to Task Force Bayonet to assist the Sheridan tanks in their attack on La Comandancia. The Marines of D Company attacked along Thatcher Highway towards Arraijan, securing key positions and road intersections. Near the Traffic and Transportation Station, the column was hit by small arms fire. Scouts dismounted and cleared the building. As the remainder of the column continued towards Arraijan, it engaged the PDF and captured five prisoners. The Marines gained control of Arraijan. The speed and mobility of the LAV's on the Panamanian roads, combined with the highly trained, dismounted Marine infantry, paid good dividends for the task force.

8. Task Force Atlantic

a. The Third Brigade of 7th Infantry Division (Light) under the command of Colonel Keith Kellogg made up Task Force Atlantic. He was responsible for neutralizing the threat to the Atlantic terminus of the Panama Canal. His units had used treaty-

sanctioned "freedom of movement" drills to rehearse their contingency plan and were ready to switch to combat.

b. Colonel Kellogg's operational area stretched from Paraiso near USSOUTHCOM headquarters to Colon, more than 50 miles away. At H-hour, his forces attacked nine different targets, including five PDF installations and the Madden Dam. The dam was important because it provided the electrical power to operate the Canal. More than 1,000 Americans lived in this sector and required protection. "If you lose an American — a civilian — I don't care how good you've done, you've lost the battle," General Maxwell Thurman told Kellogg.

c. By surrounding the PDF and using measured application of combat power, Task Force Atlantic was able to rescue civilians, capture the Coco Solo Naval Infantry Company, and block the city of Colon. In several places, especially Fort Espinar, considerable resistance was encountered. After capturing 400 prisoners and 1,600 weapons, the Americans were welcomed with flags and cheers by the citizens of Colon. Task Force Atlantic made equally short work of Madden Dam, Cerro Tigre, and Renacer Prison. "Training paid off... it reduced casualties," Colonel Jack Nix reported.

d. When 3rd Battalion, 504th Infantry secured Renacer prison, all prisoners, including two American journalists, were unharmed and in US hands. The PDF had resisted, and getting in had not been easy. During the assault on Renacer Prison, the soldiers of 3/504 PIR engaged targets with a multitude of weapons and encountered many unfamiliar obstacles. In addition to concertina wire, there were 8- and 10-ft-high chain link fences. There were steel doors and concrete walls along with iron bars and heavy-duty padlocks. Pressed for time and under heavy fire, soldiers used their organic weapons against these obstacles.

9. Task Force Pacific

a. At 2130 hours on 19 December, the 82nd Airborne Division at Fort Bragg, North Carolina, under the command of Major General James Johnson, took off for Panama. The December weather caused some take off delays, but General Johnson had excellent communications and the late departing aircraft caught up en route. Air Force C-141s, staging out of Charleston, South Carolina, air dropped the division's heavy equipment and containerized cargo on schedule at 0145 hours. The equipment drop commenced the 82nd Airborne Division's combat operations.

b. General Johnson was the first jumper in a 60-man stick. Their objective was the Torrijos Airfield. The Rangers had not yet secured the drop zone and resistance was expected. The soldiers showed the discipline instilled by training as they moved slowly over swampy, unfamiliar terrain to their assembly areas. More than 2,100 paratroopers made the combat jump into Panama. The link-up with the Rangers occurred at 0500 hours and the ground attack started. Small unit leadership excelled as Task Force Pacific secured its three objectives, Panama Viejo, the Marriott Hotel, and Tinajitas. More than 100 unanticipated hostages were recovered and General Johnson's soldiers quickly proved that they could handle the unexpected. The isolated battles of Operation JUST CAUSE were fought as small unit actions across the former Canal Zone. US soldiers handled these actions with skill and determined professionalism.

"The best plans of the best generals can turn to zip if you don't have the right kinds of people to execute."

General Colin Powell

10. Supporting Democracy

a. As the PDF forces were neutralized, widespread looting and general lawlessness reduced Panama to a state of anarchy. The units of the task force had to quickly bring some sort of order to both the cities and countryside. Everything from providing medical care and emergency food and water to selecting and training local police was required. On 22 December, President Bush sent in 2,000 more troops to support the 22,500 already there in the stability operations. While the military had achieved its initial objectives, Bush declared that the mission was not over until stability had been established. Over 200 civil affairs (CA) and 250 psychological operations (PSYOP) personnel bolstered the newly installed government of President Endara. As the situation became more stable and the democratic process began to take hold, Operation JUST CAUSE ended on 31 January 1990. The troops were pulled out and the military presence in Panama returned to its pre-invasion strength of about 13,500.

"History is full of ignominious getaways by the great and famous."

George Orwell

11. Finding Noriega

During the days following the invasion, US forces continued to search for Noriega. On Christmas Eve, Noriega presented himself to the Papal Nuncio and requested political asylum. Soon, Joint Task Force South had the Vatican representative's house surrounded. On the evening of 3 January 1990, Manuel Noriega surrendered to Delta Force soldiers outside the embassy. In just over 40 minutes, Noriega was on his way to Miami on Federal drug charges. USSOUTHCOM had now accomplished all its objectives. General Thurman could be pleased.

12. Panama and Joint Employment Principles

a. Beyond question, “Joint Warfare is Team Warfare.” Team Warfare was essential to success in Operation JUST CAUSE. As the operation unfolded, US forces demonstrated their advanced training and readiness prior to receiving the alert order. Many of the troops had lived through the steadily deteriorating conditions and were well aware that the situation would likely be relieved by force. Out of country assets had gained much by the US military buildup and lessons learned that followed Operation URGENT FURY. Moreover, better educated troops and constant news stories out of Panama helped ensure that US forces were mentally prepared for action on short notice. Each part of the Joint Task Force was organized, trained, and equipped to fight skillfully and effectively under better prepared leadership. By the time of Operation JUST CAUSE, the concept of “come as you are” war had been accepted throughout the US military and had been reflected in training, readiness levels, and conceptual thought. Soldiers, sailors, airmen, and Marines had worked hard at learning to cooperate with other Services. As the battle unfolded in JUST CAUSE, neither weather, swamps, hostile action, nor unexpected events altered the desired outcome. Each commander had the advantage of detailed knowledge of the enemy through continuing intelligence collection and modern technology. The forces had developed specific responses to reduce the “fog of war.” Attention had specifically been paid to new developments in communications, intelligence, planning, and coordination.

b. The hard work, training, and professionalism of the troops, planners, and commanders paid off in Operation JUST CAUSE. This operation was one of the largest and most complex joint airborne and ground contingency operations in recent history. JUST CAUSE melded all US

Services, branches, and SOF together for one enhanced, limited, and successful operation. As a whole, however, JUST CAUSE was also a demonstration of improvements in doctrine and organization.

c. Operation JUST CAUSE demonstrated that critical principles of war—**objective, offensive, mass, economy of force, maneuver, security, surprise, and simplicity**—bring victory today just as they did on ancient battlefields. Aware that local bases can be a two edge sword in a **forcible entry**, General Thurman used the advantages of a foothold in the country to support the **long operational reach** provided by modern airdrop, logistics, and communications. At the same time he and General Stiner realized that the use of local bases increased enemy operational intelligence. US commanders in JUST CAUSE paid extraordinary attention to **OPSEC** considerations, and were rewarded for their diligence by lower casualties and a shorter conflict. Local bases also need protection, particularly if dependents are present. While USSOUTHCOM had an obvious advantage in the amount of force it could bring to bear, it ensured **economy of force** by selecting critical **centers of gravity** to strike. Regardless of the relative size of forces, economy of force, achieved by prioritizing objectives, is required to enable **mass** to overwhelm critical points. In JUST CAUSE, US commanders followed sound doctrine to ensure mass was applied against centers of gravity. Moreover, by defining the person of the enemy commander as a critical center of gravity and forcing him to run, US commanders nullified any ability of Noriega’s forces to fight a cohesive, coordinated battle.

d. **Unity of command** was a critical key to preventing operational dispersion when planning and executing the **coordinated land, sea, and air action** needed for victory in Panama. Operation JUST CAUSE was the first major use of large US combat forces after passage of the Goldwater-Nichols Act. Throughout Operation JUST CAUSE, this legislation supported major improvements

in US combat power by establishing command arrangements that reinforced singularity of concept, effort, and command. General Thurman and his subordinate commanders, leaders, and action officers used the tools the Goldwater-

Nichols Act had given them with skill and success. These new procedures were soon to be coupled with bold operational concepts, multi-national cooperation, and modern military technology in Operation DESERT STORM.

Military Incident #6

FORCE WITHOUT CONCEPT: RAWLINSON ATTACKS ON THE SOMME

To relieve pressure on Verdun, the French requested British action in another sector.

As the Battle of Verdun continued in its mutual attrition, the French command requested that the British relieve some of the pressure on the fortress by attacking at another point on the line. The chosen point was the River Somme. The battle was to begin on 1 July 1916.

The preparatory bombardment destroyed surprise, but not the German defenses.

The battle was preceded by a 7 day bombardment. More than 1.6 million shells were fired, capped by the explosion of two enormous tunnel mines. Two hundred thousand tons of explosives went off under the German lines, tearing huge gaps in the trenches. In general, the defenses remained intact, while the ground between the forces became a broken morass of shell holes which quickly turned into a swamp; the bombardment had destroyed the centuries-old drainage system that kept the low-lying land dry. To the surprise of the attackers, most of the Germans were not only still alive, but they also maintained effective, cohesive fighting units. Moreover, the massive bombardment failed a critical task, which had been to destroy barbed wire entanglements. As the final barrage lifted, the Germans set up their machine guns in the still existing prepared positions. The British came over the top in parade formation.

Despite the death toll, the attack continued.

The British bravely advanced, although the soldiers fell not as individuals, but by regiments. Their commander, General Sir Henry Rawlinson, proposed ending the attack. His superior, General Sir Douglas Haig, decided to keep his promise to the French.

The best of Britain's army died for a gain of about eight miles.

The price was almost beyond belief. By the end of the first day, the British had suffered 60,000 casualties, including 19,000 killed in action. By the time the entire operation had ended, four and one half months later, the British had lost 420,000, the French 195,000, and the Germans, 650,000 men. Other than the mutual slaughter, the primary result was a slight reduction in the pressure on Verdun.

The battle of the Somme consisted of charging straight into the prepared positions of a competent enemy. Strategically, operationally, and tactically it typified the bankruptcy of military conceptual thought that made World War I a slaughterhouse. The technology available was as conducive to mobile warfare with low casualties as it was to static warfare. The problem was military concepts—doctrine. Operation DESERT STORM showed that military success derives from matching technology and doctrine to produce breakthrough concepts and battles.

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CHAPTER V

OPERATIONS DESERT SHIELD AND DESERT STORM

"This will not stand. This will not stand, this aggression against Kuwait."

President George Bush

1. Introduction

a. Each of the US Military Services has unique capabilities which must be fully exploited during specific phases of combat operations. Combined, these capabilities provide the synergistic combat power which enables the United States to exert its full might against an opponent. Where the opportunity exists, the most effective means of conducting war is with the combined mass and force of the joint force and, when possible, with coalition support. In Operation DESERT STORM, almost 50 countries joined their forces and national resources to drive Iraq out of Kuwait and severely cripple Saddam Hussein's warmaking capabilities for the future.

b. Operations DESERT SHIELD and DESERT STORM succeeded because available time was effectively used to create a broad base of support. Coalition building helped to isolate Iraq and to deter Saddam Hussein from an invasion of Saudi Arabia. The UN, the United States, and its coalition partners acted effectively against Iraq. There was widespread support to get Iraq troops out of Kuwait using whatever means necessary. This coalition was highly successful in limiting the number of friendly casualties and shortening the war.

2. Kuwait Invaded

a. When Saddam Hussein's Iraqi forces invaded Kuwait on 2 August 1990, the UN was faced with an act of naked aggression against one of its member states. Iraq had made a claim on the oil-rich territory of its

neighbor, sending Iraqi Republican Guard Forces across the Iraqi-Kuwaiti border. These armored units were accompanied by mechanized infantry and support units. A second armored division crossed the frontier farther west. Within the first hour, Iraqi special operations units attacked Kuwait City, conducting helicopter assaults against government buildings and palaces.

b. By evening of the first full day of the invasion, Sheik Jabar Al-Ahmad Al-Sabah, Emir of Kuwait, had fled to Saudi Arabia and Kuwait City was under Iraq's control. Iraqi military units occupied key port facilities and established strong positions on the Kuwait-Saudi border. Within several days, Saddam Hussein had more than 200,000 soldiers and 2,000 tanks in Kuwait. He then advised the world that he had annexed Kuwait, declaring it a province of Iraq. In the wake of the Iran-Iraq War, Saddam's military machine was a formidable, battle-tested force, the largest in the Persian Gulf area. Despite the demands of other Arab countries and the world community, Saddam refused to withdraw. He intended to strike all who would interfere "with stones . . . and with all the missiles, bombs and other means at our disposal." The UN condemned the invasion and called for the immediate withdrawal of Iraq.

c. President Bush also condemned the invasion, stating that "If history teaches us anything, it is that we must resist aggression or it will destroy our freedoms." He directed a buildup of the US forces in the region. Within one hour of the 2 August attack, naval battle groups spearheaded by the *USS Independence* and *USS Dwight D. Eisenhower* were ordered

from the Indian Ocean and Mediterranean Sea into the Gulf of Oman and the Red Sea.

d. The Gulf Cooperation Council (GCC) had reacted angrily to Saddam's invasion of Kuwait. As the United States responded to Kuwait's request for assistance, the GCC countries committed forces and offered access and logistic support. Egypt took a leadership role in forming the coalition. Syria offered assistance and began the deployment of one of its divisions, as did Morocco. Each of the member countries contributed to and remained solidly committed to the coalition. Saddam did not expect the coalition to hold together, but it never wavered.

3. Operation DESERT SHIELD Begins

a. Under the direction of US Central Command (USCENTCOM), the force buildup, code-named Operation DESERT SHIELD, began. With the operational area halfway around the world from the United States and thousands of Iraqi troops sitting on the Kuwait-Saudi border, speed in the buildup was critical. The President's intent was to deploy enough forces to deter an Iraqi attack on Saudi Arabia and to enforce UN Security Council Resolutions calling for Iraq's withdrawal from Kuwait. Diplomatic efforts would allow time to build an effective military coalition to fight a war.

b. It should be noted that the US command organization during this time was simpler and had more unity of command than those of previous wars. According to General H. Norman Schwarzkopf, Commander in Chief of US Central Command (USCINCCENT), "Goldwater-Nichols established very, very clear lines of command authority and responsibilities over subordinate commanders, and that meant a much more effective fighting force in the Gulf. The lines of authority were clear, and

we just did not have any problem in that area — none whatsoever." President Bush contributed to the success of USCINCCENT by providing clear direction and letting his field commander fight the war. Following his lead, Secretary of Defense Dick Cheney and Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff General Colin Powell did not micro-manage the war. These three men focused instead on helping to build the coalition and winning the necessary public support.

4. Force Composition

a. The buildup of Operation DESERT SHIELD took on a solid joint character from the very beginning. General Schwarzkopf named competent component commanders. The Ninth Air Force under Lieutenant General Charles Horner became US Central Command Air Forces (USCENTAF). Third Army under Lieutenant General John Yeosock became US Army Forces, Central Command (USARCENT). Lieutenant General Walter Boomer, the Commanding General of the First Marine Expeditionary Force (MEF), became commander of the US Marine Component, US Central Command (USMARFORCENT), and the Seventh Fleet Commander, Vice Admiral Henry Mauz (later replaced by Vice Admiral Stanley Arthur), commanded US Naval Forces, US Central Command (USNAVCENT). Lieutenant General Horner commanded all USAF units in theater and was also designated by USCINCCENT to be the joint force air component commander (JFACC), responsible for planning, coordinating, allocating, and tasking of joint air operations based upon the USCINCCENT's concept of operations and air apportionment decisions, to include air defense. Special Operations Component, US Central Command, under the command of Colonel Jesse Johnson, retained OPCON of all SOF. Supporting CINCs from every area provided whatever was needed. The chain of command was

clear. This team prosecuted the war against Iraq.

b. The various Services performed their roles as required by the Goldwater-Nichols Act. This act streamlined and made more efficient the entire warfighting efforts of the Department of Defense. With this legislation, Congress had given the unified and specified commanders the full range of authority needed to meet their responsibilities. USCENTCOM was the command authority for all US forces assigned to the theater. Each Service staff supported its own units, seeing that they were manned, trained, and equipped. The deployment of combat forces to the Gulf started on 7 August 1990.

c. During Operation DESERT SHIELD, the United States deployed to the Persian Gulf more than five hundred thousand members of the Armed Forces. Most of the Third Army was in the desert. Two corps and numerous support forces were on the ground. The Navy had more than 120 warships and over 400 combat aircraft. Two-thirds of the Fleet Marine Force were in theater or afloat. The Ninth Air Force was represented with 1,200 combat aircraft. Combat power was massed and the right forces were concentrated at the decisive place to achieve victory. The overall strategic situation required the United States to maintain forces worldwide, but judicious redeployment from selected units ensured that no other major threat erupted.

d. In order to ensure that US forces in Saudi Arabia could immediately deter an Iraqi attack and defend the arrival ports and airfields, all combat units had to be ready to fight on arrival. General Schwarzkopf required ground combat power to arrive quickly, followed by their logistics forces. The first units had to rely on their own organic supplies and equipment. With inter-Service support, USCINCENT had his well-organized force in place during the critical first month.

e. Strategic mobility assets, including the reserve fleets, strategic airlift, fast sealift and pre-positioned ships, were ready to move forces to the Persian Gulf. Forces were moved five times faster than the first big buildup in Vietnam. MAC flew 91 strategic airlift missions in the first 2 days. The first pre-positioned ship arrived in 8 days. By the end of Operation DESERT SHIELD, 3.5 million tons of fuel and 1.2 million tons of general cargo had been delivered. The challenge was to maintain and increase strategic lift capability in order to respond rapidly for global power projection.

5. US Army Forces

a. The first Army unit to deploy was the ready brigade of the 82nd Airborne Division. With its light antitank weapons and Sheridan tanks, the 2nd Brigade established perimeter defenses around Dhahran airfield and the port at Al Jubayl. By 24 August, the 1st and 3rd Brigades had completed their deployment to Saudi Arabia. The XVIII Airborne Corps (commanded by Lieutenant General Gary E. Luck) arrived by air, with most of its equipment coming by sea.

b. Additional Army units also arrived in August, including the 7th Transportation Group, the 11th Signal Brigade, and the 11th Air Defense Artillery Brigade. Until heavier armored and mechanized equipment could arrive, this was still a very vulnerable force. Iraq maintained the quantitative edge, with its six divisions in Kuwait all capable of conducting combat operations without warning. Shortfalls of sufficient fast sealift to move armor meant that heavy forces took longer to arrive. Ships were loaded simultaneously at multiple ports on the Atlantic and the Gulf of Mexico to speed supplies to the Gulf area. Massive support of deployed Army forces was required. General Yeosock moved quickly to expand the support system by getting Major General

William G. Pagonis appointed as USARCENT's deputy commander for logistics. Pagonis used the REFORGER model for his logistics plan. "REturn of FORces to GERmany" was an annual exercise perfected during the Cold War by the Army to provide support for a war in Europe. It proved to be an exceptional plan for the reception and onward movement of troops and supplies. Pagonis put together a theater support organization using borrowed soldiers and Reserves. The organization he built was tailored to meet the daily demands of a changing and growing force.

c. The Army provided in-theater support for other Services and arranged contracting and other required host-nation support, including water, subsistence, fuel, transportation, and sanitary support. As September reached midpoint, the 82nd Airborne Division was fully deployed and the 24th Infantry Division was arriving with the 101st Airborne Division on the way. Cooperation with Services and allies was increasing; the logistics organizations were maturing. USARCENT was growing fast.

d. Over the next several months USARCENT forces expanded dramatically. Three additional combat divisions arrived, along with the VII Corps under Lieutenant General Frederick M. Franks, Jr. A large number of Reserve component units, the complete 3rd Armored Cavalry, Patriot batteries, and the 12th Aviation Brigade filled out the force. Training continued and, as the number of units increased, Iraq was losing its numerical advantage. By the start of Operation DESERT STORM, over 253,000 soldiers of the US Army were in the theater.

6. US Marine Corps Forces

a. From the beginning of the crisis, US Marine Corps forces moved to counter and deter any invasion of Saudi Arabia. Eventually, more than 92,000 Marines deployed to the Saudi theater of operations with tanks, artillery and aircraft. Much of the equipment had been pre-positioned years before as part of overall national security strategy.



Until heavier armored and mechanized equipment arrived in Saudi Arabia, Iraq maintained the military edge over the coalition forces.

b. US military strategy requires that heavy equipment be pre-positioned in areas of national interest to reduce the time required to deploy capable heavy combat forces. In Europe, land based storage areas are readily available. In the Pacific and Southwest Asia, only shipboard storage can provide the means to ensure that this heavy equipment will be available when and where needed. These Maritime Pre-positioning Ships (MPS) were crucial to Marine deployment. The MPS provided the Marines with immediate seaborne combat service support. They offered important POL storage and transfer platforms, as well as significant water-making capability. The combat equipment and supplies with which these squadrons arrived would each sustain a force of 16,500 Marines for 30 days of combat operations. The first MPS Squadron began unloading in Saudi Arabia on 15 August. The second arrived on 24 August. The 1st and 7th Marine Expeditionary Brigades (MEBs) flew from Hawaii and California to join their combat equipment. In the meantime, the 4th MEB had sailed from the East Coast on 17 August aboard 13 US Navy amphibious ships.

c. USMARFORCENT's initial mission was to "defend in-sector to protect vital facilities in the vicinity of Al Jubayl; on order, conduct passage of lines with Royal Saudi Land Forces and Gulf Cooperation Council forces." Marine forces ashore were under Lieutenant General Boomer's command. Marine forces afloat were under the command of the Seventh Fleet.

"All warfare is based on deception."

Sun Tzu

d. From the start of Operation DESERT SHIELD, Iraq was required to focus its attention toward the sea rather than its own western desert. While forces were building ashore, two MEBs were providing an important strategic distraction for the Iraqi

forces. By threatening an amphibious landing, coalition commanders forced Saddam Hussein to prepare to defend against a powerful thrust across his coastline.

e. To Saddam, this amphibious threat was very serious. A major part of the maritime activity was dedicated to keeping this issue alive in Saddam's mind. In the weeks prior to the ground offensive, Seventh Fleet planners recommended actions ranging from a MEF amphibious assault to feints and raids. Practice landings in Oman and on the eastern Saudi coast ensured that the Iraqis did not forget the threat. Although the coalition did not mount a major amphibious operation, the threat of one was crucial to the overall ground plan. This deception plan for a brigade-sized amphibious landing tied down seven to eleven Iraqi combat divisions and precluded the use of these forces in the land battle.

f. The I MEF consisted of the 1st Marine Division, the 3rd Marine Aircraft Wing, and the 1st Force Service Support Group. In early November, USMARFORCENT was reinforced with additional combat forces. This reinforcement committed the 2nd Marine Division along with aviation and support elements. More than 75 percent of Marine Corps combat units were in the Gulf area. The USMARFORCENT part of Operation DESERT SHIELD was in place.

7. US Air Force

a. Prior to Operation DESERT SHIELD, two USAF KC-135 aircraft and a mobile operations center were deployed to Abu Dhabi at the request of the United Arab Emirates. During the initial portion of Operation DESERT SHIELD, the USAF provided the only shore-based secure satellite communications. During the early days of the critical buildup period, communications among the various components, still scattered throughout the world, were essential. The Air Force was able to provide

communications for tactical warning, intelligence, missile warning, and command and control.

b. On 7 August, USAF fighters began air deployment to the Persian Gulf. With 24 hours' notice, the 1st Tactical Fighter Wing at Langley Air Force Base, Virginia, departed for Saudi Arabia. These F-15C aircraft deployed themselves, using seven aerial refuelings to reach the theater of operations. By 9 August, the wing was flying combat air patrols on the Saudi-Iraq border. Numerous US Air Force support aircraft, including RC-135 Rivet Joint reconnaissance platforms and E-3 AWACS aircraft, were on station and providing invaluable information. The Strategic Air Command dispatched B-52G bombers to within striking range of the theater with a full range of weapons available. A C-130 squadron arrived in-country to assist in intratheater airlift needs. When the initial deployment was completed in early September, the Air Force had more than 600 combat and support aircraft in Saudi Arabia. These numbers included at least 48 F-15C Interceptors.

c. The rapid buildup would have been impossible without strategic airlift. The US Transportation Command (USTRANSCOM) component, MAC, flew 91 missions the first 2 days and then averaged 70 missions a day through August. The USAF proved capable of sustained combat support. Fuel was the only limiting factor, as the Saudis had no jet fuel refining capability and the fuel had to be shipped in from Singapore.

d. When the President doubled the size of the ground force, he increased air assets by 30 percent. President Bush believed "you have to assemble the force to make certain that in the final analysis, we can prevail at the lowest possible cost." The air crews used the buildup period to become familiar with the desert, bare bases, and strange airfields. Procedures for airspace management required

practice and training. The refueling challenge was daunting and required tight coordination because of the numbers of aircraft and the difficulty of the missions. The air forces of 14 nations and Service components trained and worked with the JFACC to ensure air superiority. The overarching campaign plan was ready. US and coalition forces would attack Saddam's centers of gravity, paralyzing the Iraqi leadership's ability to command and control, destroying enemy weapons of mass destruction, and making Iraqi forces ineffective.

e. One of the most serious joint issues to arise in Operation DESERT SHIELD was the control of air power. Lieutenant General Horner, Commander of USCENAF, proposed that all aviation come under a single commander, and he requested that the JFACC control the air effort. Given the large number of US and allied aircraft, it was clear that some control was necessary. None of the components wanted to give up control of their aircraft, yet innovative solutions were worked out on the scene. For example, the Marine Corps did not want their unique air-ground task forces to be broken up. USMARFORCENT worked out an agreement prior to execution of the air operation plan. USMARFORCENT would support its organic forces and provide an agreed-upon number of fixed-wing sorties to USCENCOM for its use.

8. US Navy Forces

a. Familiar with the Gulf and the surrounding seas, the US Navy played a major role in establishing a naval blockade and enforcing the trade embargo that had been imposed by the UN Security Council on 6 August. These sanctions would have been ineffective without the Maritime Intervention Operations of 19 coalition navies. More than 7,500 challenges to merchant ships resulted in 964 boardings and cargo inspections.

Fifty-one ships were diverted, carrying more than a million tons of cargo in violation of the sanctions. While some materials were smuggled in by air and across the borders, import of most war materials and equipment was completely stopped. The operation demonstrated that effective coalition sea control can isolate an enemy from basic warfighting material and supplies. Iraq was prevented from replacing combat losses.

b. During the extended time the Iraqis were in Kuwait, their engineers built elaborate defensive systems along the coast. Their pre-invasion mining efforts affected all of the operations conducted by naval forces. The *USS Tripoli* struck a moored contact mine and the *USS Princeton* triggered the explosion of a bottom mine. Both ships experienced damage, but only the *Princeton* required major repairs.

c. The US Navy and the coalition navies quickly neutralized Iraq's navy and established near-total control of the northern Gulf. Iraq was unable to lay additional mines, attack offshore targets, or even disrupt amphibious operations. Naval forces provided a protected flank for ground forces and facilities on the Arabian Peninsula. Iraq could not interfere at sea or get into a position to strike friendly forces. USNAVCENT provided the all-important force protection that permitted Operation DESERT STORM to begin.

9. US Reserve Forces

On 8 November, President Bush announced a 200,000 personnel call-up of reserve units. These forces reinforced all Services. Many of the reserves deployed as units, capable of assuming any combat mission assigned. The flexibility these reserves provided USCINCCENT gave them a role in total force deployment. These reserve forces were critical to multiple combat, combat support, and combat service

support missions. Moreover, their performance validated the total force concept. Additionally, the Civil Reserve Air Fleet (using civilian transport aircraft and crews as a logistic adjunct) was used for the first time, and proved to be successful.

10. Operation DESERT STORM: The Air War

a. Early in planning, USCINCCENT identified Iraq's major centers of gravity, three of which are discussed below. First, plans were made to strike command and control nodes and Iraqi leadership. Without orders from the top, there could be no military direction or political control. Weapons of mass destruction were also targeted, as was the Republican Guard. Eliminating these forces as effective units would dramatically shorten the war. In all categories USCINCCENT identified and struck enemy vulnerabilities with carefully planned air attacks.

b. At 0130 hours on 17 January 1991, US warships launched Tomahawk attack missiles towards Baghdad. Operation DESERT STORM had begun. Hours before, B-52 bombers had taken off from Louisiana carrying cruise missiles to their targets. Fighters were en route to targets in Baghdad and Western Iraq. Other aircraft attacked early warning radar sites. Heavy air strikes occurred across Iraq. Within hours, key nodes of command and control, air defense networks, and other centers of gravity were severely jolted.

c. Air operations were theoretically divided into three Phases. Phase I was the strategic attack against Iraq. While air operations continued throughout the war, the number of missions had dropped significantly by day 13. Phase II was a concentrated effort to establish air supremacy in the Kuwait Theater of Operations. Like Phase I, this effort continued throughout air operations. Phase

III was the longest and most intense, and was designed to prepare the battlefield. By day 13, most of the air attacks supported this objective.

d. By the end of Phase I, successful air assaults had substantially reduced the combat effectiveness of the aggressor by crippling his communication, command, and control ability and destroying his strategic air defenses. During Phase II, considerable effort was directed toward enemy surface-to-air missile systems and large caliber anti-aircraft artillery threatening coalition aircraft. With the success of these efforts, friendly aircraft operated freely in Kuwait and USCINCENT declared air supremacy on D+10. Direct air attacks against the Iraqi forces in Kuwait continued until the end of the war. Coalition air strikes interdicted the

major supply lines and transportation centers in the operational area, resulting in major food shortages for all Iraqi forces.

e. In the final Phase III of the air offensive, air power began battlefield preparation in earnest. Roads were rendered impassable; tanks and equipment were destroyed; the ability of commanders to communicate with their troops was battered. Delivery of food and supplies was severely disrupted and morale of the Iraqi troops broken. The success of the ground offensive, the rapid conclusion of the war, and the few casualties sustained were in no small measure due to the combined efforts of the coalition air forces. USCINCENT required that at least 50 percent of all enemy armor and heavy artillery be destroyed as a condition for the ground offensive to start. More than 112,000 combat and support sorties were flown and 288 Tomahawk land-attack missiles and 35 air launched cruise missiles were used against Saddam's forces and centers of gravity. These air operations successfully isolated his leadership and seriously impeded the ability of forces to conduct offensive operations. While his forces remained in Kuwait, they were in no condition to wage a major offensive; in fact, their ability to coordinate an effective defense had also been degraded.

f. While air operations were in progress, one of the largest and longest movements of combat forces in history was taking place, unknown to the Iraqis. Shifting west from its original location near the coast, the VII Corps maneuvered 150 miles in formation and the XVIII Airborne Corps was airlifted 260 miles as they moved into position. Using transportation assets on a 24-hour basis, 270,000 coalition troops were moved in a 3 week period. C-130s, also flying day and night, moved supplies, equipment, logistics bases, and fuel. Miles of trucks supported the unprecedented logistics effort.



Air supremacy was established early, destroying enemy defenses and surveillance abilities.

If an Iraqi pilot had managed to penetrate the air space over the border area during the great shift west, he would have been stunned by the panorama below. It was "mile after mile of tank transporters, gasoline tankers, troop and ammunition carriers," while "overhead was the continuous clatter of C-130 transport planes and cargo helicopters." Occasionally, a truck pulled into one of the rest stops along the twelve- to fourteen-hour ride from the ports to the assembly areas. If any proof of allied air supremacy were necessary, this was it: "I shudder to think," an American observer wrote, "what a couple of Iraqi planes could have done."

The Whirlwind War, Frank N. Schubert and Theresa L. Kraus, General Editors

g. Meanwhile, General Schwarzkopf pushed the two US Army Corps in a western movement beyond the flank and deep behind the enemy. He called this redeployment his "Hail Mary" play. The distance to be covered and number of soldiers involved made this an extraordinary move. The maneuver just prior to the start of the ground war combined speed, mobility, and operational reach to increase his leverage and multiply his mass. It was a major accomplishment that used mass, maneuver, and economy of force to achieve success. This "Hail Mary" plan was the key strategy in the USCINCCENT's Operation DESERT STORM victory.

"An adversary is more hurt by desertion than by slaughter."

**Vegetius
De Re Militari**

h. PSYOP forces dropped twenty-nine million leaflets in the Kuwait theater. According to senior Iraqi commanders, these leaflets were second only to the air attacks in increasing desertions and lowering morale. Electronic warfare and the jamming effort contributed significantly to the destabilization

of the Iraqi forces. After 38 days, Phase IV, ground operations, could commence.

i. Early in the war, coalition air power had taken out the Iraqi Air Force. This kept Saddam from realizing that a massive combat buildup was occurring in the west. Because it did not know in time, the Republican Guard was unable to react.

j. PSYOP, the electronic warfare effort, and the jamming effort contributed to the destabilization of the Iraqi forces. USCINCCENT used tactical surprise as a "force multiplier." Deception also played a crucial role in these ground operations, giving the US forces the surprise needed to win. Throughout the war, General Schwarzkopf was able to deceive Iraqi forces of his intentions, the location and identities of his units, and the sectors assigned.

"[Battle] is always a study of solidarity and usually also of disintegration . . . for it is toward the disintegration of human groups that battle is directed."

**Herbert Butterfield,
Man On His Past**

11. Operation DESERT STORM: The Ground War

a. The ground war started 24 February, after 6 months of preparation, maritime interception, and aerial bombardment. The objectives were to destroy the Republican Guard Forces in Kuwait, eject Iraqi forces from Kuwait, and assist in restoring the government of Kuwait.

b. To accomplish these objectives, the coalition forces would fix and hold the Iraqi forward divisions in place. To the east, I MEF would conduct a supporting attack along the Kuwait-Saudi Arabia border. In the west, the main attack had two US Army Corps and

a French and a British division sweeping around Iraqi defenses, striking deep into Iraq, cutting lines of communications, and destroying enemy forces in Kuwait. In reserve, the 4th and 5th MEBs still threatened a seaborne invasion, ensuring a mistaken focus by the Iraqi defenses. US and coalition air action had completely removed the possibility of redeploying Iraqi forces in response to the unexpected flank attack.

12. 24 February 1991

See Figure V-1.

a. The French 6th Light Armored Division and US 82nd Airborne Division led the western sweep to protect the left flank and provide forward bases deep in Iraqi territory. Simultaneously, the 101st Air Assault Division mounted a large helicopter-borne assault and secured its objective of forward operating base Cobra, half-way to the Euphrates River. The Iraqi forces, taken by surprise, offered only disorganized resistance. The XVIII Airborne Corps was some 179 miles into Iraq and had closed the first of several key roads. This long reach by

helicopters allowed US forces to cut major lines of communications between Kuwait and Iraq. Badly hammered by air attacks and totally surprised by this envelopment, the Iraqi forces offered only light resistance. The success of this maneuver enabled the US VII Corps to commence the main attack on the Republican Guard positions 15 hours early. Facing a denser concentration of a more highly skilled enemy, it moved more slowly than the wide flanking force, but nonetheless the day's end found it 20 miles into Iraq holding about 1,300 prisoners.

b. In the east, I MEF, with the Army's Tiger Brigade and Joint Forces Command-North (JFC-N) and Joint Forces Command-East, the coalition forces under command of Saudi General Khalid bin Sultan, attacked Kuwait. Both the 1st and 2nd Marine Divisions breached the Iraqi minefields and attacked 20 miles into Kuwait. Shortly after first light, the Marine Divisions were through the second defensive obstacle belt with little Iraqi resistance. The advance met with sporadic enemy fire and some skirmishing. Conditions on the battlefield included thick smoke from burning oil wells, indirect



Once air supremacy was established, the coalition ground assault force was able to dominate Iraqi forces.

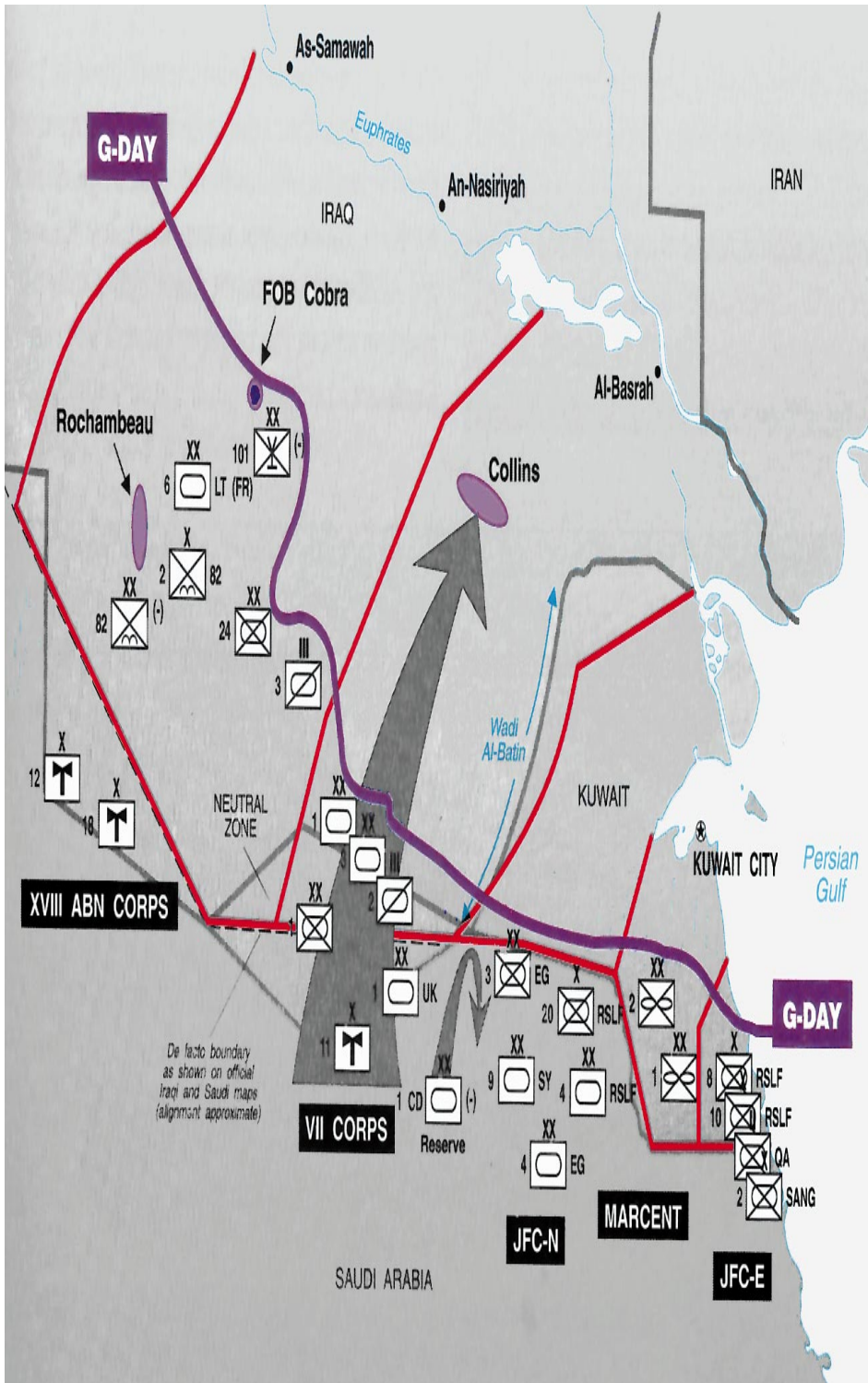


Figure V-1. Ground War: Situation 24 February 1991

artillery fire, and thousands of Iraqi soldiers streaming southward to surrender. The result of the first day's fighting in the Marine sector included 56 enemy tanks destroyed, over 9,000 prisoners of war, and an entire tank battalion with 35 intact T-55 tanks captured. 3rd Marine Air Wing flew 671 sorties in support of USMARFORCENT. It flew strikes against six Iraqi divisions and destroying an additional 40 tanks and numerous miscellaneous vehicles. Faced with major attacks along a 300 mile front, Iraq was unable to mount a counterattack.

13. 25 February 1991

a. On 25 February, the XVIII Airborne Corps continued to drive into Iraq. By the end of the day, all divisions had advanced, securing assigned objectives, and establishing an important forward operating base and brigade-blocking positions on the Euphrates River. Crossing the mine breach, the attack slowed in VII Corps' area. Conditions were right for an armored counter attack. General Franks was working through these problems at the same time he faced difficulties in the JFC-N area. Syrian and Egyptian forces were slow moving forward and a major gap was opening in the line. US units were shifted to cover the gap, and by late morning, JFC-N was making progress. VII Corps continued its advance.

b. On the 2nd day of combat, I MEF continued its attack in the face of moderate resistance. The 1st Marine Division began the day forward of the Burgan oil field. After a daytime battle at close quarters, by nightfall Al Jaber Airfield was cleared. The Division had destroyed 80 enemy tanks and captured 2,000 prisoners. The 2nd Marine Division started the day south of Al Abdallya. It soon faced the stiffest counterattack it would encounter. After a day of fierce fighting, the Iraqis were repulsed. The division captured 4,500 prisoners and destroyed 248 enemy tanks. As the ground assault continued, the

5th MEB, afloat in the Gulf, landed at Al Mishab, serving both as a feint and as USMARFORCENT's reserve.

14. 26 February 1991

a. XVIII Airborne Corps turned northeast and attacked into the Euphrates River Valley. In the course of the attack, the 24th Division hit the heaviest resistance of the war from divisions of the Republican Guard. The action also involved an artillery exchange which eliminated Iraqi artillery by battalions. Meanwhile, XVIII Airborne Corps continued to cross important phase lines, pushing out to An Nasiriyah and Jalibah. Two Iraqi armored divisions put up a stiff fight in the VII Corps sector and, in a most remarkable encounter, the 2nd Armored Cavalry Regiment engaged the Tawakalna Division of the Republican Guard. In 6 minutes, the 2nd destroyed all 37 enemy T-72's in an action subsequently named the Battle of 73 Easting. The 1st Infantry Division passed through the 2nd Armored Cavalry and continued the attack.

b. To the east, I MEF continued ground combat operations. The 1st Marine Division advanced on the Kuwait International Airport. Despite resistance by armored units, the Marines continued forward until enemy forces surrendered northwest of the airport. In seizing the airport, the 1st Marine Division destroyed 300 enemy tanks. The 2nd Marine Division advanced to the city of Al Jahra with moderate opposition. By late afternoon, it had reached Mutla Ridge northwest of Al Jahra, blocking the Iraqi escape route into Basra. The Tiger Brigade cleared the police post on the ridge and held the highest ground in either direction. The day ended with hundreds of air strikes by USAF and Navy aircraft hitting Iraqi vehicles fleeing west on the only escape route, Highway 8.

15. 27 February 1991

a. Once the 24th Division secured its position and occupied two nearby airfields, the XVIII Airborne Corps could continue its advance towards Al Basrah. On 27 February, hundreds of enemy vehicles were destroyed along Highway 8 and across the desert. Coalition combat equipment losses were negligible. VII Corps continued to move east, engaging any Republican Guard units trying to flee. Its divisions were making outstanding progress pushing into Kuwait. Five combat divisions hit the Iraqi forces with the most powerful armored force since 1945. VII Corps' advance proceeded unimpeded, and Iraqi military power in this sector dissolved. The attack continued until the cease-fire went into effect.

b. In I MEF's sector, the battle continued. The 1st Marine Division finished taking Kuwait International Airport by early morning. It coordinated passage of lines for the Arab forces to enter Kuwait City. The 2nd Marine Division remained in the vicinity of its Al Jahra blocking positions and began clearing its zone of action. The Tiger Brigade continued to play a key part in the 2nd Marine Division sector, engaging Iraqi tanks and artillery pieces and capturing additional prisoners.

16. Concluding Events

When President Bush ordered the cease-fire on 28 February, US and coalition ground forces had won a major victory in the desert. After 4 days, the Iraqi Army, including the elite Republican Guards, were routed and incapable of any organized resistance. Large numbers of Iraqis were surrendering, and most of the remainder were retreating. After 43 days of air operations that involved 2,700 coalition aircraft, the coalition force had defeated the fourth largest standing army in the world in 100 hours. The ground attack never stalled. All enemy forces were hit hard

and destroyed or forced into retreat. Coalition forces captured or destroyed 3,847 tanks, 1,450 personnel carriers, and almost 3,000 artillery pieces. Some 86,000 prisoners had been captured; more than 74 percent of these were captured by US forces. Iraq had been forcibly ejected from Kuwait and Kuwait City was once again free.

In the same manner, the military plans were adequate for the task. The plans, as executed, reflected sound strategic judgment. General Schwarzkopf and his component commanders forced Iraq to fight their kind of war. They matched American military strengths against Iraqi weaknesses. The coalition effort frustrated Iraqi attempts to inflict large numbers of casualties on the opposing military forces, as well as on Saudi Arabian and Israeli civilians, and thwarted Iraqi efforts to draw Israel into the war. As the Department of Defense report on the war noted, "We defeated his [Saddam Hussein's] strategy as well as his forces."

The Whirlwind War, Frank N. Schubert and Theresa L. Kraus, General Editors

17. Operation DESERT STORM and Joint Employment Principles

a. Operation DESERT STORM demonstrated the competence of US military forces and the effectiveness of their doctrinal approach. While maintaining the coalition was complex, the coalition itself set clear, simple objectives, and pursued them without distraction. Coalition resolve and cohesion showed that neither the United States nor its partners would tolerate armed aggression.

b. US operations and command relationships during DESERT STORM once again showed the criticality of **unity of command**. The clear lines of authority given to military commanders by the Goldwater-Nichols legislation supported success in this

massive multi-national operation. General Schwarzkopf's ability to make and enforce critical decisions was reinforced by the confidence shown in him by the President, the Secretary of Defense, and the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff. Allowed to do his job, General Schwarzkopf did it well. Meanwhile, his superiors carried out the critical tasks of maintaining multinational cooperation, cohesiveness, coordination, and resolve in pursuit of unity of effort.

c. Operation DESERT STORM confounded pundits who believed that the end of the Cold War meant that the United States no longer had to maintain large forces capable of major operations at extreme **operational reach**. With the conflict area thousands of miles from the United States, strategic **speed** was of the essence. Moving combat-capable forces quickly was instrumental in deterring Saddam Hussein from invading Saudi Arabia. US doctrine and procedures, using massive strategic airlift and pre-positioned war material, proved their worth in the first few weeks of the conflict. Once the situation was stabilized, attention could then be turned to achieving primary coalition **objectives**. These objectives were stated clearly, and forces were sized to achieve them. At both the strategic and tactical level the principle of **economy of force** was honored. For example, in Korea deterrence required that forces be maintained at full strength. Other areas, such as Europe, were able to serve as sources of troops and material. Reduced Cold War tensions permitted drawdowns in areas of minimal perceived threat. At the tactical level, attrition of Iraqi capabilities in the early stages of the war freed coalition defensive assets for offensive missions.

d. Combat power during Operation DESERT STORM was enhanced by clever use of **deception**. Throughout the action, coalition forces took action to give a credible impression that US Marine forces would mount an amphibious attack from the east.

These operations pinned Iraqi defense forces in the wrong area, as General Schwarzkopf's "Hail Mary" play put the main attack in the west. **Coordinated air, sea, and land attacks** ensured that Iraqi forces could not redeploy even after the true nature of the coalition thrust was obvious.

e. In Operation DESERT STORM, commanders and planners identified critical Iraqi **centers of gravity** and attacked them in **mass** by coordinating available air, land, and sea assets. These centers of gravity included Iraqi leadership and its command and control system, Iraqi weapons of mass destruction, and Saddam's most effective combat units, the Republican Guard. **Air supremacy** was sought from the outset, and ensured that all later actions could proceed unimpaired. While **strategic speed** brought distant forces to the operation, **tactical speed** ensured destruction of enemy forces. The move of forces toward the west and coalition tactics released the full capabilities of coalition high speed armor and air assault units. With the Iraqi command and control and logistics systems disrupted by air, sea, and land bombardment, rapid enemy redeployment became impossible. Destruction of Iraqi forces meant more than mere killing, as effective use of **PSYOP** took Iraqi units out of the fight through desertion, thus reducing casualties for both sides. Other nonlethal means, such as electronic warfare and electronic jamming, multiplied combat power to shorten the war.

f. **Surprise** also contributed to lower combat losses. Coalition air supremacy severely restricted Iraqi reconnaissance ability. Deception, inadequate Iraqi intelligence, and inability to understand how quickly coalition forces could deploy multiplied the shock of the flank attack from the west. Iraqi commanders were unable to rally effective defense in the face of the combination of speed, combat power, and rapid deployment and employment devised

by General Schwarzkopf and his planners, action officers, and commanders. This effect was multiplied by highly effective coalition **OPSEC**; thousands of troops of a multinational force were shifted hundreds of miles to the west without Iraqi response. Coalition tactical **maneuvers leveraged** combat power by combining joint force actions to lead to the coalition military victory.

g. The swiftness and totality of the ground war victory made the outcome look inevitable in retrospect. Military professionals need to understand the specific concepts and execution that made the results inescapable. The commanders, planners, action officers, leaders, and fighting troops of all services

and coalition partners put together a textbook demonstration of combining effective doctrine with modern technology. Nor was the enemy a pushover. Many of Saddam's troops were battle-hardened veterans who had endured conditions similar to World War I in a long, bloody, and inconclusive war with Iran. Applying proven US doctrinal concepts enabled professional, courageous execution using technologically superior combat equipment in lightning tactical applications. The size of the forces, the distances covered, and the speeds were unprecedented. Planning and coordination requirements were enormous, yet were executed with a completeness and professionalism that produced an overwhelming victory at minimum cost.

Intentionally Blank

Military Incident #7

FACING THE UNEXPECTED AND UNTHINKABLE: REVULSION, REACTION, AND RESTRAINT

The essence of war is surprise.

Captain Sir Basil Liddell Hart pointed out that, “War is the realm of the unexpected.” In the cases of Korea and Somalia, American soldiers have been confronted by surprises that reach beyond the ordinary.

Tactical maneuver may lead to one form of surprise.

Ordinarily, military surprise refers to failure to anticipate tactical maneuvers that are clever manipulations of the tools of war. As illustrated in Military Incident #5, Hannibal surprised the Roman legions by having his troops back up under pressure. The Romans, thinking that they were defeating the Carthaginians, were shocked to the point of collapse when this apparent retreat turned out to be an ideal use of terrain and movement to set up a classic double envelopment. This surprise was within the context of the rules of war familiar to both the Romans and Carthaginians at the time.

Inability to understand a situation can cause another form of surprise.

Napoleon said, “War is composed of nothing but surprises.” Often the root of surprise is faulty perception. And perception too often derives from expectation, not observation. For example, Union troops discovered the complete Confederate plan before the battle of Antietam. Yet the outcome showed that the Union commander took no advantage of his foreknowledge. Among the reasons for this failure may have been the way the plan was found; accidentally, on a roadside, handwritten on a paper wrapped around some cigars. The “key to victory” is not normally one’s first thought when encountering a crumpled wrapper protecting a bunch of cheap stogies, and having found it so easily may have led to the mistaken conclusion that such plans were a deliberate counterintelligence move on the part of the Confederates.

In the Korean War and in Somalia, adversaries used human shields.

Moral and cultural expectations can also delay and distort perception, sometimes with fatal results. In the Korean War and in Somalia, incidents occurred that were fundamentally foreign to the American perception of morality and war. Credible reports indicate situations in which US troops were confronted with armed enemies who attacked from behind civilian human shields. In Korea the enemy would be preceded by a group of refugees, who would step aside at the last moment to reveal the North Korean infantrymen among them. In Somalia, gunmen placed themselves amongst civilian mobs that provided cover during exchanges of fire.

Understanding the situation is key to survival and success.

To Americans this practice is morally revolting. But soldiers, Marines, and airmen confronting this situation have no time to reorganize their expectations, but must see, understand, and react correctly in seconds. In both situations, the problem is not deciding, since there is but one choice — to fire. The real problem is in understanding the situation despite preconceptions, moral expectations, and the fog of war.

In Korea, once the troops had become aware of the Communists using human shields, the shock of the tactic wore off. The shock of using human shields, however, is multiplied in peace enforcement operations. In these operations, virtually anything can happen, and troops and commanders must not only be prepared for unexpected events, but be able to react to them at the proper level of force under the principle of restraint.



A hostile Somali crowd, complete with English language signs for the convenience of the US television audience.

CHAPTER VI

OPERATIONS IN SOMALIA

“Peacekeeping is not a soldier’s job, but only a soldier can do it.”

Dag Hammarskjöld

1. Introduction

a. Since the cold war ended, the frequency of peace operations has been on the rise. As the preeminent global power, the United States will be asked in nearly every incident to assist the world community in managing these crises effectively. The following is an account of Operation RESTORE HOPE, an example of a military operation other than war (MOOTW) that involved US forces.

b. Operation RESTORE HOPE was a peace enforcement operation in Somalia, where military force was applied, with UN authorization, to restore peace and order so that humanitarian assistance could be provided. The consent of the numerous clans who had divided Somalia up into warring factions was not obtained. While not required, this lack of clan acquiescence would cause problems before the US troops were withdrawn.

2. Background

a. The summer of 1991 found Somalia in chaos. The government of dictator Siad Barre had fallen in January 1991. Civil war and a long-standing drought destroyed farms and livestock, and brought famine throughout the land. Local warlords controlled the country. Muhammad Farah Aidid was the most powerful of these warlords and controlled the central part of Somalia. Muhammad Ali Mahdi controlled Mogadishu, Muhammad Omar Jess controlled the port city of Kismayu in southwestern Somalia, and Muhammad Siad Hersi controlled the rest of the southwest. Constant fighting among their militias (in most cases

little more than gangs) as well as violence and intimidation of the civilian population created a situation which world and US public opinion found intolerable. This situation caused the UN and United States to act.

b. Fighting between gangs often made it impossible to unload the ships that were arriving in the port city of Mogadishu. Supplies and food that were unloaded were stolen at dockside. Only 20 percent of the food entering Somalia reached the people who needed it. The International Committee of the Red Cross estimated that 25 percent of Somalia’s 6 million people were dying, either of starvation or disease. The evening news brought pictures of starving women and children into the living rooms of Americans, pushing the United States to become involved. The world community responded to this crisis with relief efforts organized by various humanitarian organizations. In April the UN had authorized 50 unarmed observers, but the gesture had no perceptible effect. The poorly coordinated international aid effort could not overcome the chaotic local conditions.

c. Throughout the summer, the White House pressed the UN Security Council for a resolution authorizing “additional measures to ensure that humanitarian relief can be delivered.” The UN Security Council reacted with a resolution authorizing 500 armed peacekeepers to safeguard both the humanitarian workers and UN observers already in Somalia. This battalion’s primary mission was to supervise the unloading of ships and to keep the convoys safe from thieves. This operation was designated United Nations Operations in Somalia (UNOSOM I).

3. Operation PROVIDE RELIEF

a. On 14 August 1992, President George Bush ordered an emergency airlift of food to Somalia. The airlift was intended to help alleviate the suffering brought on by the famine and to give East Africans an opportunity to recover from drought and war. The Bush administration planned to furnish food and other relief supplies to southern and central Somalia and to parts of northern Kenya to which more than a million Somalis had fled seeking refuge. To facilitate this action, USCENTCOM was ordered to activate Joint Task Force-Operation PROVIDE RELIEF. The objectives were to send in a Humanitarian Assistance Survey Team to assess the relief requirements, activate the JTF to conduct the emergency airlift, and deploy the aircraft necessary to operate during daylight into safe and permissive locations. This was a very small task force with no combat mission.



Military force was applied in Somalia to restore peace and order so that humanitarian assistance could be provided.

b. By mid-September, 500 armed Pakistani peacekeepers sent by the UN had reached Mogadishu via US sealift and airlift. Amphibious Ready Group Tarawa arrived offshore to provide support to the Pakistani Security Battalion. The 11th Marine Expeditionary Unit (MEU) was on board the *USS Tarawa* for use in Somalia if a change in mission required its use.

distributed the food from there. The largest and most difficult problem was security for the food once it arrived in Somalia. Armed looters and thieves made it difficult to get the food to the hungry. The danger increased as the violence escalated.

"When a state intervenes with only a small contingent, in obedience to treaty-stipulations, it is simply an accessory, and has but little voice in the main operations; but when it intervenes as a principal party, and with an imposing force, the case is quite different."

**Lieutenant General Antoine-Henri,
Baron de Jomini**

c. The Air Force used eight C-130s and four C-141s to fly supplies into Mombassa, Kenya, where they were then transported to two distribution centers in the Somali famine belts. The international relief community

d. In late November a UN ship, attempting to deliver 10,000 tons of food to Mogadishu, was fired on and driven away from port. A day later, a Pakistani peacekeeper was shot when his car was hijacked. Faced with these events and a security situation rapidly spiraling out of control, the UN Security Council called for immediate military action in Somalia.

e. After following the crisis for several weeks, President Bush decided that more aggressive action was required for Operation PROVIDE RELIEF to reopen the flow of food

to the most needy. Acting Secretary of State Lawrence Eagleberger offered US forces to the UN on 26 November.

4. Operation RESTORE HOPE

a. On 3 December, the UN Security Council passed Resolution 794, which took a tougher line towards Somalia. The UN established an objective by authorizing the soldiers to “use all necessary means” to ensure that foodstuffs reached the starving. Further, the resolution demanded that “all factions in Somalia immediately cease hostilities.” While the UN Secretary General Boutros Boutros-Ghali preferred that the troops be used to pacify the country, the United States insisted that force would only be used as a defensive measure. The United States would command the multinational force to be known as Unified Task Force (UNITAF). To address the concerns of a number of African countries about perceived colonialism, the Secretary General was given oversight of the operation. The Security Council required that the soldiers be withdrawn once order was restored, and the resolution made no provision for nation building. No exit strategy was stated.

b. The United States formed JTF Somalia to carry out Operation RESTORE HOPE as part of UNITAF. Its mission was to secure major air and sea ports, key installations, and food distribution points to provide open and free passage of relief supplies; to provide security for convoys and relief organizations; and to assist UN and nongovernmental organizations in providing humanitarian relief under UN auspices.

c. The UN encouraged all its members to provide troops for this mission. On 4 December, France announced it would send aircraft and 2,000 soldiers from neighboring Djibouti. Italy, former colonial ruler of Southern Somalia, agreed to provide troops, and other nations joined in as plans

progressed. The multinational character of the operation added a number of complicating factors, including political, language, and cultural barriers, as well as varying military capabilities and logistic support.

d. Tremendous demands were put on the United States for logistic support in Operation RESTORE HOPE. All the basics were requested: fuel, water, food, and transportation. Liaison and advisory teams started from day one to work through these problems and reach agreements for cooperation. Pre-positioning ships and the Army Corps Support Group fulfilled all demands placed upon them, making the operation possible.

e. With over thirty humanitarian relief organizations active in Somalia, a Civil Military Operations Center (CMOC) became necessary. The CMOC served as the clearing house for all information to and from the humanitarian agencies, providing information on operations through daily briefings, responding to emergency requests in a timely manner, and keeping track of other activities as required. In addition, the CMOC helped establish a food logistics system which factored in everything from dates of arrival of shipments, to road repair work, to creating a framework in which the relief efforts could function.

f. Although intelligence gathering was not its function, the CMOC proved to be an invaluable source of situational intelligence. While the normal sources of intelligence gathering are valuable in a MOOTW situation, the lack of a sophisticated infrastructure can increase the importance of human intelligence (HUMINT). Using HUMINT as a resource, all patrols were debriefed and the combat intelligence team (CIT) was involved from the start. In one case, a reconnaissance platoon’s commander arranged CIT meetings with local elders. In sum, HUMINT proved to be a useful source

of information. The use of unexpected local intelligence was critical in providing up-to-the-minute assessments. Experience provided UNITAF with a good understanding of how to use these organizations to complement its mission.

g. The CJTF emphasized unity of effort, or the need for all coalition forces to work together in the common relief effort. This was difficult with forces of various sizes representing different national interests. A plan was devised that allowed the larger brigade-size forces to operate as units and organized the smaller units under the Army, Air Force, or Marine Corps, depending on their specialty. The CJTF was then able to construct the right mix of forces needed and to build on the unit integrity that the forces brought with them.

up headquarters in the US embassy, which had been closed during the fighting in January 1991. In the weeks that followed, additional US forces arrived. Equipment was drawn from afloat pre-positioning assets of Maritime Pre-positioning Squadron 2, based at Diego Garcia. The USS Ranger Carrier Battle Group was redirected from the Persian Gulf to the Indian Ocean off Somalia to support the buildup of Operation RESTORE HOPE. Eventually, about 25,000 Americans were assigned to Somalia. Other countries contributed 13,000 servicemen to the effort.

i. The Marines were hampered by Somalia's extremely limited infrastructure, and had to establish a temporary base of operations. Major improvements in roads, warehousing, and other facilities were undertaken by more than 1,000 Seabees from Naval Construction Regiment 30.



Military intervention was necessary to see that foodstuffs reached the starving.

h. Shortly after midnight on 9 December, the first Marines and Navy SEALs crossed the beach near the Mogadishu airport. Their mission was to establish positions to help secure the beach. A force of 1,800 Marines followed the landing craft and helicopters, and quickly secured the harbor and airport. The Marine Expeditionary Unit moved into the city and set

This important engineering work improved the reception sites and enabled more forces and their equipment to join the relief effort. Follow-on forces included units from the US Army's 10th Mountain Division and small contingents from twenty different countries. US and coalition troops moved to the outlying areas to begin the task of restoring order.

j. On 11 December, the two main warlords in Mogadishu signed a peace accord that went into effect at once. The warlords agreed to have their soldiers withdraw their weapons from the capital city within 48 hours, remove military checkpoints on the “green line” that divided their territories, and cease all propaganda against each other. Almost immediately the treaty was broken, with sporadic fighting between the two factions and attacks on lesser groups. Within weeks the violence included attacking coalition forces.

k. A convoy of almost 700 US and French troops reached the town of Baidoa on 16 December. This town was one of the hardest hit by famine, and was the object of robberies committed by armed gangs. The criminal activity continued until the protected convoy arrived. As was the case with the landing the prior week in Mogadishu, the multinational force met no resistance. Upon arrival, Somali gunmen were disarmed and food for children was handed out in the town orphanage.

l. By Christmas, UNITAF forces secured several key Somali towns, ensuring that foodstuffs would be delivered to famine-stricken areas in southern Somalia. US Marines and Belgian paratroopers made an additional landing at Kismayu on 20 December, to wrest control of the port city from its chief warlord, Omar Jess. In the several days and nights prior to this landing, more than 100 residents had been murdered by Jess’s followers, apparently to eliminate intellectuals able to assist UNITAF.

m. Baidoa also received a large Christmas convoy. More than 300 metric tons reached Baidoa in the first major shipment of food since November. Meanwhile, a 600-man US Marine force pushed on to Bardera. This southwestern town was an important feeding center for refugees who had fled to the countryside to escape the drought and civil war. Other task force members took over the

northwestern city of Hoddur and started clearing mines. Hoddur was not involved in the civil war, but the thousands of mines in the area made it too dangerous for the relief trucks to deliver food there. At the same time, two companies of Italian troops occupied Gailalassi. Finally, 200 US soldiers of the 87th Infantry Regiment established a firm hold at Belet Uen. At that point, commanders believed the mission was ahead of schedule. After three weeks in Somalia, UNITAF had secured the famine belt of central and southern Somalia and was effectively providing relief supplies.

n. The UNITAF forces adhered to strict ROE and showed great restraint in dealing with the Somali people. While commanders were authorized to use “all force necessary” to protect themselves, in general the show of force, coupled with the good will of the bulk of the civilian population, resulted in few incidents. It was soon evident that a different approach had to be used with the clan leaders’ armed retainers. Political concerns dictated the use of minimum force. However, when the clan leaders’ actions demanded it, the JTF had the flexibility to increase the force immediately and decisively.

o. In response to persistent sniper fire from a clansmen’s camp, 400 Marines raided a compound in Mogadishu belonging to the faction headed by Mohammed Farah Aidid on 7 January 1993. This was the largest raid to that point in Operation RESTORE HOPE. The Mogadishu compound was one of several that Aidid used to store arms and outfit his militia. One of Aidid’s rivals, Mohammed Ali Mahdi, had also hidden arms in Mogadishu prior to the arrival of UNITAF. Using loudspeakers, the Marines warned the Somalis to give themselves up. The response was gunfire. The Marines attacked with tanks and artillery, while helicopters provided covering fire. The Somalis returned fire with heavy machine guns prior to fleeing their positions. Some surrendered, but a number



US Marine LAV-25 stands guard at Mogadishu Airport.

were killed or captured. The Marines sustained no casualties.

p. These skirmishes produced a decided shift in tactics from peace operations to a combat posture. US commanders declared that the warlords and their clansmen were no longer allowed to run free through the capital. The Marines began seeking out the armed fighters and disarming them. These orders reflected a policy change resulting from the need for basic security in Mogadishu to prevent renewed fighting and looting. The clan fighters were not given the opportunity to gain the upper hand.

q. On 3 March, the UN proposed that US forces in the Operation RESTORE HOPE mission be replaced by a UN peacekeeping force. The Secretary General suggested a replacement force of 28,000. The UN praised the US-led international force and its effort to confiscate the arms of warring parties, but noted that, while progress was being made, much needed to be done to pacify the entire country.

r. A firefight in Kismayu in late February delayed the relief of the US-led force. Warriors loyal to Siad Hersi (Morgan) slipped into the city under cover of darkness and took

supplies and arms held by Jess's forces. Twenty-four Somalis were killed in street fighting before Morgan's men retreated. Following the Morgan incident, rioting broke out in Mogadishu. At this point Aidid erroneously believed that coalition forces were siding with Morgan, a misconception which was to have serious consequences later. The rioting temporarily halted the flow of relief supplies. During the fighting, four Americans and two Nigerians were wounded. For a time, it looked as if these events would make it more difficult to depart.

s. The mission of Operation RESTORE HOPE was completed. The countryside had been stabilized and relief supplies were flowing; the grip of the famine had been broken. In Mogadishu, the "technicals" (vehicles with mounted automatic weapons) that terrorized the streets were disarmed; the ports and other key installations were open. The UN and USCENTCOM objectives were achieved. This operation was clearly a success.

t. In sum, Operation RESTORE HOPE had achieved President Bush's objectives. The major installations were secured and open, and free passage of relief supplies was established. Humanitarian relief was provided and a larger disaster was averted. Based on the death toll in

1992, this effort saved 250,000 Somali lives. The clans were fighting among themselves less than they had prior to the arrival of US forces, and the danger of mass starvation had abated. Between December 1992 and April 1993, elements of the basic political process were restarted, but political reconciliation made little headway.

u. In part this success was a result of planning considerations. The mission analysis and command estimate process, so critical to a solid plan, were used. The CJTF received the right mix of forces for Operation RESTORE HOPE. By dividing Somalia into operational areas, he was able to use forces that had trained together and could keep them intact. This enabled UNITAF to avoid provisional or ad hoc forces which can result in reduced effectiveness.

forces were designated for logistics support, 1,100 members of the 10th Mountain Division remained as a Quick Reaction Force. These UN troops patrolled with ROE that gave them the authority to defend themselves and to use force to disarm the clans and restore order. US forces now referred to the deployment as Operation CONTINUED HOPE.

c. UN Security Council Resolution 814 in March 1993, which directed the formation of UNOSOM II, established the peacekeeping force under enforcement provisions of the Charter and directed the disarmament of the Somali clans. It permitted the re-establishment of political and economic structure and called for building a secure environment for the entire country. The



Sniper fire was a major obstacle to establishing order.

5. Operation CONTINUED HOPE

a. The UN took over the multinational force on 4 May 1993, bringing to an end Operation RESTORE HOPE.

b. The UNOSOM II force under Lieutenant General Cevik Bir's command totaled 18,000 soldiers, including 5,000 Americans. While the majority of the US

mission of the US forces was, when directed, to conduct "military operations to consolidate, expand, and maintain a secure environment for the advancement of humanitarian aid, economic assistance and political reconciliation of Somalia."

d. In a series of ambushes on 5 June, Aidid gunmen attacked members of the Pakistani peacekeeping force in Mogadishu, killing 23 soldiers and wounding 55. Aidid ordered the

ambushes to test the UN troops and their commanders and to shore up his sagging support.

e. A week later, UN forces launched attacks against Aidid, his home, and his command center. The UN had issued a warrant for his arrest, but he escaped and went into hiding. Less than a month later, a US helicopter attacked an Aidid stronghold, killing more than 13 Somalis. Mobs retaliated for this armed action. Tensions increased when three journalists were killed. Some believed Mogadishu was more violent than when American forces first arrived in December, 1992.

"[The inhabitant] acquires a military sagacity and the skill in the use of such weapons as he has at his command which the trained soldier never can aspire to."

Charles Callwell
Small Wars –
Their Principles and Practice

f. A contingent of 400 US Army Rangers trained in urban warfare arrived in Somalia on 26 August 1993. Raids, covert operations, assaults, and rescue operations were their specialty. The Rangers were to assist the 10th Mountain Division units in maintaining the peace and to aid in the UN efforts to arrest Aidid and neutralize his followers.

g. On 3 and 4 October, 18 US Army soldiers were killed in a 15-hour battle against supporters of Aidid. Nearly 100 Rangers had taken part in the battle, which had started as a raid to capture some of Aidid's closest supporters. When one of the accompanying helicopters was shot down, the Rangers were surrounded. Additional helicopters were shot down and reinforcements were repulsed. It was 10 hours before a relief force was able to break through and rescue the Rangers. Major General Thomas Montgomery, the deputy commander of the UN forces in Somalia, had requested additional tanks or APCs earlier, but they had not been provided. During the battle, Pakistani and Malaysian armored

forces had to be "borrowed" to relieve the Rangers. These US deaths as well as vivid television scenes of the mutilation of some of the soldiers' bodies increased calls to Congress for the withdrawal of American servicemen from the UN-led peacekeeping mission in Somalia.

h. This public debate caused a reassessment of the mission of US forces in Somalia. It was becoming obvious that troops were being used more for political reconciliation in Somalia than in the advancement of humanitarian aid. The forces committed were insufficient to provide proper security for such operations. The President ordered reinforcements to protect the US forces, and the forces began a phased withdrawal with a 31 March 1994 deadline. The last US peacekeeping contingent sailed from Mogadishu on 25 March 1994, ending the United States' mission in Somalia.

i. In hindsight, UNOSOM II, the tragic loss of 18 US Army Rangers, and the breakdown of peace agreements tested our national will, but the United States stayed with the UN force until the humanitarian mission, as originally defined, was completed. In future MOOTW, the United States must consider that long-term commitments, mission expansion, and the operational control of Americans by a foreign commander are likely to cause intense national debate. Political considerations will always influence the course of action.

6. Somalia and Joint Employment Principles

a. The Principles of MOOTW share critical elements with the Principles of War. The basics of **objective**, **unity of effort**, and **security** are common to both. The **objective** of Operation RESTORE HOPE was clearly defined and attained. By contrast, the changing mission of Operation CONTINUED HOPE to include vague "nation building" and other political



UN Secretary General Boutros Boutros-Ghali arriving at Mogadishu Airport.

objectives, as well as retaliatory military action against Aidid forces, caused the United States to abandon UNOSOM II as unachievable.

b. The **legitimacy** of the operation was initially not questioned. The UN Security Council resolution authorized the assistance and directed the task force to “use all necessary means” to ensure that food reached the starving. US public opinion supported this goal, particularly during the humanitarian assistance phase. US citizens saw the results of relief delivery and the lives saved. The Somali population welcomed the aid. The soldiers and Marines perceived humanitarian aid as an important, worthwhile task. As one young pilot said, “It is not our usual job, but we feel pretty good about it. We’re helping people stay alive instead of killing them.” As the mission changed during UNOSOM II to nation building and other political objectives, the United States was perceived as having lost its neutral position among the clans, a perception shared by key clan leaders. This led to a loss of legitimacy in Somalia and endangered US forces, requiring the President to set a deadline for withdrawal. Unity of effort was possible during Operation RESTORE HOPE and was achieved by the CJTF. With the concentrated effort of the

commanders, the utilization of forces that had trained together, the establishment of CMOC, and well coordinated logistics support, the CJTF possessed the elements necessary to apply this principle. During UNOSOM II, Major General Montgomery had a more difficult task in exercising his authority through an unusual assortment of command relationships that made unity of effort difficult.

c. The UNITAF rules of engagement protected the JTF’s inherent right of self-defense. All Service personnel stayed alert and handled perceived risk well. The clan fighters were never permitted to acquire a military or political advantage. As a result, **security** was achieved. US and coalition forces provided area security in the several sectors, both north and south, and relief supplies were distributed by a multinational team.

d. In assisting the UN, much will be asked of the United States. In turn, US leaders must demand mandates that are precise and clear and that prescribe entry and exit strategies. The UN changed the objective of the mission in Somalia, and learned that arresting and disarming warring factions are not tasks that should be taken lightly.

"In wars of this character the essentials are to secure a general who is both a statesman and a soldier; to have clear stipulations with the allies as to the part to be taken by each in the principal operations; finally, to agree upon an objective point which shall be in harmony with the common interests."

**Lieutenant General Antoine-Henri,
Baron de Jomini**

e. Application of the MOOTW principles in Somalia helped ensure success in Operation RESTORE HOPE and minimize losses. Where American lives are at stake, these principles cannot be overlooked. There is a clear doctrinal understanding that MOOTW can involve combat. This was demonstrated in very stark terms in UNOSOM II.

Military Incident #8

NEW MISSIONS, EARLY STRATEGIES: LYAUTEY FIGHTS IN LIMITED WARS

General Hubert Lyautey was perhaps the most successful French military colonial administrator.

In the late 19th century, the French Army produced a “limited war” strategist whose concepts and character enabled him to support early development in northern Africa. General Hubert Lyautey was a pioneer of French military thought who began his colonial career in what was then called French Indochina.

Lyautey combined political and military actions to pacify local residents.

Lyautey was among the first military men to recognize that resistance by colonial peoples could only be handled by a combination of political and military actions. Under the tutelage of General Joseph Gallieni, who later saved Paris at the opening of World War I, Lyautey developed the military and civil skills he exhibited in northern Africa. Lyautey combined light and mobile military forces with economic development to suppress nationalism.

Lyautey centralized all military and civil authority in his own hands.

Late in his career, Lyautey was assigned to suppress a revolt in the Oran area. Promoted to brigadier general at the advanced age of 59, he forced his superiors to allow him free rein in applying his theories to the problem. He demanded and got command of all military activity and control of all French political activity. Lyautey won different tribes over by protecting them under the French flag and providing social services ranging from medical care to marketplaces. Although he used military force when necessary, he looked beyond combat and focused on administration of territory under his control.

By the standards of the time and place, Lyautey's methods were enlightened.

In 1911, at nearly 70 years of age, he was again sent to French Morocco. As before, Lyautey allowed all local customs to be followed. His troops taught modern agricultural methods, dug water holes, and built hospitals, markets, railroads, highways, and schools. General Lyautey fostered economic activity that brought jobs to local residents. Despite his emphasis on civil development, he never forgot the importance of the military arm, but was careful to use it with restraint.

The best defense of democratic states such as the United States is the continued spread of democracy. Although the colonial system has been discredited today, the methods developed by General Lyautey may still be used by peacekeeping operations to help troubled nations establish and maintain viable governments chosen by and responding to the needs of their people. Doctrine and objectives for peacekeeping operations reflect a new and important mission for military forces. US military operations in Haiti reflected this new reality.

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CHAPTER VII

OPERATION UPHOLD DEMOCRACY

"I think, right up front, the success of any operation lies in the ability to execute what you've been given to do."

Lieutenant General Henry H. Shelton

1. Introduction

a. MOOTW support a variety of purposes. Operation UPHOLD DEMOCRACY in Haiti allowed the United States to use its influence and military force to peacefully return President Jean-Bertrand Aristide to power. The mission succeeded because the CJTF understood the aims of the United States and set appropriate objectives.

b. Operation UPHOLD DEMOCRACY was conceived as a peace enforcement mission and became a peacekeeping mission. The operation demonstrated the flexibility of the JTF, showing an ability to adjust successfully to the rapid change in mission.

c. Lieutenant General Henry H. Shelton, Commander, JTF 180 went to Haiti prepared for war. He was able to adjust his mission from an invasion to a permissive entry. By working and training with all the component forces from the onset of the planning, he achieved unity of effort and maintained it throughout the operation as the situation and rules of engagement changed.

2. Background

a. Since its independence from France in 1804, Haiti has been plagued by violent political upheaval. From 1843 to 1915 there were 22 heads of state, with all but one being deposed. In 1915, the United States sent in Marines to protect US lives and property; they remained until 1934. In 1950, under a new constitution, popular elections began. However, from 1950 to 1957 five regimes were overthrown. In 1957, Francois Duvalier (nicknamed Papa Doc) was elected, but soon

established a dictatorship marked by violence and terror. The terror was carried out by the Tontons Macoutes, a paramilitary corps of secret police that eliminated any political opposition. Duvalier was succeeded by his son Jean-Claude (Baby Doc), who continued the dictatorship until he was overthrown in 1986. From then on, the political situation remained chaotic and brutal. A military coup overthrew the elected President in 1988. In December 1990, Jean-Bertrand Aristide was elected president.

"One thing is sure: the Caribbean Sea is the strategic key to the two great oceans, the Atlantic and the Pacific, our chief maritime frontier."

Mahan
Naval Strategy, 1911

b. By September 1991 Aristide was deposed by a bloody military coup, and Lt. Gen. Raoul Cedras, Commander in Chief of the Haitian armed forces, ushered in a period of violence and economic chaos expressed in the massive and dangerous exodus of Haitians via hastily constructed and unseaworthy boats. In July 1993, forced by a UN economic embargo and extreme pressure from the international community, Cedras signed the Governors Island Accord with President Aristide. The accord included a multi-step plan to reestablish democratic rule in Haiti and return President Aristide to power by mid-October. The accords were never honored by Cedras and by October 1993, with the turning back of the USS *Harlan County* due to violent demonstrations in the Port-au-Prince harbor and the subsequent removal of various UN forces, Haiti was once again an outcast in the international community.

3. UN Involvement

a. The UN began to negotiate for the peaceful return of Aristide and democratic rule in Haiti. In January 1994 the Clinton administration established Joint Task Force 180, and a Joint Planning Group convened to begin invasion planning. The XVIII Airborne Corps at Ft. Bragg, North Carolina served as JTF headquarters. The objectives of the mission were to:

- Ensure that Haitian armed forces and police comply with stated accords;
- Protect US citizens and interests, designated Haitians and third country nationals;
- Restore civil order;
- Assist in the reorganization of Haitian armed forces and police; and
- Assist in transition to a democratic government.

b. Lieutenant General Shelton wasted no time in using his staff and outside experts as required to evaluate current operation plans. Joint command and control and intelligence systems were established. As a result, the JTF was fully functional as a joint headquarters for months prior to deployment.

c. Between 8 January and 18 September, major communications exercises were conducted and planning continued. Fourteen rehearsals of various aspects of the plan were done. Under JTF direction, the Coast Guard, Navy, Air Force, and Marines participated fully with the Army in three “Big Rock” (major rehearsal) drills. Shelton also used an Atlantic Command-sponsored exercise, AGILE PROVIDER, to provide training that would closely simulate the requirements for an invasion in Haiti. After 8 months of

intensive training, preparation, and rehearsals, the JTF was ready for deployment.

d. The complex deployment included special operations, an airborne assault, an amphibious landing, and movement of a force of 34,000 US servicemen and women, 21,000 of whom landed in Haiti. In late June and early July, joint US military exercises simulated an invasion of Haiti. On 7 July, the United States ordered 1,900 Marines of the 24th MEU aboard US Navy ships to take up positions off the coast of Haiti in case it became necessary to evacuate the 3,000 Americans and other friendly nationals from Haiti.

e. Meanwhile, the United States had encouraged a broad international commitment to Haitian stability prior to any invasion, and pressed Britain and Argentina to provide soldiers. Argentina promised to support peacekeeping but declined to participate in an invasion. Britain offered naval support and a military training team. During the summer, Jamaica, Barbados, Belize, and Trinidad and Tobago sent 266 soldiers to Puerto Rico for training.

f. On 31 July 1994, the UN Security Council Resolution 940 passed by a vote of 12 to 0, marking the first time the UN had approved an invasion of a country in the Western Hemisphere. Phase One of the resolution authorized “a multinational force under unified command and control . . . to use all necessary means” to oust the Cedras regime, but it did not specify a deadline. A UN 60-person team would monitor the eventual invasion. The group would be the United Nations Mission in Haiti (UNMIH) and would have an important role to play after Aristide was restored to power. The resolution required the UN multinational force to cease operations as soon as “a secure and stable environment” had been established and Aristide was reinstated. The UN mission

would then oversee the remainder of the transition. During Phase Two, UNMIH was to ensure that the Haitian armed forces and police received professional training. The resolution extended UNMIH's original mandate by 6 months and required the countries participating in Phase One to pay their own way.

4. US Involvement

a. On 30 August, the Secretary General announced that he was abandoning future mediation efforts aimed at convincing Haiti's military government to step down peacefully. The United States also moved toward a tougher public position. Deputy Secretary of Defense John Deutch concluded that the trade embargo imposed on 21 May was unlikely to cause the military junta in Haiti to turn over power peacefully. Deutch, speaking to the Caribbean Community Common Market in Jamaica on 30 August, stressed, "The time for action has arrived." The multinational force was going to Haiti.

b. The Joint Staff J-2 and J-3 supported USACOM intelligence needs by setting up the Haiti Intelligence Joint Task Force on 7 September. The CJTF utilized all available resources, drawing on the experience of his J-2 and other sources, such as the State Department, to gain a deep understanding of the main personalities in Haiti as well as local leaders. By the time of the operation, the commanders had a good understanding of the people they were to deal with.

c. In MOOTW, intelligence is as critical as in combat. All available systems were incorporated into the planning. Exercises familiarized all commands with use of equipment. When D-Day arrived, the Joint Deployable Intelligence Support System proved to be the glue that held intelligence together, from the maneuver brigade to the national intelligence agencies. Strategic

intelligence flowed seamlessly down to the tactical level, and tactical intelligence in turn flowed back to all levels of command.

d. JTF 180 built its forces around the Army's 10th Mountain Division, and included SOF, paratroopers from the 82nd Airborne, and a Special Purpose Marine air-ground task force (SPMAGTF) of 1,900 Marines. Coast Guard and Navy Sea Air Rescue helicopters were fully integrated into the plan. A joint medical capability was established. The force was supported by more than 15 Navy ships ranging from the aircraft carriers *Eisenhower* and *America* to the command ship *Mount Whitney* and a hospital ship. Twelve roll on/roll off ships were provided by the Military Sealift Command to carry equipment and supplies for the operation. The Air Force provided massive airlift capability.

e. SOF Forces and the 10th Mountain Division deployed in a unique manner. Admiral Paul D. Miller, Commander-in-Chief of US Atlantic Command (CINCUSACOM), assembled the forces assigned to JTF 180. Miller, who had long experimented with adaptive joint force packaging, ordered the JTF to use US Navy aircraft carriers for this deployment. The carriers were cleared of fixed-wing aircraft. The fighters were replaced by Army helicopters and soldiers. While Army Rangers had conducted exercises off carriers before, this was the first time that carriers had been used to deploy Army combat units. More than 3,800 soldiers and 116 helicopters were embarked for Haiti.

f. Lieutenant General Shelton and JTF 180 headquarters sailed on the command ship *USS Mount Whitney*. The ship made an ideal platform from which to conduct the operation. OPSEC and communications were assured, and the CJTF was able to be in constant contact with both the CINCUSACOM and his operational forces.

5. Diplomatic Negotiations

a. As the invasion forces headed for Haiti, President Clinton made a last minute diplomatic initiative to Haiti. Former President Jimmy Carter, Senator Sam Nunn of Georgia, and General Colin Powell, who had recently retired as Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff, comprised the delegation. While President Carter pressed Washington for deadline extensions, General Powell pressed the military leaders to keep their commitment to depart. He reminded them that turning over power was the honorable thing to do. The discussions were intense and ran late into the night and next day. On 18 September, Haiti's military government, faced with US invasion forces en route to Haiti, agreed to relinquish power. More than 60 planes were airborne when the accord was signed by former President Jimmy Carter and Emile Jonassaint, Haiti's provisional President. Lieutenant General Cedras and Brigadier General Philippe Biambray agreed to resign no later than 15 October in exchange for amnesty. In return, the UN-imposed economic sanctions were lifted. The Haitian military promised to cooperate with the US-led multinational force in establishing a stable political climate so that Aristide could be reinstated. The deal struck between the delegation and Cedras transformed the mission from an invasion to one of tentative cooperation between JTF 180 and the Haitian military.

b. Countries around the world praised the Carter accord and proclaimed it a better option than military intervention and economic sanctions. Soon, more countries agreed to participate. The British Foreign Ministry stated that the results "show that the force of international opinion and persistence by the United States can produce a highly satisfactory resolution." Other countries were now willing to help restore democracy in Haiti. The Organization of American States were very pleased over the

arrangement. Canadian officials welcomed the peaceful and safe arrival of the multinational force and promised assistance. (Canada had declined to participate in Phase One for fear it would compromise neutrality in Phase Two.) Only Venezuela condemned the United States for actions in Haiti.

6. US Forces

a. The last minute negotiations precluded the need for an invasion, but not the need for US ground forces. Word of the agreement reached General Shelton 4 hours before the troops were to go in. He then had 11 hours before he sent in the 10th Mountain Division. JTF 180 responded with a textbook example of flexibility. It shifted gears from forced entry to permissive entry without losing momentum. The resulting plan still included SOF insertion and a Marine assault, but the element of surprise was not necessary for Army entry into Port-au-Prince. The overwhelming forces were not cut back.

b. The first US servicemen arrived in Port-au-Prince on 19 September and encountered no resistance. The US Army's 10th Mountain Division immediately secured the port, the civilian airport, key roads, and the US Embassy. They established control of the city of Port-au-Prince, and were quickly followed by CA, PSYOP, medical, engineer, military police, and armored forces.

c. Simultaneously, SOF arrived at 27 locations throughout the country. The Special Forces teams were at times accompanied by other troops, CA personnel, and PSYOP specialists. Their mission was to rebuild or create local government institutions and to form a network to monitor conditions and developments. By 28 September, 1,240 Special Forces personnel were in-country working out of 20 locations. PSYOP activities were fully integrated into the operation. They were effective in deterring



US forces on patrol in Port-au-Prince.

the spread of violence while enlisting the support and cooperation of the Haitians. A total of 3,764 SOF personnel took part in Operation UPHOLD DEMOCRACY.

d. Thousands of Haitians rushed to the port in Port-au-Prince to witness and welcome the arrival of the US forces. US troops looked on as the Haitian police forcefully dispersed the crowds. US servicemen were under orders not to intervene with the police. Under the conditions of the Carter accord, the Haitian military retained authority until 15 October, and maintaining law and order was their responsibility. The intention was to avoid a power vacuum in which chaos could grow. Unfortunately, Haitian police and former “attaches” (latter-day Tontons Macoutes) beat pro-Aristide demonstrators and killed at least one. As a result of this incident and similar events, civilian police monitoring and training programs had to be accelerated.

e. Logistic support was available immediately. Sealift in the first 30 days delivered 7.2 million gallons of fuel, 1,854 containers, 5,600 vehicles, and 2 million square feet of cargo. This effort required seven

ships, four barges, and a tanker. Airlift provided 565 C-141 equivalents of supplies.

f. On 20 September, US Marines landed without opposition at Cap-Haitien in the North, gaining control of the airfield and securing the port. The Marines began the task of returning stability and order to the city. The SPMAGTF sent out highly visible patrols to reduce the opportunity for violence. The tenuous relationship between the Haitian police and the SPMAGTF flared into violence on 24 September when a Marine patrol, feeling threatened and observing police violence against civilians, fired on the Haitian police. The ensuing firefight left 10 Haitians dead and a Navy interpreter slightly wounded. The clash followed a rising tide of violent incidents and a lack of cooperation by the local police, who were for the most part tied to the Cedras regime. This incident sent a clear signal to the Haitian police and military that if they challenged US forces, they would do so at their own peril. Following this incident, crowds in the city went on a rampage, looting Haitian military barracks and police stations. Hundreds of weapons were turned over to the Marines in the next 48 hours.



The presence of US forces provided some measure of protection for Haitian citizens.

7. Concluding Events

a. By 26 September, calm had returned to Cap-Haitien. With the assistance of Army engineers, electricity and clean drinking water were restored to the city. The engineers delivered food and medical supplies and restarted efforts to clean up mountains of garbage that had collected. In 12 days, the SPMAGTF re-embarked its 1,900 Marines and 29 helicopters aboard the Wasp and were relieved by the 10th Mountain Division.

b. By 21 September, the United States concluded an agreement with the Haitian military to dismantle the heavy weapons unit located at Camp d'Application a few miles outside the capital. US forces took Bradley Fighting Vehicles out to the camp, attached the V-150s and howitzers, and carried them back through the city to the airport. This action was a severe psychological blow to the FAD'H (Haitian Armed Forces), for it proved that the United States was in control. When coupled with the incident at Cap-Haitien a few days later, the FAD'H understood in no uncertain terms that cooperation was their only course of action.

c. By 22 September, approximately 300 members of the 16th Military Police Brigade entered Haiti. 1,100 US military police eventually arrived in Haiti authorized "to moderate the conduct of Haitian security forces without assuming their responsibilities." General Cedras also took measures to ensure that the Haitian soldiers and police exercised more self-control towards the pro-democracy protesters. Public opinion and media coverage had forced a change in the initial US policy of noninterference.

d. The US forces began a buy-back program for small arms and heavy weapons. Pistols were bought at \$50, rifles at \$100 and automatic weapons at \$200. This helped to reduce the large number of firearms in circulation.

e. Meanwhile, President Clinton eased sanctions on 26 September, allowing Haiti to import food. He also allowed commercial flights to resume operation to and from Port-au-Prince. The eased embargo allowed Haitians to receive early relief assistance.

f. On 3 October, US soldiers in Port-au-Prince raided four sites, looking for weapons and cracking down on violence initiated by paramilitary “attaches” and militia linked to de facto government. These raids signaled a change in US policy to deal more aggressively with government forces and to ensure that unarmed Haitians were protected. In the meantime, President Aristide was making plans to return to Haiti by 15 October and begin the process to rebuild the nation and its economy and restore democracy.

g. By 4 October, 1,150 troops from Bangladesh were in Haiti, along with 270 from Caribbean nations. Multinational forces raided the headquarters of the Front for Advancement and Progress of Haiti (FRAPH), a paramilitary group headed by Emmanuel Constance with the support of Lieutenant Colonel Michel François, the Chief of Police in Port-au-Prince. FRAPH was responsible for much of the violence initiated earlier by the “attaches.” Numerous people were detained by this raid and others in Cap-Haitien. More than 110 FRAPH members were held, and a substantial number of weapons were seized. The detainees were to be turned over to the Aristide government

once it was in place. The raids increased US involvement in day-to-day Haitian affairs and helped to disarm and curb the power of such groups.

h. The Haitian police situation became critical when François fled to the Dominican Republic on 4 October. Earlier, Raymond W. Kelly, former New York City Police Commissioner, had been appointed to lead a civilian operation to overhaul the Haitian police force. The leadership vacuum created by François’ departure required that Kelly accelerate implementation of the planned program. He rapidly gathered 1,000 police monitors from 27 countries to observe Haitian police behavior. Meanwhile, the French, Canadian, and US governments quickly instituted a program to develop a new police force. For 6 months, experienced civilian public safety officers instructed new police recruits in programs in Haiti and at Fort Leonard Wood, Missouri. The project emphasized constitutional procedures, respect for human rights, and proven law enforcement practices. Simultaneously, Kelly’s international monitors accompanied police patrols in Haiti. As a result military forces were able to continue their prime



The success of Operation UPHOLD DEMOCRACY depended on the cooperation of the US forces and Haitian government.

missions, while the civilian government maintained public order and a new police force with no ties to the old regime came into being.

i. Public affairs had been synchronized between the Department of Defense, Department of State, and the JTF. Training of commanders and developing spokespersons prior to the operation proved successful. The CJTF held a major media event each day. He never lost the initiative and was able to aggressively counter inaccurate information. He made certain that he told the factual story of our soldiers, sailors, airmen, Marines, and coast guardsmen.

j. The multinational forces continued to quell minor skirmishes, confiscate weapons, and provide extensive humanitarian assistance. They seized control of the state-run radio and television stations to ensure that they were not used by the pro-military force to incite discontent. Within several weeks, these stations were turned over to Aristide's followers.

k. Lieutenant General Cedras resigned on 10 October, and departed with his family on 13 October for asylum in Panama. He called on Haitians to work with the US military "to create a new nation."

l. President Aristide returned to Haiti on 15 October and assumed his duties amid the cheers of tens of thousands of his supporters. It was clear that the military de facto leaders were out of power. Aristide's return marked the high point of Operation UPHOLD DEMOCRACY.

m. On 24 October, JTF 180 turned Operation UPHOLD DEMOCRACY over to JTF 190, which was primarily made up of the 10th Mountain Division, multinational forces, and support forces. On 6 November, President Clinton announced a partial



The return of President Jean-Bertrand Aristide signalled the end of Operation UPHOLD DEMOCRACY.

pullout, stating that 6,000 of 15,200 US troops would leave Haiti by 30 November. President Clinton and UN Secretary General Boutros-Ghali joined a ceremony in Port-au-Prince on 31 March 1995 to formally transfer peacekeeping responsibilities in Haiti from US led forces to UNMIH. This was the end of Operation UPHOLD DEMOCRACY.

"The merit of an action lies in finishing it to the end."

Genghis Khan

8. Haiti and Joint Employment Principles

a. During Operation UPHOLD DEMOCRACY, **security** was achieved on all fronts. The use of the USS *Mount Whitney* provided the **OPSEC** needed.

Through the use of **PSYOP**, public displays such as the moving of the heavy weapons from Camp d'Application, and the overwhelming presence of forces, the Cedras regime was unable to gain any political, military, or informational advantage. The ROE were **flexible** enough to provide the forces with their inherent right of self-defense.

b. The strict ROE prevented excessive use of force that could have antagonized the Haitian people. The **restraint** used was appropriate for the operation at hand, and was readily revised as the situation fluctuated.

c. JTF 180 went into Haiti with the determination to accomplish its objectives no matter how long it took. This demonstrated **perseverance**, reinforced by the handing off of the operation to JTF 190 to remain in Haiti until the UN was prepared to assume authority with the UNMIH, was obvious to all.

d. The **legitimacy** of the operation was assured by the UN resolution and by the fairness with which the CJTF dealt with the Haitians who were being removed. The permissive entry, complying with the Carter accords, gained the support not only of the international community but of the Haitian people and the American public.

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APPENDIX A

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APPENDIX B

RECENT JOINT HISTORY OFFICE PUBLICATIONS

Questions regarding availability of these publications should be directed to the Joint History Office, Office of the Chairman, JCS, 1B707 Pentagon, Washington, D.C. 20318-9999, (703) 695-2114 (DSN 225-2114).

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GLOSSARY

PART I—ABBREVIATIONS AND ACRONYMS

AOR	area of responsibility
APC	armored personnel carrier
AWACS	Airborne Warning and Control System
CA	civil affairs
CINC	commander of a combatant command
CINCFE	Commander in Chief, Far East
CINCUSACOM	Commander in Chief, United States Atlantic Command
CIT	combat intelligence team
CJTF	commander, joint task force
CMOC	Civil Military Operations Center
COMNAVFE	Commander, Naval Forces Far East
CPF	Caribbean Peacekeeping Force
FAD'H	Haitian Armed Forces
FEAF	Far East Air Forces
FEC	Far East Command
FRAPH	Front for Advancement and Progress of Haiti
GCC	Gulf Cooperation Council
HQ	headquarters
HUMINT	human intelligence
JCS	Joint Chiefs of Staff
JFACC	joint force air component commander
JFC-N	Joint Forces Command - North
JSOC	Joint Special Operations Command
JSPOG	Joint Strategic Plans and Operations Group
JTF	joint task force
LANTCOM	United States Atlantic Command (now USACOM)
LAV	light armored vehicle
MAC	Military Airlift Command
MAU	Marine amphibious unit
MEB	Marine expeditionary brigade
MEF	Marine expeditionary force
MEU	Marine expeditionary unit
MOOTW	military operations other than war
MPS	maritime prepositioning ships
NKPA	North Korean People's Army

Glossary

NSC	National Security Council
OECS	Organization of Eastern Caribbean States
OPCON	operational control
OPLAN	operation plan
OPSEC	operations security
PDF	Panama Defense Forces
PRA	People's Revolutionary Army
PRM	People's Revolutionary Militia
PSYOP	psychological operations
RMC	Revolutionary Military Council
ROE	rules of engagement
ROK	Republic of Korea
SOF	special operations forces
SPMAGTF	special purpose Marine air-ground task force
SSG	Special Situation Group
UN	United Nations
UNITAF	Unified Task Force
UNMIH	United Nations Mission in Haiti
UNOSOM	United Nations Operations in Somalia
USAF	United States Air Force
USARCENT	United States Army Forces, United States Central Command
USCENTAF	United States Central Command Air Forces
USCENTCOM	United States Central Command
USCINCCENT	Commander in Chief, United States Central Command
USMARFORCENT	United States Marine Component, United States Central Command
USNAVCENT	United States Naval Forces, United States Central Command
USSOUTHCOM	United States Southern Command

PART II—TERMS AND DEFINITIONS

air superiority — That degree of dominance in the air battle of one force over another which permits the conduct of operations by the former and its related land, sea and air forces at a given time and place without prohibitive interference by the opposing force. (Joint Pub 1-02)

air support — All forms of support given by air forces on land or sea. (Joint Pub 1-02)

air supremacy — That degree of air superiority wherein the opposing air force is incapable of effective interference. (Joint Pub 1-02)

amphibious operation — An attack launched from the sea by naval and landing forces, embarked in ships or craft involving a landing on a hostile or potentially hostile shore. As an entity, the amphibious operation includes the following phases: **a. planning** — The period extending from issuance of the initiating directive to embarkation. **b. embarkation** — The period during which the forces, with their equipment and supplies, are embarked in the assigned shipping. **c. rehearsal** — The period during which the prospective operation is rehearsed for the purpose of: (1) testing adequacy of plans, the timing of detailed operations, and the combat readiness of participating forces; (2) ensuring that all echelons are familiar with plans; and (3) testing communications. **d. movement** — The period during which various components of the amphibious task force move from points of embarkation to the objective area. **e. assault** — The period between the arrival of the major assault forces of the amphibious task force in the objective area and the accomplishment of the amphibious task force mission. (Joint Pub 1-02)

area of operations — An operational area defined by the joint force commander for land and naval forces. Areas of operation do not typically encompass the entire operational area of the joint force commander, but should be large enough for component commanders to accomplish their missions and protect their forces. (Joint Pub 1-02)

area of responsibility — 1. The geographical area associated with a combatant command within which a combatant commander has authority to plan and conduct operations. 2. In naval usage, a predefined area of enemy terrain for which supporting ships are responsible for covering by fire on known targets or targets of opportunity and by observation. Also called **AOR**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

armored personnel carrier — A lightly armored, highly mobile, full-tracked vehicle, amphibious and air-droppable, used primarily for transporting personnel and their individual equipment during tactical operations. Production modifications or application of special kits permit use as a mortar carrier, command post, flame thrower, antiaircraft artillery chassis, or limited recovery vehicle. (Joint Pub 1-02)

beachhead — A designated area on a hostile or potentially hostile shore that, when seized and held, ensures the continuous landing of troops and materiel, and provides maneuver space requisite for subsequent projected operations ashore. (Joint Pub 1-02)

bottom mine — A mine with negative buoyancy which remains on the seabed. Also called **ground mine**. See also **mine**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

camp — A group of tents, huts, or other shelter set up temporarily for troops, and more permanent than a bivouac. A military post, temporary or permanent, may be called a camp. (Joint Pub 1-02)

campaign — A series of related military operations aimed at accomplishing a strategic or operational objective within a given time and space. (Joint Pub 1-02)

casualty — Any person who is lost to the organization by having been declared dead, duty status - whereabouts unknown, missing, ill, or injured. (Joint Pub 1-02)

centers of gravity — Those characteristics, capabilities, or localities from which a military force derives its freedom of action, physical strength, or will to fight. (Joint Pub 1-02)

chain of command — The succession of commanding officers from a superior to a subordinate through which command is exercised. Also called **command channel**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

civil affairs — The activities of a commander that establish, maintain, influence, or exploit relations between military forces and civil authorities, both governmental and nongovernmental, and the civilian populace in a friendly, neutral, or hostile area of operations in order to facilitate military operations and consolidate operational objectives. Civil affairs may include performance by military forces of activities and functions normally the responsibility of local government. These activities may occur prior to, during, or subsequent to other military actions. They may also occur, if directed, in the absence of other military operations. (Joint Pub 1-02)

civil-military operations — Group of planned activities in support of military

operations that enhance the relationship between the military forces and civilian authorities and population and which promote the development of favorable emotions, attitudes, or behavior in neutral, friendly, or hostile groups. (Joint Pub 1-02)

civil reserve air fleet — A program in which the Department of Defense uses aircraft owned by a US entity or citizen. The aircraft are allocated by the Department of Transportation to augment the military airlift capability of the Department of Defense (DOD). These aircraft are allocated, in accordance with DOD requirements, to segments, according to their capabilities, such as Long-Range International (cargo and passenger), Short-Range International, Domestic, Alaskan, Aeromedical, and other segments as may be mutually agreed upon by the Department of Defense and the Department of Transportation. The Civil Reserve Air Fleet (CRAF) can be incrementally activated by the Department of Defense in three stages in response to defense-oriented situations, up to and including a declared national emergency or war, to satisfy DOD airlift requirements. When activated, CRAF aircraft are under the mission control of the Department of Defense while remaining a civil resource under the operational control of the responsible US entity or citizen. Also called **CRAF**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

close air support — Air action by fixed- and rotary-wing aircraft against hostile targets which are in close proximity to friendly forces and which require detailed integration of each air mission with the fire and movement of those forces. Also called **CAS**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

coalition — An ad hoc arrangement between two or more nations for common action. (Joint Pub 1-02)

coalition force — A force composed of military elements of nations that have formed a temporary alliance for some specific purpose. (Joint Pub 1-02)

combatant command — A unified or specified command with a broad continuing mission under a single commander established and so designated by the President, through the Secretary of Defense and with the advice and assistance of the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff. Combatant commands typically have geographic or functional responsibilities. (Joint Pub 1-02)

combatant commander — A commander in chief of one of the unified or specified combatant commands established by the President. See also **combatant command**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

command — 1. The authority that a commander in the Armed Forces lawfully exercises over subordinates by virtue of rank or assignment. Command includes the authority and responsibility for effectively using available resources and for planning the employment of, organizing, directing, coordinating, and controlling military forces for the accomplishment of assigned missions. It also includes responsibility for health, welfare, morale, and discipline of assigned personnel. 2. An order given by a commander; that is, the will of the commander expressed for the purpose of bringing about a particular action. 3. A unit or units, an organization, or an area under the command of one individual. See also **combatant command**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

command and control — The exercise of authority and direction by a properly designated commander over assigned and attached forces in the accomplishment of the mission. Command and control

functions are performed through an arrangement of personnel, equipment, communications, facilities, and procedures employed by a commander in planning, directing, coordinating, and controlling forces and operations in the accomplishment of the mission. Also called **C2**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

command, control, communications, and computer systems — Integrated systems of doctrine, procedures, organizational structures, personnel, equipment, facilities, and communications designed to support a commander's exercise of command and control across the range of military operations. Also called **C4 systems**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

communications — A method or means of conveying information of any kind from one person or place to another. (Joint Pub 1-02)

concept plan — An operation plan in concept format. Also called **CONPLAN**. See also **operation plan**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

coup de main — A offensive operation that capitalizes on surprise and simultaneous execution of supporting operations to achieve success in one swift stroke. (Joint Pub 1-02)

deception — Those measures designed to mislead the enemy by manipulation, distortion, or falsification of evidence to induce him to react in a manner prejudicial to his interests. (Joint Pub 1-02)

deployment — 1. In naval usage, the change from a cruising approach or contact disposition to a disposition for battle. 2. The movement of forces within areas of operation. 3. The positioning of forces into a formation for battle. 4. The relocation of forces and materiel to desired areas of operations. Deployment

encompasses all activities from origin or home station through destination, specifically including intra-continental United States, intertheater, and intratheater movement legs, staging, and holding areas. (Joint Pub 1-02)

diversion — 1. The act of drawing the attention and forces of an enemy from the point of the principal operation; an attack, alarm, or feint that diverts attention. 2. A change made in a prescribed route for operational or tactical reasons. A diversion order will not constitute a change of destination. 3. A rerouting of cargo or passengers to a new transshipment point or destination or on a different mode of transportation prior to arrival at ultimate destination. (Joint Pub 1-02)

division — 1. A tactical unit/formation as follows: a. A major administrative and tactical unit/formation which combines in itself the necessary arms and services required for sustained combat, larger than a regiment/brigade and smaller than a corps. b. A number of naval vessels of similar type grouped together for operational and administrative command, or a tactical unit of a naval aircraft squadron, consisting of two or more sections. c. An air division is an air combat organization normally consisting of two or more wings with appropriate service units. The combat wings of an air division will normally contain similar type units. 2. An organizational part of a headquarters that handles military matters of a particular nature, such as personnel, intelligence, plans, and training, or supply and evacuation. 3. A number of personnel of a ship's complement grouped together for operational and administrative command. (Joint Pub 1-02)

doctrine — Fundamental principles by which the military forces or elements thereof guide their actions in support of

national objectives. It is authoritative but requires judgment in application. (Joint Pub 1-02)

drop zone — A specific area upon which airborne troops, equipment, or supplies are airdropped. (Joint Pub 1-02)

economy of force theater — Theater in which risk is accepted to allow a concentration of sufficient force in the theater of focus. (Joint Pub 1-02)

electronic warfare — Any military action involving the use of electromagnetic and directed energy to control the electromagnetic spectrum or to attack the enemy. Also called **EW**. The three major subdivisions within electronic warfare are: electronic attack, electronic protection, and electronic warfare support. **a. electronic attack.** That division of electronic warfare involving the use of electromagnetic, directed energy, or antiradiation weapons to attack personnel, facilities, or equipment with the intent of degrading, neutralizing, or destroying enemy combat capability. Also called **EA**. EA includes: 1) actions taken to prevent or reduce an enemy's effective use of the electromagnetic spectrum, such as jamming and electromagnetic deception, and 2) employment of weapons that use either electromagnetic or directed energy as their primary destructive mechanism (lasers, radio frequency weapons, particle beams). **b. electronic protection.** That division of electronic warfare involving actions taken to protect personnel, facilities, and equipment from any effects of friendly or enemy employment of electronic warfare that degrade, neutralize, or destroy friendly combat capability. Also called **EP**. **c. electronic warfare support.** That division of electronic warfare involving actions tasked by, or under direct control of, an operational commander to search for, intercept, identify, and locate sources of

intentional and unintentional radiated electromagnetic energy for the purpose of immediate threat recognition. Thus, electronic warfare support provides information required for immediate decisions involving electronic warfare operations and other tactical actions such as threat avoidance, targeting, and homing. Also called **ES**. Electronic warfare support data can be used to produce signals intelligence, both communications intelligence, and electronics intelligence. (Joint Pub 1-02)

embarkation — The process of putting personnel and/or vehicles and their associated stores and equipment into ships and/or aircraft. (Joint Pub 1-02)

employment — The strategic, operational, or tactical use of forces. (Joint Pub 1-02)

emission control — The selective and controlled use of electromagnetic, acoustic, or other emitters to optimize command and control capabilities while minimizing, for operations security: a. detection by enemy sensors; b. minimize mutual interference among friendly systems; and/or c. execute a military deception plan. Also called **EMCON**. See also **electronic warfare**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

envelopment — An offensive maneuver in which the main attacking force passes around or over the enemy's principal defensive positions to secure objectives to the enemy's rear. (Joint Pub 1-02)

first light — The beginning of morning nautical twilight; i.e., when the center of the morning sun is 12 degrees below the horizon. (Joint Pub 1-02)

fleet — An organization of ships, aircraft, Marine forces, and shore-based fleet activities all under the command of a commander or commander in chief who

may exercise operational as well as administrative control. (Joint Pub 1-02)

flexible response — The capability of military forces for effective reaction to any enemy threat or attack with actions appropriate and adaptable to the circumstances existing. (Joint Pub 1-02)

force — 1. An aggregation of military personnel, weapon systems, vehicles and necessary support, or combination thereof. 2. A major subdivision of a fleet. (Joint Pub 1-02)

force multiplier — A capability that, when added to and employed by a combat force, significantly increases the combat potential of that force and thus enhances the probability of successful mission accomplishment. (Joint Pub 1-02)

Forces Armées d'Haiti— Armed Forces of Haiti. Also called **FAD'H**. (This term and its definition are applicable only in the context of this pub and cannot be referenced outside this publication.)

friendly fire — In casualty reporting, a casualty circumstance applicable to persons killed in action or wounded in action mistakenly or accidentally by friendly forces actively engaged with the enemy, who are directing fire at a hostile force or what is thought to be a hostile force. See also **casualty**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

front — 1. The lateral space occupied by an element measured from the extremity of one flank to the extremity of the other flank. 2. The direction of the enemy. 3. The line of contact of two opposing forces. 4. When a combat situation does not exist or is not assumed, the direction toward which the command is faced. (Joint Pub 1-02)

H-hour — See **times**.

hostage — A person held as a pledge that certain terms or agreements will be kept. (The taking of hostages is forbidden under the Geneva Conventions, 1949.) (Joint Pub 1-02)

human intelligence — A category of intelligence derived from information collected and provided by human sources. Also called **HUMINT**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

humanitarian and civic assistance — Assistance to the local populace provided by predominantly US forces in conjunction with military operations and exercises. This assistance is specifically authorized by title 10, United States Code, section 401, and funded under separate authorities. Assistance provided under these provisions is limited to (1) medical, dental, and veterinary care provided in rural areas of a country; (2) construction of rudimentary surface transportation systems; (3) well drilling and construction of basic sanitation facilities; and (4) rudimentary construction and repair of public facilities. Assistance must fulfill unit training requirements that incidentally create humanitarian benefit to the local populace. (Joint Pub 1-02)

humanitarian assistance — Programs conducted to relieve or reduce the results of natural or manmade disasters or other endemic conditions such as human pain, disease, hunger, or privation that might present a serious threat to life or that can result in great damage to or loss of property. Humanitarian assistance provided by US forces is limited in scope and duration. The assistance provided is designed to supplement or complement the efforts of the host nation civil authorities or agencies that may have the primary responsibility for providing humanitarian assistance. (Joint Pub 1-02)

infiltration — 1. The movement through or into an area or territory occupied by

either friendly or enemy troops or organizations. The movement is made, either by small groups or by individuals, at extended or irregular intervals. When used in connection with the enemy, it infers that contact is avoided. 2. In intelligence usage, placing an agent or other person in a target area in hostile territory. Usually involves crossing a frontier or other guarded line. Methods of infiltration are: black (clandestine); grey (through legal crossing point but under false documentation); white (legal). (Joint Pub 1-02)

intelligence — 1. The product resulting from the collection, processing, integration, analysis, evaluation, and interpretation of available information concerning foreign countries or areas. 2. Information and knowledge about an adversary obtained through observation, investigation, analysis, or understanding. (Joint Pub 1-02)

joint doctrine — Fundamental principles that guide the employment of forces of two or more Services in coordinated action toward a common objective. It will be promulgated by the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff, in coordination with the combatant commands, Services, and Joint Staff. (Joint Pub 1-02)

joint force — A general term applied to a force composed of significant elements, assigned or attached, of two or more Military Departments, operating under a single joint force commander. (Joint Pub 1-02)

joint force air component commander — The joint force air component commander derives authority from the joint force commander who has the authority to exercise operational control, assign missions, direct coordination among subordinate commanders, redirect and organize forces to ensure unity of effort in

the accomplishment of the overall mission. The joint force commander will normally designate a joint force air component commander. The joint force air component commander's responsibilities will be assigned by the joint force commander (normally these would include, but not be limited to, planning, coordination, allocation, and tasking based on the joint force commander's apportionment decision). Using the joint force commander's guidance and authority, and in coordination with other Service component commanders and other assigned or supporting commanders, the joint force air component commander will recommend to the joint force commander apportionment of air sorties to various missions or geographic areas. Also called **JFACC**. See also **joint force commander**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

joint force commander — A general term applied to a combatant commander, subunified commander, or joint task force commander authorized to exercise combatant command (command authority) or operational control over a joint force. Also called **JFC**. See also **joint force**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

joint force land component commander — The commander within a unified command, subordinate unified command, or joint task force responsible to the establishing commander for making recommendations on the proper employment of land forces, planning and coordinating land operations, or accomplishing such operational missions as may be assigned. The joint force land component commander is given the authority necessary to accomplish missions and tasks assigned by the establishing commander. The joint force land component commander will normally be the commander with the preponderance of land forces and the requisite command and

control capabilities. Also called **JFLCC**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

joint operations — A general term to describe military actions conducted by joint forces, or by Service forces in relationships (e.g., support, coordinating authority), which, of themselves, do not create joint forces. (Joint Pub 1-02)

joint special operations task force — A joint task force composed of special operations units from more than one Service, formed to carry out a specific special operation or prosecute special operations in support of a theater campaign or other operations. The joint special operations task force may have conventional nonspecial operations units assigned or attached to support the conduct of specific missions. Also called **JSOTF**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

joint staff — 1. The staff of a commander of a unified or specified command, subordinate unified command, joint task force, or subordinate functional component (when a functional component command will employ forces from more than one Military Department), which includes members from the several Services comprising the force. These members should be assigned in such a manner as to ensure that the commander understands the tactics, techniques, capabilities, needs, and limitations of the component parts of the force. Positions on the staff should be divided so that Service representation and influence generally reflect the Service composition of the force. 2. (**capitalized as Joint Staff**) The staff under the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff as provided for in the National Security Act of 1947, as amended by the Goldwater-Nichols Department of Defense Reorganization Act of 1986. The Joint Staff assists the Chairman and, subject to the authority, direction, and control of the Chairman, the other members of the Joint

Chiefs of Staff and the Vice Chairman in carrying out their responsibilities. (Joint Pub 1-02)

joint task force — A joint force that is constituted and so designated by the Secretary of Defense, a combatant commander, a subunified commander, or an existing joint task force commander. Also called **JTF**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

landing craft — A craft employed in amphibious operations, specifically designed for carrying troops and equipment and for beaching, unloading, and retracting. Also used for logistic cargo resupply operations. (Joint Pub 1-02)

leveraging — In information warfare, the effective use of information, information systems, and technology to increase the means and synergy in accomplishing information warfare strategy. (Joint Pub 1-02)

lines of communications — All the routes, land, water, and air, which connect an operating military force with a base of operations and along which supplies and military forces move. Also called **LOC**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

logistics — The science of planning and carrying out the movement and maintenance of forces. In its most comprehensive sense, those aspects of military operations which deal with: a. design and development, acquisition, storage, movement, distribution, maintenance, evacuation, and disposition of materiel; b. movement, evacuation, and hospitalization of personnel; c. acquisition or construction, maintenance, operation, and disposition of facilities; and d. acquisition or furnishing of services. (Joint Pub 1-02)

main attack — The principal attack or effort into which the commander throws the full

weight of the offensive power at his disposal. An attack directed against the chief objective of the campaign or battle. (Joint Pub 1-02)

maneuver — 1. A movement to place ships or aircraft in a position of advantage over the enemy. 2. A tactical exercise carried out at sea, in the air, on the ground, or on a map in imitation of war. 3. The operation of a ship, aircraft, or vehicle, to cause it to perform desired movements. 4. Employment of forces on the battlefield through movement in combination with fire, or fire potential, to achieve a position of advantage in respect to the enemy in order to accomplish the mission. (Joint Pub 1-02)

Marine air-ground task force — A task organization of Marine forces (division, aircraft wing, and service support groups) under a single command and structured to accomplish a specific mission. The Marine air-ground task force (MAGTF) components will normally include command, aviation combat, ground combat, and combat service support elements (including Navy Support Elements). Three types of Marine air-ground task forces which can be task organized are the Marine expeditionary unit, Marine expeditionary brigade, and Marine expeditionary force. The four elements of a Marine air-ground task force are: **a. command element (CE)** — The MAGTF headquarters. The CE is a permanent organization composed of the commander, general or executive and special staff sections, headquarters section, and requisite communications and service support facilities. The CE provides command, control, and coordination essential for effective planning and execution of operations by the other three elements of the MAGTF. There is only one CE in a MAGTF. **b. aviation combat element (ACE)** — The MAGTF element

that is task organized to provide all or a portion of the functions of Marine Corps aviation in varying degrees based on the tactical situation and the MAGTF mission and size. These functions are air reconnaissance, antiair warfare, assault support, offensive air support, electronic warfare, and control of aircraft and missiles. The ACE is organized around an aviation headquarters and varies in size from a reinforced helicopter squadron to one or more Marine aircraft wing(s). It includes those aviation command (including air control agencies), combat, combat support, and combat service support units required by the situation. Normally, there is only one ACE in a MAGTF. **c. ground combat element (GCE)** — The MAGTF element that is task organized to conduct ground operations. The GCE is constructed around an infantry unit and varies in size from a reinforced infantry battalion to one or more reinforced Marine division(s). The GCE also includes appropriate combat support and combat service support units. Normally, there is only one GCE in a MAGTF. **d. combat service support element (CSSE)** — The MAGTF element that is task organized to provide the full range of combat service support necessary to accomplish the MAGTF mission. CSSE can provide supply, maintenance, transportation, deliberate engineer, health, postal, disbursing, enemy prisoner of war, automated information systems, exchange, utilities, legal, and graves registration services. The CSSE varies in size from a Marine expeditionary unit (MEU) service support group (MSSG) to a force service support group (FSSG). Normally, there is only one combat service support element in a MAGTF. (Joint Pub 1-02)

Marine expeditionary brigade — A task organization which is normally built around a regimental landing team, a provisional Marine aircraft group, and a logistics support group. It is capable of

conducting amphibious assault operations of a limited scope. During potential crisis situations, a Marine expeditionary brigade may be forward deployed afloat for an extended period in order to provide an immediate combat response. Also called **MEB**. See also **Marine air-ground task force**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

Marine expeditionary force — The Marine expeditionary force, the largest of the Marine air-ground task forces, is normally built around a division/wing team, but can include several divisions and aircraft wings, together with an appropriate combat service support organization. The Marine expeditionary force is capable of conducting a wide range of amphibious assault operations and sustained operations ashore. It can be tailored for a wide variety of combat missions in any geographic environment. Also called **MEF**. See also **Marine air-ground task force**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

Marine expeditionary unit — A task organization which is normally built around a battalion landing team, reinforced helicopter squadron, and logistic support unit. It fulfills routine forward afloat deployment requirements, provides an immediate reaction capability for crisis situations, and is capable of relatively limited combat operations. Also called **MEU**. See also **Marine air-ground task force**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

maritime prepositioning ships — Civilian-crewed, Military Sealift Command-chartered ships which are organized into three squadrons and are usually forward-deployed. These ships are loaded with prepositioned equipment and 30 days of supplies to support three Marine expeditionary brigades. Also called **MPS**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

mass — 1. The concentration of combat power. (Joint Pub 1-02)

military operations other than war — Operations that encompass the use of military capabilities across the range of military operations short of war. These military actions can be applied to complement any combination of the other instruments of national power and occur before, during, and after war. Also called **MOOTW**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

Military Service — A branch of the Armed Forces of the United States, established by act of Congress, in which persons are appointed, enlisted, or inducted for military service, and which operates and is administered within a military or executive department. The Military Services are: the United States Army, the United States Navy, the United States Air Force, the United States Marine Corps, and the United States Coast Guard. (Joint Pub 1-02)

mine — 1. In land mine warfare, an explosive or other material, normally encased, designed to destroy or damage ground vehicles, boats, or aircraft, or designed to wound, kill, or otherwise incapacitate personnel. It may be detonated by the action of its victim, by the passage of time, or by controlled means. 2. In naval mine warfare, an explosive device laid in the water with the intention of damaging or sinking ships or of deterring shipping from entering an area. The term does not include devices attached to the bottoms of ships or to harbor installations by personnel operating underwater, nor does it include devices which explode immediately on expiration of a predetermined time after laying. (Joint Pub 1-02)

minefield — 1. In land warfare, an area of ground containing mines laid with or without a pattern. 2. In naval warfare, an area of water containing mines laid with or without a pattern. (Joint Pub 1-02)

mission — 1. The task, together with the purpose, that clearly indicates the action to be taken and the reason therefor. 2. In common usage, especially when applied to lower military units, a duty assigned to an individual or unit; a task. 3. The dispatching of one or more aircraft to accomplish one particular task. (Joint Pub 1-02)

mobility — A quality or capability of military forces which permits them to move from place to place while retaining the ability to fulfill their primary mission. (Joint Pub 1-02)

mobilization — 1. The act of assembling and organizing national resources to support national objectives in time of war or other emergencies. 2. The process by which the Armed Forces or part of them are brought to a state of readiness for war or other national emergency. This includes activating all or part of the Reserve Components as well as assembling and organizing personnel, supplies, and materiel. Mobilization of the Armed Forces includes but is not limited to the following categories: **a. selective mobilization** — Expansion of the active Armed Forces resulting from action by Congress and/or the President to mobilize Reserve Component units, individual ready reservists, and the resources needed for their support to meet the requirements of a domestic emergency that is not the result of an enemy attack. **b. partial mobilization** — Expansion of the active Armed Forces resulting from action by Congress (up to full mobilization) or by the President (not more than 1,000,000 for not more than 24 consecutive months) to mobilize Ready Reserve Component units, individual reservists, and the resources needed for their support to meet the requirements of a war or other national

emergency involving an external threat to the national security. **c. full mobilization** — Expansion of the active Armed Forces resulting from action by Congress and the President to mobilize all Reserve Component units in the existing approved force structure, all individual reservists, retired military personnel, and the resources needed for their support to meet the requirements of a war or other national emergency involving an external threat to the national security. Reserve personnel can be placed on active duty for the duration of the emergency plus six months. **d. total mobilization** — Expansion of the active Armed Forces resulting from action by Congress and the President to organize and/or generate additional units or personnel, beyond the existing force structure, and the resources needed for their support, to meet the total requirements of a war or other national emergency involving an external threat to the national security. (Joint Pub 1-02)

multinational operations — A collective term to describe military actions conducted by forces of two or more nations, typically organized within the structure of a coalition or alliance. (Joint Pub 1-02)

National Command Authorities — The President and the Secretary of Defense or their duly deputized alternates or successors. Also called **NCA**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

national security — A collective term encompassing both national defense and foreign relations of the United States. Specifically, the condition provided by: a. a military or defense advantage over any foreign nation or group of nations, or b. a favorable foreign relations position, or c. a defense posture capable of successfully resisting hostile or destructive action from within or without, overt or covert. See also **security**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

neutralize — As pertains to military operations, to render ineffective or unusable. (Joint Pub 1-02)

nongovernmental organizations — Transnational organizations of private citizens that maintain a consultative status with the Economic and Social Council of the United Nations. Nongovernmental organizations may be professional associations, foundations, multinational businesses, or simply groups with a common interest in humanitarian assistance activities (development and relief). “Nongovernmental organizations” is a term normally used by non-United States organizations. Also called **NGO**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

objective — The physical object of the action taken, e.g., a definite tactical feature, the seizure and/or holding of which is essential to the commander’s plan. (Joint Pub 1-02)

operation — A military action or the carrying out of a strategic, tactical, service, training, or administrative military mission; the process of carrying on combat, including movement, supply, attack, defense and maneuvers needed to gain the objectives of any battle or campaign. (Joint Pub 1-02)

operation order — A directive issued by a commander to subordinate commanders for the purpose of effecting the coordinated execution of an operation. Also called **OPORD**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

operation plan — Any plan, except for the Single Integrated Operation Plan, for the conduct of military operations. Plans are prepared by combatant commanders in response to requirements established by the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff and by commanders of subordinate commands in response to requirements tasked by the establishing unified commander.

Operation plans are prepared in either a complete format (OPLAN) or as a concept plan (CONPLAN). The CONPLAN can be published with or without a time-phased force and deployment data (TPFDD) file.

a. OPLAN — An operation plan for the conduct of joint operations that can be used as a basis for development of an operation order (OPORD). An OPLAN identifies the forces and supplies required to execute the CINC's Strategic Concept and a movement schedule of these resources to the theater of operations. The forces and supplies are identified in TPFDD files. OPLANs will include all phases of the tasked operation. The plan is prepared with the appropriate annexes, appendixes, and TPFDD files as described in the Joint Operation Planning and Execution System manuals containing planning policies, procedures, and formats. Also called **OPLAN**. **b. CONPLAN** — An operation plan in an abbreviated format that would require considerable expansion or alteration to convert it into an OPLAN or OPORD. A CONPLAN contains the CINC's Strategic Concept and those annexes and appendixes deemed necessary by the combatant commander to complete planning. Generally, detailed support requirements are not calculated and TPFDD files are not prepared. Also called **CONPLAN**. **c. CONPLAN with TPFDD** — A CONPLAN with TPFDD is the same as a CONPLAN except that it requires more detailed planning for phased deployment of forces. (Joint Pub 1-02)

operational art — The employment of military forces to attain strategic and/or operational objectives through the design, organization, integration, and conduct of strategies, campaigns, major operations, and battles. Operational art translates the joint force commander's strategy into operational design, and, ultimately, tactical action, by integrating the key activities at all levels of war. (Joint Pub 1-02)

operational control — Transferable command authority that may be exercised by commanders at any echelon at or below the level of combatant command. Operational control is inherent in combatant command (command authority). Operational control may be delegated and is the authority to perform those functions of command over subordinate forces involving organizing and employing commands and forces, assigning tasks, designating objectives, and giving authoritative direction necessary to accomplish the mission. Operational control includes authoritative direction over all aspects of military operations and joint training necessary to accomplish missions assigned to the command. Operational control should be exercised through the commanders of subordinate organizations. Normally this authority is exercised through subordinate joint force commanders and Service and/or functional component commanders. Operational control normally provides full authority to organize commands and forces and to employ those forces as the commander in operational control considers necessary to accomplish assigned missions. Operational control does not, in and of itself, include authoritative direction for logistics or matters of administration, discipline, internal organization, or unit training. Also called **OPCON**. See also **combatant command**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

operational reach — The distance over which military power can be concentrated and employed decisively. (This term and its definition are applicable only in the context of this pub and cannot be referenced outside this publication.)

operations security — A process of identifying critical information and subsequently analyzing friendly actions attendant to military operations and other activities to: a. Identify those actions that

can be observed by adversary intelligence systems. b. Determine indicators hostile intelligence systems might obtain that could be interpreted or pieced together to derive critical information in time to be useful to adversaries. c. Select and execute measures that eliminate or reduce to an acceptable level the vulnerabilities of friendly actions to adversary exploitation. Also called **OPSEC**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

order — A communication, written, oral, or by signal, which conveys instructions from a superior to a subordinate. (**DOD**) In a broad sense, the terms “order” and “command” are synonymous. However, an order implies discretion as to the details of execution whereas a command does not. (Joint Pub 1-02)

pace — For ground forces, the speed of a column or element regulated to maintain a prescribed average speed. (Joint Pub 1-02)

parallel chains of command — In amphibious operations, a parallel system of command, responding to the interrelationship of Navy, landing force, Air Force, and other major forces assigned, wherein corresponding commanders are established at each subordinate level of all components to facilitate coordinated planning for, and execution of, the amphibious operation. (Joint Pub 1-02)

passage of lines — An operation in which a force moves forward or rearward through another force’s combat positions with the intention of moving into or out of contact with the enemy. (Joint Pub 1-02)

patrol — A detachment of ground, sea, or air forces sent out for the purpose of gathering information or carrying out a destructive, harassing, mopping-up, or security mission. (Joint Pub 1-02)

peace enforcement — Application of military force, or the threat of its use, normally pursuant to international authorization, to compel compliance with resolutions or sanctions designed to maintain or restore peace and order. See also **peace operations; peacekeeping**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

peace operations — A broad term that encompasses peacekeeping operations and peace enforcement operations conducted in support of diplomatic efforts to establish and maintain peace. See also **peace enforcement; peacekeeping**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

peacekeeping — Military operations undertaken with the consent of all major parties to a dispute, designed to monitor and facilitate implementation of an agreement (ceasefire, truce, or other such agreement) and support diplomatic efforts to reach a long-term political settlement. See also **peace enforcement; peace operations**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

penetration — In land operations, a form of offensive which seeks to break through the enemy’s defense and disrupt the defensive system. (Joint Pub 1-02)

port — A place at which ships may discharge or receive their cargoes. It includes any port accessible to ships on the seacoast, navigable rivers or inland waterways. The term “ports” should not be used in conjunction with air facilities which are designated as aerial ports, airports, etc. (Joint Pub 1-02)

preposition — To place military units, equipment, or supplies at or near the point of planned use or at a designated location to reduce reaction time, and to ensure timely support of a specific force during

initial phases of an operation. (Joint Pub 1-02)

psychological operations — Planned operations to convey selected information and indicators to foreign audiences to influence their emotions, motives, objective reasoning, and ultimately the behavior of foreign governments, organizations, groups, and individuals. The purpose of psychological operations is to induce or reinforce foreign attitudes and behavior favorable to the originator's objectives. Also called **PSYOP**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

Rangers — Rapidly deployable airborne light infantry organized and trained to conduct highly complex joint direct action operations in coordination with or in support of other special operations units of all Services. Rangers also can execute direct action operations in support of conventional nonspecial operations missions conducted by a combatant commander and can operate as conventional light infantry when properly augmented with other elements of combined arms. (Joint Pub 1-02)

readiness — The ability of US military forces to fight and meet the demands of the national military strategy. Readiness is the synthesis of two distinct but interrelated levels: **a. unit readiness** — The ability to provide capabilities required by the combatant commanders to execute their assigned missions. This is derived from the ability of each unit to deliver the outputs for which it was designed. **b. joint readiness** — The combatant commander's ability to integrate and synchronize ready combat and support forces to execute his or her assigned missions. (Joint Pub 1-02)

real time — Pertaining to the timeliness of data or information which has been delayed only by the time required for electronic

communication. This implies that there are no noticeable delays. (Joint Pub 1-02)

reconnaissance — A mission undertaken to obtain, by visual observation or other detection methods, information about the activities and resources of an enemy or potential enemy, or to secure data concerning the meteorological, hydrographic, or geographic characteristics of a particular area. (Joint Pub 1-02)

redeployment — The transfer of a unit, an individual, or supplies deployed in one area to another area, or to another location within the area, or to the zone of interior for the purpose of further employment. (Joint Pub 1-02)

refugee — A civilian who, by reason of real or imagined danger, has left home to seek safety elsewhere. (Joint Pub 1-02)

resources — The forces, materiel, and other assets or capabilities apportioned or allocated to the commander of a unified or specified command. (Joint Pub 1-02)

road block — A barrier or obstacle (usually covered by fire) used to block, or limit the movement of, hostile vehicles along a route. (Joint Pub 1-02)

rules of engagement — Directives issued by competent military authority which delineate the circumstances and limitations under which United States forces will initiate and/or continue combat engagement with other forces encountered. Also called **ROE**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

sea-air-land team — A naval force specially organized, trained, and equipped to conduct special operations in maritime, littoral, and riverine environments. Also called **SEAL team**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

security — 1. Measures taken by a military unit, an activity or installation to protect itself against all acts designed to, or which may, impair its effectiveness. 2. A condition that results from the establishment and maintenance of protective measures that ensure a state of inviolability from hostile acts or influences. (Joint Pub 1-02)

small arms — Man portable, individual, and crew-served weapon systems used mainly against personnel and lightly armored or unarmored equipment. (Joint Pub 1-02)

special forces — US Army forces organized, trained, and equipped specifically to conduct special operations. Special forces have five primary missions: unconventional warfare, foreign internal defense, direct action, special reconnaissance, and counterterrorism. Counterterrorism is a special mission for specially organized, trained, and equipped special forces units designated in theater contingency plans. Also called **SF**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

special operations — Operations conducted by specially organized, trained, and equipped military and paramilitary forces to achieve military, political, economic, or psychological objectives by unconventional military means in hostile, denied, or politically sensitive areas. These operations are conducted during peacetime competition, conflict, and war, independently or in coordination with operations of conventional, nonspecial operations forces. Political-military considerations frequently shape special operations, requiring clandestine, covert, or low visibility techniques and oversight at the national level. Special operations differ from conventional operations in degree of physical and political risk, operational techniques, mode of employment, independence from friendly

support, and dependence on detailed operational intelligence and indigenous assets. Also called **SO**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

special operations forces — Those active and reserve component forces of the military Services designated by the Secretary of Defense and specifically organized, trained, and equipped to conduct and support special operations. Also called **SOE**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

strategy — The art and science of developing and using political, economic, psychological, and military forces as necessary during peace and war, to afford the maximum support to policies, in order to increase the probabilities and favorable consequences of victory and to lessen the chances of defeat. (Joint Pub 1-02)

supplies — In logistics, all materiel and items used in the equipment, support, and maintenance of military forces. (Joint Pub 1-02)

supply — The procurement, distribution, maintenance while in storage, and salvage of supplies, including the determination of kind and quantity of supplies. **a. producer phase** — That phase of military supply which extends from determination of procurement schedules to acceptance of finished supplies by the military Services. **b. consumer phase** — That phase of military supply which extends from receipt of finished supplies by the Military Services through issue for use or consumption. (Joint Pub 1-02)

support — 1. The action of a force which aids, protects, complements, or sustains another force in accordance with a directive requiring such action. 2. A unit which helps another unit in battle. Aviation, artillery, or naval gunfire may be used as a support for infantry. 3. A part of any unit held back at the beginning of an attack as

a reserve. 4. An element of a command which assists, protects, or supplies other forces in combat. (Joint Pub 1-02)

surface-to-air guided missile — A surface-launched guided missile for use against air targets. (Joint Pub 1-02)

synchronization — 1. The arrangement of military actions in time, space, and purpose to produce maximum relative combat power at a decisive place and time. 2. In the intelligence context, application of intelligence sources and methods in concert with the operational plan. (Joint Pub 1-02)

tactics — 1. The employment of units in combat. 2. The ordered arrangement and maneuver of units in relation to each other and/or to the enemy in order to use their full potentialities. (Joint Pub 1-02)

target — 1. A geographical area, complex, or installation planned for capture or destruction by military forces. 2. In intelligence usage, a country, area, installation, agency, or person against which intelligence operations are directed. 3. An area designated and numbered for future firing. 4. In gunfire support usage, an impact burst which hits the target. (Joint Pub 1-02)

task force — 1. A temporary grouping of units, under one commander, formed for the purpose of carrying out a specific operation or mission. 2. Semi-permanent organization of units, under one commander, formed for the purpose of carrying out a continuing specific task. 3. A component of a fleet organized by the commander of a task fleet or higher authority for the accomplishment of a specific task or tasks. (Joint Pub 1-02)

task group — A component of a naval task force organized by the commander of a task force or higher authority. (Joint Pub 1-02)

theater — The geographical area outside the continental United States for which a commander of a combatant command has been assigned responsibility. (Joint Pub 1-02)

theater of operations — A subarea within a theater of war defined by the geographic combatant commander required to conduct or support specific combat operations. Different theaters of operations within the same theater of war will normally be geographically separate and focused on different enemy forces. Theaters of operations are usually of significant size, allowing for operations over extended periods of time. (Joint Pub 1-02)

times — (C-, D-, M-days end at 2400 hours Universal Time (zulu time) and are assumed to be 24 hours long for planning.) The Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff normally coordinates the proposed date with the commanders of the appropriate unified and specified commands, as well as any recommended changes to C-day. L-hour will be established per plan, crisis, or theater of operations and will apply to both air and surface movements. Normally, L-hour will be established to allow C-day to be a 24-hour day. **a. C-day.** The unnamed day on which a deployment operation commences or is to commence. The deployment may be movement of troops, cargo, weapon systems, or a combination of these elements using any or all types of transport. The letter "C" will be the only one used to denote the above. The highest command or headquarters responsible for coordinating the planning will specify the exact meaning of C-day within the aforementioned definition. The command or headquarters directly responsible for the execution of the operation, if other than the one coordinating the planning, will do so in light of the meaning specified by the highest command or headquarters coordinating the planning. **b. D-day.** The

unnamed day on which a particular operation commences or is to commence.

c. F-hour. The effective time of announcement by the Secretary of Defense to the Military Departments of a decision to mobilize Reserve units. **d. H-hour.** The specific hour on D-day at which a particular operation commences. **e. L-hour.** The specific hour on C-day at which a deployment operation commences or is to commence. **f. M-day.** The term used to designate the unnamed day on which full mobilization commences or is due to commence. **g. N-day.** The unnamed day an active duty unit is notified for deployment or redeployment. **h. R-day.** Redeployment day. The day on which redeployment of major combat, combat support, and combat service support forces begins in an operation. **i. S-day.** The day the President authorizes Selective Reserve callup (not more than 200,000). **j. T-day.** The effective day coincident with Presidential declaration of National Emergency and authorization of partial mobilization (not more than 1,000,000 personnel exclusive of the 200,000 callup). **k. W-day.** Declared by the National Command Authorities, W-day is associated with an adversary decision to prepare for war (unambiguous strategic warning). (Joint Pub 1-02)

Tomahawk — An air-, land-, ship-, or submarine-launched cruise missile with three variants: land attack with conventional or nuclear capability, and tactical anti-ship with conventional warhead. (Joint Pub 1-02)

transport aircraft — Aircraft designed primarily for the carriage of personnel and/or cargo. Transport aircraft may be classed according to range, as follows: **a. Short-range** — Not to exceed 1200 nautical miles at normal cruising conditions (2222 Km). **b. Medium-**

range — Between 1200 and 3500 nautical miles at normal cruising conditions (2222 and 6482 Km). **c. Long-range** — Exceeds 3500 nautical miles at normal cruising conditions (6482 Km). (Joint Pub 1-02)

troops — A collective term for uniformed military personnel (usually not applicable to naval personnel afloat). (Joint Pub 1-02)

unified command — A command with a broad continuing mission under a single commander and composed of significant assigned components of two or more Military Departments, and which is established and so designated by the President, through the Secretary of Defense with the advice and assistance of the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff. Also called **unified combatant command**. See also **combatant command**. (Joint Pub 1-02)

unit — 1. Any military element whose structure is prescribed by competent authority, such as a table of organization and equipment; specifically, part of an organization. 2. An organization title of a subdivision of a group in a task force. 3. A standard or basic quantity into which an item of supply is divided, issued, or used. In this meaning, also called **unit of issue**. 4. With regard to reserve components of the Armed Forces, denotes a Selected Reserve unit organized, equipped and trained for mobilization to serve on active duty as a unit or to augment or be augmented by another unit. Headquarters and support functions without wartime missions are not considered units. (Joint Pub 1-02)

United Nations Operations in Somalia — Forces and operations authorized by United Nations Security Council Resolutions to conduct operations in Somalia. Also known as **UNOSOM**. (This term and its

definition are applicable only in the context of this pub and cannot be referenced outside this publication.)

unity of effort —Coordination of strategies, integration of the elements of national power, and unified actions of armed forces to achieve a defined policy, goal, or

objective in the most effective and efficient manner regardless of positions within the international community, branches of government, or command structure. (This term and its definition are applicable only in the context of this pub and cannot be referenced outside this publication.)

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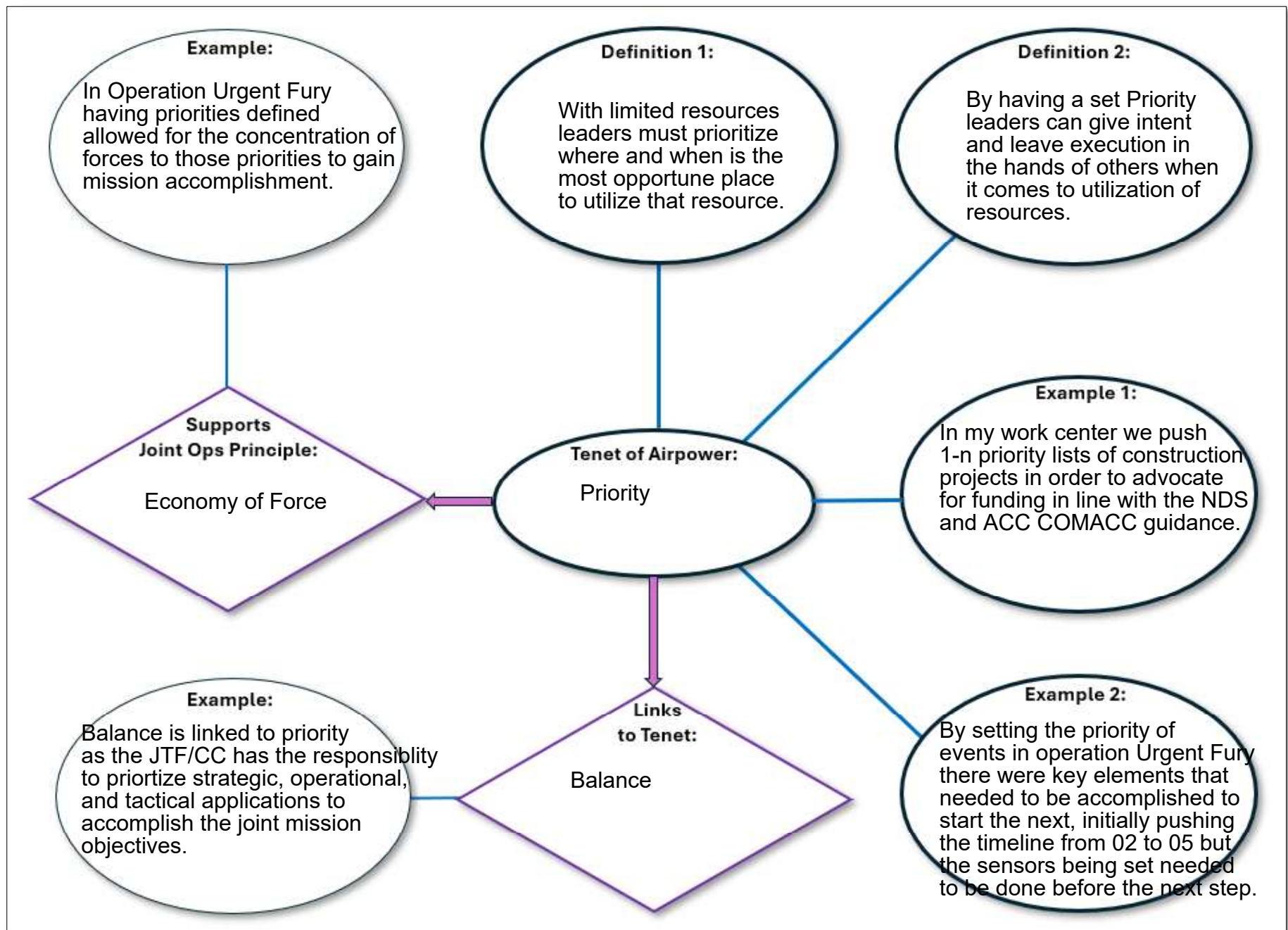
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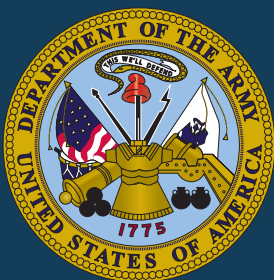
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Joint Operations Primer – Attachment 3 Tenets of Airpower Exercise



Joint Publication 3-0



Joint Campaigns and Operations



18 June 2022



PREFACE

1. Scope

This publication provides fundamental principles and guidance for joint campaigns and operations.

2. Purpose

This publication has been prepared under the direction of the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff (CJCS). It sets forth joint doctrine to govern the activities and performance of the Armed Forces of the United States in joint campaigns and operations, and it provides considerations for military interaction with governmental and nongovernmental agencies, multinational forces, and other interorganizational partners. It provides military guidance for the exercise of authority by combatant commanders and other joint force commanders (JFCs) and prescribes joint doctrine for operations and training. It provides military guidance for use by the Armed Forces of the United States in preparing and executing their plans and orders. It is not the intent of this publication to restrict the authority of the JFC from organizing the force and executing the mission in a manner the JFC deems most appropriate to ensure unity of effort in the achievement of objectives.

3. Application

a. Joint doctrine established in this publication applies to the Joint Staff, combatant commands, subordinate unified commands, joint task forces, subordinate components of these commands, the Services, the National Guard Bureau, and combat support agencies.

b. This doctrine constitutes official advice concerning the enclosed subject matter; however, the judgment of the commander is paramount in all situations.

c. If conflicts arise between the contents of this publication and the contents of Service publications, this publication will take precedence unless the CJCS, normally in coordination with the other members of the Joint Chiefs of Staff, has provided more current and specific guidance. Commanders of forces operating as part of a multinational (alliance or coalition) military command should follow multinational doctrine and procedures ratified by the United States. For doctrine and procedures not ratified by the United States, commanders should evaluate and follow the multinational command's doctrine and procedures, where applicable and consistent with United States law, regulations, and doctrine.

For the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff:



STUART B. MUNSCH
Vice Admiral, United States Navy
Director, Joint Force Development

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SUMMARY OF CHANGES
REVISION OF JOINT PUBLICATION 3-0
DATED 17 JANUARY 2017, INCORPORATING CHANGE 1, 22 OCTOBER 2018

- Includes description of global integration and global campaigns.
- Includes discussion on campaigning.
- Integrates the competition continuum terminology.
- Incorporates current information on joint electromagnetic spectrum management operations.
- Reduces redundancies and improves continuity between this publication and Joint Publication (JP) 1, Volume 1, *Joint Warfighting*, and JP 5-0, *Joint Planning*.
- Updates the discussion on the information joint function consistent with JP 3-04, *Information in Joint Operations*.
- Includes a discussion on the mission areas within the global campaign plans.
- Updates terms and definitions.

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EXECUTIVE SUMMARY COMMANDER'S OVERVIEW

- Provides an overview of the strategic environment and national security challenges.
 - Discusses the instruments of national power and the competition continuum, strategic direction, and the philosophy of global military integration.
 - Describes the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff's role in global military integration.
 - Discusses unified action.
 - Discusses joint command through development of strategic art and operational art.
 - Describes the civil-military dialogue within the Department of Defense.
 - Presents the joint functions of command and control, information, intelligence, fires, movement and maneuver, protection, and sustainment.
 - Outlines how to organize and practice global integration.
 - Presents the competition continuum.
 - Discusses joint campaigns and operations in cooperation and adversarial competition.
 - Discusses joint campaigns and operations in armed conflict.
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Fundamentals of Joint Campaigns and Operations

Introduction

The primary way the Department of Defense (DOD) employs two or more Services (from at least two Military Departments [MILDEPs]) in a single operation is through joint operations. Normally implemented within a broader campaign, joint operations are military actions conducted by joint forces and those Service forces employed in specified command relationships with each other, which of themselves do not establish joint forces. A joint force is one composed of significant elements, assigned or

attached, of two or more MILDEPs operating under a single joint force commander (JFC).

Strategic Environment and National Security Challenges

The strategic environment consists of various national, international, and global interests and influences that affect the decisions of senior United States (US) civilian and military leaders concerning the employment of US instruments of national power. The strategic environment is uncertain, complex, and dynamic, requiring commanders to maintain surveillance of the operational environment (OE) and conduct military engagement with interagency and multinational partners. Threats present the joint force with situations that cut across multiple combatant commands' (CCMDs') areas of responsibility (AORs) and functional areas. These threats present themselves in the OE (land, maritime, air space, and cyberspace; the information environment [IE]; and electromagnetic operational environment [EMOE]). The strategic environment is fluid, with continually evolving alliances, partnerships, and national and transnational threats that rapidly emerge, disaggregate, and reemerge. While it is impossible to predict precisely how challenges will appear and what form they might take, the joint force should expect that uncertainty, ambiguity, and surprise will persist.

Instruments of National Power and the Competition Continuum

The instruments of national power are all the means available to the government in its pursuit of national objectives, expressed as diplomatic, economic, informational, and military. The instruments of national power are continuously active across the competition continuum. The ability of the United States to advance its national interests depends on how effectively the United States Government (USG) aligns and employs the instruments of national power within the competition continuum to achieve strategic objectives.

Strategic Direction

US federal law and policy provide the framework for strategic direction among the branches of government and their departments. Strategic direction, specific to DOD, is the strategy and intent of the President, the Secretary of Defense (SecDef), and the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff (CJCS) in pursuit of national interests. Strategic direction provides context, purpose, and tasks employing the instruments of national power.

***The Philosophy of Global
Military Integration***

Global military integration enables SecDef, assisted by the Joint Chiefs of Staff and combatant commanders (CCDRs), to make timely decisions and establish operational priorities and institutional choices across multiple geographic, organizational, and functional boundaries and time horizons. This process is necessary because of the challenges of today's strategic environment, the realities of limited joint force resources, and expanding requirements. As CCMDs address complexities of their OEs and requirements, SecDef prioritizes resources. Global military integration is additive to and reinforces the *Unified Command Plan* (UCP).

***Chairman of the Joint
Chiefs of Staff's Role in
Global Military
Integration***

The 2017 National Defense Authorization Act and 2017 UCP expanded the CJCS's responsibilities, to include serving a role in global military integration for the joint force (as codified in Title 10, United States Code [USC], Section 153). The CJCS provides advice for prioritization to the President and SecDef on the allocation and transfer of forces across CCMDs. As required by Title 10, USC, the CJCS provides the President and SecDef advice on ongoing joint force activities and the allocation and transfer of forces required to execute those activities. For global military integration, the CJCS assists in strategic planning and direction of the Armed Forces of the United States to ensure the effective employment and coherent pursuit of strategic objectives to integrate action across the worldwide campaigning effort, while balancing risks.

Unified Action

Unified action refers to the synchronization, coordination, and alignment of the activities of governmental and nongovernmental entities with military operations to achieve unity of effort. Participants can include multinational forces, international organizations, nongovernmental organizations, and other interorganizational partners. The joint force integrates actions within DOD and seeks to align actions collaboratively outside the purview of DOD. Failure to achieve unified action can jeopardize mission accomplishment.

***Fundamental
Considerations***

The framework of strategic, operational, and tactical levels of warfare helps commanders visualize the relationships and actions required to link strategic objectives to campaigns and major operations and link their objectives to tactical operations. These levels help commanders visualize a logical arrangement of operations, allocate resources, and assign tasks to appropriate commands.

Echelon of command, size of units, types of equipment, and types and location of forces or components may often relate to a particular level, but the strategic, operational, or tactical purpose of their employment depends on the nature of their task, mission, or objective.

Strategic Uses of Military Force. The United States leverages all instruments of national power to pursue its national interests. Reinforcing America's traditional tools of diplomacy, DOD provides military capabilities to ensure the President and our diplomats negotiate from positions of strength. DOD has a supporting role when the military instrument of national power is not the main instrument for the strategy. Whether in a primary or supporting role, strategic uses of a military force include integrated assurance, both forms of coercion (deter and compel), and forcible action

Joint doctrine distinguishes between traditional warfare and irregular warfare (IW) but recognizes the strengths of employing them together in conjunction with appropriate information activities. All military activities (or inactivities) are inherently communicative and can affect behavior in the OE. Both traditional warfare and IW serve a fundamentally discrete purpose that drives different approaches to its conduct. In practice, conducting effective warfare requires creative, dynamic, and synergistic combinations of proper information integrated with traditional warfare and IW.

Joint Command

Introduction

Command is the authority a commander in the armed forces exercises lawfully over subordinates by virtue of rank or assignment. Accompanying this authority is the responsibility to effectively visualize, organize, direct, coordinate, and control military forces to accomplish assigned missions. Command includes responsibility for the health, welfare, morale, and discipline of assigned personnel.

Strategic Art

Strategic art is the formulation, coordination, and application of ends, ways, and means to implement policy and promote national interests. Strategic art and operational art are mutually supporting. Strategic art provides policy context to strategic objectives and prioritizes resources. Operational art is the cognitive

approach by commanders and staffs to develop campaigns and operations to organize and employ military forces by integrating ends, ways, and means.

Operational Art – In Planning and Execution

Operational art is the cognitive approach by commanders and staffs—supported by their skill, knowledge, experience, creativity, and judgment—to develop strategies, campaigns, and operations to organize and employ military forces by integrating ends, ways, means, and risks. Operational art is useful to the JFC in initial policy/strategy formulation and planning. The commander’s judgment, decision making, and adaptation to the changing OE may also draw upon operational art.

For planning, operational art provides a thought process to mitigate the ambiguity and uncertainty of a complex OE and develop insight into the problems at hand. Operational art promotes unified action by enabling JFCs and staff to consider the capabilities, actions, goals, priorities, and operating processes of interagency partners and other interorganizational participants when they determine objectives, establish priorities, and assign tasks to subordinate forces

In execution, operational art is making decisions before they are obvious or easy choices and adapting to the unfolding circumstances. Guided by imperfect information, commanders issue orders based on opaque circumstances, all the while anticipating the lag between the decision and its impact on the enemy and future friendly force operations and long before it is clear how those decisions will play out.

Operational Design

Operational design is the analytical framework that underpins planning. Operational design supports commanders and planners in organizing and understanding the OE. Additionally, operational design provides an iterative process that enables the commander’s vision and mastery of operational art to help planners answer ends, ways, means, and risk questions and appropriately structure campaigns and operations.

Joint Planning

Joint planning consists of planning activities that help CCDRs and their subordinate commanders transform national objectives into actions that mobilize, deploy, employ, sustain, redeploy, and demobilize joint forces. It ties the employment of the Armed Forces of the United

States to the achievement of national objectives across the competition continuum. Based on understanding gained through the application of operational design, more detailed planning takes place within the steps of the joint planning process (JPP). JPP is an orderly, analytical set of logical steps to frame a problem; examine a mission; develop, analyze, and compare alternative courses of action (COAs); select the best COA; and develop a plan or order.

Assessment

Assessment is a continuous and actionable process that measures the overall effectiveness of the joint force. The process involves monitoring and evaluating the current situation and progress toward the objectives. The results can help determine whether an activity contributes to the desired effects or progress toward an objective.

The Civil-Military Dialogue Within the Department of Defense

At the start of the civil-military dialogue, military commanders work with their civilian counterparts to gain a shared understanding to begin to identify the problem or problems they are facing. Commanders should explain their understanding of the problem and articulate the assumptions they are making. One primary goal of the civil-military dialogue is to confirm or refine the problem and necessary assumptions. Additionally, effective dialogue identifies new considerations commanders should address based on civilian leadership perspectives. The military leadership should clearly articulate what actions military capabilities are capable of performing, the objectives these options can achieve, the costs and risks associated with each option, and how those options address the problem or problems. As the civil-military dialogue matures, the specificity of civilian leadership guidance will typically increase.

Joint Functions

Introduction

There are seven joint functions common to joint operations: command and control (C2), information, intelligence, fires, movement and maneuver, protection, and sustainment. Commanders leverage the capabilities of multiple joint functions during operations. The joint functions apply to all joint operations across the competition continuum and enable both traditional warfare and IW, but to different degrees, conditions, and standards, while employing different tactics, techniques, and procedures. The integration of activities across joint

functions to accomplish tasks and missions occurs at all levels of command.

Command and Control

C2 encompasses the exercise of authority and direction by a commander over assigned and attached forces to accomplish the mission. The JFC provides operational vision, guidance, and direction to the joint force. The C2 function encompasses several tasks, including:

- Establish, organize, and operate a joint force headquarters (HQ).
- Command subordinate forces.
- Prepare, modify, and publish plans, orders, and guidance.
- Establish command authorities among subordinate commanders.
- Assign tasks, prescribe task performance standards, and designate operational areas (OAs).
- Prioritize and allocate resources.
- Manage risk and force protection.
- Communicate across the staff and joint force.
- Assess progress toward accomplishing tasks, creating conditions, and achieving objectives.
- Coordinate and control the employment of joint forces to create lethal and nonlethal effects (i.e., the use of intermediate force capabilities incorporating both lethal and nonlethal means) across the competition continuum.
- Coordinate, synchronize, and, when appropriate, integrate joint operations with the operations and activities of other participants.
- Ensure the flow of information and reports to and from a higher authority.

Information

The information function encompasses the management and application of information to support achievement of objectives; it is the deliberate integration with other joint functions to change or maintain perceptions, attitudes, and other elements that drive desired relevant actor behaviors and to support human and automated decision making. The information function helps commanders and staffs understand and leverage the prevalent nature of information, its military uses, and its application during all military operations. This function provides JFCs the ability to preserve friendly information and leverage information and the inherent informational aspects of military activities to achieve the commander's objectives.

The information joint function provides an intellectual framework to aid commanders in exerting one's influence through the timely generation, preservation, denial, or projection of information.

Intelligence

The intelligence function informs JFCs about adversary intentions, capabilities, centers of gravity (COGs), critical factors, vulnerabilities, and future COAs and helps commanders and staffs understand friendly, neutral, and threat networks. The joint intelligence preparation of the operational environment (JIPOE) process includes integrating analysis, production, collection management, and targeting processes to shape decision making and enable operations. Using the continuous JIPOE analysis process, properly tailored JIPOE products can enhance OE understanding and enable the JFC to act quickly and effectively. Intelligence activities and assessments also occur while defending the homeland within the guidelines of applicable regulations and laws. The intelligence joint function encompasses the joint intelligence process. The joint intelligence process consists of six interrelated categories of intelligence activities and operations:

- Planning and direction of intelligence activities.
- Collection.
- Processing and exploitation of collected exploitable material and other data to produce relevant information.
- Analysis of information and production of intelligence.
- Dissemination and integration of intelligence with plans and operations.
- Evaluation and feedback regarding intelligence effectiveness and quality.

Movement and Maneuver

Movement and maneuver encompasses the disposition of joint forces to conduct operations by securing positional or informational advantages across the competition continuum and exploiting tactical success to achieve operational and strategic objectives. Movement is deploying forces or capabilities into an OA and relocating them within an OA without the expectation of contact with the enemy. Maneuver is the employment of forces for offensive and defensive purposes while in, or expecting, contact with the enemy. It also includes assuring the mobility of friendly forces. The movement and maneuver function encompasses several tasks, including:

- Deploy, shift, regroup, or move joint and component force formations and capabilities by multiple means or modes throughout the OE.
- Maneuver joint forces to achieve a position of advantage over an enemy or adversary.
- Provide mobility for joint forces to facilitate their movement and maneuver without delays caused by terrain or obstacles.
- Delay, channel, or stop movement and maneuver by enemy formations. These actions include operations that employ obstacles (i.e., counter mobility), enforce sanctions and embargoes, and conduct blockades.
- Control significant areas; deny, expand, and manipulate access to information; and influence relevant populations relative to the objective whose access to possession or control provides either side an operational advantage.

Protection

Protection is all efforts to secure and defend the effectiveness and survivability of mission-related military and nonmilitary personnel, equipment, facilities, information, and infrastructure deployed or located within or outside the boundaries of a given OA to maintain mission effectiveness. The protection function encompasses force protection, force health protection (FHP), and other protection activities.

Some tasks in the protection function include:

- Provide air, missile (including hypersonics), and space defense (including all space segments and counter-unmanned aircraft system operations).
- Provide physical security to protect forces, bases, joint security areas (JSAs), posts, infrastructure that enables power projection, and lines of communications (LOCs) (including contractors and US civilians accompanying the force).
- Protect friendly information. These activities include operations security (OPSEC), counterintelligence, defense countermeasure operations, military deception in support of OPSEC, counter deception, and counterpropaganda.
- Conduct cyberspace security, cyberspace defense, and electromagnetic protection to protect information networks.

- Provide chemical, biological, radiological, and nuclear (CBRN) defense to minimize CBRN attacks and incidents.
- Provide engineering and explosive ordnance disposal support for counter-improvised threat activities, such as counter-improvised explosive device activities.
- Identify and neutralize insider threats.
- Conduct detainee operations.
- Conduct medical, environmental, and occupational surveillance activities.
- Conduct law enforcement and criminal investigation activities to protect personnel and assets.
- The function focuses on force protection, which preserves the joint force's fighting potential in four primary ways. One way uses active defensive measures that protect the joint force, its information, and its bases; necessary infrastructure; and LOCs from an enemy attack. Another way uses passive defensive measures that make friendly forces, systems, and facilities difficult to locate, strike, and destroy. Passive measures reduce the probability and minimize the effects of damage caused by hostile action without seeking the initiative. The application of technology and procedures to reduce the risk of friendly fire incidents is equally important. Finally, emergency management and response reduce the loss of personnel and capabilities due to isolating events, accidents, health threats, and natural disasters.
- Force protection does not include actions to defeat the enemy or protect against accidents, weather, or disease. FHP complements force protection efforts by promoting, improving, preserving, or restoring the behavioral or physical well-being of Service members.
- As the JFC's mission requires, the protection function also extends beyond force protection to encompass the protection of US noncombatants.

Sustainment

Sustainment is the provision of logistics and personnel services support to maintain operations through mission accomplishment and redeployment of the force. Sustainment gives the JFC the means for freedom of action, endurance, and to extend operational reach. Sustainment enables the JFC to seize, retain, and exploit the initiative. The sustainment function includes tasks to:

- Coordinate the supply of food, operational energy (fuel and other energy requirements), arms, munitions, and equipment.
- Provide for maintenance of equipment.
- Coordinate and provide base operations support for forces, including field services; personnel services support; health services; mortuary affairs; religious support; postal support; morale, welfare, and recreational support; financial support; and legal services.
- Build and maintain contingency bases.
- Assess, repair, and maintain infrastructure.
- Acquire, manage, and distribute funds.
- Provide common-user logistics support to other USG departments and agencies, international organizations, nongovernmental organizations, other nations, and contractors as authorized by their contracts.
- Establish and coordinate movement services.
- Establish large-scale detention compounds and sustain enduring detainee operations.

Organizing and Practicing Global Integration

Understanding the Operational Environment

The joint force conducts joint campaigns and operations in a complex, volatile, security environment characterized by contested norms and persistent disorder. National security threats are transregional, all-domain, and multifunctional. Since each threat presents unique challenges, the dilemmas caused by one event impact others, often with no regard for distance and time. As threats gain access to advanced capabilities and contest US advantages, competition and armed conflict are increasingly occurring across multiple AORs and throughout the physical domains (land, maritime, air, and space), the IE (which includes cyberspace), and the EMOE. These realities have eroded the US competitive military advantage while global demand for the joint force continues to exceed resources.

Global Integration

Global integration enables DOD leadership to provide advice, make timely decisions, and inform operational priorities and institutional investment choices across CCMDs and multiple time horizons. Global integration requires a global perspective organized around and against priority challenges with global campaigns and a posture to execute contingency plans associated with each challenge. Within each global campaign plan (GCP), CCDRs use broad

mission areas to structure how CCMDs can execute each global campaign. Within each mission area of a global campaign, the joint force executes subordinate operations, activities, and investments to address specific aspects of the priority challenges. The result of integration is effective joint campaigns and operations employing cohesive military actions arranged across time and multiple AORs to achieve strategic objectives and balance strategic risk.

Joint Strategic Campaign Plan

CJCS Instruction 3110.01, *(U) 2018 Joint Strategic Campaign Plan (JSCP)*, [short title: JSCP], fulfills the CJCS's statutory responsibilities in Title 10, USC, Section 153, to assist the President and SecDef in providing for the strategic direction of the Armed Forces of the United States. The JSCP provides the framework for military direction to the joint force, implementing and augmenting the President and SecDef's guidance found in the national security strategy, UCP, contingency planning guidance, and national defense strategy and in the CJCS's guidance in the national military strategy. The JSCP provides guidance for CCMDs, Services, the Joint Staff (JS), and DOD agencies to prepare campaign and contingency plans and establishes a common set of processes, products, roles, and responsibilities to globally integrate the operations, activities, and investments of the joint force. The CCDRs then operationalize and execute the campaign plan. The JSCP establishes a common set of processes, products, priorities, roles, and responsibilities to integrate the joint force's global operations, activities, and investments across the competition continuum.

There are three types of campaign plans: GCPs, functional campaign plans (FCPs), and combatant command campaign plans (CCPs).

- The JS develops and maintains the GCPs for SecDef approval. GCPs address threats and challenges that significantly affect US interests across the globe and require coordinated planning across all, or nearly all, CCMDs.
- FCPs address functional threats or challenges that are not bound geographically but require coordination across multiple CCMDs.
- The CCPs are the primary means through which the CCMDs collaboratively develop operations, activities, and investments within their UCP-assigned mission/AOR.

Global Campaigning

The joint force campaigns across the competition continuum. GCPs and CCPs encompass concurrent and related operations, activities, and investments to achieve operational-level objectives that support achievement of strategic objectives. In concert with other instruments of national power, these actions not only maintain or achieve strategic objectives but anticipate a future beyond those objectives. The actions include many Service component operations, joint operations, and continual alignment of military actions with interorganizational and multinational partners.

Global Campaign Considerations

When an emerging situation exceeds the scope, scale, or responsibility of a single CCDR or global campaign, the joint forces' senior leadership will determine an appropriate response, including the likely supported and supporting commanders, diagnosing the matter through the lens of the global campaign design considerations:

- Strategic analysis.
- Range of possible outcomes.
- Anticipate the consequences.
- Commander's vision.
- Operational direction.
- Campaign narrative.
- Follow-through and enduring efforts.
- Authorities.
- Alignment.
- Force architecture.

Operational and Strategic Objectives

While operational and strategic objectives are uniquely different, they must link with one another. In following the commander's vision throughout the process, forces arrange to achieve the operational objectives.

Strategic objectives are expressions of national interests. In practice, some strategic objectives are expressions of policy, not necessarily physical entities. The keys to achieving strategic objectives can exist thousands of miles from any particular challenge, in orbit around the Earth, reside as disaggregated sentiment spread across several continents, or within information activities. Effective global campaigning reaches beyond individual regions; otherwise, joint campaigns and operations address only symptoms.

The Joint Operation

Joint operation is a general term that describes military actions conducted by joint forces and those Service forces employed in specified command relationships with each other. Any single joint operation may be subordinate to a campaign or part of a larger campaign. A commander is responsible for the development and execution of an individual operation.

Phasing a Joint Operation

Phasing is a way to organize and conduct a complex joint operation in manageable parts. The phases are unique for each operation as a tool to integrate and synchronize related activities, in time and space within available resources, thereby enhancing C2 to improve flexibility and unity of effort during execution. Phases in a plan are distinct and sequential; however, activities often overlap between the phases.

Organizing Operational Areas

While the UCP assigns AORs, CCDRs and other JFCs designate smaller OAs (e.g., joint operations area [JOA] and area of operations) temporarily. OAs have physical dimensions composed of some combination of air, land, and maritime domains. While domains are useful constructs for visualizing and characterizing the physical environment in which operations unfold (the OA), the use of the term “domain” does not imply or mandate exclusivity, primacy, or C2 of any domain. The appropriate JFC specifies authorities and responsibilities within an OA. JFCs define these areas with geographical boundaries, which help commanders and staffs coordinate, integrate, and deconflict joint operations among joint force components and supporting commands.

Linear and Nonlinear Operations

In linear operations, each commander directs and sustains combat power toward enemy forces in concert with adjacent units. In linear operations, emphasis is on maintaining the position of friendly forces in relation to other friendly forces.

In nonlinear operations, forces orient on objectives without geographic reference to adjacent forces. Nonlinear operations typically focus on creating specific effects on multiple decisive points.

Global Integration in Practice

Global integration includes the entire joint force’s actions, unfolding over different time horizons, and begins with the CJCS. In execution, the joint force campaigns to achieve operational-level objectives as described in the global

campaigns, CCDR campaigns, and standing execute orders. To oversee execution and gauge the degree of effective integration, the CJCS's JS regularly examines and collaborates with each coordinating authority's ongoing campaign activities throughout the year of execution.

The Global Campaign, Combatant Command Campaign, and Global Integration Framework

Title 10, USC, Section 153, directs the CJCS to prepare strategic plans, as required, and provide for the preparation and review of contingency plans. The CJCS provides advice on ongoing military operations and the allocation and transfer of forces among CCMDs. In performing this role in global integration, the CJCS is responsible for operationalizing the national strategies and other policy guidance, aligning the actions of the joint force, balancing risk, assigning problems, and providing military advice to SecDef for adjudicating competing priorities. The CJCS, through the JSCP, assigns which sets of global challenges requires GCPs and global integration frameworks.

Global Effects Coordination

Global effects coordination focuses primarily on integration and synchronization across the CCMDs to help prioritize lethal and nonlethal global effects. The global effects coordination process seeks to improve situational awareness across CCMD theater and functional responsibilities; identify opportunities, tensions, and consequences of joint force action or inaction; and align CCMD global operations to generate desired effects.

Mission Areas and Enduring Requirements

The mission areas constitute the framework of global campaigns. Within the global campaigns, five mutually supporting mission areas describe the principal orientation and way the joint force operates and maneuvers across the competition continuum and around the globe—simultaneously in multiple regions with allies and partners, and, as necessary, across UCP-designated AORs and other military boundaries. The mission areas are:

- Deter strategic attack.
- Deter conventional attack.
- Assure allies and partners.
- Compete below the level of armed conflict (competition).
- Prepare/respond to threats.

Tailoring Headquarters and Forces

How JFCs organize their assigned or attached forces affects the responsiveness and versatility of joint operations. The JFC's mission and operational approach,

the principle of unity of command, and a mission command philosophy are guiding principles to organize the joint force for operations. JFCs can establish joint forces on a geographic or functional basis. JFCs may centralize selected functions within the joint force but should not reduce the versatility, responsiveness, and initiative of subordinate forces. JFCs should allow Service and special operations tactical and operational forces, organizations, and capabilities to function as designed.

Partner Alignment

The US military cannot achieve acceptable and sustainable strategic objectives acting alone. Allies and partners are an important aspect of the global campaigns. In the conduct of military activities, the joint force may rely on partners to increase capacity, access unique capabilities and authorities, share intelligence, and extend operational reach to achieve objectives. However, many strategic challenges exist that military force cannot solve alone—especially in competition but also during post-combat consolidation and stabilization activities. Global integration uses a comprehensive approach, to include considerations of nonmilitary means to address these challenges and achieve operation-level objectives. Interorganizational partnerships are the sources of these means.

The Competition Continuum

Introduction

There are four core elements of competition: influence, advantage, and leverage form the common elements, which are fundamentally interrelated aspects through which a nation advances and protects the primary core element, its interests.

- Interests are qualities, principles, matters of self-preservation, and concepts that a nation or actor values and seeks to protect or achieve concerning other competitors. Interests are contextual and may include the maintenance of physical security, economic prosperity, continuity of government and culture at home, and value projection in the geopolitical environment, as well as emotional triggers (e.g., fear, honor, glory), and other drivers (e.g., virtual, cognitive) that animate action.
- Influence is the ability to cause an effect in direct, indirect, or intangible ways. An actor can accumulate, spend, or lose influence.

- Advantage is superiority of position or condition. States may create an advantage by the accumulation of influence toward the desired effect or acceptable condition. Inherently relative, a state realizes advantage through the exercise of the instruments of national power.
- Leverage is the application of advantage gained to create an effect or exploit an opportunity. From a position of leverage, an actor is more capable of promoting and protecting its interests.

Competition Continuum Overview

The competition continuum describes a world of enduring competition conducted through a mixture of cooperation, adversarial competition below armed conflict, and armed conflict. These descriptors refer to the relationship between the United States and another strategic actor (state or non-state) concerning a contested interest or set of specific policy objectives. This description allows for simultaneous interaction with the same strategic actor at different points along the competition continuum.

Elements of the Competition Continuum:

- **Cooperation.** Situations in which joint forces take actions with another strategic partner in pursuit of policy objectives.
- **Adversarial Competition.** Joint forces or multinational forces can take actions below armed conflict against a state or non-state adversary in pursuit of policy objectives in response to antagonistic and threatening behavior.
- **Armed Conflict/War.** Armed conflict/war occurs when a state directs its military forces to take actions against an enemy in hostilities or declared war.

Cooperation

Cooperation can be an enduring activity where the relationship with the ally or partner is in place and will continue for the foreseeable future. However, cooperation in specific areas with a partner whose overall relationship with the United States is neutral or even adversarial may be necessary.

Competition

Competition tends to occur over extended periods of time. In comparison to armed conflict, actions are often more indirect, risks are different, and the expenditure of resources less intense, thus allowing for a more protracted effort.

Armed Conflict/War

Armed conflict can be an extensive and comprehensive effort in terms of scale, scope, and totality. Joint forces integrate capabilities across CCMDs to conduct combat operations and defeat the enemy's capabilities, strategy, and will. However, even during periods of armed conflict, success depends on the effective conduct of ongoing cooperative and competitive activities.

The Competition Continuum and Deterrence

Integrated deterrence applies across the competition continuum, though in different fashions according to the situation. Deterrence applies to cooperation. US cooperation with various allies and partners can serve as a deterrent of aggression by others.

Deterrence in competition has a similar nuance and may be harder to judge. For instance, if an adversary supports a surrogate in a neighboring country, this is not proof that deterrence has failed. The adversary might have preferred to make an overt incursion but concluded the risks were too great. In that case, successful integrated deterrence of armed conflict led to competition.

During armed conflict, integrated deterrence continues and requires effort and consideration. In other instances, integrated deterrence must unfold over extended periods. The joint force seeks to deter a conventional attack against a partner or ally.

Joint Campaigns and Operations in Cooperation and Adversarial Competition

Introduction

The joint force rarely operates unilaterally. In any significant campaign, cooperation is a feature of nearly every substantive military action. In an interconnected world, most major joint force activity includes some ramifications for competition with a global or regional rival or adversary. Cooperation and competition are perpetual. The joint force conducts cooperative activities with allies and partners and competitive activities to counter adversaries who seek to turn the competition to their advantage.

Global Integration of Cooperation and Competition

JFCs account for external considerations such as the desired conditions that cooperation should create the nature of the relevant relationships and the potential partner's willingness and capacity. Commanders also account for internal considerations such as the interests, objectives, and priorities of other contributing USG

departments and agencies; resource limitations; relevant statutory or policy restrictions on the amount, categories, and purposes of US security cooperation (SC) expenditure; and other policy on SC that is relevant to the specific situation. Just as in armed conflict, the employment of the military instrument of national power, in concert with interagency partner efforts, seeks to achieve operational objectives in pursuit of strategic objectives.

Considerations for Cooperation

Considerations for effective cooperative activities include:

- Identification of the conditions JFCs can create within the security environment that favor US interests.
- Recognition of the state and character of US partner relationships.
- Determination of our partners' propensity, likelihood, and capacity to act in a manner aligned with our interests.
- Conduct interest mapping with allies and partners over mutual concerns and opportunities.
- Comprehension of other USG departments and agencies' interests, objectives, and priorities with respect to the specific circumstance.
- Understanding the amount, scope, categories, and purposes of all the US foreign assistance funding Congress planned for the relevant area(s).
- Analysis of how the joint force can most aptly apply the existing authorities and resources to the specific area and issue.

Typical Cooperative Operations and Activities

Stabilization. Stabilization is an inherently cooperative endeavor that requires aligning USG efforts (e.g., diplomatic engagement, foreign assistance, and defense) to create conditions for local legitimate authorities and systems to manage unstable environments effectively. Department of State, United States Agency for International Development, and DOD cooperate to stabilize these fragile countries of strategic importance to the United States.

National Emergency Preparedness (Domestic Operations). Emergency preparedness consists of measures taken in advance of an emergency to reduce the loss of life and property and to protect a nation's institutions from all types of hazards through a comprehensive emergency management program of preparedness, mitigation, response, and recovery.

Arms Control, Nonproliferation, and Disarmament.

Commanders and staffs oversee activities of military personnel involved in arms control, nonproliferation, and disarmament activities.

Antiterrorism. Antiterrorism is an aspect of protection and involves defensive measures to reduce the vulnerability of individuals and property to terrorist acts, to include limited response and containment by local military and civilian forces.

Humanitarian and civic assistance programs are governed by Title 10, USC, Section 401. This assistance is in conjunction with military operations and exercises to fulfill unit training requirements while incidentally creating humanitarian benefit to the local populace.

Homeland defense and defense support of civil authorities. Security and defense of the US homeland is the USG's top responsibility and is a continuous, cooperative effort among all federal agencies, as well as state, tribal, and local government.

Support to Civilian Law Enforcement Agencies. When requested, DOD may provide support to federal, state, territory, tribal, insular areas, and local law enforcement reacting to civil disturbances, conducting border security and counterdrug missions, preparing for antiterrorism operations, and participating in other related law enforcement activities.

Foreign Humanitarian Assistance (FHA). FHA operations relieve or reduce human suffering, disease, hunger, or privation in countries outside the United States.

Recovery Operations. Recovery operations may search for, locate, identify, recover, and return isolated personnel, sensitive equipment, items critical to national security, or human remains.

Responding to Crises

A crisis is an incident or emerging situation involving a possible threat to the United States, its citizens, military forces, or vital interests. A crisis can develop rapidly and create a condition of such diplomatic, economic, or military importance that national leaders consider a commitment of military forces and resources. A crisis can

occur anywhere across the competition continuum and the response can include almost any type of joint operation.

***Adversarial Competition
Below Armed Conflict:
Foundation and Practice***

Adversarial competition surrounds a persistent and long-term struggle between actors seeking to achieve incompatible strategic objectives while avoiding armed conflict. In adversarial competition, nations or non-state actors apply their instruments of power over extended periods and throughout the OE to either initiate or counter malign or antagonistic behavior against their adversaries. The strategic purpose of these activities is to gain and sustain long-term comparative advantages (and mitigate disadvantages) indefinitely.

***Patterns of Coercion and
Determinants of Success***

The United States has used its military power in adversarial competition and in the competitions that always emerge after armed conflict. Most of these cases involved both a diplomatic and economic dimension implemented to influence the perceptions and behavior of foreign countries' political leaders. JFCs posture, maneuver, and employ military forces in discrete ways for specific objectives. JFCs recognize successful employment is different for each situation. Evaluating these discrete activities requires considering the full range of uses of the armed forces in adversarial competition. Understanding the adversarial mechanisms that ultimately drive a US response is equally important. Finally, JFCs understanding how the armed forces can maximize their unique role and what options can be most successful is key.

***Considerations for
Countering Coercion and
Malign Influence***

When directed, the joint force has traditionally exercised influence over key territories in conditions less than armed conflict to maintain and advance US national interests. Now, the situation can become more complex as threats have challenged the United States in orbital and cyberspace. Within enduring competitions, actors continually probe and seek to gain an advantage. Previous strategic guidance has directed military forces to counter these provocations on many occasions. The US and joint force experiences have exceeded the scope of most anecdotal coercion theories. For example, some situations include more than two actors that bear on the situation and its outcome. With the inclusion of multiple actors, an effective response requires a holistic framework where multiple power struggles may be in play concurrently. In the US experience, general deterrence is broad and continuous throughout the competition continuum.

Alternatively, the United States normally tailors its use of force to compel behavior short of war only in specific circumstances.

Joint Campaigns and Operations in Armed Conflict

Introduction

Armed conflict or war is a violent conflict between nations, state-like entities, or armed organizations. A nation with a central government or occupying power opposed by insurgent, separatist, or resistance groups engage in armed conflict. Additionally, armed groups that do not recognize national borders may fight wars in semiautonomous regions. The situation presented by an enemy often drives CCDRs to pursue a complex array of overlapping operational objectives across numerous AORs. Along with conventional forces, the enemy may employ coercion, irregular tactics, terrorism, criminal activity, and information warfare to complicate operations. The enemy's campaign progresses throughout the OE. Joint campaigns and operations in armed conflict can be an extensive and comprehensive effort in terms of scale, tempo, and scope of capabilities. Prevailing against the enemy requires senior military and civilian leadership to transition the force's posture optimized for the global campaign to a disposition for joint warfighting.

Joint Force Preparation and Transition to Armed Conflict

Preparation. While commanders conduct activities of cooperation and adversarial competition, they are still preparing for armed conflict. In many cases, the preparations enhance bonds between multinational partners, increase understanding of the AOR, help ensure access when required, and strengthen the capability for future multinational operations. All these qualities can help deter armed conflict. As CCDRs compete for access and influence across their AORs, they simultaneously set conditions to avoid armed conflict and ensure the joint force postures to respond to adversary actions and execute operations. CCDRs' GCPs' "prepare/respond to threats" mission area provides considerations for setting the theater for armed conflict. Preparing multiple geographic theaters or regions for armed conflict requires investment in leadership, diplomacy, and long-term programming, which includes institutional planning, resources, and activities.

Transition to Armed Conflict

- **Remain vigilant and ready: recognition.** The joint force and interagency partners must remain ready to defeat an initial enemy offensive, overcome surprise, and recover from loss of initiative. The enemy can employ a mix of irregular, traditional, and informational activities that may not present a triggering event until their operation or campaign is well underway.
- **Establish command relationships.** Armed conflict may require multiple supported CCMDs quickly shifting main efforts between them. Command relationships have trade-offs, but proper balance is essential. When command relationships are less than optimal, they can create operational gaps and unnecessary risk.
- **Local Superiority.** Air and maritime commanders have a key role in the transition to armed conflict. By maintaining control of the air and sea in the transition to armed conflict, the JFC is able to set the conditions for successful engagements early in a conflict.

Other Transition Considerations

- **Littoral areas offer positions from which to begin, sustain, and support joint operations.** Even when joint forces firmly establish ashore, littoral operations provide JFCs with opportunities to gain leverage over the enemy by operational maneuver from the sea.
- **JFCs can operate from an HQ platform at sea.** **Transferring C2 from sea to shore** requires detailed planning, active liaison, and coordination throughout the joint force.
- **Special operations forces (SOF)-conventional forces integration.** The JFC, using SOF independently or integrated with conventional forces, gains an additional and specialized capability to achieve objectives that might not otherwise be possible.
- **Stabilization activities.** Stabilization activities provide an opportunity to support objectives and create the conditions to achieve strategic- and operational-level objectives.
- **Protection Considerations.** The JFC may designate a JSA as the operational footprint expands to accommodate the forces required for armed conflict. The JSA should include key logistics nodes and infrastructure such as aerial ports of debarkation and seaports of debarkation.

- **Prevention of Friendly Fire Incidents.** Without limiting boldness or initiative, JFCs should make every preparation and effort to reduce the potential for the killing or wounding of friendly and neutral personnel, damaging friendly and neutral property, and degrading friendly and neutral capabilities.
- **Logistics Support and Sustainment.** The scale of operational-level warfare traditionally requires significant logistics and sustainment support. CCDRs and subordinate commanders identify logistical and sustainment requirements and shortcomings for forces assigned and allocated to the theater.
- **Space Considerations.** Space is a contested environment where commanders anticipate and mitigate hostile actions that may affect friendly space operations and impact the ability to create effects from space.
- **Joint electromagnetic spectrum operations (JEMSO).** The joint force is critically dependent on the electromagnetic spectrum (EMS) for operations across all joint functions and throughout the OE. For example, modern C2 requires the operation of EMS-dependent sensing and communication systems, while advanced weapons rely on positioning, navigation, and timing information transmitted through the EMOE.
- **Cooperative Activities.** Activities before armed conflict may focus on continued planning and preparation for anticipated stabilization activities. These activities should include conducting collaborative interagency planning to synchronize the civil-military effort; confirming the feasibility of pertinent objectives; and providing for adequate intelligence, an appropriate force mix, and other capabilities. Joint force stabilization activities may be a part of the USG's security sector assistance to restore security and infrastructure eventually.
- **Targeting.** As the CCDR and JFC define the JOA, establish a joint task force, and set the theater for potential armed conflict, they must refine or begin target identification, prioritization, and analysis per existing contingency plans, guidance, and the situation.
- **Informational Considerations.** Leveraging the IE to set conditions for success during armed conflict begins with the JFC and staff identifying relevant platforms for information dissemination in the OE.

Preparing the OE. JIPOE products facilitate the joint force in preparing the OE for operations. Conventional

forces conduct, promote, and anticipate enduring preparations and readiness based on JIPOE. The objectives may or may not be threat-specific. Of course, the responses are all scalable and employed in the context of the specific situation.

Considerations for Isolating a Peer Enemy. As guided by strategic direction, the United States and the joint force strive to isolate enemies by denying them access to allies and sanctuary. The purpose of isolation is to strip away as much of the enemy's external support or freedom of action as possible. However, peer enemies have strategic depth and global reach. A peer enemy will likely have strong influence within its periphery. Still, isolating an enemy is an important aspect of waging warfare at the strategic level. These actions can limit the enemy's potential for horizontal or vertical escalation and enable joint force freedom. CCDRs may support diplomatic, economic, and informational actions.

Initial Response and Employing Flexible Deterrent Options (FDOs) and Flexible Response Options (FROs). The joint force executes FDOs and FROs to respond to situations by leveraging capabilities and options to counter coercion or disrupt, deny, degrade, destroy, or deceive as appropriate.

Protection. CCDRs and staff should consider introducing protection assets into the theater early and integrate with host nation (HN) defenses.

Preparation to Execution. The circumstances surrounding armed conflict rarely unfold as imagined. Regardless of how much time and effort went into anticipating, planning, and wargaming wartime scenarios, commanders recognize that the existing plan will likely need changes as the force transitions from competition to armed conflict.

Gain Operational Access. US forces may gain operational access to areas through invitation by an HN to establish an operating base in or near the conflict or using forcible entry operations. Treaties, agreements, and activities that occur may aid in the invitation to establish a base or support facility. CCDRs can introduce forces during cooperative activities such as SC, military engagement, establishing an expeditionary advance base,

*Joint Warfighting –
Offensives,
Counteroffensives, and
Transitions*

or bilateral exercises. The CCDRs employ immediately available forces and request appropriate FROs.

Force Projection. Projecting US military force invariably requires extensive use of the international waters, international airspace, orbital space, the IE (which includes cyberspace), and the EMS to gain operational access. The ability to freely maneuver to position and sustain our forces is vital to our national interests and those of our partner nations. US forces may gain operational access to areas through invitation by an HN to establish an operating base in or near the conflict or use forcible entry operations. Treaties, agreements, and activities that occur may aid in the invitation to establish a base or support facility.

The Enemy Offensive. Commanders posture forces and enabling capabilities of the force so they are able to survive the enemy's anticipated initial attack. This posture should have support from sustainment and replacement forces through HN and allied infrastructure and logistic support.

Attack Operational COGs and Supporting Structures. Essential to joint warfighting and prevailing in armed conflict, the JFCs attack the COGs prior to the enemy seizing their geographic objectives. As difficult as it may be, joint forces must attack the enemy's operational forces and critical infrastructure to degrade its capability, erode its will and commitment to fight, and disrupt the cohesion of its military.

Drive the Enemy to Culmination

- **Create Local Air and Maritime Freedom of Movement.** Achieving local air and maritime superiority allows joint forces to penetrate the enemy's antiaccess (A2)/area denial (AD) systems, secure a JSA or lodgment, and close the strategic and operational distance.
- **Disrupt Portions of Enemy Integrated Air Defense Systems (IADSs) and A2/AD Systems.** JFCs, through their joint force air component commanders and joint force maritime component commanders, cannot achieve necessary air and maritime superiority without neutralizing some aspects of enemy A2/AD systems and IADSs.
- **Close the Strategic and Operational Distance.** Closing the strategic and operational distance requires

contesting enemy maneuver forces to deny their objectives and degrade enemy long-range intelligence, surveillance, and reconnaissance capabilities.

- **Protect and Expand the JSA.** The JFC must exploit the advantages achieved by closing the strategic and operational distance to protect and expand the JSA. This exploitation enables the deployment and sustainment of expeditionary forces to support follow-on operations and secures operational access within the theater.

Counteroffensive. As soon as possible, the joint force must initiate offensive operations; when conducted in response to enemy attacks, they are referred to as counteroffensives.

Joint Warfighting — Integrating Capabilities and Synchronizing Action. Commanders must integrate the capabilities and synchronize the operations of air, land, maritime, space, and cyberspace forces, along with JEMSO, to defeat peer enemies. JFCs should consider intelligence collection, providing joint fire support, maneuvering to close with the enemy, and protecting the force, for example, as separate operations but complementary joint actions executed to create necessary effects against the enemy.

Transition and Adaptation. Commanders adapt continuously and transition as necessary as they anticipate the enemy's future actions. At some point during the joint force's initial offensive or counteroffensive, the attack will culminate or pause. This action will be by design or enemy response. Still, there should be no reason to believe the enemy will abandon their objectives after the first iteration of offensive-counteroffensive. Commanders expect to transition through multiple iterations where the side that adapts to the enemy and adjusts to the OE quicker realizes an advantage. Commanders know that on every occasion the United States has engaged in sustained armed conflict against a peer enemy; the joint force has had to change methods, organizations, and capabilities to succeed in the new environment. Until this adaptation occurred, the military could not bring effective force to bear against the enemy.

The Transition from Armed Conflict into the New Competition

Clear conclusion and finality to armed conflict can be elusive. To make a military victory meaningful, CCDRs take on the timeless challenge of translating the military success in the OE into enduring and favorable outcomes.

Operations, Activities, and Investments. To effectively campaign throughout the transition from armed conflict to competition, joint forces take specific actions that:

- Establish security from external threats.
- Execute governance over occupied territories to establish a military government in occupied territory (e.g., The Hague Conventions, the Geneva Conventions, the law of war).
- Coerce adversaries from behaving in a malign or detrimental manner by rewarding appropriate behavior and imposing costs for malign or antagonistic behavior.
- Influence the perceptions, attitudes, objective reasoning, decision making, and behavior of adversaries' leadership, security forces, and civil society and other foreign audiences and inform domestic audiences to create desired psychological effects.
- Influence adversaries' risk assessments to reduce their willingness to engage in malign or antagonistic behavior.
- Counter or contest adversaries' operations, activities, and investments to deny or delay their operational success.
- Continually seek to gain and sustain long-term competitive advantages as the new adversarial competition will go on indefinitely or until the former combatants, now competitors, reach a mutually acceptable political settlement.
- Conduct security tasks to protect friendly forces, installation routes, critical infrastructure, populations, and actions within an assigned OA.
- Execute stabilization activities.
- Establish influence over local and regional audiences (as authorized). Commanders develop and communicate supporting and credible narratives to the intended population to assist them in understanding the overall goal of military actions and the benefits of those actions for the population.
- Establish, maintain, and sustain large-scale detention compounds and sustain enduring detainee operations.

- Execute peace enforcement operations. Peace enforcement operations and peacekeeping operations are coercive actions that orient on adversarial behaviors.

Joint Campaigns and Operations Against Violent Extremist Organizations

IW is a struggle among state or non-state actors to influence populations and affect legitimacy. The term **irregular** highlights the nontraditional methods that state and non-state actors incorporate through their actions, information efforts, activities, and operations to gain the broadest and most impactful influence and effects.

Violent extremist organizations (VEOs). VEOs include individual terrorists that align with a group, terrorist organizations, and ideologically driven groups that promote violence. A sound global approach for countering terrorism outlines a strategic vision built around an international effort. The aim orients on defeating violent extremism, which threatens the way of life for free and open societies and creating a global environment inhospitable to violent extremists and their supporters.

Combating Terrorism (CbT). CbT involves actions to oppose terrorism from all threats. CbT encompasses antiterrorism, which are defensive measures taken to reduce vulnerability of individuals and property to terrorist acts. These actions include rapid containment by local military and civilian forces and counterterrorism, which are activities and operations taken to neutralize terrorists and their organizations and networks.

Joint Campaigns and Operations Against VEOs. Successful campaigns and operations against VEOs require an integrated USG strategy that establishes relevant strategic objectives. A GCP for countering VEOs translates USG policy and strategy into a set of strategic- and operational-level military objectives necessary to establish the conditions necessary to achieve the desired strategic objective.

The Limited Contingency

Limited contingency operations ensure the safety of US citizens and US interests. Many of these operations involve a combination of military forces and capabilities operating in close cooperation with interorganizational participants. Commanders seek to integrate and execute within one unified construct to facilitate unity of effort.

The timing of the transition from planning and preparation to execution can change rapidly, as necessary.

Direct Action

Direct action entails short-duration strikes and other small-scale offensive actions conducted in hostile, denied, or diplomatically sensitive environments. Direct action employs military capabilities to seize, destroy, capture, exploit, recover, or damage designated targets in hostile, denied, high-risk, or diplomatically and politically sensitive environments.

Counterinsurgency

Counterinsurgency consists of comprehensive civilian and military efforts designed to simultaneously defeat and contain insurgency and address its root causes.

An effective counterinsurgency operation utilizes all instruments of national power to integrate and synchronize political, security, legal, economic, development, and psychological activities carried out by the HN. CCDRs also leverage applicable USG and multinational partners to create a holistic approach to resolve core grievances where able and for those irreconcilables remaining in the insurgency, weakening their cause for violence.

Global Integration and the Joint Force's Enduring Role in Competition

Arranging and accomplishing global integration's actions are essential. For the joint force to prevail against a peer enemy, it is imperative for JFCs to implement the directed prioritization of effort and integrate capabilities that work together to create advantages. If CCDRs are unsuccessful in executing these essential operations, then the war effort could face costly protraction, stalemate, or even worse. CCDRs achieve success by continually denying the enemy's objectives, attriting and dismantling enemy A2/AD defense networks, targeting C2 systems, and isolating the enemy's forces from their strategic infrastructure. Simultaneously, CCDRs continue protecting the force and accumulating combat power from across the globe. As the campaigns and major operations begin to create diplomatic and political leverage and advantage, national leaders can begin to either impose or negotiate a settlement.

CONCLUSION

This publication provides fundamental principles and guidance for joint campaigns and operations.

CHAPTER I

FUNDAMENTALS OF JOINT CAMPAIGNS AND OPERATIONS

1. Introduction

a. Joint Publication (JP) 3-0 is the keystone document in the joint operations series and is a companion publication to joint doctrine's capstone JP 1, Volume 1, *Joint Warfighting*, and JP 1, Volume 2, *The Joint Force*. It provides guidance to joint force commanders (JFCs) and their subordinates to plan, execute, and assess joint campaigns and operations. It also informs interagency and multinational partners, international organizations, nongovernmental organizations (NGOs), and other civilian decision makers of fundamental principles that guide the employment of the Armed Forces of the United States. This publication describes fundamental keystone constructs—such as unified action and joint functions—that apply regardless of the nature or circumstances of a specific joint operation. This publication provides context not only for the joint operations series but also for other keystone doctrine publications that describe supporting functions and processes.

b. The primary way the Department of Defense (DOD) employs two or more Services (from at least two Military Departments [MILDEPs]) in a single operation is through joint operations. Normally implemented within a broader campaign, joint operations are military actions conducted by joint forces and those Service forces employed in specified command relationships with each other, which of themselves do not establish joint forces. A joint force is one composed of significant elements, assigned or attached, of two or more MILDEPs operating under a single JFC.

c. The foundation of joint operations doctrine rests upon the principles of joint operations and the associated fundamentals of joint warfare, described in JP 1, Volume 1, *Joint Warfighting*. These principles and fundamentals apply to both traditional and irregular forms of warfare. Joint doctrine recognizes the utility of unity of command and the synergy created by the integration and synchronization of military operations in time, space, and purpose. Joint doctrine recognizes **the nine principles of war (objective, offensive, mass, maneuver, economy of force, unity of command, security, surprise, and simplicity)**. Experience gained in a variety of irregular warfare (IW) situations has reinforced the value of three additional principles (**restraint, resilience, and legitimacy**). Together, they comprise the **12 principles of joint operations**, see Appendix A, "Principles of Joint Operations."

Refer to JP 1, Volume 1, Joint Warfighting, for more information on traditional warfare, IW, and the instruments of national power.

d. The Armed Forces of the United States—every military organization at all levels—are a team. Success depends on well-integrated command headquarters (HQ), supporting organizations, and forces that operate as a team. Integrating Service components' capabilities under a single JFC maximizes the effectiveness and efficiency of the force. The JFC has the authority and responsibility to tailor forces to the mission.

e. Overview of Joint Campaigns and Operations

(1) The joint force continuously plans and conducts joint campaigns and operations to protect and promote the Nation's interests within a dynamic and complex environment. The ability to prevail in armed conflict against a variety of enemies is fundamental and joint warfighting remains paramount. Additionally, the joint force conducts joint campaigns and operations to limit adversary influence and counter coercive efforts seeking to undermine our interests without provoking armed conflict. Growing instability, the erosion of international norms, and the rise of near peers all suggest such adversarial competition below armed conflict (from this point forward "competition" will be used in this publication) will be increasingly prevalent in the future operational environment (OE). The joint force contributes to the maintenance and viability of the international system of cooperative alliances and partnerships. The benefits of pursuing mutual interests alongside allies and partners are powerful and priceless. For decades, these cooperative alliances have provided enduring strategic advantages against our adversaries.

(2) A campaign is a series of related operations aimed at achieving strategic and operational objectives within a given time and space. The joint force campaigns by integrating and employing measures of cooperation, competition, and armed conflict to create the conditions and behaviors necessary to achieve United States (US) strategic objectives. In the most successful instances of the use of military force, our civilian and military leaders coordinate and align the military with other instruments of national power as part of a broad national effort. This effective blending of instruments of national power, in parallel with the coordinated and aligned efforts of allies and partners, is essential across the competition continuum.

(3) Joint warfighting includes major operations and campaigns involving large-scale combat. A major operation is a series of tactical actions conducted by combat forces, coordinated in time and place, to achieve strategic or operational objectives in an operational area. Major operations are a primary building block of a campaign. Campaigns are joint in nature; functional and Service components of the joint force conduct supporting operations, not independent campaigns.

2. Strategic Environment and National Security Challenges

a. The strategic environment consists of various national, international, and global interests and influences that affect the decisions of senior US civilian and military leaders concerning the employment of US instruments of national power. The strategic environment is uncertain, complex, and dynamic, requiring commanders to maintain surveillance of the OE and conduct military engagement with interagency and multinational partners. Threats present the joint force with situations that cut across multiple combatant commands' (CCMDs') areas of responsibility (AORs) and functional areas. These threats present themselves in the OE (land, maritime, air space, and cyberspace; the information environment [IE]; and electromagnetic operational environment [EMOE]). The strategic environment is fluid, with continually evolving alliances, partnerships, and national and transnational threats that rapidly emerge,

disaggregate, and reemerge. While it is impossible to predict precisely how challenges will appear and what form they might take, the joint force should expect that uncertainty, ambiguity, and surprise will persist.

b. Today's threats can increasingly synchronize and integrate direct military force and information activities and employ other instruments of national power to create combinations of lethal and nonlethal effects with greater sophistication while less constrained by geographic, functional, legal, or moral boundaries. Threats present these dilemmas in large part due to the nature of the modern IE. Technology that reaches across space and cyberspace characterize the instantaneous and persistent global reach of information and the critical dependency modern societies have on advanced information and communications technologies. A peer enemy has strategic depth and global reach. Armed conflict is inherently transregional as enemies' interests, influence, and capabilities extend beyond traditional and recognized international order and boundaries. Significant and emerging challenges include conventional armed conflict; attacks in space, cyberspace, and the electromagnetic spectrum (EMS); and chemical, biological, radiological, and nuclear (CBRN) threats and employment. Additional challenges include terrorism involving weapons of mass destruction (WMD), adversary information and influence activities, and proliferation of an adversary's exclusion zones (enforced) through antiaccess (A2) and area denial (AD) capabilities. Long-range A2 capabilities may prevent or inhibit the joint force from entering an operational area (OA). If a force can overcome an enemy's A2 capabilities, additional AD capabilities can still limit a force's freedom of action.

c. The challenges may not be specific to any single AOR and can create problematic consequences for international security. Such an environment poses dilemmas for US decision makers; can result in uneven US and allied physical and informational responses; and may weaken US alliances that promote trade, economic development, and diplomatic agreements. A JFC's OE, which may encompass all enemy, friendly, and neutral factors relevant to a specific joint operation, can include actions directed against a variety of state and non-state actors, including insurgents, proxies, surrogates, warlords, criminals, and others. The joint force counters threat networks by continuous and simultaneous engagement at the tactical, operational, and strategic levels. Third-party entities and organizations may also affect achievement of strategic objectives, including the civilian population, host nation (HN) government, other political groups, international organizations, NGOs, and contractors from which everyone expects to draw support.

d. Enemies who attack the United States and overseas interests may use indirect and non-attributable methods. They will avoid secure and defensible targets and attack vulnerabilities. Targets may include US and partner nations' (PNs') lines of communications (LOCs), seaports, airports, staging areas, civilian populations, critical infrastructure, information centers, economic centers, historically and culturally significant landmarks, and military and police personnel and facilities. The joint force can counter these attacks with tailored operations and activities aligned with the efforts of interagency and international partners and organizations.

e. Advances in information technology increase the tempo, lethality, and depth of warfare. Developments in space and cyberspace provide the US military, allies, and partners the means to improve economic and physical security. However, they also provide adversaries with similar capabilities and increase access to open-source information and intelligence, the Department of Defense information network (DODIN), critical infrastructure and key resources, and an extensive propaganda platform with global reach.

Refer to JP 1, Volume 1, Joint Warfighting, and the Defense Strategy Review for more information on the strategic security environment. Refer to JP 3-08, Interorganizational Cooperation, for more information on interorganizational cooperation.

3. Instruments of National Power and the Competition Continuum

a. The instruments of national power are all the means available to the government in its pursuit of national objectives, expressed as diplomatic, economic, informational, and military. The instruments of national power are continuously active across the competition continuum. The ability of the United States to advance its national interests depends on how effectively the United States Government (USG) aligns and employs the instruments of national power within the competition continuum to achieve strategic objectives.

b. Whether in a primary or supporting role, the military can provide its strengths, assets, and capabilities in a range of strategic uses. As a significant part of the military instrument of national power, the joint force organizes efforts through cooperation, competition, and armed conflict. Much of DOD's focus and effort is on deterrence through cooperation and competition, while remaining prepared for armed conflict. Through cooperation, DOD supports USG strategic objectives by developing security relationships; building allied and partner capacity and capability; enabling them to operate alongside US forces around the globe; and securing access in, over, and through allied and partner nations. As states and others seek to protect and advance their interests, they are in continual competition for influence, leverage, and advantage. Influence, advantage, and leverage accrue through the affiliation or alignment of relevant actors with the United States. It is people and their aggregate organizations through their decisions and behavior that enable or impede friendly freedom of action. The joint force may counter adversarial actions and malign influence through measures of persuasion and coercion. The United States employs military forces in a wide variety of activities and roles that vary in purpose, scale, risk, tempo, and intensity along the competition continuum (see Figure I-1). Cooperative and competitive activities comprise essential elements of global campaign plans (GCPs) and combatant command campaign plans (CCPs). The potential character of GCP and CCP campaign activities and their subordinate operations can begin with cooperative measures such as security cooperation (SC) and other military engagement activities. Campaigns and major operations can include cooperative to coercive measures such as exclusion zones, interception, enforcement of US and international economic sanctions, actions against irregular threats, and support to resistance. They may also include IW and traditional warfare. The military's role increases relative to the other instruments of national power as the need to compel or force a threat through military action increases.

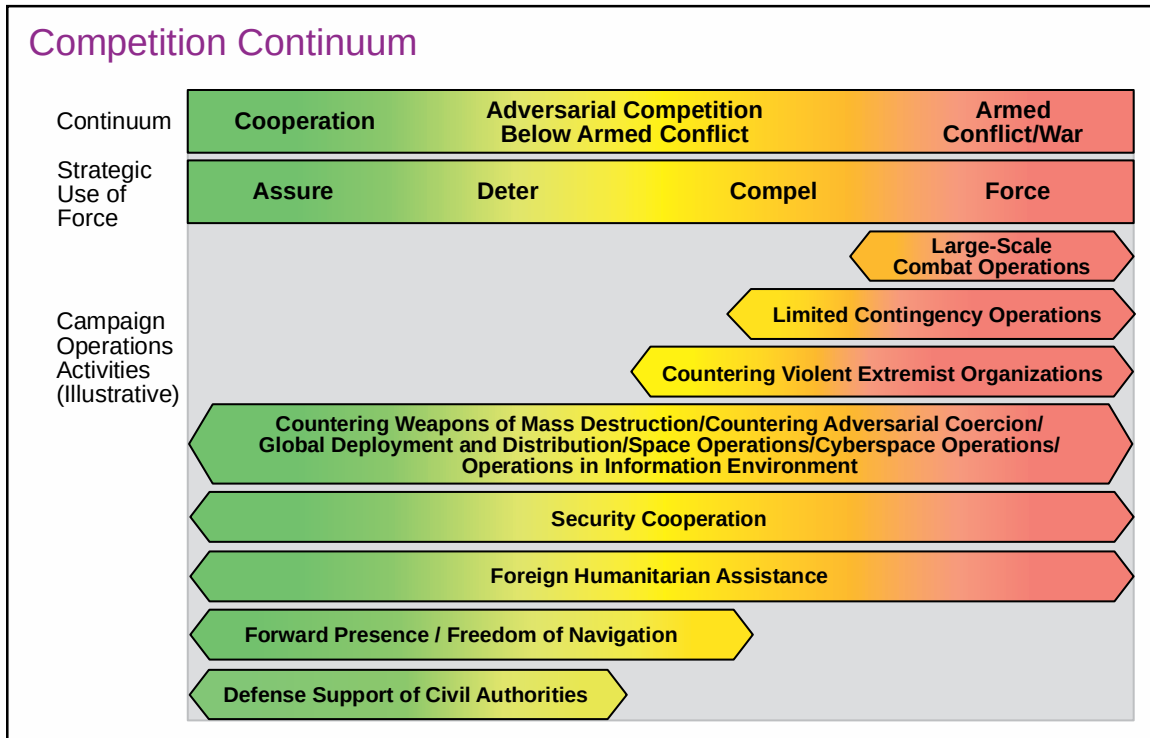


Figure I-1. Competition Continuum

Refer to JP 1, Volume 1, Joint Warfighting, for more information on the instruments of national power. Refer to JP 3-20, Security Cooperation, for more information about a CCMD's role in SC. Refer to Chapter V, "The Competition Continuum," and JP 1, Volume 1, Joint Warfighting, for more information on the competition continuum.

4. Strategic Direction

a. US federal law and policy provide the framework for strategic direction among the branches of government and their departments. Strategic direction, specific to DOD, is the strategy and intent of the President, the Secretary of Defense (SecDef), and the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff (CJCS) in pursuit of national interests. Strategic direction provides context, purpose, and tasks employing the instruments of national power. The specifics of strategic direction address long-term, emergent, and anticipatory issues or concerns that may quickly evolve due to rapidly changing circumstances. The Nation's leaders normally formulate strategic direction through lengthy and comprehensive dialogue that considers a great deal of input from initial joint planning. The actual direction may reside in key documents, generally referred to as strategic guidance, or senior leaders may communicate directly through other means. Strategic direction can change rapidly in response to changes in the global environment, whereas strategic guidance document revision is cyclical and may not reflect the most current strategic direction.

b. In general, the President frames the Nation's strategic context by defining national interests and goals through strategic guidance documents like the national security strategy (NSS), Presidential directives, interim strategic guidance, and executive orders drafted by

and coordinated through the National Security Council (NSC) and Homeland Security Council. Three Presidential strategic guidance documents provide broad strategic direction to DOD. They are the NSS, *Unified Command Plan* (UCP), and contingency planning guidance (CPG).

c. SecDef incorporates national strategic guidance and provides defense-wide strategic guidance to DOD components and the joint force primarily through the national defense strategy (NDS), the defense planning guidance (DPG), and the *Global Force Management Implementation Guidance* (GFMIG). The CJCS publishes the national military strategy (NMS) that provides strategic guidance and gives more specific, tailored, and prioritized objectives that guide joint planning and execution related to the national objectives. Campaign planning, coordination, and guidance among the Joint Staff (JS), combatant commanders (CCDRs), Service Chiefs, National Guard Bureau (NGB), and combat support agencies (CSAs) translate strategic direction into clear planning guidance, tailored force packages, operational-level objectives, and contingency plans.

For more information on campaign and contingency planning guidance, see Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff Instruction (CJCSI) 3100.01, Joint Strategic Planning System, and JP 5-0, Joint Planning.

For more information on national strategic direction, refer to CJCSI 5715.01, Joint Staff Participation in Interagency Affairs; JP 1, Volume 2, The Joint Force; the DPG; the GFMIG; and CJCSI 3110.01, (U) 2018 Joint Strategic Campaign Plan (JSCP) [short title: JSCP].

5. The Philosophy of Global Military Integration

a. Global military integration enables SecDef, assisted by the Joint Chiefs of Staff and CCDRs, to make timely decisions and establish operational priorities and institutional choices across multiple geographic, organizational, and functional boundaries and time horizons. This process is necessary because of the challenges of today's strategic environment, the realities of limited joint force resources, and expanding requirements. As CCMDs address complexities of their OEs and requirements, SecDef prioritizes resources. Global military integration is additive to and reinforces the UCP. Joint force decision making through an individual regional context can lead to myopic perspectives and sub-optimized employment of the joint force. Global military integration mitigates geographical and functional seams inherent in the division of responsibilities in the UCP. Joint force decision making through a multi-regional and functional context requires integration through a global perspective.

b. The proliferation of advanced technologies used during warfare has accelerated its speed, added to its complexity, and expanded its scope to encompass all aspects of the OE. These factors have eroded the United States' perceived competitive military advantage. Simultaneously, the global demand for joint forces continues to exceed capacity. To meet these challenges, the joint force must integrate at the right place, at the right time, with the right amount of force.

For more information on global military integration and the global integration process, see CJCSI 3050.01, Implementing Global Integration.

6. Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff's Role in Global Military Integration

a. The 2017 National Defense Authorization Act and 2017 UCP expanded the CJCS's responsibilities, to include serving a role in global military integration for the joint force (as codified in Title 10, United States Code [USC], Section 153). The CJCS provides advice for prioritization to the President and SecDef on the allocation and transfer of forces across CCMDs. As required by Title 10, USC, the CJCS provides the President and SecDef advice on ongoing joint force activities and the allocation and transfer of forces required to execute those activities. For global military integration, the CJCS assists in strategic planning and direction of the Armed Forces of the United States to ensure the effective employment and coherent pursuit of strategic objectives to integrate action across the worldwide campaigning effort, while balancing risks. CJCS advice supports informed SecDef decisions on CCMD resourcing necessary to achieve directed objectives and, where necessary, prioritizes resources. Subject to SecDef authority, direction, and established command relationships, the conduct of CCMD campaigns and operations is the sole purview of the CCDR. Global military integration balances demand across regions relative to the overall defense strategy and global campaign perspective. The CJCS provides advice to SecDef and the President on optimizing the force to achieve global military integration. The final decisions are made by civilian leadership.

b. The NMS is the CJCS's central strategic guidance document. The NMS provides the strategic framework to prioritize the planning, resource allocation, and mitigation of risk. The guidance translates defense guidance into military strategy and assists SecDef in providing strategic direction of the Armed Forces of the United States. The NMS serves as the starting point for all other Joint Strategic Planning System (JSPS) actions.

c. The CJCS also publishes the JSCP, the CJCS's primary strategic document, to guide and direct the preparation and integration of joint force campaign and contingency plans. It translates national security policy and strategic guidance into strategic objectives and guidance for the preparation and integration of global, CCMD, and functional campaign plans and their corresponding operational-level objectives. The JSCP tasks CCMDs, Services, the JS, and DOD agencies to prepare campaign and contingency plans. There are three types of campaign plans: GCPs, functional campaign plans (FCPs), and CCPs. The contingency plans represent a branch of a campaign plan that is based on a hypothetical situation, for designated threats or a catastrophic event. The JSCP directs contingency planning at the global and CCMD level. The CJCS oversees joint force campaign and contingency planning and makes recommendations for global military integration of cross-CCP planning efforts. In execution, designated CCDRs serve as coordinating authorities to implement the GCPs and CCPs and plan the associated integrated contingency plans (ICPs). An ICP coordinates the activities of multiple CCMDs in time and space to respond to a single contingency that spans CCMD geographic boundaries or functional responsibilities. For a crisis or transition to armed conflict, global integration frameworks (GIFs) integrate joint force actions, provide initial crisis options, and identify potential senior leadership decisions based on the global response to a priority

challenge. The decision may be to recommend implementing an ICP. ICPs differ from traditional contingency plans, as they require integration between the coordinating authority and collaborators across multiple regions, whereas previous contingency plans assumed regional challenges and a single supported command. Global military integration relies on a GCP's associated GIF and ICP to determine and synchronize the response to a global challenge by expanding the operations and authorities within a GCP or transitioning to one or more of the ICP family of contingency plans.

7. Unified Action

a. General

(1) Unified action refers to the synchronization, coordination, and alignment of the activities of governmental and nongovernmental entities with military operations to achieve unity of effort. Participants can include multinational forces, international organizations, NGOs, and other interorganizational partners. The joint force integrates actions within DOD and seeks to align actions collaboratively outside the purview of DOD. Failure to achieve unified action can jeopardize mission accomplishment.

(2) **Interorganizational partners** refers collectively to other USG departments and agencies; state, territorial, local, and tribal government agencies; international organizations; foreign security forces and government agencies; NGOs; academia; entities of the private sector; nontraditional security entities (e.g., armed groups and their irregular forces, and private military companies); and foreign populations and groups that may be part of interorganizational cooperation.

For more information on interorganizational cooperation, see JP 3-08, Interorganizational Cooperation.

(3) Unified action is a function of national strategic direction, the Constitution, federal law, and USG policy. Unified action is a broad government approach that focuses on coordination and cooperation of the US military and other interorganizational participants toward common objectives, even though the participants are not part of the same command or organization. The principle of unity of command enables commanders to understand the effective mechanisms to achieve military unity of effort.

(4) The United States Department of State (DOS) has a complementary approach, which defines unity of effort as a cooperative concept that refers to coordination and communication among USG organizations toward common goals for success. The basis for cooperation is the necessity of each department's efforts to work in harmony with the short- and long-range goals of the mission.

(5) The United States Department of Commerce plays a key role in the economic security of the Nation, which relates to national security. The Department of Commerce operates on multiple fronts to protect Americans and the US economy by enforcing trade laws and providing tools to thwart cybercrime. This makes the Department of Commerce a key department for interagency coordination.

b. **The JFC's Role.** Facilitating unity of effort with interorganizational partners is both challenging and mission-essential for JFCs. JFCs play a pivotal role in unifying joint force actions, since all the elements and actions that compose unified action are normally present at their level. However, subordinate JFCs and component commanders also align and synchronize their operations, activities, and investments directly with the operations of other military forces and interorganizational partners to promote unified action.

c. **Multinational Participation in Unified Action.** Joint forces should plan and execute campaigns and operations with partner forces, to include both uniformed personnel of a PN and irregular forces. Campaigns, major operations, and other operations may occur within the framework of an alliance or coalition led by the United States, or the joint force may act in a supporting role to a PN. Although individual nations may place greater emphasis on some objectives over others, the key is to find commonality within the objectives to promote unity of effort and make progress toward achieving the objectives. Cultivation and maintenance of personal relationships among counterparts may enable success. Language and communication differences, cultural diversity, historical animosities, and the varying capabilities of allies and multinational partners are factors that complicate the alignment and synchronization of activities during multinational operations. Likewise, differing national obligations derived from international treaties, agreements, and national legislation complicate multinational operations. Regardless of whether other members participate within their treaty or agreement obligations, the United States remains bound by treaties and agreements to which it is a party.

For more information on unified action concerning multinational participation, refer to JP 1, Volume 1, Joint Warfighting. For more information on all aspects of multinational operations, refer to JP 3-16, Multinational Operations. For North Atlantic Treaty Organization (NATO)-specific doctrine ratified by the United States, see Allied Joint Publication (AJP)-01, Allied Joint Doctrine, and AJP-3, Allied Joint Doctrine for the Conduct of Operations.

d. **Interorganizational Cooperation in Unified Action.** CCDRs and subordinate JFCs often interact with a variety of interorganizational partners. This interaction varies according to the nature of the partner (e.g., capability, capacity, posture, authorities/national caveats) and the type and objectives of the operation. JFCs and planners consider the potential contributions of other agencies and determine which can best contribute to achieving specific objectives. Often, other interagency partners, primarily DOS, can facilitate a JFC's cooperation with PN agencies, NGOs, and the private sector. DOD may support other USG departments and agencies during operations; however, under US law, our military forces remain under the DOD command structure. Law or regulation, Presidential directive, policy, or agreement among or between agencies may prescribe federal lead-agency responsibility. Even when in a supporting role, the joint force will likely provide significant support to the lead agency because of its resources and well-established planning methods.

e. **Interorganizational Alignment**

(1) Military operations require civil-military alignment. The degree of alignment depends on the mission, objectives, organizations, governments, and people involved. Presidential directives guide participation by all USG departments and agencies and may influence decisions and actions by NGOs, academia, and private-sector organizations. Military commanders work with the other USG partners to promote unified action. Differences in policies, procedures, decision-making processes, terminology, and organizational cultures, as well as the nature and extent of resourcing across the various USG departments and agencies, often complicate and may initially create challenges to successful civil-military integration.

(2) Alignment, cooperation, and coordination between military forces and interorganizational partners may have less structure than military command and control (C2) arrangements. Some organizations may have policies that conflict with those of the USG, particularly those of the US military. Formal agreements, robust liaison, and information collection and sharing through interorganizational coordination and civil-military operations (CMO) facilitate common understanding and informed decision making. Information sharing with NGOs and the private sector may be more restrictive. Still, options such as the CCMD-level joint interagency coordination group (JIACG) and operational-level civil-military operations center (CMOC) are available to the JFCs to facilitate interorganizational coordination and civil information collection and sharing. DOD, in collaboration with federal, state, local, territorial, and tribal governments, uses the structures and procedures provided by the *National Response Framework* (NRF) and the National Incident Management System to provide defense support of civil authorities (DSCA) in response to disasters and civil disturbances within the United States and its territories. Specifically, United States Northern Command and United States Indo-Pacific Command produce contingency plans to support domestic operations. Similar structures and processes incorporate the capabilities and interests of foreign partners and enable DOD to provide foreign humanitarian assistance (FHA) outside the United States. In armed conflict, joint forces conduct CMO to interact with foreign governments and civil societies.

For more information on interorganizational coordination, refer to JP 3-08, Interorganizational Cooperation. For more information on CMO and the CMOC, refer to JP 3-57, Civil-Military Operations. For more information on DOD's coordination and involvement with other USG departments and agencies within the context of support to civil authorities, homeland security, and role within the NRF, refer to JP 3-28, Defense Support of Civil Authorities.

8. Fundamental Considerations

a. Levels of Warfare

(1) **General.** The framework of strategic, operational, and tactical levels of warfare helps commanders visualize the relationships and actions required to link strategic objectives to campaigns and major operations and link their objectives to tactical operations. These levels help commanders visualize a logical arrangement of operations, allocate resources, and assign tasks to appropriate commands. Echelon of command, size of units, types of equipment, and types and location of forces or components may often

relate to a particular level, but the strategic, operational, or tactical purpose of their employment depends on the nature of their task, mission, or objective.

(2) **Strategic Level.** In the context of national interests, strategy develops an idea or set of ideas associated with the employment of the instruments of national power in a synchronized and integrated fashion to achieve strategic objectives. Considerations at the strategic level allow the President and SecDef, often in concert with leaders of other nations, to examine and account for an adversary's or enemy's strategies, as well as the OE's evolving circumstances. The President, aided by the NSC, establishes policy and strategic objectives through continuous iteration. In parallel, SecDef translates the emerging policy into guidance that facilitates joint planning. CCDRs participate in strategic discussions with the President and SecDef, usually with the CJCS. CCDRs also participate in strategic discussions with allies and multinational partners. Thus, the CCDR's strategy relates to both US national strategy and joint campaigns and operations within the AOR. This analysis informs the development of the strategic-level objectives, identifies obstacles to the achievement of these objectives, the associated narrative, required level of commitment, and the allocation of national resources to achieve those objectives. The strategy, derived from strategic direction and informed by planning, provides a framework for conducting campaigns and subordinate operations, activities, and investments at accepted levels of risk.

(3) **Operational Level.** At the operational level of warfare, JFCs identify and arrange objectives, operations, and forces to effectively conduct campaigns and major operations. The operational level of warfare links the tactical employment of forces to strategic objectives. Effective campaigning requires achieving the operational-level objectives that link and lead to the strategic objectives. Operational objectives may be behavioral or territorial/conditional, but to achieve the strategic objectives, effective campaigning requires their deliberate identification and formulation. Military action at the operational level is normally a series of major operations oriented on operational objectives organized within a campaign. JFCs and component commanders use operational art to determine the purpose of military force; set goals, such as to strengthen the resolve, commitment, and resiliency of partners; persuade neutral parties to join the friendly forces' campaign; and convince adversaries to abandon or not engage in an armed struggle. Many factors affect relationships among military leaders at these levels. Service and functional component commanders of a joint force do not plan the actions of their forces in a vacuum; they and their staffs collaborate with the operational-level JFC to plan the joint operation. This collaboration facilitates the components of planning and execution. Likewise, the operational-level JFC and staff collaborate with the CCDR to frame strategic objectives, as well as tasks the CCDR may assign to the subordinate joint force.

(4) **Tactical Level.** Tactics are the employment and ordered arrangement of forces in relation to each other. Tactics typically manifest themselves as individual operations. In armed conflict, tactics include planning and executing battles, engagements, and activities at the tactical level to achieve military objectives. An engagement can include a wide variety of noncombat tasks and activities between opposing forces, normally of short duration. A battle consists of a set of related engagements. Battles typically last

longer than engagements, involve larger forces, and have greater potential to affect the course of an operation.

For more information on the levels of warfare, see JP 1, Volume 1, Joint Warfighting.

b. **Strategic Uses of Military Force.** The United States leverages all instruments of national power to pursue its national interests. Reinforcing America's traditional tools of diplomacy, DOD provides military capabilities to ensure the President and our diplomats negotiate from positions of strength. DOD has a supporting role when the military instrument of national power is not the main instrument for the strategy. When directed, or if the other instruments of national power prove insufficient, the military becomes the Nation's primary instrument. In either case, the military contribution is essential as it enables and reinforces the application of the other instruments of national power. Whether in a primary or supporting role, strategic uses of a military force include assurance, both forms of coercion (deter and compel), and forcible action (or force).

(1) **Assure** is using the military instrument of national power to demonstrate commitment and support to allies and partners. Assuring often takes the form of SC, combined exercises, and forward stationing of US forces.

(2) **Deter** is the prevention of undesired action by the existence of a credible threat of unacceptable counteraction and/or the belief that the costs of action outweigh the perceived benefits.

(3) **Compel** is the more complicated form of coercion since it requires precise signaling and communication through actions. It is even more dependent than deterrence on an accurate assessment of the adversary's will. The United States often compels the threat for limited ends or objectives achievable without sustained violence, occupation, or regime change.

(4) **Force** is using pure military strength to achieve the objective directly by subduing the enemy and imposing the United States' will. Force does not depend on the enemy's decision not to comply—rather, the enemy's choice of noncompliance is what distinguishes forcible action from coercion.

For detailed discussion, see JP 1, Volume 1, Joint Warfighting.

c. **Traditional Warfare and IW**

(1) Joint doctrine distinguishes between traditional warfare and IW but recognizes the strengths of employing them together in conjunction with appropriate information activities. All military activities (or inactivities) are inherently communicative and can affect behavior in the OE. Both traditional warfare and IW serve a fundamentally discrete purpose that drives different approaches to its conduct. In practice, conducting effective warfare requires creative, dynamic, and synergistic combinations of proper information integrated with traditional warfare and IW.

(2) Traditional warfare is between two or more conventional forces in armed conflict. A nation-state's strategic purpose for conducting traditional warfare is to impose its will on an enemy government and avoid the imposition of the enemy government's will on itself and its citizens. The law of war regulates the resort to armed conflict; the conduct of hostilities and the protection of war victims in international and non-international conflict; belligerent occupation; and the relationships between belligerent, neutral, and non-belligerent states. It is derived from the treaties and customary international law binding on the United States. Other purposes of the law of war are to facilitate restoration of peaceful conditions, assist military commanders in ensuring the disciplined and efficient use of military force, and preserve the professionalism and humanity of combatants.

(3) In traditional warfare, nation-states (and state-like entities capable of waging war) fight each other for various reasons to protect or advance their strategic interests. Campaigns in traditional warfare normally focus on an enemy's armed forces, their capabilities, and seizing key terrain, ultimately, to force their government to concede. In traditional warfare, enemies engage in combat against each other and employ a variety of similar functions and capabilities throughout the OE. In today's dynamic environment, adversaries are challenging traditional views of warfare, in ways that blur distinctions of traditional warfare and measures short of war.

(4) IW is a struggle among state and non-state actors to influence populations and affect legitimacy. It normally involves the participation of non-state armed groups, state-controlled irregular forces, or nonmilitary entities. In IW, joint forces seek primarily to influence populations and affect legitimacy, credibility, and will of sponsors and their partners and opponents. IW often favors indirect approaches to competition and armed conflict. IW includes a broad scope of lethal and nonlethal activities to subvert, erode, or exhaust an enemy's power, influence, and will. IW may include support to resistance and the use of indirect military activities to enable partners, or surrogates, to achieve shared or complementary objectives. Partners and surrogates are distinct entities. In short, the JFC supports and cooperates with a partner, but one employs a surrogate. Use of irregular forces, including resistance fighters opposing a government or an occupying power, represent a form of IW. Additionally, IW requires operating in close and persistent collaboration with interagency, multinational, and other interorganizational partners to achieve unity of effort without unity of command. IW is dependent on the USG to reinforce the legitimacy, credibility, and effective governance of supported partners. In competition, the conduct of IW is persistent and long-term. Joint forces conduct IW in permissive, uncertain, and hostile environments and denied areas. One key to success is a healthy relationship with the associated DOS chiefs of mission (COMs). Finally, IW includes the employment of indirect, unorthodox, and asymmetric approaches and non-overt actions.

(5) In accordance with (IAW) Department of Defense Directive (DODD) 3000.07, *Irregular Warfare (IW)*, IW requires the capabilities of the entire DOD, but it is not exclusive to special operations forces (SOF). DOD IW operations and activities include, but are not limited to:

(a) Unconventional warfare (UW), foreign internal defense (FID), counterterrorism (CT), counterinsurgency (COIN), stabilization activities, countering threat networks (CTN) (which includes counter threat finance [CTF] and countering transnational criminal organizations), military information support operations (MISO), and civil affairs operations (CAO).

(b) Those military engagement activities (which includes aspects of SC programs, CMO, and interorganizational cooperation) that support IW.

Refer to JP 1, Volume 1, Joint Warfighting, for more information on traditional warfare and IW and the instruments of national power.

d. Integrating Information in Joint Operations. All military activities and operations have an inherent informational aspect, whether intended or not. The joint force can leverage the power of information as a means to support achievement of its objectives. The CCMD operational narrative and associated tactical sub-narratives targeted to specific relevant actors propagate via media and human social networks to create cognitive effects that may modify behavior in favor of JFC objectives. JFCs and their subordinate commanders integrate information into their joint campaigns and operations to forge perceptions, attitudes, and behaviors that reinforce the legitimacy of US actions while simultaneously challenging or undermining the perceived legitimacy of adversary and enemy actions. Commanders integrate information into all military actions to create favorable circumstances for friendly action, limit adversary and enemy actions, and minimize unintended consequences. The use of information is key to preparing the OE and understanding the political, social, cultural, and psychological drivers in a particular OA.

For detailed discussion on integrating information into joint operations, see JP 3-04, Information in Joint Operations.

e. Joint Campaigns and Operations

(1) Joint campaigns and operations is a general phrase that includes all the different types of campaigns, such as GCPs, CCPs, and campaigns associated with military operations short of armed conflict and armed conflict. The phrase includes all categories of operations from limited contingency operations to major operations.

(2) In general, joint campaigns and operations pursue strategic objectives by arranging and achieving operational-level objectives clearly linked to strategic objectives. The operational design seeks to produce and translate operational success in support of those strategic objectives. Major operations are a series of tactical activities orienting on achieving operational-level objectives as a part of a campaign. In the context of armed conflict, major operations synchronize and integrate large-scale combat forces. On the other hand, major operations for cooperation and competition will probably not include combat.

(3) Individual joint operations focus on accomplishing specific military tasks. They are the building blocks of a greater campaign. Mission statements with one or two essential tasks drive the purpose of an individual operation. The operational design of any individual operation requires precision, control, detail, and focus. Individual operations make incremental progress toward operational-level objectives. Rarely does one operation singularly achieve an operational-level objective; rather, it links within a series of operations to achieve a strategic objective.

f. Operational and Strategic Objectives

(1) Operational and strategic objectives relate to one another but are uniquely different. Operational objectives can be to occupy territory, affect behavior, or change conditions. Robust policy and strategy can drive joint campaigns and operations that seek broad, transregional, or even global outcomes, requiring many parallel actions and diverse operational-level objectives. Successful campaign planning continuously interprets and predicts potential requirements that originate from the commander's vision to formulate guidance for the operational design. Planners build operational objectives based on reasoning. What emerges and matures is a coherent arrangement of prerequisite and intermediate operational requirements that provide focus and flexibility for military and military supported actions. Commanders arrange and maneuver forces to achieve the operational objectives. In execution, experience and assessment inform the JFCs' adaptation to failure and exploitation of success. JFCs' understanding drives revisions in prioritization to the operational objectives.

(2) Strategic objectives are based on strategic directions. The strategic objectives or policy represent what the nation values and describe the desired outcomes. However, policy and the value the nation assigns to the objective are rarely fixed but continually adapt. These values evolve as a function of the gravity of the interests and risks. Orienting on and pursuing these values requires a campaign approach, sophisticated organizing framework, a well-developed assessment process, and precise terminology. Successful joint campaigns and operations require careful development, pursuit, and achievement of operational objectives that link and lead to achieving the strategic objectives.

g. Global Military Integration and Overcoming Institutional and Operational Boundaries. Control measures and boundaries are necessary to delineate authorities, responsibilities, and relationships between commanders and forces. Commanders plan and exercise control measures to employ the unique qualities and advantages of their organizations in the right place and time. Additionally, commanders delineate boundaries and control measures, which are as situationally permissive as possible. A critical aspect of global military integration is simultaneously leveraging the strengths of institutional limits, operational boundaries, and coordination measures while overcoming their constraints.

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CHAPTER II JOINT COMMAND

1. Introduction

a. Command is the authority a commander in the armed forces exercises lawfully over subordinates by virtue of rank or assignment. Accompanying this authority is the responsibility to effectively organize, direct, coordinate, and control military forces to accomplish assigned missions. Command includes responsibility for the health, welfare, morale, and discipline of assigned personnel.

b. While command authority stems from orders and other directives, the art of command resides in the commander's ability to use leadership to maximize performance. The combination of courage, ethical leadership, judgment, empathy, intuition, situational awareness, and the capacity to consider contrary views helps commanders make insightful decisions in complex situations. Commanders and staff can develop many of these attributes over time through training, education, and experience. Joint training and joint doctrine enable the conscious and skillful exercise of command authority through visualization, decision making, and leadership. Effective commanders combine judgment, reason, and visualization with information management (IM), situational awareness, and a sound battle rhythm to facilitate decision making.

2. Strategic Art

Strategic art is the formulation, coordination, and application of ends, ways, and means to implement policy and promote national interests. Strategic art and operational art are mutually supporting. Strategic art provides policy context to strategic objectives and prioritizes resources. Operational art is the cognitive approach by commanders and staffs to develop campaigns and operations to organize and employ military forces by integrating ends, ways, and means.

a. The CCDR's Strategic Role

(1) Based on strategic direction, CCDRs implement the JSCP's directed campaigns and drive preparations for contingency plans. JSCP-directed campaign planning efforts are continually revised and subject to assigned, allocated, and apportioned force readiness constraints. CCMDs' strategies are nominally broad but concise statements of the CCDRs' long-term vision for their AOR, how they would support a CCDR in another AOR, or within the CCDR's global functions. The CPG and JSCP provide guidance for the CCDRs' strategies, campaigns, and operations. A prerequisite to preparing a CCP is the development of a strategic estimate containing factors and trends that influence the CCDRs' AOR or functional responsibilities. This estimate informs the relationship between ends, ways, means, and risks involved in the pursuit of JSCP-directed objectives within the campaign and drives preparations for follow-on actions.

(2) CCDRs continually pursue multiple strategic objectives described by the NDS and NMS. CCDRs also have a role in, and contribute to, achieving other CCMD's strategic objectives within the JSCP's GCPs and their associated contingency plans. Some strategic objectives are the primary responsibility of the supported CCDR. Other strategic objectives require a more balanced use of many or all instruments of national power, with CCDRs in support of other supported CCDRs or other USG departments and agencies. For example, DOS is the department primarily responsible for achieving strategic-level foreign policy goals and the Department of Homeland Security is responsible for securing the Nation from many threats we face. DOS is not resourced like DOD, nor do they have the same view of acceptable risk; this may leave DOD taking on DOS tasks that they view as not feasible or acceptable. Supporting CCDRs coordinate and synchronize their supporting plans with the supported commander's plan. Supported CCDRs provide planning guidance, assign missions and tasks, and organize forces and resources. CCDRs designate objectives, establish operational limitations, implement policies, and create the concept of operations (CONOPS) which integrate into plans and operation orders. In applying military power, CCDRs give authoritative direction in the use of assigned, attached, allocated, and supporting military forces. Military contributions are essential, as they enable and reinforce the application of the other instruments of national power. Supporting and supported CCDRs coordinate with each other across geographic boundaries and functional responsibilities to facilitate mission accomplishment within the capabilities of assigned, attached, allocated, and supporting military forces.

b. Joint Force Command

(1) A JFC's perspective of challenges in the OE is broad and comprehensive due to the interaction with USG civilian leaders; senior, peer, subordinate, and supporting commanders; and interorganizational partners. Clear commander's guidance and intent, enriched by the commander's experience and intuition, enable joint forces to achieve objectives. Employing the "art of war," which has been the commander's central historical command role, remains critical regardless of technological and informational improvements in control—the "science of war."

(2) Commanders interact with other leaders to build personal relationships and develop trust and confidence. Developing these associations is a conscious, collaborative act. Commanders build trust through words and actions and continue to reinforce it not only during operations but also during training, education, and exercises. Trust and confidence are essential to the joint force, interagency and multinational partners, interorganizational partners, and other stakeholders. Commanders may also interact with other political, societal, and economic leaders and other influential people who may impact joint campaigns and operations. This interaction supports mission accomplishment. The JFC emphasizes the importance of key leader engagement (KLE) to subordinate commanders and encourages them to extend the process to lower levels, based on mission requirements.

(3) Commanders provide subordinate commands adequate time to plan and prepare. They do so by issuing warning orders to subordinates at the earliest opportunity.

Collaborating with other commanders, agency leaders, and multinational partners helps develop a clear understanding of the commander's mission, intent, guidance, and priorities. Commanders can resolve issues that are beyond the staff's authority.

(4) Commanders collaborate with their seniors and peers to resolve differences of interpretation of higher-level objectives and align ways and means to accomplish these objectives. Strategic guidance can be vague, and it is imperative that the commander interprets and clarifies guidance for the staff. While national leaders and CCDRs may have a broader perspective of the problem, subordinate JFCs and their component commanders often have a better understanding of the specific situation. Both perspectives are essential to a sound solution. During a commander's decision cycle, subordinate commanders should aggressively share their perspectives with senior leaders to resolve issues as early as possible.

(5) An essential skill of a JFC is the ability to integrate a components' forces with those of another component. Component missions should be mutually complementary and offer support to enhance each other's capabilities and mitigate vulnerabilities. Achieving this synergy requires more than just understanding the capabilities and limitations of each component. The JFC should also visualize operations holistically, identify the preconditions that enable each component to optimize its contribution, and then determine how the other components might help to produce them. The JFC assigns component missions from the perspective of joint effectiveness, without Service parochialism. Joint effectiveness also requires mutual trust among commanders that the missions assigned to components will be consistent with their capabilities and limitations. JFCs do not risk these capabilities for insufficient overall return. This perspective enables each component to enhance the capabilities and limit the vulnerabilities of the others.

(6) Successful commanders encourage the exchange of information and ideas throughout the staff to ensure decisions relate to the best understanding of the problem at hand, the existing situation, and available options to address the problem. Such exchanges promote critical reviews of assumptions; facilitate consideration of all aspects of the situation, including cultural issues; stimulate broad consideration of military and nonmilitary alternatives; and emphasize efforts to minimize organizational and human sources of error and bias.

3. Operational Art – In Planning and Execution

a. Operational art is the cognitive approach by commanders and staffs—supported by their skill, knowledge, experience, creativity, and judgment—to develop strategies, campaigns, and operations to organize and employ military forces by integrating ends, ways, means, and risks. Operational art is useful to the JFC in initial policy/strategy formulation and planning. The commander's judgment, decision making, and adaptation to the changing OE may also draw upon operational art.

b. **Policy and Strategy Formulation.** The joint force conducts joint campaigns and operations to achieve strategic objectives and further policy goals. Civil-military dialogue is essential to ensure campaigns link to strategic objectives. Commanders and joint

planners understand effective communication with national leaders and civilian national security professionals is necessary to build a common perspective. Insights from operational art and initial planning provide input to policy and strategy development. The planning, execution, and assessment involve an iterative and continual dialogue (see paragraph 7, “The Civil-Military Dialogue,” for further discussion).

c. Planning

(1) For planning, operational art provides a thought process to mitigate the ambiguity and uncertainty of a complex OE and develop insight into the problems at hand. Operational art promotes unified action by enabling JFCs and staff to consider the capabilities, actions, goals, priorities, and operating processes of interagency partners and other interorganizational participants when they determine objectives, establish priorities, and assign tasks to subordinate forces. In planning, operational art facilitates the coordination, synchronization, and, where appropriate, the integration of military operations with activities of other participants through the interagency process, thereby promoting unity of effort.

(2) The foundation of operational art encompasses broad vision; the ability to anticipate; and the skill to plan, prepare, execute, and assess. It helps commanders and their staffs organize their thoughts and envision the conditions necessary to accomplish the mission at hand. In planning, operational art informs the deployment and employment of forces and the arrangement of operations to achieve operational and strategic objectives.

(3) In operational-level planning, the commander plays a primary role. Commanders leverage their knowledge, experience, judgment, and intuition to focus effort and achieve success. Operational art helps commanders broaden perspectives, deepen understanding, and enable visualization. Through assessment, and informed by their own experiences, commanders continually compare similarities of the existing situation with earlier baselines, previous expectations, and history, to distinguish unique features and gauge progress to adapt solutions to each situation.

Refer to JP 5-0, Joint Planning, for the details of operational art and operational design.

d. Execution and Decision Making

(1) In execution, operational art is making decisions before they are obvious or easy choices and adapting to the unfolding circumstances. Guided by imperfect information, commanders issue orders based on opaque circumstances, all the while anticipating the lag between the decision and its impact on the enemy and future friendly force operations and long before it is clear how those decisions will play out.

(2) A commander’s ability to visualize the fight beyond the immediate situation and make decisions is one of the most important aspects of operational art. A commander orchestrates operational success by recognizing what each tactical achievement means to future operations and how follow-on actions contribute to strategic objectives. In

OPERATIONAL ART IN EXECUTION

During the Solomons campaign from August 1942 to February 1943, American commanders had to balance offensive, defensive, and sustainment actions to gain the initiative and maintain freedom of action for offensive military operations in the Pacific theater. Strategically, the Solomons campaign was an opportunity for the Allies to prevent the Japanese from interdicting the lines of communications between the United States and Australia. One challenge in interdicting Japanese reinforcement of its land forces on Guadalcanal was US commanders were operating at the limits of American operational reach. While strategic intelligence provided a general indicator of Japanese regional movements, US and Allied land and maritime commanders had periods of clarity and confusion regarding intelligence. Therefore, those commanders and their subordinates had to make decisions guided by incomplete, erroneous, and even contradictory information. Still, the American commanders proved better than their Japanese counterparts at making decisions based on imperfect intelligence.

Initially, the American commanders could not establish control of the region. Therefore, they made difficult choices to seize and hold advance force bases at Tulagi and Guadalcanal and gain maritime control around the Solomons Islands, while preserving enough combat power to posture the force for future operations. Achieving this balance required commanders to exercise judgment on when to accept and pursue engagement with the enemy based on theater-level considerations. The naval battles around the Solomons focused on preserving Allied lines of communications back to the homeland, and even when the outcomes were tactically costly, they still contributed to the larger campaign and attrited the Imperial Japanese Navy. Throughout the initial naval battles, the Americans controlled the seas by day, while the Japanese ruled the night. Over the course of the fight, American commanders adapted quicker to the situation and forced the Japanese naval and ground forces to culminate and withdraw. The maritime superiority and basing gained from those operations enabled US and Allied forces to interdict the Japanese forward naval bases at Rabaul and Truk. Achieving the campaign's operational-level objectives led to successful follow-on campaigns within the Pacific theater that placed the Japanese homeland at risk and eventually ended the war.

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particular, the pursuit of tactical victory should occur within the context provided by those strategic objectives.

(3) In planning and execution, a commander's ability to think creatively, assess situations, and determine how to adapt enhances the ability to develop a sound conceptual approach and effectively wage joint operational-level warfare.

4. Operational Design

a. Operational design is the analytical framework that underpins planning. Operational design supports commanders and planners in organizing and understanding the OE. Additionally, operational design provides an iterative process that enables the commander's vision and mastery of operational art to help planners answer ends, ways, means, and risk questions and appropriately structure campaigns and operations. The operational design methodology helps the JFC and staff identify broad solutions for mission accomplishment. Additional considerations for GCPs and CCPs, which augment operational design, are strategic analysis/diagnosis, range of possible outcomes, the anticipation of consequences, and the commander's vision. Properly formulating achievable strategic objectives and a corresponding and logical array of operational-level objectives is essential.

b. Operational design works best when commanders encourage discourse and leverage dialogue and collaboration to identify and solve complex, ill-defined problems. To that end, the commander should empower organizational learning and develop methods to determine whether modifying the operational approach is necessary during the course of an operation or campaign. As appropriate to the situation, planners should integrate key aspects of IW and operations in the information environment (OIE). This requires an assessment that challenges understanding of the existing problem and the relevance of actions addressing that problem.

Refer to JP 5-0, Joint Planning, for the details of operational design.

5. Joint Planning

a. Planning translates guidance into plans or orders to initiate necessary joint force actions. JFCs plan for potential or actual threats or problems that may require a military response. The joint planning process (JPP) underpins planning at all levels and across the competition continuum. It applies to both supported and supporting JFCs and to component and subordinate commands when they participate in joint operations. JPP helps commanders and their staffs organize their planning activities, share a common understanding of the mission and commander's intent, and develop effective plans and orders. Planning should begin with specified strategic objectives that provide a unifying purpose around which commanders can focus actions and resources. JPP aligns military activities and resources with achieving strategic objectives. It enables commanders to examine cost-benefit relationships, risks, and trade-offs to determine a preferred course of action (COA) to achieve those specific objectives.

b. Joint planning consists of planning activities that help CCDRs and their subordinate commanders transform national objectives into actions that mobilize, deploy, employ, sustain, redeploy, and demobilize joint forces. It ties the employment of the Armed Forces of the United States to the achievement of national objectives across the competition continuum. Based on understanding gained through the application of operational design, more detailed planning takes place within the steps of JPP. JPP is an orderly, analytical

set of logical steps to frame a problem; examine a mission; develop, analyze, and compare alternative COAs; select the best COA; and develop a plan or order.

c. **Key Planning Elements.** Commanders participate in planning to the greatest extent possible from early operational design through approval of the plan or order. Regardless of the commander's level of involvement, certain key planning elements require the commander's participation and decisions. These include the commander's planning guidance and operational approach.

(1) **Commander's Planning Guidance.** JFCs guide the joint force's actions throughout planning and execution. However, the staff and component commanders typically expect the JFC to issue initial guidance soon after receipt of a mission or tasks from higher authority and provide more detailed planning guidance after the JFC approves an operational approach. This guidance is an important input to subsequent mission analysis and often includes the commander's operational approach and vision statement. Commander's update their planning guidance based on mission analysis, additional insights into the OE, and as conditions change.

(2) **Operational Approach.** The operational approach is a commander's initial visualization and description of the broad actions the force must take to solve the overarching problem. It is the commander's visualization of how the operation or campaign should transform current conditions, which may include adversarial actions, into the desired conditions and behaviors—the way the commander wants the OE to look in the future. The operational approach is based largely on an understanding of the OE and the challenge facing the JFC, which forms the base of the commander's planning guidance and defines the command's narrative. For an operational approach with global implications, the CCDR will collaborate with other CCDRs. Then, the CCDR consults with the JS for integration and consultation with the CJCS and Joint Chiefs of Staff. Once SecDef or the JFC approves the approach, it provides the basis to begin, continue, or complete detailed planning. The JFC and staff should continually review, update, and modify the approach as the OE, objectives, or problem change.

For more information, see JP 5-0, Joint Planning.

(3) **Mission and Vision Statements of GCPs.** The CCDR and staff develop a restated mission statement that allows subordinate and supporting commanders to begin their own estimates and planning efforts for higher HQ concurrence. During campaign planning, a single essential task is far too narrow for a coherent and comprehensive campaigning effort. A CCDR's global campaign may require a vision statement that articulates a broad array of requirements. A vision statement is an overarching set of ideas outlining a CCDR's vision for using military power with an OE aligned with the other instruments of national power to achieve strategic objectives. The approved mission statement contains the elements of the operation's purpose. The eventual CONOPS will specify how the joint force will accomplish the mission. The mission statement forms the basis for planning and includes the commander's planning guidance, the planning directive, staff estimates, the commander's estimate, and the CONOPS.

d. **Create Freedom of Action.** The JFC should not expect freedom of action and will often initially have to operate without it. JFCs have to maneuver to create it and commit forces to maintain freedom of action. Freedom of action in the OA may enhance acting beyond the OA. For example, operational reach, where the joint force can successfully employ military forces, can extend far beyond the limits of a JFC's authorities and capacity for logistics throughput. Consequently, the joint force protects LOCs to ensure freedom of action. Effective operational reach requires gaining and maintaining operational access in the face of enemy A2/AD capabilities and actions. Likewise, the C2 and intelligence functions depend on operations within the EMS, space, and cyberspace. JFCs should expect that an enemy's ability to operate effectively in the EMOEs, space, and cyberspace will greatly diminish the JFC's freedom of action. The JFC and staff should consider the efforts required to create specific intervals and places of minimum necessary levels of freedom of action from the outset of operations.

Refer to JP 2-0, Joint Intelligence, for more information on intelligence support and planning.

Refer to JP 3-05, Joint Doctrine for Special Operations, for more information on special operations planning. Refer to JP 3-09, Joint Fire Support; JP 3-09.3, Close Air Support; and JP 3-60, Joint Targeting, for more information on fires and joint fire support planning. Refer to JP 3-12, Joint Cyberspace Operations, for more information on cyberspace operations (CO).

Refer to JP 3-14, Joint Space Operations, for more information on space operations and planning.

Refer to JP 3-85, Joint Electromagnetic Spectrum Operations, for more information on joint electromagnetic spectrum operations (JEMSO)/EMS superiority. Refer to CJCSI 3162.02, Methodology for Combat Assessment, for more information. Refer to JP 4-0, Joint Logistics, and other logistics-series publications, for more information on logistic planning.

6. Assessment

a. Assessment is a continuous and actionable process that measures the overall effectiveness of the joint force. The process involves monitoring and evaluating the current situation and progress toward the objectives. The results can help determine whether an activity contributes to the desired effects or progress toward an objective. Assessment occurs on two distinct planes. First, the JFC continuously evaluates the approach and what actions are necessary to succeed. Once the JFC determines the approach remains valid, then the JFC can assess all the supporting activities. If the approach is no longer valid or relevant, there is no reason to examine any of the supporting activities.

b. DOD and its components use a wide range of assessment tools and methods. Across the competition continuum, assessments gauge the military instrument of national power's capability to prepare for and respond to national security challenges. Senior military leaders assess campaigns and operations across the levels of warfare. At the

strategic level, the CJCS conducts deliberate and continuous assessments, such as the Annual Joint Assessment and the CJCS's Readiness System, respectively. Theater-strategic and operational-level assessments provide a methodology for joint commands and Services to adjust planning and execution to be more effective, match the dynamic OE, and better identify their risks and opportunities. At all levels, **staff estimates**, as part of the overall operations assessment process, evaluate factors in staff sections' functional areas (e.g., information, intelligence, and logistics). Staff estimates are a critical component of mission analysis that leads to plan development.

Refer to CJCSI 3100.01, Joint Strategic Planning System; CJCSI 3141.01, Management and Review of Campaign and Contingency Plans; CJCSI 3110.01, (U) 2018 Joint Strategic Campaign Plan (JSCP); and CJCSI 3162.01, Methodology for Combat Assessment, for more information on CJCS and campaign assessments. Refer to JP 5-0, Joint Planning, for more information on staff estimates, integration of assessment during planning, and conducting operation assessment during execution.

c. **Operation assessment** refers specifically to the process the JFC and staff use during planning and execution to measure progress toward accomplishing tasks, creating conditions or effects, and achieving objectives. Commanders continuously observe the OE and the progress of operations, activities, and investments; compare the results to their initial plan, understanding, and intent; and adjust planning and operations, activities, and investments based on this analysis. Staffs monitor key factors that can influence operations and provide the commander with the information to update the commander's understanding of the OE and assess progress toward the objectives. The fundamental aspects of assessment apply in all types of joint operations. However, commanders and staff may need to adjust the operation assessment process to fit the nature and requirements of a specific operation. In operations that do not include combat, assessments can be more complex.

d. The operation assessment process begins during mission analysis when the commander and staff consider what to measure and how to measure it. Throughout COA development, analysis, comparison, approval, and CONOPS finalization, the commander and staff devise the operation assessment plan and process to incorporate in the overall plan and order. They follow this process during plan development, refinement, adaptation, and execution. Key operation assessment indicators can be resident in the commander's critical information requirement (CCIR) process to provide timely support to the commander's planning and execution decisions.

e. There is no uniform method by which joint forces assign management responsibilities for the assessment. The chief of staff's role varies according to the commander's desires. Often, the plans directorate of a joint staff (J-5), assisted by the intelligence directorate of a joint staff (J-2) and training and education directorate of a joint staff (J-7), develops the assessment plan during the planning process, while the operations directorate of a joint staff (J-3), assisted by the J-2 and J-7, coordinates assessment activities during execution. The assessment effort is a commander-led priority. Various elements of the JFC's staff use assessment results to adjust both current operations and J-

5's future plans. Formalizing assessment roles and responsibilities in each command and leveraging expertise from across the staff is essential to an effective and efficient process.

f. During execution, assessments help commanders decide whether to revise their operations, activities, and investments to align current and future action with the campaign's objectives. By including assessment key indicators within the CCIRs, the staff can better advise the commander whether the original operational approach is still valid.

g. External influences can impact joint campaigns and operations. These influences can include the threat, interorganizational participants, the civilian population, neutral non-partner organizations, and other nations. Since assessment resources are limited, the commander should prioritize assessment activities. This perspective typically requires collaboration with interorganizational participants—preferably in a common and acceptable process—in the interest of unified action. Since most of these organizations are outside the JFC's authority, the JFC is responsible only for assessments of the activities of assigned, attached, and supporting military forces. Nevertheless, the JFC should grant some joint force organizations authority to coordinate directly with organizations, such as DOS and other CCMDs, to facilitate effective alignment and synchronization of assigned, attached, and supporting military forces, as well as timely and effective assessments by participants not under the JFC's authority.

h. Operation Assessment and Levels of Warfare

(1) Interrelated and interdependent assessment occurs at all levels of warfare. Although each level of warfare may have a specific focus and a unique battle rhythm, they form a hierarchical structure through which operation assessments interact. Typically, assessments at the operational level concentrate on broader effects and objectives, while assessments at the tactical level primarily focus on tasks. Properly focused analysis and collection at each level of warfare reduces redundancy and enhances the effectiveness of the overall assessment.

(2) Operation assessment is most effective when supported and supporting actions and their assessments inform each other. As depicted in Figure II-1, each level of assessment should link with adjacent levels, both to provide a conduit for guidance and information. For instance, assessment plans at the tactical level should delineate how they link to or support operational-level assessments. Similarly, guidance from the operational-level JFC should specify the relationship and mechanisms that gather and synthesize tactical-level assessment data into the operational-level assessment.

(3) JFCs and their staffs should consider assessment methodology during planning, preparation, and execution. At all levels, commanders and staffs develop operation assessment indicators to track progress toward accomplishment. An optimal method for developing indicators is to identify key assessment indicators associated with tasks, effects, and objectives for inclusion in the assessment design. The most critical indicators of progress or regression should be in CCIRs to guide the collection and assessment activity. These indicators include measures of effectiveness (MOEs) and

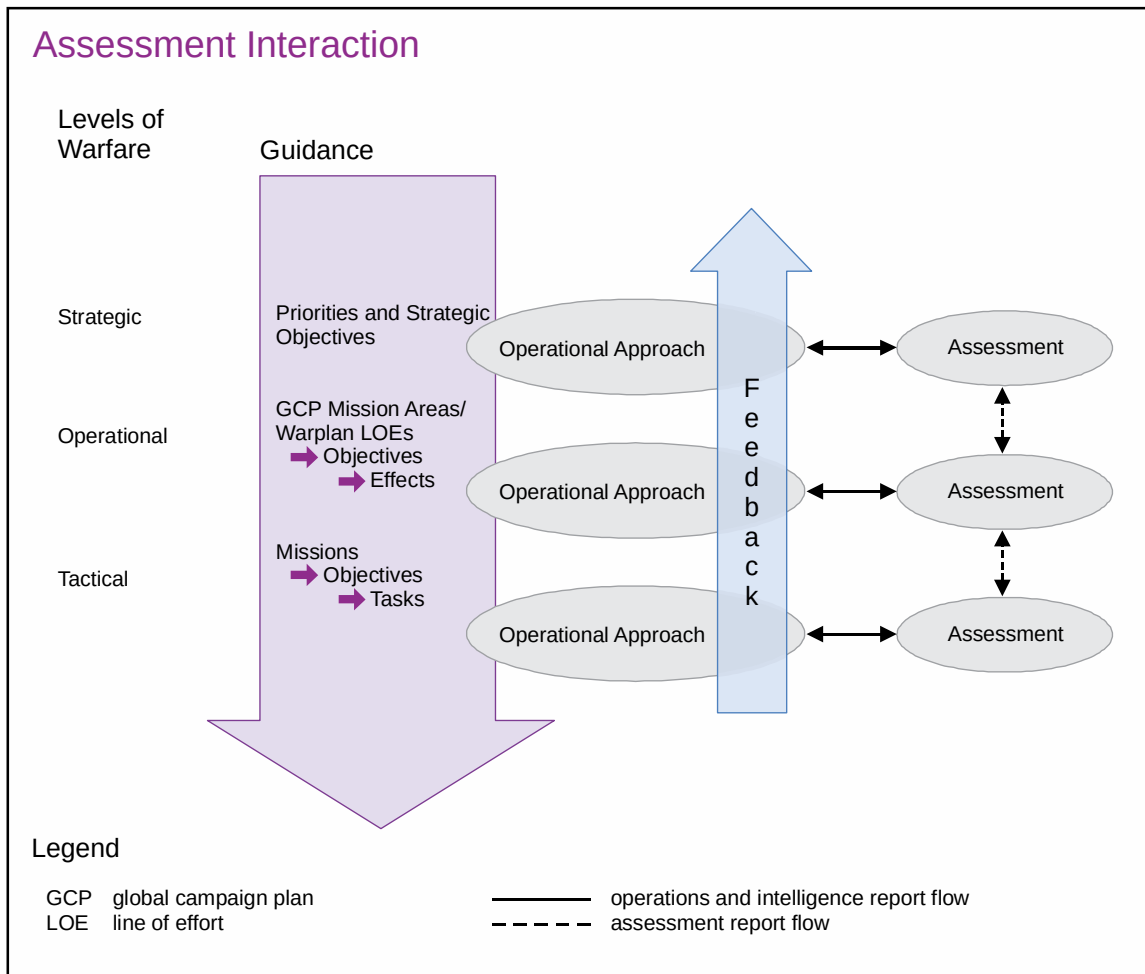


Figure II-1. Assessment Interaction

measures of performance (MOPs). MOEs help answer the question, “Are we creating effect(s) or conditions in the OE that we desire?” MOPs help answer the question, “Are we accomplishing tasks to standard?”

(4) In armed conflict, the tactical-level assessment also uses MOEs and MOPs. Tactical tasks are often physical activities, but they can affect higher-level functions and systems. Tactical assessment may evaluate progress by the destruction of enemy forces; control of key terrain, peoples, or resources; and other tasks. Combat assessment evaluates the results of weapons engagement and the employment of capabilities to create lethal and nonlethal effects and, thus, provides data for joint fires and the joint targeting processes at all levels. Combat assessment is composed of three related elements that may result in a reattack recommendation: battle damage assessment (BDA), munitions effectiveness assessment, and collateral damage assessment. Tactical-level results provide JFCs comprehensive, integrated information to link tactical actions to operational-level objectives. Assessment of tactical results helps commanders determine progress at the operational and strategic levels and can affect operational and strategic targeting and engagement decisions.

Refer to JP 5-0, Joint Planning, for more information on operation assessment (e.g., integration of assessment design during the planning effort, roles and responsibilities, tenets of an effective assessment, the assessment process, and development and use of assessment indicators). Refer to JP 3-60, Joint Targeting, for more information on combat assessment.

7. The Civil-Military Dialogue Within the Department of Defense

a. Effective civil-military dialogue is essential to ensure campaigns and operations link to national interests. Therefore, senior military leaders understand that communication with national leaders and civilian national security professionals is essential for a whole-of-government approach. Iterative and continual dialogue integrates different civilian and military perspectives that supports planning and execution.

b. Civilian leadership will often want to maintain maximum flexibility as long as possible as the situation develops and understanding improves. Decisions are often contingent on information from senior military leaders about the expected duration, cost, and resource implications of the military plans. The civil-military relationship is by necessity and design an unequal dialogue. Senior military leaders and commanders have a unique responsibility and duty to provide information and options to civilian leaders and national security professionals before the actual strategic objectives mature.

c. At the start of the civil-military dialogue, military commanders work with their civilian counterparts to gain a shared understanding to begin to identify the problem or problems they are facing. Commanders should explain their understanding of the problem and articulate the assumptions they are making. One primary goal of the civil-military dialogue is to confirm or refine the problem and necessary assumptions. Additionally, effective dialogue identifies new considerations commanders should address based on civilian leadership perspectives. The military leadership should clearly articulate what actions military capabilities are capable of performing, the objectives these options can achieve, the costs and risks associated with each option, and how those options address the problem or problems. As the civil-military dialogue matures, the specificity of civilian leadership guidance will typically increase.

d. Commanders and joint planners should anticipate few opportunities and limited time to coordinate with civilian leadership. Commanders and their staffs should augment this communication by developing relationships with their civilian counterparts in other USG departments and agencies and participating fully in low- and mid-level interagency planning meetings. Information requests from civilian counterparts on the NSC Staff, in the Office of the Secretary of Defense (OSD), or other USG departments and agencies may indicate the options or objectives civilian leadership is considering. Staff officers should use these conversations to enhance shared understanding. Commanders should encourage cooperation and coordination at lower levels when possible. Doing so helps identify and address issues before senior civilians and military leaders meet so they can focus their efforts on the most important planning considerations.

e. When discussing options for initial action or revision of ongoing campaigns and operations with civilian leadership, military leaders understand that the policy may not always align with the anticipated level of commitment or acceptable risk. When discussing options for either employment or revision with civilian and senior military leadership, JFCs should determine risk based on what success may require and the assessment of the time and forces required. Other considerations include the likely costs, potential for escalation, likelihood of achieving strategic objectives, and, just as important, the enduring costs of success or failure.

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CHAPTER III JOINT FUNCTIONS

1. Introduction

a. A joint function is a grouping of capabilities and activities that enable JFCs to synchronize, integrate, and direct joint operations. A number of subordinate tasks, missions, and related capabilities help define each function, and some tasks and systems could apply to more than one function.

b. There are seven joint functions common to joint operations: C2, information, intelligence, fires, movement and maneuver, protection, and sustainment. Commanders leverage the capabilities of multiple joint functions during operations. The joint functions apply to all joint operations across the competition continuum and enable both traditional warfare and IW, but to different degrees, conditions, and standards, while employing different tactics, techniques, and procedures. The integration of activities across joint functions to accomplish tasks and missions occurs at all levels of command.

c. Joint functions reinforce and complement one another, and integration across the joint functions is essential to mission accomplishment. For example, joint fires can enhance the protection of a joint security area (JSA) by dispersing or disrupting enemy assets threatening the JSA. In any joint operation, the JFC can choose from a wide variety of joint and Service organizations, people, equipment, and technologies and combine them in various ways to perform joint functions and accomplish the mission. Plans describe how the JFC uses military capabilities to perform tasks associated with each joint function. Individual Service capabilities can often support multiple joint functions simultaneously or sequentially while the joint force is executing a single task.

d. JFCs and interagency partners synchronize, coordinate, and align military operations with the activities of interorganizational participants to achieve unity of effort. Military forces support the USG lead agency, department, or organization, which is usually DOS for overseas operations and the Department of Homeland Security for domestic operations. The joint force may leverage commercial capabilities to execute joint functions. Commercial support has significant potential to support military operations. However, the risk associated with using commercial capabilities must be assessed and managed. Department of Defense Instruction (DODI) 5000.74, *Defense Acquisition of Services*, recognizes commanders are responsible for the appropriate, efficient, and effective acquisition of contracted services by their organizations.

2. Command and Control

a. C2 encompasses the exercise of authority and direction by a commander over assigned and attached forces to accomplish the mission. The JFC provides operational vision, guidance, and direction to the joint force. The C2 function encompasses several tasks, including:

- (1) Establish, organize, and operate a joint force HQ.

- (2) Command subordinate forces.
- (3) Prepare, modify, and publish plans, orders, and guidance.
- (4) Establish command authorities among subordinate commanders.
- (5) Assign tasks, prescribe task performance standards, and designate OAs.
- (6) Prioritize and allocate resources.
- (7) Manage risk and force protection.
- (8) Communicate across the staff and joint force.
- (9) Assess progress toward accomplishing tasks, creating conditions, and achieving objectives.
- (10) Coordinate and control the employment of joint forces to create lethal and nonlethal effects (i.e., the use of intermediate force capabilities incorporating both lethal and nonlethal means) across the competition continuum.
- (11) Coordinate, synchronize, and, when appropriate, integrate joint operations with the operations and activities of other participants.
- (12) Ensure the flow of information and reports to and from a higher authority.

b. **Command** includes both the authority and responsibility to use resources lawfully to accomplish assigned missions. Command at all levels is the art of motivating and directing people and organizations to accomplish missions. The C2 function supports the exercise of authority and direction by a properly designated commander over assigned and attached forces to accomplish the mission. Timely and relevant intelligence enables commanders and national-level decision makers to make decisions and execute those decisions more rapidly and effectively than the enemy. These informed decisions reduce risk and enable the commander more control over the timing and tempo of operations.

c. **Command Authority.** JFCs exercise various command authorities (i.e., combatant command [command authority] {COCOM}, operational control [OPCON], and tactical control [TACON]) delegated to them by law or senior leaders and commanders over assigned, allocated, and attached forces. Command relationship is a term that describes the relationships established through the designation of these authorities. JP 1, Volume 2, *The Joint Force*, provides details and summarizes each authority and their relationships (see Figure III-1). Unity of command among US forces is through the application of the various command relationships.

(1) COCOM is the nontransferable command authority established by Title 10, USC, Section 164, exercised only by commanders of unified or specified CCMDs unless

Command Relationships Synopsis

Combatant Command (Command Authority)

(Unique to Combatant Commander)

- Planning, programming, budgeting, and execution process input
- Assignment of subordinate commanders
- Relationships with Department of Defense agencies
- Directive authority for logistics

Operational control when delegated

- Authoritative direction for all military operations and joint training
- Organize and employ commands and forces
- Assign command functions to subordinates
- Establish plans, priorities, and overall requirements for intelligence, surveillance, and reconnaissance activities
- Suspend subordinate commanders from duty

Tactical control when delegated

Local direction and control of movements or maneuvers to accomplish mission

Support relationship when assigned

Aid, assist, protect, or sustain another organization

Figure III-1. Command Relationships Synopsis

otherwise directed by the President or SecDef. COCOM is the authority of a CCDR, which they cannot delegate, to perform those functions of command over assigned forces. COCOM command functions include organizing and employing commands and forces; assigning tasks; designating objectives; and giving authoritative direction over all aspects of military operations, joint training, and logistics necessary to accomplish the missions assigned to the command. A CCDR should exercise COCOM through the commanders of subordinate organizations. Normally, this authority works through subordinate JFCs and Service and functional component commanders. Where situations require changing the normal logistics process, the CCDRs' directive authority for logistics (DAFL) enables them to use the logistic capabilities of all forces assigned and attached to their commands as necessary to accomplish their mission. The CCDR exercises DAFL consistent with the limitations imposed by US law, DOD policy or regulations, budgetary considerations, local conditions, and other specific conditions prescribed by SecDef or the CJCS.

(2) OPCON is inherent in COCOM and may be delegable within the command. OPCON is command authority that commanders can exercise at any echelon at or below

the level of CCMD to perform those functions of command over subordinate forces. It involves organizing and employing commands and forces, assigning tasks, designating objectives, and giving authoritative direction necessary to accomplish the mission. OPCON includes authoritative direction over all aspects of military operations and joint training necessary to accomplish missions assigned to the command. This authority should be exercised through the commanders of subordinate organizations, normally through subordinate JFCs and Service and functional component commanders. OPCON normally provides full authority to organize commands and forces and to employ those forces as the commander considers necessary to accomplish assigned missions. OPCON does not, in and of itself, include DAFL or matters of administration, discipline, internal organization, or unit training.

(3) TACON is inherent in OPCON. TACON is an authority over assigned or attached forces or commands, or military capability or forces, made available for tasking. TACON limits a commander's authority to the detailed direction and control of movements or maneuvers within the OA necessary to accomplish assigned missions or tasks. TACON provides enough authority for controlling and directing the application of forces or tactical use of combat support assets within the assigned mission or task. Commanders may delegate TACON to subordinate commanders at any echelon at or below CCMD. TACON does not provide organizational authority or authoritative direction for administrative and logistic support or discipline (*Uniform Code of Military Justice* authority); the commander of the parent unit continues to exercise those responsibilities unless the establishing directive specifies otherwise. Except for SOF, functional component commanders typically exercise TACON over military capabilities or forces made available for tasking.

(4) **Support.** Establishing support relationships between components (as described in JP 1, Volume 2, *The Joint Force*) is a useful option to accomplish needed tasks. The JFC can establish support relationships among all functional and Service component commanders, such as for the coordination of operations in depth involving the joint force land component commander (JFLCC) and the joint force air component commander (JFACC). Within a joint force, the JFC may designate more than one supported commander simultaneously, and components may simultaneously receive and provide support for different missions, functions, or operations. For instance, a joint force special operations component commander (JFSOCC) may support a direct-action (DA) mission while simultaneously supporting a JFLCC for a raid. Similarly, a joint force maritime component commander (JFMCC) may be a supported commander for maritime missions while simultaneously supporting a JFACC to achieve control of the air throughout the OA.

(5) Other authorities granted to commanders, and subordinates as required, include administrative control, coordinating authority, directive authority for cyberspace operations (DACO), and direct liaison authorized.

JP 1, Volume 2, The Joint Force, outlines the specific details for each command relationship. See JP 3-12, Joint Cyberspace Operations, for additional guidance on DACO.

(6) The perceived benefits of executing operations with joint forces do not occur naturally by virtue of established command relationships. The integration necessary for effective joint operations requires explicit effort that can increase operational complexity and require additional training and planning. Although effectiveness is typically more important than efficiency in joint operations, the JFC and component commanders determine when the potential benefits of joint integration cannot compensate for the additional complicating factors. Synergy is a means to greater operational effectiveness, not an end in itself. The principle of simplicity is always a key consideration.

d. **Control is inherent in command.** To control is to manage and direct forces and functions consistent with a commander's command authority. Control of forces and functions helps commanders and staffs identify and assess requirements, allocate means, and integrate efforts. For a commander, control is necessary to determine the status of organizational effectiveness, identify variance from set standards, and correct deviations from these standards. Control permits commanders to acquire and apply means to support the mission and develop specific instructions from general guidance. Control provides the means for commanders to maintain freedom of action, delegate authority, direct operations from any location, and integrate and synchronize actions throughout the OA. Ultimately, it provides commanders a means to measure, report, and correct performance.

e. The C2 function is commander-centric and network-enabled to facilitate initiative and decision making at the lowest appropriate level. Although joint forces have grown accustomed to communicating freely without fear of jamming or interception, US enemies and adversaries are likely to use technological advances in space and cyberspace and vulnerabilities in the EMS to conduct cyberspace or electromagnetic (EM) attacks. Commanders should prepare to operate in an environment degraded by electromagnetic interference (EMI).

(1) **Mission Command.** If a commander loses reliable communications, mission command enables military operations to continue through decentralized execution based on mission-type orders. Mission command empowers subordinate military commanders at all echelons who exercise disciplined initiative, act aggressively, and independently strive to accomplish the mission.

(2) **Mission-Type Orders.** Mission-type orders focus on the purpose of the operation rather than details of how to perform assigned tasks. Commanders delegate decisions to subordinates wherever possible, which minimizes detailed control and empowers subordinates' initiative to make decisions based on the commander's guidance rather than constant communications. Subordinates' understanding of the commander's intent at every level of command is essential to mission command.

f. **Area of Operations (AO) and Functional Considerations**

(1) **C2 in an AO.** The land and maritime force commanders are the supported commanders within their designated AOs. Through C2, JFLCCs and JFMCCs integrate and synchronize movement and maneuver with information, intelligence, fires, protection, and sustainment in supporting activities and operations. To facilitate this integration and

synchronization, they have the authority to designate target priority, effects, and timing of fires within their AOs.

(a) The JFC establishes priorities guiding and informing decisions and execution to synchronize efforts within and between the land, maritime, and SOF commanders' OAs. The JFACC is normally the supported commander for the JFC's overall joint air effort, while JFLCCs, JFMCCs, and JFSOCCs are the supported commanders for interdiction in their designated OAs.

(b) In coordination with JFLCCs and JFMCCs, other commanders tasked by the JFC to execute theater-wide or joint operations area (JOA)-wide operations have the latitude to plan and execute operations within land and maritime AOs. Commanders executing such operations within a land or maritime AO must coordinate the operation with the appropriate commander to avoid adverse effects and friendly fire incidents. If planned operations would have adverse impact within a land or maritime AO, the commander assigned to execute the JOA-wide functions must readjust the plan, resolve the issue with the land or maritime component commander, or consult with the JFC for resolution.

For additional guidance on C2 of air, land, or maritime operations, refer to JP 3-30, Joint Air Operations; JP 3-31, Joint Land Operations; and JP 3-32, Joint Maritime Operations.

(2) C2 of Joint Space Operations

(a) Commander, United States Space Command (CDRUSSPACECOM), is the supported commander for operations that ensure availability of space capabilities to the joint force. For these purposes, CDRUSSPACECOM exercises COCOM over forces assigned and retains or delegates authorities, as required.

(b) CDRUSSPACECOM, in concert with allies and partners, is responsible for planning and executing global space operations, activities, and missions. The Combined Space Operations Center executes C2 of assigned forces to achieve theater and global objectives. JFCs can request support using space support requests and via coordination with embedded joint integrated space teams (JISTs).

(c) On behalf of United States Space Command (USSPACECOM), the Combined Space Operations Center exercises C2 of offensive and defensive space operations and provides a common operational picture (COP) to enable broad, shared awareness of the space critical information requirements; status of forces; space domain awareness; and the full range of military space activities arranged in time, space, and purpose.

(d) JISTs embed within CCMDs to assist the supported and supporting commanders in planning, integrating, synchronizing, coordinating, executing, and assessing space capabilities for the joint force.

For more information, see JP 3-14, Joint Space Operations.

(3) **C2 of Joint Air Operations.** The JFC normally designates a JFACC to establish unity of command and unity of effort for joint air operations. The JFC delegates the JFACC the authority necessary to accomplish assigned missions and tasks. The JFC may also establish support relationships between the JFACC and other components to facilitate operations. The JFACC conducts joint air operations IAW the JFC's intent and CONOPS. The JFC may designate the JFACC as the supported commander for strategic attack; air interdiction; personnel recovery (PR); and airborne intelligence, surveillance, and reconnaissance (ISR) (among other missions). The JFACC plans, coordinates, executes, and assesses these missions for the JFC. The JFC normally designates the JFACC as the area air defense commander (AADC) and airspace control authority (ACA) because the three functions are integral to one another. When appropriate, the JFC may designate a separate AADC or ACA. In joint operations with designated separate commanders, close coordination is essential for the unity of effort, prevention of friendly fire incidents, and deconfliction of joint air operations.

(a) **ACA. The JFC is responsible for airspace control within the OA but normally delegates the authority to the ACA.** The ACA plans, coordinates, and develops airspace control procedures and operates the airspace control system (ACS). The ACA does not have the authority to approve or disapprove specific operations. That authority is vested in operational commanders only. If the ACA and an affected commander are unable to agree on an airspace issue, they refer the issue to the JFC for resolution. The ACA establishes an ACS that is responsive to the JFC's needs, integrates the ACS with the HN, and coordinates and deconflicts user requirements. The ACA develops the airspace control plan (ACP) and coordinates it with Service and functional component commanders. After JFC approval, the ACA distributes it to all airspace users and airspace control elements operating within the OA. A JFC-approved ACP and airspace control order (ACO) will express how the airspace will support mission accomplishment. The ACP establishes guidance for the development of the ACS and distribution of the ACO. The ACO implements the ACP. See JP 3-52, *Joint Airspace Control*, and JP 3-30, *Joint Air Operations*, for more information.

(b) **AADC.** The AADC is responsible for defensive counterair (DCA) (which includes both air and missile threats) operations. The AADC identifies those volumes of airspace and control measures that support and enhance DCA operations, identifies required airspace management systems, establishes procedures for systems to operate within the airspace, and ensures they integrate into the ACS. The JFC may not have enough defensive capabilities to defend everything within an OA, so the JFC provides the AADC with inputs from the components, a prioritized critical asset list (CAL), and a defended asset list (DAL) for each phase of an operation. For air defense operations conducted in a large theater of operations, the AADC may recommend dividing the JOA into separate air defense regions. Each region would have its own regional air defense commander with responsibilities and decision-making authority for DCA operations within their region. See JP 3-01, *Joint Countering Air and Missile Threats*, for more information.

(4) **C2 of Joint Maritime Operations.** JFCs establish maritime AOs to achieve unity of command over the execution of maritime component operations involving the

interrelated employment of joint air, surface, and subsurface forces. The maritime AO should be of enough size to allow for movement, maneuver, and employment of weapons systems and effective use of joint warfighting capabilities and provide operational depth for sustainment and force protection. The JFMCC is the supported commander for operations within the JFC-designated maritime AO. The AADC normally establishes a congruent air defense region, covering the open ocean and littorals, with a regional air defense commander with the decision-making authority for counterair operations within the region. The maritime regional air defense commander and AADC coordinate to ensure the JFACC can accomplish theater-wide responsibilities assigned by the JFC.

(5) C2 of Joint CO

(a) Commanders conduct CO to create and maintain freedom of maneuver and action in cyberspace, achieve objectives, deny freedom of action to enemies, and enable other operational activities. Some of the capabilities the JFC may employ to enable CO include significant portions of JEMSO, C2, intelligence collection, and some space mission areas.

(b) The CCCR may organize a joint cyberspace center (JCC) with a staff capable of planning, synchronizing, and controlling CO in support of their assigned mission. Each CCMD supports subordinate JFCs through their CO supporting staff. United States Cyber Command (USCYBERCOM) establishes cyberspace operations-integrated planning elements (CO-IPEs) at each CCMD in direct support of the CCCR. Additionally, USCYBERCOM assigns a joint force HQ-cyberspace in general support of each CCMD to plan and synchronize the full spectrum of CO that support the CCMD's objectives. Clear command relationships are crucial for ensuring timely and effective employment of cyberspace capabilities. Commander, United States Cyber Command (CDRUSCYBERCOM), exercises DACO for security, operations, and defense of the DODIN, overseeing all actions with CCMDs' JCCs/cyberspace staffs, coordinated through their CO-IPEs to facilitate unity of effort and mission accomplishment. The CCMD JCC/CO planning staff coordinates and deconflicts their cyberspace missions with other operations, including nationally tasked actions that require cyberspace actions in the CCMD's AOR. The CCMD coordinates and integrates the use of cyberspace capabilities in the AOR and has primary responsibility for joint CO planning, to include determining CO-related requirements for their assigned missions.

(c) Leveraging USCYBERCOM capacity, through the CO-IPE, the CCMD integrates CO into plans, deconflicts and synchronizes supporting fires in cyberspace, prepares the OE, and conducts operational assessments and readiness functions. Additionally, in partnership with USCYBERCOM, the CCMD JCC/cyberspace staff coordinates CO regionally with interagency partners and allied participants, as necessary. They integrate command, planning, operations, intelligence, targeting, and readiness processes for creating effects in cyberspace through three CO missions: offensive cyberspace operations (OCO), defensive cyberspace operations (DCO), and DODIN operations. The CCMD may have assigned or attached cyberspace forces, or cyberspace forces operating in direct or general support, either embedded or operating remotely.

CCMDs coordinate and deconflict with other CCMDs and USCYBERCOM when initiating cyberspace actions with possible effects in another CCMD's AOR.

For guidance on C2 of cyberspace forces, refer to JP 3-12, Joint Cyberspace Operations.

(d) DODIN Operations. The DODIN is the set of information capabilities and associated processes to collect, process, store, disseminate, and manage information on demand for warfighters, policymakers, and support personnel, whether interconnected or stand-alone. The DODIN includes all of DOD's owned or leased cyberspace and is the platform from which all CO are conducted. CDRUSCYBERCOM is the supported commander for global DODIN operations and synchronizes planning for other CO. USCYBERCOM directs security, operations, and defense of the DODIN through its subordinate Joint Force Headquarters-DODIN. The Joint Force Headquarters-DODIN commander exercises DACO when necessary to ensure the integrity of DOD cyberspace and maintain the lethality of the joint force. CDRUSCYBERCOM is a supporting commander for regional DODIN operations and provides DCO support to CCMDs, Services, DOD agencies, and when ordered, other USG departments and agencies and PNs impacted by threats in cyberspace.

For additional guidance on DODIN operations, refer to JP 6-0, Joint Communications System, and JP 3-12, Joint Cyberspace Operations.

(6) **C2 of JEMSO.** JEMSO are activities consisting of electromagnetic warfare (EW) and joint EMS management operations used to exploit, attack, protect, and manage the electromagnetic environment (EME) to achieve the commander's objectives. The electromagnetic attack control authority (EACA) develops guidance to execute an electromagnetic attack (EA) on behalf of the JFC. JFCs should delegate EACA authority through the component commanders, down to the lowest level possible. When so authorized, the J-3 has primary staff responsibility to plan, coordinate, integrate, and monitor the execution of joint force EW operations.

For additional guidance on the communications and intelligence systems support and JEMSO, refer to JP 2-0, Joint Intelligence; JP 3-85, Joint Electromagnetic Spectrum Operations; and JP 6-0, Joint Communications System.

(7) **C2 of Joint Operations Conducted in Areas for which COMs have the USG Lead.** Joint operations frequently occur in areas (countries) for which COMs are the USG lead. When operating in these areas, joint forces are statutorily independent of COM authority. However, the COM has the final decision concerning US activity in a specific country. The very rare exception is when the President or SecDef directs otherwise. The CCMD, DOS regional and functional bureaus, and COMs normally share a common understanding of objectives and priorities. Interagency cooperation is most successful when the supported CCDR and COM operate with unity of effort to achieve common objectives. JFCs and staffs should coordinate their operations and activities with the relevant US missions, align their operations and activities with US mission country strategic plans, and keep the COM informed and involved.

(8) **C2 of Joint Operations Conducted in Denied Areas.** A denied area is an area under threat control in which friendly forces cannot expect to operate successfully within existing operational constraints and force capabilities. However, SOF, cyberspace forces, space-based capabilities, and intelligence elements can operate successfully in denied areas. The C2 of these elements requires a C2 system that can function under restrictive measures. The supporting communications system must avoid detection, not merely to protect the content of the communications.

g. **C2 System.** JFCs exercise authority and direction through a C2 system, which consists of the facilities; equipment; communications; staff functions and procedures; and personnel essential to plan, monitor, and assess operations. An effective C2 system enables the JFC to maintain communication with higher, supporting, and subordinate commands to control all aspects of current operations while planning for future operations.

(1) The JFC's staff is the linchpin of the C2 system, since the JFC understands, plans, directs, and controls most aspects of operations through the staff's expertise and efforts.

(2) **Liaison** is an important aspect of C2. Commanders should exchange liaison teams or individuals between higher, supporting, and subordinate commands as much as possible. Liaison personnel generally represent the interests of the sending commander to the receiving commander but can greatly promote understanding of the commander's intent at both the sending and receiving HQ; they should report early during joint planning. Liaison officers (LNOs), from supporting to supported commanders, are particularly essential in ensuring supporting units receive required guidance, communicating requirements for tasks, and coordinating supporting actions.

(3) **Control and Coordination Measures.** JFCs establish various maneuver and movement control, airspace coordination, fire support coordination, and communication measures. The intent of these control measures is greater effectiveness and safety.

For additional guidance on C2 of air operations, refer to JP 3-30, Joint Air Operations. For additional guidance on control and coordination measures, refer to JP 3-09, Joint Fire Support, and JP 3-52, Joint Airspace Control. See Military Standard-2525, Department of Defense Interface Standard Joint Military Symbolology, for additional guidance on the use and discussion of graphic control measures and symbols for the joint force.

(4) **Communications and intelligence systems** provide communications, intelligence, targeting data, and threat warnings. These systems exist to support effective command across varying operational tempos by improving access to information and enhancing a common perspective of the OE in a timely, reliable, secure, interoperable, and sustainable manner to all command levels. Communications and intelligence architecture planning increases options available to JFCs by providing the communications the intelligence joint function needs to collect, store, protect, process, exploit, and disseminate information at critical times. These communications and sensor systems permit JFCs to exploit tactical success and facilitate future operations.

(a) **Communications System Planning.** The purpose of the joint communications system is to assist the JFC in C2 of military operations. Effective communications system planning is essential for effective C2 and integration and leveraging the fullest extent of the joint force's capabilities. The mission and structure of the joint force determine specific information flow and processing requirements. These requirements dictate the general architecture and specific configuration of the communications system. Communications system planning should integrate and synchronize with joint planning. The JFC can apply capabilities at the critical time and place for mission success through effective communications system planning. Communications system planning should enable collaboration, knowledge sharing, IM, and information and intelligence sharing activities that are essential to assist the JFC. This collaboration includes considerations and, when appropriate, accommodation of communications links with relevant commanders and their C2. Interoperability, foreign disclosure authorities, information sharing, and communications security planning with these stakeholders is essential to ensure secure communications and protect sensitive information. Routine communications and backup systems do not always function, and civil authorities might have to rely on available military communications equipment. Communications system planning also considers the transition of US involvement and procedures to transfer communications system control to another agency, such as the United Nations (UN). Planning should consider that it may be necessary to leave some communications resources behind to continue support of the ongoing effort.

(b) Joint communications system management involves the employment and technical control of assigned communications systems. Communications system planning enables the planners to maintain an accurate and detailed status of the network down to the modular level. The situation and mission drive the essential elements of the communications system, the C2 organization, and location of forces available to the JFC. Specific command relationships and the organization of units and staff drive the interconnecting communications methods and means. The communications system supports and provides the assured flow of information to and from commanders at all levels.

(c) During execution, communications system planners ensure the organization's communications network can facilitate a rapid, unconstrained flow of information from its source through intermediate collection and processing nodes to the user. Typically, the combined system provides voice, data, and video communications transmitted through radio frequency and cyberspace. Building the communications system to support the JFC requires knowledge of the joint force organization, the commander's CONOPS, communications available, and concepts of employment. The ability to command, control, and communicate with globally deployed forces is a key enabler for protecting US national interests; therefore, communications systems are key targets for adversaries. Thus, it is essential to consider risk and mitigation measures when developing the plan. Key planning considerations include protecting the DODIN, which requires cyberspace security and cyberspace defense actions to protect, detect, respond to, restore, and react to shield and preserve information and information systems. A related consideration is to ensure the aggregation of data within the communications systems does

not compile information that raises it to a higher level of security than the system provides (e.g., classified information on an unclassified system).

(d) In execution, the communications system is the primary means through which intelligence flows to the JFC and throughout the OE. Communications system planning should be done in close coordination with the intelligence community (IC) to identify specialized equipment and dissemination requirements for some types of information.

(e) **Homeland Security and Defense Communications System Planning.** DOD contributes to homeland security through its military missions overseas, homeland defense (HD), and DSCA. The disparity of communications systems, use of allocated bandwidth (both civilian and military), and limited system interoperability hinder the capability of collaborative incident management and response in the United States. Commanders and communications system planners should conduct detailed planning and analysis to determine US-based communications system requirements in support of federal, state, and local agencies.

(f) DOD intelligence component capabilities, resources, and personnel may not be used for intelligence activities other than foreign intelligence or counterintelligence (CI), unless SecDef specifically approves that use. Also, requests for direct DOD support to civilian law enforcement agencies (LEAs) are separate approval processes to ensure compliance with the Posse Comitatus Act. When approved, the use of intelligence capabilities for domestic non-intelligence activities focuses on incident awareness and assessment. All incident awareness and assessment support within the United States are subject to USG intelligence oversight regulations and DODD 5240.01, *DOD Intelligence Activities*.

h. CCIRs

(1) CCIRs are elements of information the commander identifies as critical to timely and effective decision making. CCIRs focus IM and help the commander assess the OE and identify decision points during operations. CCIRs belong exclusively to the commander. The CCIR list is normally short, so the staff can focus its efforts and allocate scarce resources. But the CCIR list is not static; JFCs, primarily through operation assessment, add, delete, adjust, and update CCIRs throughout planning and execution based on the information they need to make decisions. At a minimum, commanders should review and update CCIRs throughout execution.

(2) **Categories.** Priority intelligence requirements (PIRs) and friendly force information requirements (FFIRs) constitute the total list of CCIRs.

(a) **PIRs.** Commanders designate PIRs to focus available capacity for collection and analysis of intelligence on the enemy, adversary, neutral, and potential friendly actors, as well as relevant environmental factors in the OE, to provide the intelligence required for decision making. All staff sections can recommend potential PIRs that may support the JFC's decision-making process. However, the J-2 consolidates the

staff's recommended PIRs to the commander. The J-2 continuously updates PIRs in synchronization with the commander's decision points. PIRs are subject to periodic review to ensure they support execution and adaptation based on the OE and before execution and transition to ensure the PIRs remain relevant to the commander's anticipated decision points.

Refer to JP 2-0, Joint Intelligence, for more information on PIRs.

(b) **FFIRs** focus on information the JFC must have to assess the status of the friendly force and supporting capabilities. All staff sections can recommend FFIRs that meet the JFC's guidance. The J-5 typically consolidates FFIR nominations and provides staff recommendations to the commander during planning and execution. JFC-approved FFIRs are automatically CCIRs.

i. **Battle Rhythm.** The HQ battle rhythm is its daily operations cycle of briefings, meetings, and report requirements. A stable battle rhythm facilitates effective decision making, efficient staff actions, and useful management of information within the HQ and with higher, supporting, and subordinate HQs. The commander and staff should develop a battle rhythm that minimizes meeting requirements while providing venues for command and staff interaction internal to the joint force HQ and subordinate commands. Joint and component HQ's battle rhythms should synchronize to operations in multiple time zones and the battle rhythms of higher, subordinate, supporting, and adjacent commands. The periodic information requirements and decision cycles of higher and supported HQs, especially those with which information-system interoperability is minimal, receive key consideration in the setting of each HQ's battle rhythm. Other factors such as planning, decision making, and operating cycles (i.e., intelligence collection, targeting, and joint air tasking cycle) influence the battle rhythm. The CCMD staff synchronizes meetings of the staff organizations. The chief of staff normally manages and continually assesses the joint force HQ's battle rhythm. When coordinating with other USG departments and agencies, as well as multinational and domestic partners, the joint force HQ should consider that those organizations often have limited capabilities, capacities, and restricted access to some information.

For additional guidance on battle rhythm and other joint HQ management processes, refer to JP 3-33, Joint Force Headquarters.

j. **Building Shared Understanding.** Unified and synchronized actions, narratives, and messaging are the most important products of the C2 function because they guide the force toward objectives and mission accomplishment. Commanders and staff require not only information to make these decisions but also the knowledge and shared understanding that aid in the wisdom essential to sound decision making. Building shared understanding results from the effective exercise of leadership and the ability to influence and inspire others. To build a shared understanding, commanders provide vision, guidance, and direction to the joint force. These collaborative processes and products vary across joint commands based on the commander's needs and preferences. Refer to paragraph 3,

“Information,” for a discussion of these and other activities as they relate to the processes of facilitating shared understanding.

k. Risk Management

(1) Risk management is a function of command and a key planning consideration that focuses on designing, implementing, and monitoring risk decisions. Risk management helps commanders preserve lives and resources; accept, avoid, or mitigate (reduce or transfer) unnecessary risk; identify feasible and effective control measures where specific standards do not exist; and develop valid COAs. Risk management is the process to identify and assess hazards arising from operational factors and making decisions that balance risk cost with mission benefits. It assists organizations and individuals in making informed decisions to reduce or offset risk, thereby increasing operational effectiveness and the probability of mission success. The commander determines the level of risk that is acceptable for aspects of operations and should state this determination in the commander’s intent. Understanding risk is one of the key outputs of mission analysis and should be a topic at every successive step in JPP. The assessment of risk to mission includes an overall risk to mission analysis (e.g., low, medium, high, or extremely high), along with multiple criteria (e.g., authorities and permissions; policy; forces, basing, and agreements; resources; dependency on commercial support and organic capabilities; PN contributions; other USG support; and critical commercial capabilities). To assist in risk management, commanders and their staffs may develop or institute a risk management process tailored to their mission or OA.

(2) Commanders at all levels use judgment to manage risk based upon the mission, time, and other resources available. They approach risk management at the appropriate application level, normally using a deliberate approach that is analytically based and uses planning time efficiently. The joint risk analysis methodology described in Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff Manual (CJCSM) 3105.01, *Joint Risk Analysis*, provides a consistent, standardized way to analyze and manage risk. Figure III-2 is a generic model that contains the likely elements of a risk management process.

(3) Risk management does not inhibit a commander’s flexibility and initiative, remove risk altogether, dictate a go/no-go decision to take a specific action, sanction or justify violating the law, or remove the necessity for standard operating procedures (SOPs). Risk management is relevant for all joint campaigns and operations and their branches and sequels and at all levels of command across the competition continuum. To mitigate risk, commanders may take a variety of actions, such as changing the CONOPS, changing the plan for employment of fires, executing a branch to the original plan, or employing countermeasures.

(4) Safety preserves military power. High-tempo operations may increase the risk of injury and death due to mishaps. Command interest, discipline, risk mitigation measures, education, and training lessen that risk. The JFC reduces the chance of mishap by conducting risk assessments, assigning a safety officer and staff, implementing a safety program, and seeking advice from local personnel. Safety planning factors could include

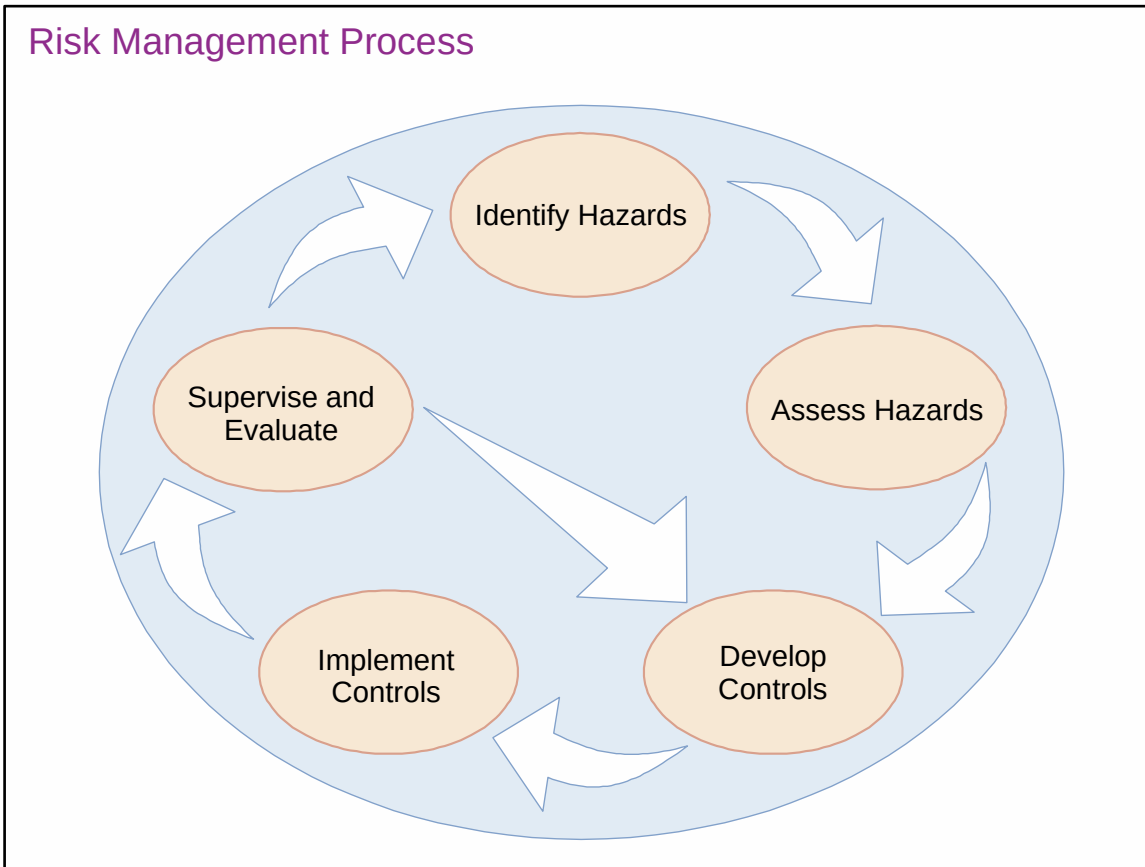


Figure III-2. Risk Management Process

geospatial and weather data, local road conditions and driving habits, identification of uncharted or uncleared minefields, and special equipment hazards.

(5) Operational contract support (OCS) may be used across many functional areas to augment military forces. JFCs requiring these activities should assess and mitigate risk associated with use of commercial capabilities.

For additional guidance on risk management, refer to CJCSM 3105.01, Joint Risk Analysis.

For additional insight on risk associated with commercial support, refer to the CJCS Risk Assessment on Commercial Support 2018 and 2019, available at <https://intelshare.intelink.sgov.gov/sites/ocs/SitePages/Reporting.aspx>.

3. Information

a. The elevation of information as a joint function impacts all operations and signals a fundamental appreciation for the military role of information at the strategic, operational, and tactical levels within today's complex OE.

b. The information function encompasses the management and application of information to support achievement of objectives; it is the deliberate integration with other joint functions to change or maintain perceptions, attitudes, and other elements that drive desired relevant actor behaviors and to support human and automated decision making. The information function helps commanders and staffs understand and leverage the prevalent nature of information, its military uses, and its application during all military operations. This function provides JFCs the ability to preserve friendly information and leverage information and the inherent informational aspects of military activities to achieve the commander's objectives. The information joint function provides an intellectual framework to aid commanders in exerting one's influence through the timely generation, preservation, denial, or projection of information.

c. All military activities have an informational aspect since most military activities are observable in the IE. Informational aspects are the features and details of military activities observers interpret and use to assign meaning and gain understanding. Those aspects affect the perceptions and attitudes that drive behavior and decision making. The JFC leverages informational aspects of military activities to gain an advantage in the OE; failing to leverage those aspects in a timely manner may cede this advantage to an adversary or enemy. Leveraging the informational aspects of military activities can support achieving operational and strategic objectives. The information function also encompasses the use of friendly information to influence foreign audiences and affect the legitimacy, credibility, and influence of the USG, joint force, allies, and partners. Additionally, JFCs use friendly information to counter, discredit, and render irrelevant the disinformation, misinformation, and propaganda of other actors.

d. The information joint function helps commanders and their staffs understand and leverage the pervasive nature of information, its military uses, and its application across the competition continuum, to include its role in supporting human and automated decision making. Information planners should consider coordination activities not only within the information joint function but also among all other joint functions. The information joint function organizes the tasks required to manage and apply information during all activities and operations. The three tasks of the information joint function stress the requirement to incorporate information as a foundational element during the planning and conduct of all operations.

For more detailed discussion, see JP 3-04, Information in Joint Operations.

e. **Joint Force Capabilities, Operations, and Activities for Leveraging Information.** In addition to planning all operations to derive benefit from the inherent informational aspects of physical actions and influence relevant actors, the JFC also has additional means with which to leverage information in support of objectives. Leveraging information involves the generation and use of information through tasks to inform relevant actors; influence relevant actors; and/or attack information, information systems, and information networks. Planning for OIE provides the means for the integrated employment of military information. The JFC uses various forces, operations, and activities to reinforce the actions of assigned or attached forces, support lines of operation (LOOs) or lines of

effort (LOEs), or as the primary activity in an LOE to drive the behavior of selected target audiences or decision makers.

(1) KLE. Most operations require commanders and other leaders to conduct KLE with key local and regional leaders to affect their attitudes, gain their support, and cultivate them as sources of information. Building relationships to the point of effective military engagement and influence usually takes time. An organic or reliable indigenous language, regional expertise, and cultural capability are critical for the successful conduct and management of KLEs. Commanders can find it difficult to identify key leaders, develop messages, establish dialogue, and determine other ways and means of delivery, especially in societies where interpersonal relationships are paramount. Interaction opportunities with friendly and neutral leaders could include face-to-face meetings, town meetings, and community events. Understanding cultural context, cognitive orientation patterns, and communication methods is essential. The J-2's joint intelligence preparation of the operational environment (JIPOE) process should identify key friendly, neutral, and threat leaders who are not in the commander's sphere of influence. The entire staff should identify leaders relative to their functional areas. Leaders can include a broad range of individuals, including those in nontraditional leadership roles. Special care should be taken to consider the leadership roles women may hold in the community.

(2) Public Affairs (PA). Enemies and adversaries will make determined efforts to discredit US military efforts. PA contributes to the achievement of military objectives by truthfully informing US domestic and international audiences about US military operations. PA ensures the clear communication of CCMD and joint force messaging supports the strategic narrative and counters adverse disinformation, misinformation, and propaganda. PA accomplishes this through the dissemination of accurate information that is as transparent as possible without violating laws or policy. PA also supports operations security (OPSEC) by ensuring information is appropriate for public release by working with the OPSEC planners and program managers to prevent premature or inadvertent public release of information damaging to OPSEC. Additionally, PA works closely with other operational planners to integrate PA capabilities into OIE and educate the force on current disinformation, misinformation, and propaganda threats. Also, PA builds understanding with the media on the implications of premature release of operational information or the inadvertent release of classified or sensitive information identified in CCIRs.

(a) With the speed of modern communication and the tempo of military operations, competing sources can rapidly proliferate information about joint force activities. Regardless of the means or speed of dissemination, information can be incomplete, lack important context, and be intentionally biased or factually incorrect. PA supports C2 efforts and capabilities by maintaining timely and appropriate messaging over approved joint communication platforms.

(b) PA support is important throughout planning, execution, and assessment. Public affairs officers (PAOs) carefully consider objectives to determine how JFCs should leverage PA and other communication capabilities in conjunction with other capabilities in

current and future operations. PAOs identify public information and visual information requirements, as well as the means to acquire and move those products promptly. PA provides input during planning, to include developing public communication COAs that can ultimately shape relevant actor perceptions and behavior; identifying constraints, restraints, and potential intended and unintended consequences of planned actions; providing an understanding of the nature of information flow in varying cultural contexts; and developing and interpreting measures and indicators of effectiveness. Supporting communication plans emphasize higher HQ guidance, narratives, and messages; identify the communication problem or opportunity; segment key audiences; and define communication objectives. Communication plans include measurable objectives to achieve these goals and communication activities appropriate to the situation and desired outcome. Throughout planning and operations, the PAO normally leads CCMD and JFC narrative development and synchronization with operations, activities, and investments using the communication synchronization process and supports staff alignment of strategic and operational narrative with tactical-level actions and messaging. JFCs can use the communication synchronization process to coordinate and synchronize operational narrative, themes, messages, images, and actions (i.e., planning, deployments, operations). It aligns communication between and among key USG and partner stakeholders who are invested in the objectives determined in the operation or campaign plan with broader national strategic narrative. Communication synchronization focuses USG efforts to understand and communicate operations, actions, and investments across all levels of command to reduce friction between actions and narrative (say-do gap). The communication synchronization process is inherent in the information joint function and associated staff activities during the planning and conduct of operations.

For additional guidance on PA, refer to JP 3-61, Public Affairs. For additional guidance on OPSEC, refer to JP 3-13.3, Operations Security.

(3) CMO. CMO facilitates unified action in joint campaigns and operations. They are activities that establish, maintain, influence, and exploit relationships between military forces, indigenous populations, and institutions. Effective CMO results in the integration of military and other instruments of national power to achieve commander's objectives and US interests.

(a) CMO usually include governmental organizations, NGOs, and allies and partners in OAs. The range of CMO activities includes military government; support to civil administration; populace and resources control; FHA; foreign assistance; and Overseas Humanitarian, Disaster, and Civic Aid appropriation.

(b) CAO are actions planned, coordinated, executed, and assessed through civil reconnaissance, network analysis, and network engagement to support, influence, or leverage populations, governments, and other institutions. Their purpose is to expose malign influence, counter coercion and subversion, and impose costs through conventional and unconventional activities. Civil affairs units and personnel are the joint force functional specialists who conduct CAO. Civil affairs integrate civilian considerations and capabilities into US military operations and military considerations and capabilities into

the operations of interorganizational partners. Civil affairs help organize and sustain unified action in IW with interagency partners as well as key allies and partners. Civil affairs augment DOD and USG stabilization and governance efforts across the competition continuum.

For additional guidance on CMO and CAO, refer to JP 3-57, Civil-Military Operations, and DODD 2000.13, Civil Affairs.

(4) Military Deception (MILDEC). Commanders conduct MILDEC to mislead enemy decision makers and commanders and cause them to take or not take specific actions. The intent is to cause enemy commanders to form inaccurate impressions about friendly force dispositions, capabilities, vulnerabilities, and intentions; misuse their intelligence collection assets; and fail to employ their combat or support units effectively. As executed by JFCs, MILDEC targets enemy leaders and decision makers through the manipulation of their intelligence collection, analysis, and dissemination systems. MILDEC depends on intelligence to identify deception targets, assist in developing credible stories, identify and orient on appropriate receivers (i.e., the readers of the story), and assess the effectiveness of the deception effort. Deception requires a thorough knowledge of the enemy and their decision-making processes. During the formulation of the CONOPS, planners determine how the JFC wants the enemy to act at critical points in the operation. Those desired enemy actions then become the MILDEC objective. MILDEC focuses on causing the enemy to act in a desired manner, not simply to mislead them in their thinking.

DECEPTION AT NORMANDY

The Allied invasion of Nazi-occupied France on 6 June 1944 was a massive operation to land almost 133,000 soldiers in heavily defended territory. To create the best possible chance of success, the Allies initiated and implemented an elaborate deception scheme named BODYGUARD beginning a year earlier. The aim of the Allies' deception was to reinforce the belief among those in the German high command that the main Allied landings would be in the Pas-de-Calais, across the Strait of Dover, not Normandy, where the invasion would begin. If successful, the result would leave German forces poorly postured to counterattack the invasion. Over the previous three years, the British had practiced and refined their deception methods. At the outset of Operation BODYGUARD, they recognized the foundation of all such operations was to support and encourage the enemy's expectations. To be effective, the deception had to reinforce what the enemy wanted to believe. Furthermore, the deception scheme had to ensure the information reached the highest levels of German command. Operation QUICKSILVER was a major component of the plan. The key element of Operation QUICKSILVER series was the creation in German minds of a

fictitious United States 1st Army Group (FUSAG) commanded by Lieutenant General George S. Patton. The Allies simulated all manner of operations, including fake troop movements in England and Scotland, as well as placement of fake trucks, tanks, and other materiel. Intelligence units staged communiques, orders, wireless transmissions and press conferences to support the appearance of serious military preparations. Since the Germans knew and feared Patton as a commander, his leadership of the effort enhanced its acceptance by German authorities. Intercepted communications between Germany and Japan confirmed that Operation QUICKSILVER was successfully diverting German attention and resources. To strengthen the illusion of the FUSAG preparing to embark, the Allies assembled and deployed dummy landing craft in harbors and estuaries around the south-east England, centered on Dover. These decoys were convincing when viewed from a long distance and the air.

The Allies were assisted in this deception by two important factors. The first of these was ULTRA – the codename for the intelligence received from British intelligence where a crack team of codebreakers had successfully broken the German secret coding system ENIGMA. The Germans, convinced the Allies could not break the ENIGMA code, remained unaware of this fact. Their consequent vulnerability allowed Allies to check the success of any information or misinformation they planted by intercepting and reading the decoded responses. The second factor was Allied control of several double agents by British intelligence. Their nuanced direction of these agents had the Germans completely unaware that their situational awareness, behavior, and operational decision making were being constantly manipulated. The effectiveness of this operation yielded tangible benefits to Allied troops as they secured a foothold in France in June of 1944. The most noteworthy success of Operation BODYGUARD, and especially Operation QUICKSILVER, was demonstrated by the German High Command's belief in the existence of FUSAG, weeks after the D-Day landings. As a result, the Germans kept vital units away from the main fighting front in Normandy, because they were still expecting a second, larger invasion in the Calais area.

Various Sources

For additional guidance on MILDEC, refer to JP 3-13.4, Military Deception.

(5) MISO

(a) MISO are planned operations to convey selected information and indicators to foreign audiences to influence their emotions, motives, and objective reasoning and ultimately induce or reinforce foreign attitudes and behavior favorable to the originator's objectives. MISO may use all means of communication, distribution, and message delivery as appropriate.

(b) MISO have strategic, operational, and tactical applications and are a critical informational/influence capability employed as a part of OIE across the competition continuum. The conduct of MISO is an inherent responsibility of all JFCs within their respective OAs to shape the OE in support of their assigned missions and integrate into military operations as appropriate. Whether acting separately or as part of a larger military operation, MISO planners and associated organizations have primary responsibility to advise supported military commanders on MISO-related matters. This advice includes the psychological effect and impact of military and MISO-specific actions. The advice also includes clarifying the authority for development, production, distribution, and dissemination of all products intended to influence approved foreign audiences. The JFC secures the required authorities for MISO and seeks adjustments as necessary, delegating the authorities down to the lowest level possible to ensure the prompt execution of MISO integration and unity of effort.

(c) All DOD activities that constitute MISO, regardless of the organization conducting those activities, must adhere to the parameters of an Under Secretary of Defense for Policy-approved MISO Program or SecDef-approved order. In cooperation and competition, MISO conducted outside an area of ongoing hostilities involving Armed Forces of the United States is coordinated with the COM for each country where a targeted audience can be reasonably expected to be affected. The concurrence of the COM is a prerequisite to execution of MISO programs and activities in such areas, except when directed by SecDef; where MISO is to be executed in multiple countries such that coordination with all relevant COMs is impractical; when MISO is to be executed in countries where no US diplomatic mission exists, MISO programs are coordinated with the Central Intelligence Agency and a relevant DOS regional bureau(s); or when targeting audiences in international waters or airspace.

For additional guidance on MISO, refer to JP 3-13.2, Military Information Support Operations. MISO support to the non-US military is described in DODI O-3607.02, Military Information Support Operations (MISO), and CJCSI 3110.05, Military Information Support Operations Supplement to the Joint Strategic Capabilities Plan.

(6) OPSEC

(a) OPSEC uses a process to preserve friendly essential secrecy by identifying, controlling, and protecting critical information and indicators that would allow enemies and adversaries to identify and exploit friendly vulnerabilities. The purpose of OPSEC is to reduce vulnerabilities of the US and multinational forces to enemy and adversary exploitation, and it applies to all activities that prepare, sustain, or employ forces. Even when there may be no clearly defined threat, US military operations should be safeguarded. OPSEC planners must consider the effect of media coverage and the possibility that coverage may compromise essential security or disclose critical information.

(b) The effective integration, coordination, and application of other joint functions are critical components in the execution of OPSEC. Because a specified task is

“to protect our own” information, OPSEC planners require complete situational awareness regarding friendly activities to facilitate the safeguarding of critical information and indicators. This kind of situational awareness exists within the joint force where a wide range of planners work in concert to protect friendly information, information networks, and systems. OPSEC practices should balance the responsibility to account to the American public with the need to protect critical information and indicators. The need to practice OPSEC should not be an excuse to deny noncritical information to the public.

For additional guidance on OPSEC, refer to CJCSI 3213.01, Joint Operations Security, and JP 3-13.3, Operations Security.

(7) Signature Management. Signature management encompasses JFC actions to adjust, modify, or manipulate signatures—the observable aspects of administrative, technical, and physical joint force activities. JFCs oversee signature management in concert with OPSEC to protect friendly force information, information networks, and systems and to deliberately affect relevant actor decision making and behavior. Contracting and host-nation support (HNS) should be approached in a manner that protects controlled unclassified information and other sensitive information.

(8) EW. EW encompasses offensive and defensive military action to secure and maintain freedom of action in the EMOE for friendly forces while exploiting or denying it to enemies and adversaries. EW is an enabler for other activities that communicate or maneuver through the EMOE, such as MISO, PA, or CO.

For additional guidance on EW, refer to JP 3-85, Joint Electromagnetic Spectrum Operations.

(9) Combat Camera (COMCAM). Imagery is one of the most powerful tools available for informing internal and domestic audiences and for influencing foreign audiences. COMCAM forces provide imagery capability to the JFC across the competition continuum. COMCAM imagery supports capabilities that use imagery for their products and efforts, including MISO, MILDEC, PA, and CMO. It provides critical operational documentation to support JFC decision making, sensitive site exploitation, legal and evidentiary requirements, and imagery for BDA/MOE analysis. Additionally, COMCAM supports operational documentation and imagery to counter disinformation and support narrative development during FHA operations and noncombatant evacuation operations.

(10) Historians. Historical reading and understanding are vital tools for commanders. Maintaining a command history is a command responsibility. Historical knowledge provides commanders the opportunity to learn through others’ experiences. Military historians deployed into combat provide real-time support to commander decisions, spark critical imagination and adaptation necessary for command leadership, and complete critical documentation for future lessons on military operations. This documentation may include a collection of operational records (e.g., plans, orders, assessments, and correspondence), written narrative records of significant events, and oral history interviews of participants in ongoing operations.

(11) Space Operations. The cornerstone responsibilities of military space forces are to preserve freedom of action, enable joint lethality and effectiveness, and provide national leadership with independent military operations. Space operations support joint operations throughout the OE by providing space offensive and defensive operations; space-based surveillance and reconnaissance; missile warning; environmental monitoring; satellite communications; space domain awareness; space-based positioning, navigation, and timing (PNT); spacelift; satellite operations; and nuclear detonation detection. Space operations integrate offensive and defensive actions to achieve and maintain freedom of action in space. The joint force integrates military space operations as part of joint operations and defends critical space assets. As necessary, space operations deny enemies and adversaries benefits from their space capabilities. USSPACECOM provides combat power by fully integrating offensive and defensive space operations. This integration and synchronization of space capabilities and operations enable USSPACECOM, as part of the joint force, to deter and, if necessary, defeat enemy aggression.

For additional guidance on space operations, refer to JP 3-14, Joint Space Operations, and United States Space Force's Space Capstone Publication, Spacepower, Doctrine for Space Forces.

(12) Special Technical Operations (STO). Commanders should deconflict and synchronize other activities with STO. STO action officers at CCMD or Service component HQs can provide military and civilian leadership with detailed information related to STO and its contribution to joint force operations.

For additional guidance on STO, see CJCSI 3120.08, (U) Joint Special Technical Operations.

(13) CO. CO employ cyberspace capabilities to achieve objectives in or through cyberspace. Most DOD CO are routine uses of cyberspace to complete assigned tasks but not necessarily one of the three CO missions. These uses include actions like e-mail or researching information using the Internet. These activities do not require special authorities for DOD personnel; however, they are the source of most vulnerabilities to the DODIN when cybersecurity policies are not followed. The Cyber Mission Force and other cyberspace forces conduct specific OCO, DCO, and DODIN operations missions. OCO missions leverage adversary and enemy reliance on information, information technology, and data to project power in and through cyberspace and can include cyberspace attack actions (i.e., fires in cyberspace) when authorized. Refer to paragraph 7, "Protection," for additional discussion of DCO and DODIN operations.

For additional guidance on all CO missions, refer to JP 3-12, Joint Cyberspace Operations, and for additional specific guidance on DODIN operations, refer to JP 6-0, Joint Communications System.

f. Information Use Across the Competition Continuum

(1) Cooperative use of information. During day-to-day activities, the joint force integrates information in SC and FHA activities by:

(a) Assuring and maintaining allies, widening/publicizing combined exercises and other PN cooperation activities, encouraging neutral actors that the joint force is the partner of choice or that they should remain neutral, and reminding partners of benefits to maintain their support.

(b) Informing enemies and adversaries of benefits to friendly multinational force membership and collective defense, informing enemies and adversaries that the joint force is committed to its allies and security agreements, and concealing investment priorities and costs.

(2) Competitive use of information. During competition, the joint force conducts activities against state or non-state actors with incompatible interests that are below the level of armed conflict. Competition can include military operations such as CO, special operations, demonstrations of force, CTF, and ISR and often depends on the ability to leverage the power of information through OIE. Expect additional time to coordinate and obtain approval from DOD or other USG departments and agencies to use information due to increased risk. Specific information tasks may include:

(a) Informing allies and partners of malign influence and antagonistic behavior.

(b) Declassifying and sharing images that reveal or confirm enemy or adversarial behavior, recommending allies and partners communicate to relevant audiences within their areas of influence, and educating the joint force and allies about online disinformation activities to build understanding and resilience against propaganda.

(c) Influencing adversary's audiences to prevent escalation to armed conflict by demonstrating joint force resolve, strength, and commitment, as well as the costs and expectations of response actions.

(d) Targeting adversarial information, networks, and systems by temporarily denying communication or Internet access, disrupting jamming of Internet access to its internal population, and partnering with private-sector communication companies to remove inappropriate enemy and adversarial recruiting and fundraising advertisements.

(3) Use of information in armed conflict. In addition to the above tasks, the joint force can use information defensively or offensively. JFCs can employ information as independent activities, integrated with joint force physical actions, or in support of other instruments of national power. Many of these information activities require additional authorities as they present larger strategic risks or risks to the joint force, though capabilities like PA, which has the preponderance of public communication resources and rarely requires additional authorities in armed conflict.

(a) Defensive purposes. Basic defense activities include protecting data and communications, movements, and locations of critical capabilities and activities. PA can assist in countering adversary propaganda, misinformation, and disinformation. MILDEC can help mask strengths, magnify feints, and distract attention to false locations. DCO can defeat specific threats that attempt to bypass or breach cyberspace security measures. EW can protect personnel, facilities, and equipment from any effects of friendly, neutral, or enemy use of the EMS. The management of EM signatures can mask friendly movements and confuse enemy intelligence collectors. Finally, well-coordinated communication and messaging activities not only minimize OPSEC violations but also increase the consistency and alignment of joint force words, actions, and images. Conflicting messages or remaining silent allows adversaries and enemies to exploit or monopolize the media and propagate their agenda.

(b) Offensive purposes. Offensive information activities decrease enemy and adversary effectiveness, increase ally and partner support and effectiveness, and reduce interference from neutral audiences.

g. Exploit Informational Weaknesses of the Threat

(1) Communicate and provide images. JFCs expose illegal or malign activities to international and enemy civilian audiences such as enemy human rights abuses, reveal funding sources of enemies or adversaries, and demonstrate other actions inconsistent with the law of war and the treaties and customary international law embodied in these principles.

(2) Expose enemy decisions to their populaces that result in significant loss to their resources, lives, and treasures.

(3) Increase exploitation of adversary rifts, beliefs, or perceptions by publicizing enemy tactical failures, poor equipment readiness, inconsistent logistics, enemy surrenders, populace skepticism, and other internal vulnerabilities that distract enemy leadership.

(4) Manipulate enemy messaging to confuse their supporters, allies, and partners.

(5) Conduct OCO to deny use or confidence in enemy communication networks, information systems, or weapon systems.

(6) Disseminate messages to relevant enemy audiences to create or increase ambiguity.

(7) Conduct MILDEC in support of friendly attacks to mislead adversaries or foreign intelligence about friendly attack capabilities, locations, methods, and timing.

(8) Conduct physical movements or fires that support MILDEC by targeting adversary communication, information, or weapon systems in support of feints,

demonstrations, or ruses to create perceptions that a targeted area is a primary maneuver objective.

(9) Destroy or nullify selected adversary intelligence collection capabilities.

(10) Conduct an EA to prevent or reduce an enemy's effective use of the EMS via the employment of systems or weapons that use EM energy (e.g., jamming in the form of EM disruption, degradation, denial, and deception).

(11) Employ systems or weapons that use radiated EM energy (to include directed energy [DE]) as their primary disruptive or destructive mechanism.

(12) Conduct signature management to support OPSEC, MILDEC, and offensive or defensive activities.

(13) Disseminate information that can reduce civilian interference, minimize collateral damage, and help to reduce military and civilian casualties.

(14) Recommend targets and provide support to enable USG departments and agencies to increase economic pressure activities. Examples include freezing enemy finance support, exposing threat finance transactions, exposing illegal arms trading, and exposing third-party financial and resource support to enemy activities.

(15) Conduct KLEs with international media, allied counterparts, and other third-party communicators that echo the joint force narrative.

(16) Avoid targeting and messaging of cultural locations or issues that unite enemy leadership and its citizens.

(17) Anticipate setbacks and opportunities by synchronizing and preapproving senior leader response messages.

h. Key Considerations

(1) Intelligence Support to the Information Joint Function. Intelligence is critical to the effectiveness of information activities. Intelligence facilitates understanding the interrelationship of the informational, physical, and human aspects within the OE and the IE. By providing a society-centric, sociocultural understanding of the OE, intelligence can greatly assist the planning, integration, execution, and assessment of information activities to create desired effects. Intelligence in support of information activities may require longer lead times to establish behavior baselines for human decision making.

(2) Information in the Targeting Process. Planners integrate information activities and capabilities into the targeting process during planning and execution to create and synchronize effects in support of objectives. Many information activities and capabilities have interagency coordination requirements. Targeting approval levels may

increase the time required to plan, coordinate, and execute the process. Other USG departments and agencies lack trained personnel and procedures to satisfy interagency planning, execution, and assessment requirements. Fully analyzing and developing target sets for nonlethal action may also increase coordination time required. Some information activities such as STO may be compartmentalized. However, effective integration of information activities and capabilities in the targeting process results in an improved understanding of the entire joint and multinational force and increased opportunities to achieve JFC objectives.

(3) Legal Considerations. US military activities, including OIE, must always be in compliance with US laws and policies. Planners deal with diverse and complex legal considerations. Legal interpretations can occasionally differ, given the complexity of technologies involved, the significance of legal interests potentially affected, and the challenges inherent for laws and policies to keep pace with the technological changes and implementation. Policies are regularly added, amended, and rescinded to provide clarity. As a result, legal restraints and constraints on information activities are dynamic. Multinational considerations further complicate them since each nation has its laws, policies, and processes for approving plans.

(4) The complexity of the IE. The JFC will not be the only voice in the IE. Individuals, nongovernmental groups, or non-state actors can have outsize effects on JFC operations due to the rapid and comprehensive (i.e., multiple media formats) nature of traditional media and social media services. Consequently, the JFC's information plan should include social media services engagement as a form of information dissemination, along with traditional media outlets.

(5) Leveraging relevant actors and the media they use to communicate is vital to establishing legitimacy, credibility, and influence. During mission analysis, the JFC and staff should identify relevant nonmilitary actors (e.g., indigenous formal and informal leaders and influencers) and their respective influences on the OE. Identifying and cultivating relevant actors and the media they use to communicate allows the joint force to develop ways to leverage their influence to accomplish the joint force mission. JFCs and staff should confirm or deny assumptions on relevant actors made during mission analysis through CMO, military engagement, and network engagement.

(6) Proactive Communication Planning. The nature of the IE enables relevant actors to receive and react to information in the OE before JFCs can react. Some relevant actors create and leverage information to cause reactions. This reality leaves little time for the joint force to craft and disseminate communication to respond. Instead of constantly reacting to each negative or positive information event to gain an advantage in the IE, commanders ensure the proactive development and dissemination of information in line with communication plans. Additionally, the JFC needs to delegate information release decisions to the lowest possible level to enable timely action in the IE.

4. Intelligence

a. Understanding the OE is fundamental to joint operations. The intelligence function informs JFCs about adversary intentions, capabilities, centers of gravity (COGs), critical factors, vulnerabilities, and future COAs and helps commanders and staffs understand friendly, neutral, and threat networks. The JIPOE process includes integrating analysis, production, collection management, and targeting processes to shape decision making and enable operations. Using the continuous JIPOE analysis process, properly tailored JIPOE products can enhance OE understanding and enable the JFC to act quickly and effectively. Intelligence activities and assessments also occur while defending the homeland within the guidelines of applicable regulations and laws. The intelligence joint function encompasses the joint intelligence process. The joint intelligence process consists of six interrelated categories of intelligence activities and operations:

- (1) Planning and direction of intelligence activities.
- (2) Collection.
- (3) Processing and exploitation of collected exploitable material and other data to produce relevant information.
- (4) Analysis of information and production of intelligence.
- (5) Dissemination and integration of intelligence with plans and operations.
- (6) Evaluation and feedback regarding intelligence effectiveness and quality.

b. JIPOE products support operational design. Throughout execution, tailored, continuous JIPOE products capture the dynamic OE to facilitate risk management. Joint forces may suffer health threats such as disease (infectious and noninfectious) and injuries (combat, noncombat, or environmental hazards) that limit operational functions and adversely affect combat power. Medical intelligence preparation of the operational environment (MIPOE) products help decision makers devise protection measures to mitigate these threats.

For more information on JIPOE, refer to JP 2-0, Joint Intelligence, and the Joint Guide for Joint Intelligence Preparation of the Operational Environment. For further information on MIPOE, refer to JP 4-02, Joint Health Services.

c. **Understanding the Human, Physical, and Inherent Informational Aspects of Military Operations.** Intelligence is critical to the JFC's ability to leverage information to affect behavior. People and organizations other than the enemy may positively or negatively affect the friendly mission. These actors may include the civilian populace, the HN government, potential opposition leaders, and diasporas. Other relevant actors may include international organizations, non-state actors, religious leaders, and NGOs. By first identifying the relevant actors and learning as much as possible about them and their interrelationships, the JFC can develop an approach that facilitates decision making

regarding relevant actors' desired behavior (active or passive). Sociocultural analysis and the development of identity intelligence (I2) enable a better understanding of the relevant actors. Individuals may fit into more than one category of actor. For example, a tribal leader may work as a district governor or religious leader, while also working behind the scenes to provide financial and material support to an insurgency.

d. IC Collaboration

(1) JFCs use assigned and attached intelligence forces and coordinate with supporting IC capabilities to develop a current intelligence picture, analyze the OE, and anticipate future adversary or enemy action. These supporting capabilities include CSAs (e.g., National Security Agency, Defense Intelligence Agency, and National Geospatial-Intelligence Agency), national intelligence agencies (e.g., Central Intelligence Agency), and Service intelligence centers. National intelligence support may provide the J-2 opportunity to integrate national intelligence capabilities into a comprehensive intelligence effort designed to support the joint force. Through the intelligence planning process, the J-2 integrates these supporting capabilities through the National Intelligence Support Plan with the efforts of the assigned and attached intelligence forces. Liaison personnel from the various agencies provide access to the entire range of capabilities resident in their agencies and can focus those capabilities on the JFC's intelligence requirements.

For additional guidance on the intelligence planning process, see JP 2-0, Joint Intelligence, and CJCSM 3314.01, Intelligence Planning.

(2) As situations emerge that potentially require military action, JFCs examine available intelligence estimates. As part of the JIPOE process, JFCs focus intelligence efforts to determine or confirm enemy COGs and refine estimates of enemy capabilities, dispositions, intentions, and probable COAs within the context of the evolving situation. They look for specific warning intelligence of imminent enemy activity that may require an immediate response or an acceleration of friendly decision cycles.

For additional guidance on intelligence support to JIPOE, refer to JP 2-0, Joint Intelligence, and the Joint Guide for Joint Intelligence Preparation of the Operational Environment.

e. Key Considerations

(1) Responsibilities. JFCs and their component commanders are the key participants in planning and conducting intelligence tasks. Commanders are more than just consumers of intelligence. They integrate intelligence into their plans and operations. They also distribute intelligence and information to subordinate commands and, when appropriate, to authorized participants through established protocols and systems. Commanders establish operational and intelligence requirements and continuous feedback to ensure optimum intelligence support for planning and operations. This interface supports the commander and operational planning and execution. It also mitigates surprise, assists friendly deception efforts, and enables joint operation assessment.

(2) Surveillance and Reconnaissance. Surveillance and reconnaissance support information collection throughout the OE. These activities focus on planned collection requirements but are also sufficiently flexible to respond to time-sensitive and emerging requirements. Commanders also require near real time surveillance that focuses on specific targets and supports guidance and intent. ISR includes activities in cyberspace to gather intelligence or information to support future operations. ISR activities require appropriate deconfliction of capabilities.

(3) Collection Capabilities. JIPOE is the means through which the intelligence analyst manages the analysis and development of products that help the commander and staff gain an understanding of the complex and interconnected OE. To address knowledge gaps identified through the JIPOE process, JFCs require continuous data and information collection. Collection capabilities enable intelligence analysts to develop and apply appropriate analytical strategies to gain the knowledge necessary to define and understand the OE. To obtain and derive information and intelligence, all-source intelligence analysts rely on a variety of collection, including surveillance and reconnaissance activities. Intelligence collection disciplines are the means or systems used to observe, sense, and record or convey information of conditions, situations, threats, opportunities, and events. Intelligence collection disciplines include CI, human intelligence, geospatial intelligence, measurement and signature intelligence, open-source intelligence, signals intelligence, intelligence collection in cyberspace, and technical intelligence.

(4) I2. I2 fuses identity attributes (e.g., biographical, biological, behavioral, and reputational information related to individuals) and other information and intelligence associated with those attributes, collected across multiple activities, sources, and methods, to identify, assess, and characterize threat actors and networks, their capabilities and capacity, COGs, objectives, intent, and potential COAs. Identity attributes of individuals, groups, networks, or populations of interest are gathered through identity tasks. Regional and global trends have placed greater requirements on the JFC to recognize and differentiate one person from another to support the joint functions, particularly the protection and intelligence functions. I2 activities contribute to the exploitation of collected information and subsequent all-source analysis that enables the joint force to protect and control relevant populations. I2 products, such as biometric watch lists and persons of interest overlays, assist US forces, the HN, and PNs to positively identify, track, characterize, and disrupt threat actors.

For additional guidance on the intelligence joint function and intelligence disciplines, refer to JP 2-0, Joint Intelligence.

5. Fires

a. Fires is the use of weapon systems or other actions to create specific lethal or nonlethal effects on a target or objects of influence IAW US and international law. Joint fires are delivered during the employment of forces from two or more components in coordinated action to produce desired results in support of a common objective. This function encompasses the fires associated with several tasks, missions, and processes, including:

(1) Conduct Joint Targeting. The process of selecting and prioritizing targets and matching the appropriate response to them, considering command objectives, operational requirements, available capabilities, and rules of engagement (ROE).

(2) Provide Joint Fire Support. Joint fire support is joint fires that assist air, land, maritime, space, cyberspace, and special operations forces to move, maneuver, and control territory, airspace, space, cyberspace, the EMS, and key waters and to influence populations.

(3) Countering Air and Missile Threats. This task integrates offensive and defensive operations and capabilities to achieve and maintain freedom of action and force protection. These operations destroy or negate enemy manned and unmanned aircraft and missiles, both before and after launch.

(4) Interdict Hostile Capabilities. Interdiction during armed conflict diverts, disrupts, delays, or destroys a threat's surface capabilities before being used effectively against friendly forces or otherwise achieving their objectives.

(5) Conduct Strategic Attack. This task includes offensive action against foreign military, political, and economic targets to create effects against a high-payoff target.

(6) Assess the Results of Employing Fires. This task assesses the effectiveness of fires and their contribution to achieving of the objective.

b. **Key Considerations.** Employing fires in conjunction with other activities, such as information activities, to create desired effects is a particularly important factor in maintaining or reestablishing a safe and secure environment. The following are key considerations associated with the above tasks:

(1) Targeting supports the process of linking the desired effects of joint fires to actions and tasks at the component, subordinate joint force, CCMD, and national level. Commanders and their staffs consider strategic- and operational-level objectives, the potential for friendly fire incidents and other undesired fires effects, and operational limitations (e.g., constraints and restraints) when making targeting decisions. Commanders should consider the impact on all systems in the OE during this process. Successful integration of engagement options (e.g., cyberspace, EW, information, nonlethal weapons, DE, and other intermediate force capabilities) to integrate nonlethal effects into the targeting process is often important to mission accomplishment. Commanders assess available engagement options and employ them as appropriate.

(a) Oversight. JFCs may task their staff to accomplish broad targeting oversight functions or delegate the responsibility to a subordinate commander. Typically, JFCs organize joint targeting coordination boards (JTCBs). If the JFC so designates, a JTCB may be an integrating center for this effort or a JFC-level review mechanism. In either case, the JTCB should include representatives from the staff, all components, and, if required, their subordinate units. The primary focus of the JTCB is to link target priorities,

guidance, and the associated effects to the JFC's objectives. JTCB participants should ensure all components and applicable staff elements coordinate and synchronize targeting efforts with intelligence and operations.

(b) Delegation of Joint Targeting Process Authority. The JFC is responsible for all aspects of the targeting process and may conduct joint targeting at the joint force HQ level or assign the deputy JFC or component commander to chair the JTCB. When the JFC does not delegate targeting authority and does not establish a JTCB, the JFC performs this task at the joint force HQ. The JFC may approve the formation of a joint fires element to provide recommendations to the J-3 and the JFC. Subordinate commands are part of the JTCB. The JTCB chair should possess or have access to adequate C2 infrastructure, adequate facilities, joint planning expertise, appropriate intelligence, and legal support.

For additional targeting guidance, refer to JP 3-60, Joint Targeting.

(c) Air Apportionment. In the context of joint fires, air apportionment is part of the targeting process. The JFACC uses air apportionment to ensure the weight of joint force air effort is consistent with the JFC's intent and objectives. After consulting with other component commanders, the JFACC recommends air apportionment to the JFC, who makes the air apportionment decision. The JFACC's rationale for the recommendation may include priority or percentage of effort based on the JFC's CONOPS, specific tasks for which air assets are essential, and other factors such as the component commanders' joint fires requirements. Following the JFC's air apportionment decision, the JFACC allocates and tasks the capabilities/forces made available.

For additional guidance on air apportionment, refer to JP 3-30, Joint Air Operations.

(2) Joint fire support may include aircraft; naval surface fire support; artillery, mortars, rockets, and missiles; cyberspace attack; offensive and defensive space operations; EA; and messaging to create lethal and nonlethal effects.

(3) Close air support is a critical element of joint fire support that requires detailed planning, coordination, and training of ground and supporting air forces for safe and effective execution. Integration and synchronization of joint fires and joint fire support with the fire and maneuver of the supported force are essential.

For additional guidance on joint fire support, refer to JP 3-09, Joint Fire Support. For more information on close air support, see JP 3-09.3, Close Air Support.

(4) Countering Air and Missile Threats

(a) The JFC counters air and missile threats to help create friendly freedom of action, provide protection, and deny the enemy freedom of action. Counterair integrates offensive and defensive operations to achieve and maintain the JFC's desired degrees of control in the air and protection by neutralizing or destroying enemy aircraft and missiles, both before and after launch. The counterair mission is inherently a joint and

interdependent endeavor. Each component of the joint force contributes capabilities necessary for mission success. Also, Service capability and force structure development reflect a purposeful reliance on all components to maximize complementary and reinforcing effects while minimizing relative vulnerabilities. Due to the joint and interdependent nature, all components of the joint force normally conduct operations in support of the counterair mission. The JFC normally designates an AADC and a JFACC to enhance the unity of command (or unity of effort), centralized planning and direction, and decentralized execution for countering air and missile threats.

(b) Offensive counterair (OCA) operations are the preferred method of countering air and missile threats. OCA typically seeks to operate in enemy airspace and destroy, disrupt, or neutralize enemy aircraft, missiles, launch platforms, and their supporting structures as close to their sources as possible before and after launch. OCA includes attack operations, fighter sweep, fighter escort, and suppression of enemy air defenses. DCA normally attempts to degrade, neutralize, or defeat enemy air and missile attacks attempting to penetrate friendly airspace. Both OCA and DCA may also ensure access and freedom of action in international airspace. These operations may use aircraft, surface-to-surface missiles, surface-to-air missiles, artillery, ground forces, special operations, cyberspace attack, and EA. Joint forces must be capable of countering the air and missile threats during all operations.

(c) Control of the Air. Enemies will contest control of the air. Air superiority is the degree of control of the air by one force that permits the conduct of its operations at a given time and place without prohibitive interference from air and missile threats. Air supremacy is the degree of control of the air wherein the opposing force is incapable of effective interference within the OA using air and missile threats. The joint force may have to fight for and maintain every aspect of freedom of action in the air. Commanders prevent enemy air and missile threats from effectively interfering with operations, thus facilitating freedom of action and movement. Commanders should not assume they have control of the air. In the air, the degree of control can range from no control to parity, where neither opponent can claim any level of control over the other, to local air superiority, a dangerous situation that can quickly turn against the joint force, to air supremacy over the entire OA. Control of the air may vary over time. It is important to remember that the degree of control of the air can be bounded and limited in both duration and geography (temporally, horizontally, and vertically), local or defined, in the context of an entire theater. The desired degree of control is at the direction of the JFC and based on the JFC's CONOPS. Therefore, it is a priority objective of the JFACC and joint air operations. Commanders should not expect air supremacy or superiority against a capable enemy. Counterair operations occur throughout campaigns and major operations to produce the desired degree of control of the air at the times and places chosen by the JFC.

(d) Integrating Air and Missile Defense. While joint combat focuses on operations within one or more OAs, threats to joint forces can come from well outside assigned JOAs, even outside a CCMD's AOR. An enemy's missiles, hypersonics, and long-range aircraft can pose significant challenges that require integrating defensive

capabilities from both within and beyond a CCMD's AOR. The CCMD integrates air and missile defense capabilities and activities within the theater. In support, SecDef establishes command relationships for global missile defense, strategic attack, global strike, and other cross-AOR operations. Commander, United States Strategic Command (CDRUSSTRATCOM), conducts global missile defense operations in coordination with other CCMDs, the Services, and, as directed, appropriate USG departments and agencies; advocates for and assesses missile defense capabilities; and ensures continuity of operations (COOP), as required. The intended result is the integration of OCA attack operations, DCA operations, and other capabilities as required to create the JFC's desired effects.

Refer to JP 3-01, Joint Countering Air and Missile Threats, for additional guidance on countering air and missile threats, and JP 3-30, Joint Air Operations, for discussion of control of the air.

(5) Interdiction

(a) Interdiction operations during armed conflict include actions that divert, disrupt, delay, or destroy the enemy's surface capability before it can be used effectively against friendly forces or to achieve enemy objectives. Air interdiction is conducted at such a distance from friendly forces that detailed integration of each air mission with the fire and movement of friendly forces is not required. The JFC plans and synchronizes the overall interdiction effort in the assigned JOA. The JFACC is normally the supported commander for the JFC's overall air interdiction effort; however, the JFLCC, JFMCC, and JFSOCC are the supported commanders for interdiction within their OAs.

(b) Many elements of the joint force can conduct interdiction operations. Air, land, maritime, space, cyberspace, and special operations forces can conduct interdiction operations as part of their larger or overall mission.

(c) In competition, air and maritime interception operations can be part of a coercive measure to change or modify an adversary's behavior. Joint fires through interdiction can create tactical and operational advantages for the joint force, with corresponding adverse effects on the enemy. Interdiction can have broad operational effects, but joint fires executed closer to joint forces can have more immediate effects. Thus, JFCs vary the emphasis upon fires and surface maneuvers, depending on the situation.

Refer to JP 3-03, Joint Interdiction, for more guidance on joint interdiction operations.

(6) Strategic Attack. A strategic attack (nuclear or nonnuclear) is a JFC offensive action against a target, whether military or other, selected to achieve a strategic objective. Strategic attacks usually target enemy strategic COGs or other strategic targets. These attacks may be lethal or nonlethal. The purpose is to weaken the enemy's ability or will to engage or continue an undesirable activity. As directed by the President or SecDef, a

"The air attacks were the most effective message. The soldiers who did see the leaflets and then saw the air attacks knew the leaflets were true. They believed the message after that, if they were still alive. Overall, they had a terrible effect on us. I started the war with 13,000 soldiers. By the time we had orders to pull back to Baghdad, I had less than 1,000. Every day the desertions increased. We had no engagements with American forces. When my division pulled back across the Diyala Bridge, of the more than 500 armored vehicles assigned to me before the war, I was able to get fifty or so across the bridge. Most were destroyed or abandoned on the east side of the Diyala River."

Source: Iraqi Perspectives Project: A view of Operation Iraqi Freedom from Saddam's Senior Leadership, Kevin M. Woods with Michael R. Pese, Mark E. Stout, Williamson Murray, and James G Lacey Project interview of Abd Al-Karim Jasim Nafus Al-Majid, Commander, Al Nida Armored Division, 21 November 2003

strategic attack can be an independent action or part of a campaign or major operation. All components of a joint force may have capabilities to conduct strategic attacks.

(7) Global Strike

(a) A global strike is the capability to rapidly plan and execute attacks on any location, limited in duration and scope, to create precise lethal and nonlethal effects against enemy assets. Global strike missions employ capabilities against a wide variety of targets.

(b) The UCP assigns CDRUSSTRATCOM the responsibility for global strike. CDRUSSTRATCOM plans global strike in full partnership with appropriate CCDRs. The CJCS or SecDef determines supporting and supported command relationships for execution. In some circumstances, United States Strategic Command may collaborate and support another CCMD for global strike planning and execution.

(8) Limiting Collateral Effects. Collateral damage and other collateral effects are unintentional or incidental effects to persons or objects that would not be lawful military targets based on the circumstances existing at the time. Causing collateral effects does not violate the law of war so long as the damage or other effect is not excessive in relation to the concrete and direct military advantage anticipated from the attack. The law of war recognizes that civilian casualties and civilian harm are unfortunate and tragic, but unavoidable, consequences of armed conflict. Under the law of war, balancing military necessity with collateral damage is central to the principle of proportionality. Limiting collateral effects is often an operational or strategic imperative and will not only reduce civilian claims but may also better support friendly and HN actions to influence the population and promote operational success. Commanders conduct collateral damage assessment during targeting. These assessments are especially important when considering strikes against targets with potential for second- and third-order effects, such as WMD storage and production targets.

(9) Joint force capabilities can create nonlethal effects. Some capabilities can produce nonlethal effects that limit collateral damage, reduce risk to civilians, and reduce exploitation opportunities for enemy or adversary propaganda. They may also reduce the number of casualties associated with excessive use of force, limit reconstruction costs, and maintain the goodwill of the local populace. Some capabilities are nonlethal by design and include blunt impact and warning munitions, acoustic and optical warning devices, and vehicle and vessel stopping systems.

(a) Cyberspace Attack. Cyberspace attack actions create various direct denial effects in cyberspace (i.e., degradation, disruption, or destruction) or manipulation that leads to denial that appears in the physical domains.

(b) EA. EA involves the use of EM energy, DE, or antiradiation weapons to attack personnel, facilities, or equipment to degrade, neutralize, or destroy enemy combat capability. EA can be against a computer when the attack occurs through the EMS. Integration and synchronization of EA with maneuver, C2, and other joint fires are essential. EW is a component of JEMSO used to exploit, attack, protect, and manage the EME to achieve the commander's objectives. EW can be a primary capability or used to facilitate OIE through the targeting process.

For additional guidance on cyberspace attack, refer to JP 3-12, Joint Cyberspace Operations.

For additional guidance on EA and JEMSO, refer to JP 3-85, Joint Electromagnetic Spectrum Operations.

For additional guidance on JEMSO, refer to CJCSI 3320.01, (U) Joint Electromagnetic Spectrum Operations (JEMSO).

(c) MISO. MISO actions and messages can generate effects that gain support for JFC objectives; reduce the will of the enemy, adversary, and sympathizer; and decrease the combat effectiveness of enemy forces. MISO are effective throughout the competition continuum. JFCs and their component commanders are the key players in fully integrating MISO into their plans and operations. MISO require unique budget, attribution, and authorities that are coordinated and approved prior to employment. Commanders carefully review and approve MISO programs that comply with mission-tailored, product approval guidelines from national-level authorities. An approved program does not necessarily constitute authority to execute a mission. Commanders obtain required authorities through a MISO-specific execute order (EXORD) or as a task specified in an EXORD for an operation.

For more information on planning programs and conducting MISO, refer to CJCSI 3110.05, Military Information Support Operations Supplement to the Joint Strategic Capabilities Plan.

For additional guidance on MISO, refer to JP 3-13.2, Military Information Support Operations. MISO support to the non-US military is in DODI O-3607.02, Military Information Support Operations (MISO).

(d) Nonlethal Weapons as Intermediate Force Capabilities. Nonlethal weapons can provide intermediate force capabilities to fill the gap between mere presence and lethal effects. Nonlethal weapons are weapons, devices, and munitions that incapacitate targeted personnel or materiel immediately while minimizing fatalities, permanent injury to personnel, and undesired damage to property in the target area or environment. Nonlethal weapons are intended to have reversible effects on personnel and equipment. Planners should consider nonlethal weapons to enhance mission effectiveness; facilitate lethal engagements by resolving complex situations and isolating the threat; reduce risk to joint forces; and mitigate collateral damage, including civilian casualties.

For additional guidance on nonlethal weapons, refer to DODD 3000.03E, DOD Executive Agent for Non-Lethal Weapons (NLW), and NLW Policy; and the US Department of Defense Non-Lethal Weapons Program Executive Agent's Planning Guidance: Intermediate Force Capabilities Bridging the Gap Between Presence and Lethality.

6. Movement and Maneuver

a. This function encompasses the disposition of joint forces to conduct operations by securing positional or informational advantages across the competition continuum and exploiting tactical success to achieve operational and strategic objectives. Movement is deploying forces or capabilities into an OA and relocating them within an OA without the expectation of contact with the enemy. Maneuver is the employment of forces for offensive and defensive purposes while in, or expecting, contact with the enemy. It also includes assuring the mobility of friendly forces. The movement and maneuver function encompasses several tasks, including:

(1) Deploy, shift, regroup, or move joint and component force formations and capabilities by multiple means or modes throughout the OE.

(2) Maneuver joint forces to achieve a position of advantage over an enemy or adversary.

(3) Provide mobility for joint forces to facilitate their movement and maneuver without delays caused by terrain or obstacles.

(4) Delay, channel, or stop movement and maneuver by enemy formations. These actions include operations that employ obstacles (i.e., counter mobility), enforce sanctions and embargoes, and conduct blockades.

(5) Control significant areas; deny, expand, and manipulate access to information; and influence relevant populations relative to the objective whose access to possession or control provides either side an operational advantage.

b. Movement to Extend and Maintain Operational Reach

(1) Forces, sometimes limited to those that are forward or even multinational forces specifically for the task at hand, can position within operational reach of enemy or adversary COGs, critical factors, or decisive points. Operational reach is the distance and duration across which a joint force can successfully employ its military capabilities. At other times, mobilization and deployment processes can begin the movement of reinforcing forces from the continental United States (CONUS) or other theaters to address any unfavorable balance of forces at the appropriate time and place.

(2) JFCs carefully consider the movement of forces and whether to recommend the formation and movement of multinational forces, taking into consideration A2/AD threats, which can prevent or deny the deployment of friendly forces. At times, the movement of forces can contribute to the escalation of tension, while at other times, its deterrent effect can reduce those tensions. Movement of forces may deter or provoke adversary or enemy aggression or threats, depending on the adversary's or enemy's perception and cost-benefit analysis.

Refer to JP 3-35, Deployment and Redeployment Operations, for more information on the deployment process.

(3) The use of SOF can extend a joint force's operational reach into sensitive and denied areas. When conducting clandestine operations, JFCs consider not only how to penetrate hostile or unfriendly A2/AD systems but also how to mitigate the risk of their detection and public exposure.

c. Maneuver is the employment of forces to gain a position of advantage with respect to the enemy. The maneuver of forces relative to enemy COGs can be key to the JFC's mission accomplishment. Through maneuver, the JFC can concentrate forces at decisive points to achieve surprise, create psychological effects, and generate physical momentum. Maneuver may also enable or exploit the effects of massed or precision fires.

(1) The principal purpose of maneuver is to place the enemy at a disadvantage. The goal of maneuver is to render an enemy incapable of resisting by shattering their morale and physical cohesion (i.e., their ability to fight as an effective, coordinated whole) by moving to the point of advantage to close with and destroy enemy forces, capability, and will. Commanders may achieve this advantage by attacking enemy forces and controlling territory, airspace, EMS, urban areas, key waters, critical assets, and LOCs through air, land, maritime, space, and cyberspace maneuver.

(2) There are multiple ways to gain a positional advantage. An amphibious force with aircraft, cruise missiles, and amphibious assault capability, within operational reach of an enemy's COG, has the positional advantage. In like manner, land and air expeditionary forces that are within operational reach of an enemy's COG and have the means and opportunity to strike and maneuver on such a COG also have a positional

advantage. Seeking a positional advantage facilitates freedom of action. See Chapter VII, “Joint Campaigns and Operations in Armed Conflict.”

(3) At all levels of warfare, successful maneuver requires not only fire and movement but also agility and versatility of thought, plans, operations, and organizations. It requires designating and then, if necessary, shifting the main effort and applying the principles of mass and economy of force.

(a) At the strategic level, deploying forces to an OA is a form of maneuver if such movements seek to gain a positional advantage. This maneuver places forces in the best position to deter enemy actions (e.g., flexible deterrent options [FDOs]), defend against aggression, or initiate armed conflict.

(b) At the operational level, maneuver is a means by which JFCs set the terms of battle by time and location, decline battle, or exploit existing situations. Operational maneuver usually takes large forces from a base of operations to an area where they are in a position of operational reach from which to achieve operational objectives. The enemy may use AD actions to impede friendly operations when A2 actions fail. The objective of an operational maneuver is usually a COG or decisive point.

(c) At the tactical level, maneuver is a means by which component commanders employ their forces in combination with the other joint functions to gain an informational or positional advantage with respect to the enemy.

(4) Force posture (forces, footprints, and agreements) affects operational reach and is an essential movement- and maneuver-related consideration. Force posture is a day-to-day movement and maneuver activity that CCMDs, in conjunction with OSD and DOS, can conduct as part of their global campaign to counter adversary actions without armed conflict to achieve national objectives. Force posture includes organic capabilities and commercial capabilities (infrastructure, services, and associated personnel). Force posture is also the starting position from which planners determine additional basing requirements to support specific contingency plans and potential and relevant responses to an array of anticipated crises. These requirements directly support the development of operational LOCs and LOOs and affect the combat power and other capabilities a joint force can generate. In particular, the arrangement and positioning of temporary contingency bases underwrite the ability of the joint force to project power by shielding its components from enemy action and protecting critical factors such as sortie or resupply rates. Incomplete planning for contingency base operations can unnecessarily increase the sustainment requirements of the joint force, leading to unanticipated risk. Political and diplomatic considerations, including authorizations to transit and overfly adjacent countries, can often affect basing decisions. US force basing options span the range from permanently based forces to temporary sea basing that accelerates the deployment and employment of maritime forces independent of infrastructure ashore.

(5) JFCs should consider various ways and means to help maneuver forces gain a positional advantage. Specifically, combat engineers provide mobility by breaching

obstacles, while simultaneously countering the mobility of enemy forces by emplacing obstacles and minimizing the effects of enemy actions on friendly forces. In addition to embassy country teams, COMs work with nations in and around the JOA to ensure overflight and transit authorizations are granted to enhance freedom of movement.

For additional guidance on posture planning, refer to DODI 3000.12, Management of US Global Defense Posture (GDP), and CJCSM 3130.03, Planning and Execution Formats and Guidance.

7. Protection

a. Protection is all efforts to secure and defend the effectiveness and survivability of mission-related military and nonmilitary personnel, equipment, facilities, information, and infrastructure deployed or located within or outside the boundaries of a given OA to maintain mission effectiveness. The protection function encompasses force protection, force health protection (FHP), and other protection activities.

b. The protection function includes a wide-ranging list of operations, tasks, and activities required to protect the force. Some tasks in the protection function include:

(1) Provide air, missile (including hypersonics), and space defense (including all space segments and counter-unmanned aircraft system [UAS] operations).

(2) Provide physical security to protect forces, bases, JSAs, posts, infrastructure that enables power projection, and LOCs (including contractors and US civilians accompanying the force).

(3) Protect friendly information. These activities include OPSEC, CI, defense countermeasure operations, MILDEC in support of OPSEC, counter deception, and counterpropaganda.

(4) Conduct cyberspace security, cyberspace defense, and electromagnetic protection (EP) to protect information networks.

(5) Provide CBRN defense to minimize CBRN attacks and incidents.

(6) Provide engineering and explosive ordnance disposal support for counter-improvised threat activities, such as counter-improvised explosive device (C-IED) activities.

(7) Identify and neutralize insider threats.

(8) Conduct detainee operations.

(9) Conduct medical, environmental, and occupational surveillance activities.

(10) Conduct law enforcement and criminal investigation activities to protect personnel and assets.

(11) The function focuses on force protection, which preserves the joint force's fighting potential in four primary ways. One way uses active defensive measures that protect the joint force, its information, and its bases; necessary infrastructure; and LOCs from an enemy attack. Another way uses passive defensive measures that make friendly forces, systems, and facilities difficult to locate, strike, and destroy. Passive measures reduce the probability and minimize the effects of damage caused by hostile action without seeking the initiative. The application of technology and procedures to reduce the risk of friendly fire incidents is equally important. Finally, emergency management and response reduce the loss of personnel and capabilities due to isolating events, accidents, health threats, and natural disasters.

(12) Force protection does not include actions to defeat the enemy or protect against accidents, weather, or disease. FHP complements force protection efforts by promoting, improving, preserving, or restoring the behavioral or physical well-being of Service members.

(13) As the JFC's mission requires, the protection function also extends beyond force protection to encompass the protection of US noncombatants.

c. Protection considerations affect the planning of all joint campaigns and operations. For cooperation and competition, commanders and their staffs consider protection measures commensurate with potential risks, even in a permissive environment. Risk to the joint force may include a wide range of threats such as terrorism, criminal enterprises, environmental threats and hazards, and space and cyberspace threats. In armed conflict, campaigns and major operations involve large-scale combat against a capable enemy. Commanders typically require the full range of protection tasks, thereby complicating both planning and execution. Continuous research and access to accurate, detailed information about the OE, along with realistic training, can enhance protection activities.

d. Force protection is preventive measures taken to prevent or mitigate enemy and insider threat actions against DOD personnel (to include family members and certain contractor personnel), resources, facilities, and critical information. Developing and demonstrating resilience (e.g., redundancy, alternatives, rapid recovery) may provide a deterrent effect and reduce the need for protection during a crisis—both for organic and partner capabilities. These actions preserve the force's fighting potential for critical employment time and place and incorporate integrated and synchronized offensive and defensive measures that enable the effective employment of the joint force while degrading opportunities for the enemy. Force protection includes the tailored selection and application of multilayered active and passive measures commensurate with the level of risk. Intelligence sources provide information regarding an enemy or adversary's capabilities against personnel and resources, as well as information regarding force protection considerations. Foreign and domestic LEAs can contribute to force protection through the prevention, detection, response, and investigation of crime and by sharing information on criminal and terrorist organizations. I2 can identify threat networks in the

OA, enhancing the commander's ability to establish effective antiterrorism programs, screening and vetting activities that mitigate vendor threats, and promoting lasting relationships with the HN and local population.

e. Key Considerations

(1) Security. Security of forces and means enhances force protection by identifying and reducing friendly vulnerability to hostile acts, influence, or surprise. Security operations protect forces, bases, JSAs, and LOCs. Physical security includes physical measures designed to safeguard personnel; to prevent unauthorized access to equipment, installations, material, and documents; and to safeguard them against espionage, sabotage, damage, and theft. The physical security process determines vulnerabilities to known threats; applies appropriate deterrent, control, and denial safeguarding techniques and measures; and responds to changing conditions. Functions in physical security include facility security, law enforcement, guard and patrol operations, special land and maritime security areas, and other physical security operations like military working dog operations, CI, or emergency and disaster response support. Measures include fencing and perimeter stand-off areas, land or maritime force patrols, lighting and sensors, vehicle barriers, blast protection, intrusion detection systems and electronic surveillance, and access control devices and systems. Physical security measures, like any defense, should be overlapping and deployed in depth.

For additional guidance on physical security measures, refer to JP 3-10, Joint Security Operations in Theater.

(2) DCA. DCA supports protection using both active and passive air, air, missile, and UASs defense measures.

(a) Active air and missile defense include all direct defensive actions taken to destroy, nullify, or reduce the effectiveness of hostile air, UASs, and missile threats against friendly forces and assets.

(b) Passive air and missile defense include all measures, other than active air and missile defense, taken to minimize, mitigate, or recover from the consequences of attack aircraft and missiles, reducing the effectiveness of hostile air and missile threats against friendly forces and assets.

(3) Global Missile Defense. Global missile defense encompasses operations that affect more than one CCMD and requires synchronization among the affected commands to coordinate effective allocation, deployment, and employment of capabilities necessary to deter and prevent attacks, destroy enemy missiles, or nullify or reduce the effectiveness of an attack.

For additional guidance on countering air and missile threats, refer to JP 3-01, Joint Countering Air and Missile Threats.

(4) OPSEC denies the adversary or enemy the information needed to assess friendly capabilities and intentions correctly and is vital to enabling the protection of the force by ensuring essential secrecy of joint operations. The purpose of OPSEC is to reduce the vulnerability of US and multinational forces to successful adversary or enemy exploitation of critical information. The OPSEC process subsequently analyzes friendly actions associated with military operations and other activities to:

(a) Identify those actions that adversary or enemy intelligence systems may observe.

(b) Determine what specific indications adversaries or enemies could collect, analyze, and interpret to derive critical information in time to be useful.

(c) As requiring activities develop and source requirements beyond the organic force, assess the operational value of the information and potential need to protect it.

For additional guidance on OPSEC, refer to CJCSI 3213.01, Joint Operations Security, and JP 3-13.3, Operations Security.

(5) DODIN operations missions are covered by standing orders to secure and operate DOD's cyberspace, including global terrestrial networks, satellite communications, tactical wireless networks, information technology embedded in weapon systems and critical infrastructure, and standalone systems. This security is established based upon national and DOD cybersecurity policies and integrated layers of technology, training, and personnel actions that make the DODIN less vulnerable to threats in cyberspace, including insider threats.

For additional guidance on cybersecurity, refer to DODI 8500.01, Cybersecurity.

(6) DCO include actions internal and external to the protected cyberspace to preserve friendly cyberspace capabilities and protect data, networks, and net-centric capabilities by hunting, monitoring, analyzing, detecting, and responding to ongoing or imminent malicious cyberspace activity. When authorized, USCYBERCOM's cyberspace protection teams conduct DCO internal defensive measures missions inside non-DODIN cyberspace, including USG networks, US critical infrastructure, and the systems of allies and PNs.

(7) Defensive Use of EW. EP is the division of EW involving action taken to protect personnel, facilities, and equipment from any effects of friendly or enemy use of the EMS that degrade, neutralize, or destroy friendly combat capability. Defensive EA activities use the EMS to protect personnel, facilities, capabilities, and equipment. Examples include self-protection and force protection measures such as the use of expendables; jammers; towed decoys; DE infrared countermeasures systems; radio-controlled, small UASs; and radio-controlled C-IED systems.

Refer to JP 3-85, Joint Electromagnetic Spectrum Operations, for further guidance.

(8) PR. PR missions use military, diplomatic, and civil efforts to recover and reintegrate isolated personnel. There are five PR tasks (report, locate, support, recover, and reintegrate) necessary to achieve complete and coordinated recovery of US military personnel, DOD civilians, DOD contractor personnel, and others designated by the President or SecDef. JFCs should consider all individual, component, joint, and multinational partner capabilities available when planning and executing PR missions.

Refer to JP 3-50, Personnel Recovery, and DODD 3002.01, Personnel Recovery in the Department of Defense, for further guidance on PR.

(9) CBRN Defense. CBRN defense focuses on assessing CBRN threats and hazards (contamination), protecting individuals and units from CBRN hazards, and mitigating effects to personnel and equipment to restore operational capability. Even when an enemy does not possess CBRN material or WMD, access to materials such as radiation sources and toxic industrial materials is a significant planning consideration.

For additional guidance on CBRN defense, refer to JP 3-11, Operations in Chemical, Biological, Radiological, and Nuclear Environments; JP 3-40, Joint Countering Weapons of Mass Destruction; and JP 3-41, Chemical, Biological, Radiological, and Nuclear Response.

(10) Antiterrorism programs support force protection by establishing defensive measures that reduce the vulnerability of individuals and property to terrorist acts, to include limited response and containment by local military and civilian forces. These programs also include personal security and defensive measures to protect Service members, high-risk personnel, civilian employees, family members, DOD facilities, information, and equipment.

Refer to JP 3-26, Joint Combating Terrorism, for additional guidance on antiterrorism.

(11) Combat identification (CID) is the process of attaining an accurate characterization of detected objects in the OE to support an engagement decision. CID supports force protection and enhances operations by helping minimize friendly fire incidents and collateral damage. The CID process complements the identification process to support application of weapons, resources, or other military operations.

(a) Depending on operational requirements, CID characterizations may concern only “friend,” “enemy/hostile,” “neutral,” or “unknown” and may be in terms of a level of confidence in such characterization. In some situations, additional characterizations may be necessary, including, class, type, nationality, and mission configuration. When applied with CCDR’s ROE, CID characterizations enable engagement decisions for the employment of fires.

(b) Early during planning, the staff develops CID procedures that are consistent with ROE and that do not interfere with the ability of a unit or individual to

engage enemy forces. When developing the JFC's CID procedures, important considerations include the missions, capabilities, and limitations of all participants.

Refer to JP 3-01, Joint Countering Air and Missile Threats, and JP 3-09, Joint Fire Support, for additional guidance on CID.

(12) Critical infrastructure protection programs support the identification and mitigation of vulnerabilities to defense critical infrastructure, which includes DOD and non-DOD domestic and foreign infrastructure essential to plan, mobilize, deploy, execute, and sustain US military operations globally. Coordination between DOD entities and other USG departments and agencies; state, territorial, tribal, and local governments; the private sector; and equivalent foreign entities is key to protecting these critical assets. Commanders remediate and mitigate vulnerabilities found in defense critical infrastructure based on risk management decisions made by responsible authorities. These vulnerability mitigation decisions should use all available program areas, including antiterrorism, MILDEC, OPSEC, and force protection (e.g., promoting resilience).

For further guidance on critical infrastructure protection, refer to DODI 3020.45, Mission Assurance (MA) Construct.

(13) CI counters or neutralizes foreign intelligence collection efforts through collection, CI investigations, operations, analysis, production, and technical services and support. CI is information gathered and activities conducted to identify, deceive, exploit, disrupt, or protect against espionage, other intelligence activities, sabotage, or assassinations conducted for or on behalf of foreign powers, organizations, or persons, or their agents, or international terrorist organizations or activities.

For further guidance on CI missions, refer to JP 2-0, Joint Intelligence.

(14) C-IED. C-IED activities reduce casualties and damage caused by improvised explosive devices. Improvised explosive devices are a type of weapon that can include common material or activities adapted for military or criminal use. C-IED activities include measures to neutralize the infrastructure supporting the production and employment of IEDs. These measures can include developing tactics, techniques, and procedures to counter the improvised threat and the technical and forensic exploitation to obtain information to support targeting, improve force protection, identify material sourcing, and classify different weapon signatures.

For further guidance on C-IED, refer to JP 3-25, Joint Countering Threat Networks, and JP 3-42, Joint Explosive Ordnance Disposal.

(15) Countering Small UASs. Small UAS platforms pervade today's battlefields, greatly adding to the complexity of the present-day OE. Small UASs, when adapted from commercial uses or otherwise modified, can be an improvised threat. Often originally designed for both hobby and commercial purposes, both state and non-state actors are employing small UASs as force multipliers to create a multitude of effects with constantly evolving technology and tactics. They can provide enemies increased surveillance and

standoff or penetrating attack capabilities. Joint force planners should understand how to utilize material and nonmaterial means to construct a layered defense to mitigate small UAS threats. This should be done in a synchronized and in-depth manner and should address both risks of small UAS observation and targeting, as well as mitigating effects of weaponized small UASs. Additional considerations include how terrain, the environment, EMI, and enemy capabilities might degrade a counter-UAS capability.

For more information on countering small UASs, refer to JP 3-01, Joint Countering Air and Missile Threats, and Army Techniques Publication 3-01.15/Marine Corps Tactical Publication 10-10B/Navy Tactics, Techniques, and Procedures 3-01.8/Air Force Tactics, Techniques, and Procedures 3-2.31, Multi-Service Tactics, Techniques, and Procedures for Air and Missile Defense.

(16) Identify and Neutralize Insider Threats. Insider threats (sometimes referred to as “blue-on-blue,” “green-on-blue,” or “inside-the-wire” threats) may include active shooters, bombers, spies, and other threats embedded within or working with US forces. These threats are typically persons with authorized access who use that access to commit, wittingly or unwittingly, a variety of illicit actions against friendly force personnel, equipment, facilities, and information. Countering these threats involves coordinating and sharing information among security, CO personnel, CI, law enforcement, and other personnel and staff. I2 and all-source analysis support the identification of insider threats. The joint force security coordinator establishes procedures to counter insider threats across the joint force.

For further guidance on countering insider threats, see JP 3-10, Joint Security Operations in Theater. For more information on I2 activities, see JP 2-0, Joint Intelligence, and JP 3-25, Joint Countering Threat Networks.

f. FHP complements force protection efforts and includes all measures taken by the JFC and the Military Health System to promote, improve, or conserve the behavioral and physical well-being of DOD personnel. These capabilities enable a healthy and fit force, prevent injury and illness, and protect the force from health hazards. FHP functions include casualty prevention, preventive medicine, health surveillance, combat and operational stress control, preventive dentistry, vision readiness, hearing conservation, laboratory services, and veterinary services. The JFC is responsible for allocating adequate capabilities to identify health threats and implement appropriate FHP measures. Health threats are a composite of ongoing or potential hostile actions; occupational, environmental, geographical, and meteorological conditions; diseases (infectious and noninfectious); and the employment of CBRN weapons or agents that reduce the effectiveness of military forces. A robust health surveillance system is essential to FHP measures. Health surveillance includes identifying the population at risk; identifying and assessing hazardous exposures; employing specific countermeasures to eliminate or mitigate exposures; and monitoring and reporting battle injury, disease, and nonbattle injury trends and other health outcomes. Health surveillance includes veterinary services. Occupational and environmental health surveillance enhances the joint force’s ability to limit combat and operational stress casualties and all categories of injuries, including

combat and operational stress, those related to exposure to CBRN, and/or explosive hazards. Joint forces may operate in remote and austere locations beyond the operational reach of the standard Military Health System. These forces require FHP and health service support from medical personnel to provide routine health care and treat injuries and illnesses for extended periods prior to medical evacuation. They may also have to rely on foreign military or civilian health systems indigenous to their OA.

Refer to JP 4-02, Joint Health Services, for further guidance on FHP.

g. Protection of Civilians. In general, persons who are neither associated with an armed force nor otherwise engaged in hostilities are civilians and have protected status under the law of war.

(1) It is US policy that members of the DOD components comply with the law of war during armed conflict, however characterized. In all other military operations, military members of the DOD components will continue to act consistent with the law of war's fundamental principles and rules. Such compliance includes taking measures to protect civilians. In addition, the accountability, credibility, and legitimacy of a joint operation; the success of the overarching mission; and the achievement of US strategic objectives depends on the joint forces' ability to minimize harm to civilians in the course of their own operations and, potentially, their ability to mitigate harm to arising from the actions of other parties. Strategic objectives often involve strengthening security, stability, and civilian well-being.

(2) Protection of civilians may be the primary purpose of a mission or a supporting task. Protection of civilians from deliberate attack as a strategic or operational imperative is distinct from the legal obligations of US forces to minimize harm to civilians during the conduct of operations. Effective protection of civilians depends on a command climate that emphasizes its importance and commanders who can make timely and appropriate decisions based on critical situations on the ground. Joint forces' planning must have in place ROE that account for protection of civilians.

(3) Civilian casualty mitigation directly affects the success of the overall mission. Even tactical actions can have strategic and second-order effects. Minimizing and addressing civilian casualty incidents support strategic imperatives and are also at the heart of the profession of arms. Failure to minimize civilian casualties can undermine national policy objectives and the mission of joint forces while assisting the enemy. Civilian casualties can incite increased opposition to joint forces. Focused attention on civilian casualty mitigation can be an important investment to maintain legitimacy and accomplish the mission.

See Department of Defense Law of War Manual regarding obligations for the protection of civilians.

8. Sustainment

a. Sustainment is the provision of logistics and personnel services support to maintain operations through mission accomplishment and redeployment of the force. Sustainment gives the JFC the means for freedom of action and endurance and to extend operational reach. Sustainment enables the JFC to seize, retain, and exploit the initiative. The sustainment function includes tasks to:

(1) Coordinate the supply of food, operational energy (fuel and other energy requirements), arms, munitions, and equipment.

(2) Provide for maintenance of equipment.

(3) Coordinate and provide base operations support for forces, including field services; personnel services support; health services; mortuary affairs; religious support (RS); postal support; morale, welfare, and recreational support; financial support; and legal services.

(4) Build and maintain contingency bases.

(5) Assess, repair, and maintain infrastructure.

(6) Acquire, manage, and distribute funds.

(7) Provide common-user logistics support to other USG departments and agencies, international organizations, NGOs, other nations, and contractors as authorized by their contracts.

(8) Establish and coordinate movement services.

(9) Establish large-scale detention compounds and sustain enduring detainee operations.

b. JFCs should identify sustainment capabilities during planning. Sustainment should be a priority consideration for the timed-phased force and deployment data (TPFDD). Sustainment provides JFCs with the flexibility to develop branches and sequels and to refocus joint force efforts. Given mission objectives and adversary threats, the ultimate goal is to execute a feasible, supportable, and efficient CONOPS that takes into account the threat and defense of logistical forces. Before developing contingency plans, CCMDs develop a theater logistics analysis, theater logistics overview, and distribution plan to provide detailed mobility and distribution analysis to ensure enough capacity or planned enhanced capability is available to support the CCP.

c. **Logistics** is planning and executing the movement and support of forces. It concerns the integration of strategic, operational, and tactical support efforts within the theater while scheduling the mobilization and movement of forces and equipment to support the JFC's CONOPS. The relative combat power that military forces can generate

against an enemy is a function of the nation's capability and capacity to plan for, gain access to, and deliver forces and equipment to the point of application. Logistics covers the following core functions: supply, maintenance, deployment and distribution, joint health services, logistic services, engineering, and OCS. In association with these functions, logistics includes aspects of military operations that deal with:

(1) Materiel acquisition, receipt, storage, movement, distribution, maintenance, evacuation, and disposition.

(2) In-transit visibility and asset visibility.

(3) Common-user logistics support to other USG departments and agencies, international organizations, NGOs, other nations, and contractors as authorized by their contracts.

(4) Overseeing logistic services (food, water, and ice; contingency basing; and hygiene).

(5) OCS (contract support integration, contracting support, and contractor management).

(6) Disposal operations.

(7) Engineering support (combat engineering, general engineering, geospatial engineering).

(8) Facility and infrastructure acquisition, construction, maintenance, operation, and disposition.

(9) The supervision of infrastructure assessment, repairs, and maintenance.

(10) Detention compounds (establish and sustain large scale to support enduring detainee operations).

(11) HNS.

(12) Personnel movement, including patient movement, evacuation, and hospitalization.

d. **Personnel services** are sustainment functions provided to personnel rather than to systems and equipment. Personnel services complement logistics by planning for and coordinating efforts that provide and sustain personnel during joint operations. Thorough planning and comprehensive personnel management enable the JFC to identify and recommend allocating the right forces to achieve objectives.

For further guidance on logistic support, refer to JP 4-0, Joint Logistics. For further guidance on personnel services, refer to JP 1-0, Joint Personnel Support. For further

guidance on legal support, refer to JP 3-84, Legal Support. For further guidance on religious affairs, refer to JP 3-33, Joint Force Headquarters, and Joint Guide 1-05, Religious Affairs in Joint Operations. For further guidance on financial management support, refer to JP 3-80, Resource Management. For further guidance on OCS, refer to JP 4-10, Operational Contract Support; DODI 3020.41, Operational Contract Support (OCS); and CJCSM 4301.01, Planning Operational Contract Support.

e. Key Considerations

(1) **Employment of Logistic Forces.** For some operations, logistic forces may be employed in quantities disproportionate to their normal military roles and in nonstandard tasks. Further, logistic forces may precede other military forces or be the only forces deployed. Logistic forces may also continue to support other military personnel and civilians after the departure of combat forces. Such cases require that they be familiar with and adhere to applicable status-of-forces agreements and acquisition and cross-service agreements to which the United States is a party. Given the potential complexity of OEs and the specialized nature and unique authorities required, logistic forces familiarize themselves with and adhere to legal, regulatory, and diplomatic/political restraints governing US involvement in operations such as FHA.

(2) **Protection.** Logistics forces, like all other forces, are capable of self-defense, particularly if they deploy alone or in advance of other military forces. However, the JFC should view combat and logistics forces as a unit with a seamless mission and objective and balance the allocation of security resources accordingly in support of the JFC's mission.

(3) **Facilities.** JFCs should plan for the early acquisition (leasing) of real estate and facilities and bases for temporary occupancy or if the HN provides inadequate or no property. Early acquisition of facilities can be critical to the flow of forces. The use of automated planning tools can help forecast construction labor, machinery, and equipment requirements in support of the JFC's contingency basing plan.

(4) **Environmental Considerations.** Environmental considerations are broader than just the protection of the environment and environmental stewardship. They also include continuously integrating the FHP, CMO, and other more operationally focused environmental considerations that affect US military forces and objectives. Military operations do not generally focus on environmental compliance and environmental protection. While complete protection of the environment is not always possible due to competition with threats to the mission, JFCs protect the environment in which US military forces operate to the greatest extent. Commanders comply with the command guidance on environmental considerations specified in the plan or order and included in unit SOPs. Environmental considerations link directly to risk management and the safety and health of Service members. Commanders should clearly and accurately communicate all significant risks of deploying DOD personnel to the chain of command. Environmental considerations, risk management, and health risk communication are enabling elements for the commander and an essential part of military planning, training, and operations. While

complete protection of the environment during military operations may not always be possible, careful planning should address environmental considerations in joint operations, including legal aspects.

For additional guidance on environmental considerations, refer to DODI 4715.19, Use of Open-Air Burn Pits in Contingency Operations; DODI 4715.22, Environmental Management Policy for Contingency Locations; JP 3-34, Joint Engineer Operations; and JP 4-02, Joint Health Services.

(5) **Operational Energy.** Operational energy resources like bulk fuel and electricity coupled with renewable energy resources provide power to the joint force during the conduct of operations. The availability of renewable and rechargeable energy resources enables the joint force to operate in austere and contested environments. Furthermore, the efficient management of operational energy resources may increase the operational reach, sustainability, and availability of combat forces for a variety of missions.

(6) **Nonstandard Logistics.** Nonstandard logistics supports joint operations beyond the capabilities, authorities, and/or operational reach of standard logistics organizations. Joint forces may require nonstandard logistics when they are operating in austere and remote locations, or in a clandestine mode, or providing logistic support to foreign irregular forces. Logisticians providing such support remain cognizant of standard logistics principles, such as supply chain management, but they adapt existing tactics, techniques, and procedures, or develop new ones, to meet the operational requirements of the supported forces. These operational requirements may include higher levels of OPSEC; procurement, manufacture, or maintenance of locally available materiel; and nonstandard contracting, storage, funding, and distribution mechanisms.

(7) **Joint Health Services.** Joint health service support includes all support and services performed, provided, and arranged to promote, improve, conserve, or restore the behavioral and physical well-being of military personnel. Joint health service support also includes casualty care, which encompasses a number of health service support functions that occur at all levels of command: casualty management, patient movement, medical treatment (organic and area support), medical evacuation, hospitalization, medical logistics, blood management, and health information management. Joint health services also include the management of health service resources, such as human resources, funding, and facilities. CDRs are responsible for joint health services of forces assigned or attached to their command and should establish joint health services policies and programs. When supporting stabilization, efforts should support development and restoration of local medical capabilities and services. Commanders should avoid providing care as a replacement for or as a supplement to local capabilities whenever possible.

(a) Actions to obtain health threat information begin before deployment and continue as forces deploy. Disease and injuries can quickly diminish combat effectiveness and have a greater impact on operations when the forces employed are small and dispersed.

(b) The early introduction of preventive medicine and veterinary services personnel or units and public health measures into the theater helps protect US forces from diseases and nonbattle injuries. It also permits a thorough assessment of the health threat to and operational requirements of the mission. Operational public health support includes education and training on personal hygiene and field sanitation, personal protective measures, epidemiological investigations, immunization programs, pest management, and inspection of water sources and supplies. For maximum effectiveness, public health support should be provided to as many personnel as possible within the OA. Public health support to US forces and unified action partners also includes analyzing the complexities of epidemiologic interactions between disease-causing organisms, their reservoirs, and hosts in different geographic, climatologic, and cultural settings. In addition to US forces, preventive medicine should include multinational forces, HN civilians, and dislocated civilians to the greatest feasible extent. JFCs and joint force surgeons shall identify legal constraints unique to the OE and intended recipient of services. The JFC and staff should review issues such as eligibility of beneficiaries, reimbursement for supplies and human resources, and provisions of legal agreements and other laws applicable to the theater.

(c) Medical and rehabilitative care provides essential care in the OA and rapid evacuation to definitive care facilities without sacrificing the quality of care. It encompasses care provided from the point of illness or injury through rehabilitative care.

For further guidance on health services, refer to JP 4-02, Joint Health Services. For further guidance on procedures for deployment health activities, refer to DODI 6490.03, Deployment Health.

(8) **HNS.** JFCs interact with the HN government to establish procedures to request support and negotiate support terms. Logistic planners should analyze the HN economic capacity to supplement the logistic support to the US or multinational forces and identify and limit adverse effects on the HN economy. Accordingly, early mission analysis should identify distribution requirements. The JFC should collaborate with the HN government on analysis for support infrastructure regarding anticipated needs. The systems analysis should evaluate airfields, seaports, rail and road networks, and energy infrastructure, particularly in underdeveloped countries where their status is questionable. Delaying this systems analysis can diminish the flow of strategic lift assets into the region. Additional support forces may build or improve the supporting infrastructure to facilitate follow-on force closure, as well as the delivery of humanitarian cargo.

(9) **OCS.** Logistics support can occur through contracts with commercial entities inside and outside the OA. Most joint operations require a level of contracted support. Certain contracted items or services could be essential to deploying, sustaining, and redeploying joint forces effectively. OCS is the process of planning and obtaining supplies, services, and construction from commercial sources in support of joint operations. OCS is a multi-faceted joint activity executed by the CCMD and subordinate JFCs through boards, centers, working groups, and associated lead Service or joint theater support contracting-related activities. It includes the ability to plan, orchestrate, and synchronize the provision of contract support integration, contracting support, and contractor management.

For further information on OCS, refer to JP 4-10, Operational Contract Support; DODI 3020.41, Operational Contract Support (OCS); and CJCSM 4301.01, Planning Operational Contract Support.

For more details, see CJCSM 3130.03, Planning and Execution Formats and Guidance.

(10) **Disposal Operations.** Disposal of equipment, parts, and other materials, as well as all waste streams generated by military forces, needs to be a consideration throughout planning and operations. Inadequate understanding and application of disposal regulations, policies, and procedures may result in adversaries obtaining items to use against US forces, allies, and the public. It may also result in negative consequences for the health of military forces and local populace, the local environment, operational readiness and effectiveness, and disposal costs. Defense Logistics Agency Disposition Services provide support to CCDR's component commands with reutilization, demilitarization, and disposal of equipment, property, materials, and hazardous waste. Component commands are responsible for the proper, safe, and legal disposal of all other waste streams, such as medical/biological waste, human waste, refuse, and radioactive items, IAW DOD, Service, and theater-specific directives and procedures. Commanders can be legally and financially culpable for disposal and remediation costs if disposal operations violate US law or international law. Commanders follow regulations such as DOD or Service directives, or theater-specific procedures, to avoid harm to personnel, the public, and the environment, to the extent practicable.

(11) **Legal Support.** Legal support is important across all joint functions. Many decisions and actions have potential legal implications. The JFC's staff judge advocate (SJA) and command legal advisors provide the full spectrum of legal support during all joint operations through direct and reachback capabilities. A key member of the JFC's personal staff, the SJA provides legal advice regarding the laws, regulations, policies, treaties, and agreements that affect joint operations. Legal advisors actively participate in the planning process from mission analysis to execution, an essential function given the complexity of the OE. Legal advisors also advise on fiscal activities, international law, and many other factors that can affect operations, including identifying legal issues that affect operational limitations. Further, the JFC should integrate HN legal personnel into the legal command staff as soon as practical to obtain guidance on unique HN legal practices and customs.

Refer to JP 3-84, Legal Support, for more detailed information and guidance on legal support.

(12) **Religious Affairs.** The JOA requires both the provision of RS and advisement of the impact of religion upon operations, morale, and ethics. The JFC's RS team provides required capabilities directly and virtually. As a member of the JFC's personal staff, the chaplain advises the commander on morals, ethics, and religion as they pertain to the OE and the joint force.

For more information on religious affairs, see JP 3-33, Joint Force Headquarters, and Joint Guide 1-05, Religious Affairs in Joint Operations.

(13) **Financial Management.** Financial management encompasses resource management and financial support. The joint force comptroller provides the elements of finance operations. Resource management normally consists of costing functions and leveraging fund sources. Finance operations provide funds to contract and limited pay support. The joint force comptroller's management of these elements provides the JFC with many capabilities, from contracting and banking support to cost capturing and fund control. Financial management support for contracting, subsistence, billeting, transportation, communications, labor, and a myriad of other supplies and services, particularly in austere environments, can enable mission accomplishment.

Refer to JP 3-80, Resource Management, for more detailed information and guidance on financial management support.

CHAPTER IV

ORGANIZING AND PRACTICING GLOBAL INTEGRATION

1. Understanding the Operational Environment

a. The joint force campaigns in a complex, volatile, security environment characterized by contested norms and persistent disorder. National security threats are transregional, all-domain, and multifunctional. Since each threat presents unique challenges, the dilemmas caused by one event impact others, often with no regard for distance and time. As threats gain access to advanced capabilities and contest US advantages, competition and armed conflict are increasingly occurring across multiple AORs and throughout the physical domains (land, maritime, air, and space), the IE (which includes cyberspace), and the EMOE. These realities have eroded the US competitive military advantage while global demand for the joint force continues to exceed resources.

b. As adversaries enhance their ability to compete at levels below armed conflict, they become more adept at opposing US security goals by using nonmilitary means and manipulating popular perceptions. For example, our adversaries are using commercial capabilities to gain strategic advantage and compete below armed conflict. Adversarial use of these capabilities, such as controlling key physical infrastructure and cyberspace infrastructure, can limit US flexibility, limit freedom of maneuver, and erode US influence. Adversaries can present increasingly complex challenges by operating across regions, domains, and functions in which the United States was once unchallenged. This shift, along with adversaries' increasing willingness to employ coercive measures that remain below the threshold of armed conflict, has resulted in a contested international order, challenges to established norms, and alternative views of reality. This situation underlines the importance of activities in the IE. To remain vigilant, civilian and military leaders must understand political and cultural drivers behind competing for strategic narratives to provide early warnings, as well as to gain an overall sense of the competition surrounding US interests.

c. The joint force exercises multifunctional integration across Service components to protect and enable each other's unique capabilities (involving C2, information, intelligence, fires, movement and maneuver, protection, and sustainment) to maximize outcomes. Commanders integrate the joint functional attributes and expertise from across all the CCMDs to achieve unity of effort.

d. **Aspects of the OE.** Physical, informational, and human aspects help describe the interactions that take place in an environment of cooperation, competition, and armed conflict. Physical aspects reflect and influence critical elements of group identity and frame how groups and communities form. Informational aspects reflect and influence how populations interact and communicate with each other and among themselves. Human aspects drive behavior and actions in a particular way. Understanding the interplay between the physical, informational, and human aspects provides a unified view of the OE.

(1) **Physical Aspects.** Beyond just the physical terrain, these reflect how the material characteristics of the OE, both natural and manufactured, create constraints on and

freedoms for the people and information systems that operate in it. They are critical elements of group identity and frame how ethnic groupings and communities form. Additionally, physical aspects enhance or inhibit how people exchange information.

(2) Informational Aspects. Informational aspects reflect the ways individuals, information systems, and groups communicate and exchange information within the OE. An observer uses these features and details of activities to interpret and assign meaning. They include (but are not limited to) timing, platforms, location, and duration. Informational aspects derived from sensory inputs that are physical in nature are generally more impactful. All campaigns' operations, activities, and investments create effects in the IE. Such inherent informational aspects or effects of military actions occur whether the joint force intends to create them. Simply because something can be done does not mean that it should be done. In the strategic environment, CCDRs consider how to use operations, actions, and investments to pursue policy aims while maximizing positive effects.

(3) Human Aspects. All actions create effects in the IE as people perceive actions and respond to them based on their individual or group perceptions. For this reason, understanding, anticipating, and influencing human behavior through nonlethal means may provide desirable alternatives to lethal options. Human aspects influence how people perceive, process, and act upon information by affecting how the human mind applies meaning to information. They reflect the worldview through which relevant actors perceive situations, identify appropriate behaviors, and make decisions, as well as how they interact with each other and their environment. Social, cultural, linguistic, and psychological elements interact with the information and physical environments to evolve this worldview and shape human behavior. Actions that are legal and appropriate for their primary purpose may result in provocative and inappropriate unintended effects in the human dimension.

e. A Systems Perspective

(1) The OE is a set of complex, dynamic, and adaptive political, military, economic, social, information, and infrastructure systems, each exerting pressure and influence on the other (see Figure IV-1). The nature and interaction of these systems affect how the commander plans, organizes, and conducts joint operations. The JFC's international partners and other civilian participants regularly focus on systems other than the military, so the JFC and staff should understand these systems and how military operations affect them. Equally important is understanding how elements in other systems can help or hinder the JFC's mission. A shared understanding among stakeholders involved in the operation can influence actions beyond the JFC's directive authority and promote a unified approach to achieve objectives. For example, global corporations maintain global presence, unique capabilities, and influence throughout the OE. DOD must often compete with interagency partners, multinational forces, NGOs, the local populace, civil commerce, and enemy and/or adversaries for commercial capacity. Commercial capabilities are also vulnerable to enemy and/or adversary disruption as well as market factors.

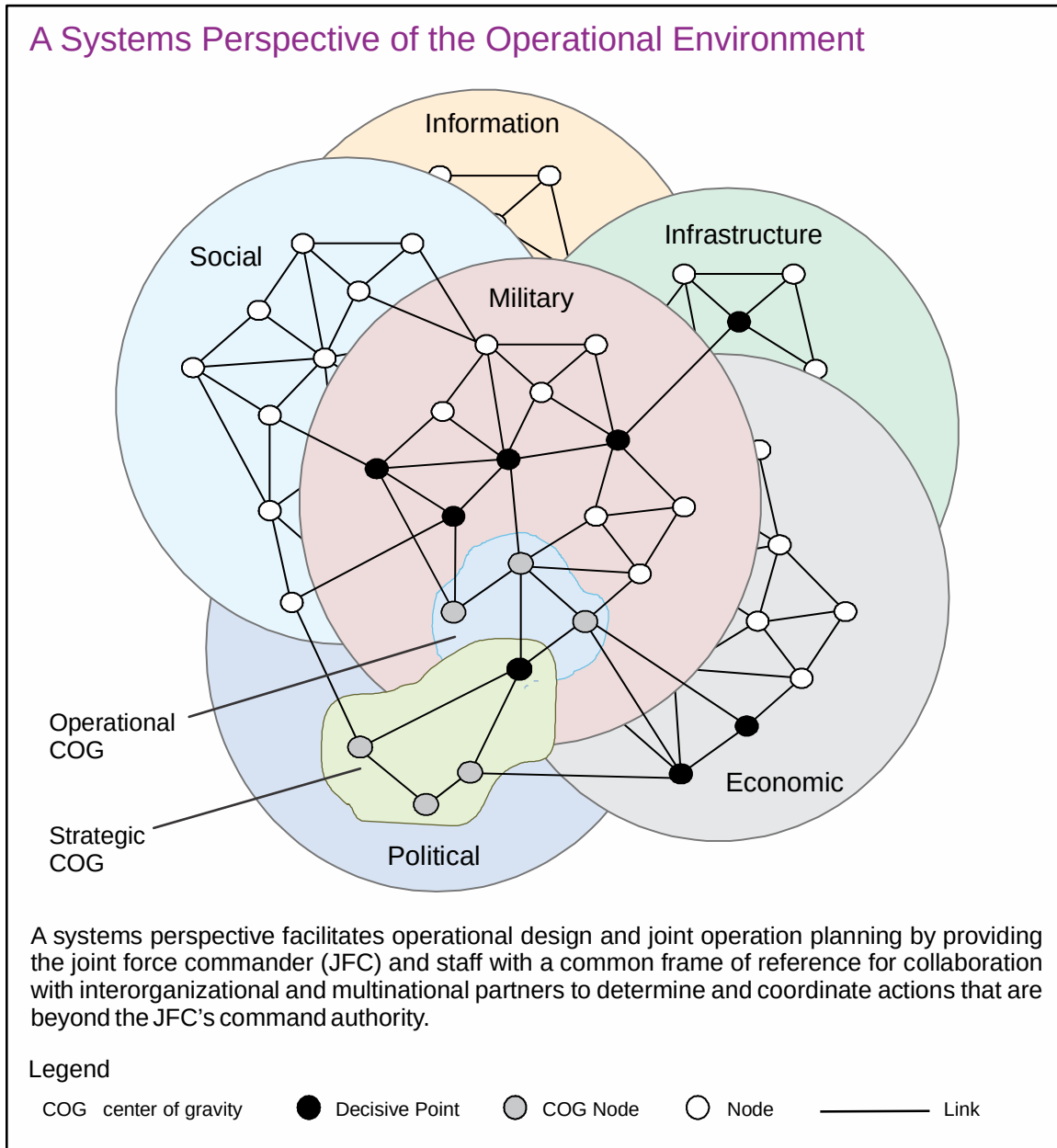


Figure IV-1. A Systems Perspective of the Operational Environment

(2) Understanding sociopolitical systems within an OE and how the systems interact and change increases the JFC's knowledge of actions within a system and can explain causal links between actions and effects. Planners develop and leverage the perspective of competitors within these systems that influence the OE. Among other benefits, this perspective helps intelligence analysts identify potential sources of warning intelligence and facilitates understanding the continuous and complex interaction of friendly, adversary, enemy, and neutral systems, while identifying critical nodes and vulnerabilities. A networked approach enables success in confronting problem sets and

addressing them comprehensively. Understanding competitors and how they relate to each other helps identify potential levers to influence their behavior.

(3) An understanding of the OE builds through cross-functional participation. The joint force staff collaborates with various intelligence organizations, USG departments and agencies, local partners, and nongovernmental entities. The JFC should consider the best way to manage or support this cross-functional effort, typically led by the J-2 through the JIPOE process. A variety of factors, including planning time available, affect the fidelity of a systems perspective.

(4) Network analysis and network engagement can build upon a systems perspective by providing additional understanding of relationships among actors, particularly in OEs or when dealing with networked threat environments. Network engagement can provide a framework for understanding the interrelationships and motivations of groups and networks. Network analysis also facilitates identification of significant information that might otherwise go unnoticed. This insight can include uncovering unrecognized positions of power within related groups, accounting for structure and organization, finding individuals or nodes who are critical, and facilitating measuring change over time. It can also help identify primary and secondary impacts across networks and can help synchronize interactions, engagement, and targeting across mission areas to avoid or minimize conflicts. Once the JFC identifies the networks in the OE and understands their interrelationships, functions, motivations, and vulnerabilities, the commander can tailor the force to apply the most effective tools to engage neutral networks and counter the threat.

For further guidance on the use of a systems perspective in operational design and joint planning, refer to JP 5-0, Joint Planning. For additional information on network engagement, see JP 3-25, Joint Countering Threat Networks.

2. Global Integration

a. Global integration enables DOD leadership to provide advice, make timely decisions, and inform operational priorities and institutional investment choices across CCMDs and multiple time horizons. Global integration requires a global perspective organized around and against priority challenges with global campaigns and a posture to execute contingency plans associated with each challenge. Within each GCP, CCDRs use broad mission areas to structure how CCMDs can execute each global campaign. Within each mission area of a global campaign, the joint force executes subordinate operations, activities, and investments to address specific aspects of the priority challenges. The result of integration is effective joint campaigns and operations employing cohesive military actions arranged across time and multiple AORs to achieve strategic objectives and balance strategic risk.

b. Competition between great powers encompasses the physical domains, the IE (which includes cyberspace), and the EMOE. This approach is necessary to address the threats that comprise the contemporary strategic environment. Competition manifested by malign influence and antagonistic behaviors has emerged as a central challenge to the joint

force. Achieving strategic objectives requires the joint force to execute actions with a global perspective, integrate joint functions across geographic boundaries and all domains, and align the campaigning effort with interagency, multinational, and other interorganizational partners. Campaigning is how the joint force integrates and balances across time and AORs to achieve the objectives of military strategy within acceptable risk. Global campaign planning occurs at the JS and CCMD levels. Global campaigns occur across the competition continuum.

c. GCPs are identified in the JSCP and based on strategic guidance. The global campaigns address the priority challenges identified in the national strategy. They integrate joint force actions across geographic AOR boundaries and global missions. The CJCS also addresses specific functional and regional challenges that span across geographic boundaries, the physical domains, the IE (which includes cyberspace), and the EMOE. GCPs address threats and challenges requiring coordination across multiple CCMDs.

d. The joint force most often operates between peace and war. The competition continuum (discussed further in Chapter V, “The Competition Continuum”) is a series of overlapping states of cooperation, competition, and armed conflict to distinguish strategic relationships between actors. In practice, commanders spend most of the time executing campaign requirements within the cooperation and competition portions of the competition continuum. Accomplishing global integration requires the joint force to employ a top-down, CJCS-led approach that integrates planning, prioritizes resources, mitigates risk, and assesses joint force progress toward strategic objectives for SecDef.

e. The joint force can achieve global integration when the following conditions are met:

(1) Civilian and military leaders make timely decisions at the speed required to outpace adversaries. Decision making requires a common intelligence picture and a shared understanding of global force posture to see operations in real time; identify opportunities to seize the initiative; and identify trade-offs, risk, and opportunity costs. Automation, preplanned responses, and mission command are essential to act at the required speed of relevance.

(2) Civilian and military leaders coordinate and nest military actions within a whole-of-government approach and include our allies and PNs in global campaigns. In an environment where requirements exceed inventory, force posture must reinforce our strength, agility, and resilience across regions and throughout the OE. Once committed, civilian and military leaders must rapidly confront enemies and adversaries, understand global tradeoffs across CCMDs, and communicate risk with a global vice regional perspective.

f. The CJCS provides clear options with acceptable global risk in the form of military advice to SecDef that prioritizes GCPs and CCPs. SecDef gains an understanding of risk through this process as guidance is prepared.

g. The practice of global integration continuously informs decision making across planning, force management and employment, and force development and design. Achieving global integration requires the combination of the Services and CCMDs to provide precise and timely global military solutions in support of national policy objectives. A comprehensive body of assessments provides a firm analytical foundation for this process.

h. Adversaries compete with increased efforts short of armed conflict, violating the principle of sovereignty, exploiting ambiguity, and blurring the lines between civil and military goals. The joint force anticipates the adversary's actions and leverages multiple CCMDs' support.

i. Global Force Management (GFM) and Dynamic Force Employment Framework

(1) The GFM process aligns force apportionment, assignment, allocation, and readiness methodologies in support of strategic guidance and force availability. This strategic guidance validates CCDR requirements and allocates accordingly. These requirements include forces identified for contingency campaigns and necessary to support the execution of the global campaigns.

(2) The GFM process provides insight into the global posture of forces and the availability of forces and capabilities for plans and operations. This insight provides senior decision makers with a construct to assess impacts and risks associated with proposed changes to posture and employment. GFM balances current demands with readiness recovery to enable the force to execute contingency campaigns and improve performance through force development. CCMDs execute their corresponding campaigns based on the forces allocated through GFM. Additionally, contractors may comprise a portion of the deployed force. They are not part of the GFM processes and do not report readiness. It is essential to integrate them in planning and risk assessments as required by DODI 3000.12, *Management of US Global Defense Posture (GDP)*. Commercial capabilities (infrastructure, services, and associated personnel) align with organic posture elements (footprint, agreements, and forces) and may enable or optimize each element.

(3) Global and contingency campaigns use current posture and force levels due to the long timeline required to make posture adjustments. Force posture incorporates expected future risk, campaign requirements, and force design. Optimizing posture requires incorporating appropriate future scenario development that accounts for both observed and anticipated shifts in friendly, partner, and adversary capabilities.

(4) The CJCS directs the JS to manage the JS's global integration process; coordinate dynamic force employment; and enable oversight, review, and refinement of the enduring global campaigns during execution. Dynamic force employment is one of DOD's force employment initiatives for competition with primary threat challengers to assure allies, counter coercive gradualism, and deter armed conflict. The joint force plans and executes dynamic force employment in the context of ongoing global campaigns.

Civilian and military leaders seek to execute dynamic force employment to take advantage of strategic opportunities. These opportunities recognize chances or DAs to change the strategic environment in the United States' favor in terms of influence, position, or leverage. The potential gain or achievement offered by the strategic opportunity might require additional resources; a change of force disposition; a change of narrative, theme, or message; or a change to the joint force's task and purpose. Operationally, dynamic force employment presents a global and all-domain challenge to an adversary. An effective dynamic force employment activity may have the strategic effect of establishing initiative, complicating or changing adversarial decision making relative to a specific contested interest, demonstrating strategic agility and flexibility, or inducing strategic or operational tempo. CCDRs employ forces in combination with strategic messaging, cyberspace, space, and special access capabilities to compete globally.

(5) Dynamic Force Employment Cycle

(a) Iterations of dynamic force employment within a GCP have emerging cycles. Successful iterations of dynamic force employment have patterns where CCDRs begin by continuously observing the environment in the context of evaluating their campaign's progress. CCDRs and staff determine the emerging trends relative to the current state of their campaigns and principal narratives. They also identify what unforeseen activities have emerged. Civilian and military leaders then decide what narratives and objectives need adjustment or reinforcement. Next, CCDRs determine opportunities to advance campaign objectives, reinforce narratives, and gain or maintain relative advantage through agile joint campaigns and operations. In the initial formulation of dynamic force employment, CCDRs consider these questions:

1. Why is this circumstance an opportunity (cost/benefit)?
2. How will exploiting it reinforce narratives and advance objectives?
3. Will exploiting this opportunity improve US strategic or operational leverage?
4. What is the potential intelligence loss/gain?
5. What limitations should we conceal/reveal?
6. What are the (opportunity) risks in doing/not doing it?

(b) CCDRs then consider military options in context with other instruments of national power. They identify ways/means to exploit the opportunity (e.g., COAs). Then CCDRs determine if dynamic force employment is the optimal choice. CCDRs should decide how the dynamic force employment nests in their campaign by explaining the implications to the overall campaign strategy. Next, they determine the forces, capabilities, authorities, and support required for execution, collection, and assessment. CCDRs identify the required forces beyond currently assigned and allocated forces and the

required support. Then CCDRs choose the best COA. On many occasions, CCDRs request force augmentation as required. In refining the request, CCDRs should ask these questions:

1. How long does the commander need the force to create the effect?
2. How will the CCMD employ the force?
3. What are the key indicators and collection requirements?
4. How will the CCCR know that the dynamic force employment did or did not work? (Metrics to assess success.)
5. What are the anticipated adversary reactions/responses? What are the options to modify or reinforce the dynamic force employment?

(c) Upon approval, the CCCR makes the necessary preparations to employ the force and implement appropriate messaging. During execution of the dynamic force employment, CCDRs ensure all necessary mechanisms are in place and aligned. Once in transition, the CCDRs continue to observe the “new” environment. They determine what has changed due to the action in the context of what the CCCR anticipated. Next, CCDRs determine if the operation was successful (MOPs/MOEs). Finally, CCDRs decide how to follow through on the dynamic force employment’s impact on the OE.

3. Joint Strategic Campaign Plan

a. The JSCP fulfills the CJCS’s statutory responsibilities in Title 10, USC, Section 153, to assist the President and SecDef in providing for the strategic direction of the Armed Forces of the United States. The JSCP provides the framework for military direction to the joint force, implementing and augmenting the President’s and SecDef’s guidance found in the NSS, UCP, CPG, and NDS, and in the CJCS’s guidance in the NMS. The JSCP provides guidance for CCMDs, Services, the JS, and DOD agencies to prepare campaign and contingency plans and establishes a common set of processes, products, roles, and responsibilities to globally integrate the operations, activities, and investments of the joint force. The CCDRs then operationalize and execute the campaign plan. The JSCP establishes a common set of processes, products, priorities, roles, and responsibilities to integrate the joint force’s global operations, activities, and investments across the competition continuum.

b. There are three types of campaign plans: GCPs, FCPs, and CCPs.

(1) GCPs are an integral part of the revised JSPS. The JS develops and maintains the GCPs for SecDef approval. GCPs address threats and challenges that significantly affect US interests across the globe and require coordinated planning across all, or nearly all, CCMDs. The JSCP identifies GCPs based on guidance in the NDS and NMS. GCPs are the centerpiece of global integration and form the base of the JSCP.

(2) FCPs address functional threats or challenges that are unbound geographically but require coordination across multiple CCMDs. The CJCS directs FCP planning through the JSCP or a planning order to CCMDs.

(3) The CCPs are the primary means through which the CCMDs collaboratively develop operations, activities, and investments within their UCP-assigned mission/AOR. CCMDs' execution of CCPs orient on functional/theater objectives in support of objectives directed by GCPs and, as applicable, FCPs.

c. The JSCP integrates the global campaigns by balancing capabilities between campaign and contingency plans for resources and risks. This balancing effort ensures global campaigns and their associated contingencies link with each other. The JSCP also directs contingency planning consistent with the CPG. It expands on the CPG with specific objectives, tasks, and linkages between campaign and contingency plans. The JSCP directs, and the CJCS further integrates, contingency plans within an ICP. Additionally, the JSCP delineates support plans to foster joint force collaboration and coordination across time and space. The coordinating authority assigns a joint force organization as a collaborator that supports integrated planning. Where campaign plans support enduring requirements, contingency plans support operations that react to crisis scenarios, hypothetical situations for designated threats, catastrophic events, and contingent missions outside of crisis conditions. Campaign and contingency plans are not prepared or executed in isolation from each other. Campaign plans develop the integrated deterrence, assurance, and support activities that attempt to prevent contingencies from happening and establish conditions to respond should deterrence fail.

4. Global Campaigning

a. The joint force campaigns across the competition continuum. GCPs and CCPs encompass concurrent and related operations, activities, and investments to achieve operational-level objectives that support achievement of strategic objectives. In concert with other instruments of national power, these actions not only maintain or achieve strategic objectives but also anticipate a future beyond those objectives. The actions include many Service component operations, joint operations, and continual alignment of military actions with interorganizational and multinational partners.

b. Policy drives campaigning to pursue strategic objectives that are broad, transregional, and global, requiring many more parallel actions and substantially more diverse operational-level objectives. Campaigning is the result of strategic discussion, policy, and operational-level planning and execution. An effective and continual civilian-military dialogue guides the process, ensuring integration between military operations within DOD and alignment with other USG departments and agencies. Campaigning in pursuit of GCP and CCP objectives occurs over many years. The President and SecDef determine when GCPs or CCPs require revision.

c. Across the competition continuum, cooperation can require the employment of numerous smaller military and nonmilitary efforts implemented and adjusted over long

durations. For competition, success can require efforts to accomplish an array of diverse activities across numerous OAs to gain influence, advantage, and leverage.

d. For global campaigning, success may be measured in the prevention of armed conflict. However, success in armed conflict may require an overlapping series of campaigns characterized with multiple iterations of enemy and friendly offensives, counteroffensives, and transitions. Throughout armed conflict, commanders have to confront and endure surprise and failure. In the aftermath of armed conflict, senior military and civilian officials may direct joint forces to enforce the resulting military success through a continued occupation of seized territory. JFCs continue supporting efforts to ensure enemy compliance and maintain the strategic objectives after the transition of an area to civil authority.

5. Global Campaign Considerations

a. Global campaigning requires additional considerations. While the elements of operational design remain valid for all planning, this discussion elaborates on the issue of global campaigns as enduring efforts that require an expanded perspective and array of considerations.

b. Collectively, the array of considerations run throughout planning, execution, assessment, and refinement. These considerations facilitate the link between the strategy and the implementation and conduct of global campaign or required changes. These considerations orient on outcomes beyond just military success, while recognizing that national guidance continually evolves and that definitive conclusion and finality are rare in most circumstances involving global campaign efforts.

c. These considerations for global campaigns may inform and enable effective application of joint force capabilities beyond the context of a battle and strengthen the alignment between instruments of national power. Determining favorable ends requires a deep understanding of the strategic environment and shifting circumstances. The joint force cannot succeed without a complete understanding of the adversary and all the relevant actors. An inadequate understanding can lead to an incorrect or even flawed approach. Additionally, when an emerging situation exceeds the scope, scale, or responsibility of a single CDR or global campaign, the joint forces' senior leadership will determine an appropriate response, including the likely supported and supporting commanders, diagnosing the matter through the lens of the global campaign design considerations.

(1) **Strategic Analysis.** JFCs and staff develop and make decisions by fully understanding the perspective of the adversary, reason for their actions, comprehensive recognition of all their capabilities, actions that could convince them to change their behavior, and the fundamental stakes and value that the United States assigns to the set of contested interests. A complete analysis requires identifying the root causes, incentives, and aspirations behind threat actions. This comprehension provides insight and appreciation for the threat's decision making. The diagnosis helps avoid mirror-imaging, or the mistake of substituting their calculus with ours. This analysis is necessary to formulate and implement a long-term competitive strategy to maintain an advantage, apply

or counter coercion, and, if necessary, wage warfare. An effective global campaign requires understanding what an adversary is doing and why they are doing it. The analysis includes an evaluation of the strengths and weaknesses of various actors, involving a long-term and comprehensive assessment. Assessments inform senior decision makers responsible for long-range national security planning and frame the state of the competition by identifying key long-term trends and major asymmetries of the competition. Additionally, the assessment provides insight to the operational concepts and strategies of the United States in contrast to adversaries, allies and partners, and other international actors that are relevant to the competition. Effective competition and contingency planning requires a deep and accurate perspective of a competitor's decision-making process, doctrine, and capabilities in the context of strengths and weaknesses relative to the joint force.

(2) **Range of Possible Outcomes.** Successful global campaigns require the joint force to maintain and continually update an appraisal of a range of possible outcomes for cooperation, competition, and armed conflict. The complexity of a contested environment makes it likely that, in most cases, these evaluations will span a range of alternative futures, each with a mix of favorable and unfavorable outcomes. In complex environments, monitoring, evaluating, and learning how different approaches' interactions may unfold are critical to understanding the longer-term and broader impacts of actions and activities. Considerations of criteria that run throughout planning, execution, and refinement include:

(a) Whether a valuable and attainable outcome exists that exceeds the long-term opportunity costs.

(b) Whether failure would yield a tolerable condition, an armistice, or an otherwise new but unstable and unfavorable regional or global homeostasis.

(c) Whether the nation can financially afford to embark upon the type of operations required and for the necessary duration.

(d) Can the effort succeed if pursued under the worst foreseeable circumstances?

(3) **Anticipate the Consequences.** While anticipation is key to effective planning, successful global campaigns require the joint force to maintain and continually update a realistic appraisal of the potential consequences. The appraisal includes recognizing the risks incurred across other regions and interests, the inherent fragility and sustainability of any gains we hope to realize, and re-characterized competitions that would almost certainly emerge as a result of success. Additionally, the appraisal should recognize how greater influence or strategic advantage in competition or, in the case of armed conflict, "victory" and successful follow-through, might reshape the strategic environment in unforeseen or unprecedented ways. Fundamental to global integration is a continuous joint force assessment regarding the aggregate threat, policy refinements, posture, ongoing activities, readiness, and prioritization. For any change of a CCDR's GCP or CCP, there is likely a cost and shift of risk.

(4) **Commander's Vision.** An overarching vision enables commanders and staff to arrange military operations, activities, and actions so that they produce the desired conditions, behaviors, and outcomes. An effective global campaign organizes around the visualization of **what** is required to achieve the objectives and **why** it should succeed in the face of uncertain reality. In complex environments, while past experiences and expert opinion often provide the best starting points, ultimately the linkages between cause and effect cannot be fully known. Initial assumptions may need validation through understanding the results of activities and actions in that specific environment. The results might change as underlying variables shift as a result of changes in the environment over time. Thus, commanders re-assess and revalidate the initial logic of the approach as the campaign progresses. These insights enable the campaign to account for all the adversary's foundational factors driving their decisions. Overall, the commander's visualization should provide conviction and confidence for the approach. JFCs having well-developed relationships with other military advisors and policymakers are in the best position to maintain the campaign's relevance.

(5) **Operational Direction.** Successful global campaigns are a function of commanders planning and directing relevant subordinate operations and activities. This direction requires a comprehensive vision of the **conditions** and **behaviors** the joint force must create and enables them to achieve strategic objectives. As an aspect of policy formulation, the JFC envisions what CONOPS is necessary to reach those outcomes. This context provides input in the formulation of the corresponding operational-level objectives.

(6) **Campaign Narrative.** As part of a global campaign, the CCDRs develop nested narratives that reflect strategic objectives and target threats. These narratives influence perceptions, behaviors, and, ideally, undermine and delegitimize adversary narratives. Consequently, JFCs should avoid taking actions running contradictory to the narrative. An effective narrative removes ambiguity and clarifies the US position, providing a more compelling and believable alternative to the adversary's narrative. In practice, the use of force should support and reinforce the desired narrative, not replace it.

(7) **Follow-Through and Enduring Efforts.** To translate military success into acceptable and sustainable strategic outcomes, JFCs and staffs develop and implement a long-term approach that focuses the global campaign over time and appreciates the difference between cumulative military achievement and overall policy success. Historically, the joint force has contributed toward both, or neither would have occurred. The CJCS and CCDRs ensure the global campaign continues, just in different forms. In many cases, these interests and influences are regional or at least external to previous competition or armed conflict.

(8) **Authorities.** Policy enables the effective complementary employment of the various instruments of national power. CCDRs understand how and when policy enables successful global campaigns but must contend with tensions between policy aims and the authority to pursue objectives. CCDRs continually advocate for the necessary authority and permissions to achieve the objectives. More times than not, objectives are broad, while the authorities to pursue those objectives are narrow or limited. The discussion surrounding authorities helps CCDRs crystalize the opportunity costs of pursuing desired

objectives. Commanders and staffs should collaborate with other USG departments and agencies as many necessary authorities reside outside DOD. JFCs do not assume that, with an EXORD, all necessary authorities and permissions naturally follow. JFCs identify required authorities and permissions throughout global campaign design, implementation, and refinement. JFCs describe the risk to achieving the strategic objectives should any portion of authorities be withheld.

(9) **Alignment.** The USG's ability to achieve strategic objectives depends on employing the instruments of national power in effective combinations for all possible situations. In practice, departmental and organizational boundaries often make full integration of the instruments of national power an unachievable expectation. A more realistic goal is to align efforts across departments, which, in most cases, is enough. The nature of alignment varies with the situation. At the President's direction, interorganizational cooperation aligns military power with other instruments of national power to advance and defend US values, interests, and objectives. They also identify how military and nonmilitary capabilities best complement each other to achieve national security objectives.

(10) **Resourcing.** Successful global campaigns require synchronized, prioritized, and deconflicted resourcing. The CJCS, CCDRs, and OSD align the resourcing with the campaign plan. The perspective of resourcing should be clear about the costs to achieve success and the opportunity costs to maintain any favorable outcome. With many competing demands for resources, this is difficult at any given time. Over extended periods of competition or protracted warfare, determining sustainable resourcing is even more challenging. Nonetheless, achieving sustainable strategic outcomes requires a sustainable level of resource effort. No JFC has unlimited resources available to do with as they please, especially in the multinational realm. Rather, DOD and other nations make forces available, and JFCs must coherently put them together. The resources, including people, equipment, facilities, and time, have a major impact on the design of the global campaign.

(11) **Force Architecture.** Effective global campaigns require a force architecture that enables the necessary C2 of joint forces. Whatever the nature and the scale of the problem, an optimized operational architecture should enable each contributing component to play an effective role. A sound force architecture leverages the full range of skill, knowledge, experience, and judgment of the joint force's leadership, as well as the full suite of capabilities toward appropriate individual operations within the global campaign's design. Fundamentals include proper authority delegated to the appropriate commanders to assign missions, redirect efforts, and require coordination among subordinate organizations. A JFC may elect to centralize selected functions within the joint force to avoid reducing subordinate commanders' versatility, responsiveness, and initiative.

6. Operational and Strategic Objectives

a. While operational and strategic objectives are uniquely different, they must link with one another. Successful campaign planning continuously interprets and predicts potential requirements that originate from the commander's vision to formulate guidance

for operational design. In following the commander's vision throughout the process, forces arrange to achieve the operational objectives. However, rapid adaptation to failure or exploitation of success may drive numerous revisions and changes in prioritization of operational objectives. Operational progress may temporarily constrain enemy actions; complicate their choices; and shrink their relevant influence, relationships, capability, and credibility.

b. Strategic objectives are expressions of national interests. In practice, some strategic objectives are expressions of policy, not necessarily physical entities. The keys to achieving strategic objectives can exist thousands of miles from any particular challenge, in orbit around the Earth, reside as disaggregated sentiment spread across several continents, or within information activities. Effective global campaigning reaches beyond individual regions; otherwise, joint campaigns and operations address only symptoms.

c. As global campaigns include more than one strategic objective, these objectives may require prioritization across the USG. Orienting on these objectives requires an interorganizational approach, an organized framework, and precise terminology.

7. The Joint Operation

a. Joint operation is a general term that describes military actions conducted by joint forces and those Service forces employed in specified command relationships with each other. Any single joint operation may be subordinate to a campaign or part of a larger campaign. A commander is responsible for the development and execution of an individual operation. Most individual operations are a sum of tactical actions designed to accomplish essential tasks leading to military objectives. Individual operations are typically sequential and unfold by phases or branches as crafted by a commander. A commander may design any number of phases to support mission execution. The phasing of discrete operations remains an important organizational tool. When individual operations conclude or terminate, commanders transition to the next operation or activity as appropriate. The accomplishments of a single operation rarely equate to the entirety of an operational objective or produce a strategic objective or policy outcome.

b. Successful individual operations incrementally advance toward operational-level objectives. What matters in these individual operations is the ability to adapt to certain circumstances by executing branches and sequels.

8. Phasing a Joint Operation

a. Phasing is a way to organize and conduct a complex joint operation in manageable parts. The phases are unique for each operation as a tool to integrate and synchronize related activities, in time and space within available resources, thereby enhancing C2 to improve flexibility and unity of effort during execution. Phases in a plan are distinct and sequential; however, activities often overlap between the phases. Within the phases established by a higher-level JFC, subordinate JFCs and component commanders may establish additional phases that fit their CONOPS. For example, the JFLCC or a subordinate commander might have the following operations inside a single phase of a

higher HQ: deploy, forcible entry, and defend the beachhead. One caution for commanders is to avoid the tendency of forcing the actual OE and the situation it presents to fit previously planned phases as circumstances unfold that can make the most brilliant set of phases irrelevant. For example, planned phasing associated with the prelude or run-up to armed conflict can artificially assume the situation presented by the adversary, the force flow, the US national decision making, and the logic of the phases will all match, align, and unfold together. In reality, these may not align, and adherence to the phases can disrupt, constrain, and even set back the strategic discussion and policy formulation. Operationally, arbitrary phases can artificially separate capabilities that must work together. What matters in execution is adapting to the actual changes in the OE and enemy actions.

(1) During planning, the JFC establishes the conditions, objectives, and transitions from one phase to another. Additionally, JFCs plan sequels and branches for potential contingencies. Phases often identify transitions in focus or main effort, enabling the joint force to synchronize efforts. The JFC adjusts the phases to exploit opportunities presented by the enemy and operational situation or to react to unforeseen conditions.

(2) A CCP may encompass all operations and activities for which the CCDR is responsible, from relatively small-scale SC activities, deterrence activities, and actions leading to transition to armed conflict and execution of large-scale combat operations. However, use of the groups of activities for the purpose of phasing applies only to planning and executing individual operations, whether small-scale contingencies or large-scale combat operations that support the CCP. The groups of military activities associated with phases can serve as a frame of reference that facilitates common understanding among interagency partners, multinational partners, and supporting commanders of how a JFC intends to execute a specific joint operation and progress during execution.

(3) **Considerations for a Joint Operation.** Most individual, large-scale joint operations share certain activities or actions. There are general groups of military activities that may typically occur in preparation for and during a single, large-scale joint operation.

(a) Shaping activities are usually ongoing and may continue during and after the operation. The purpose of shaping activities is to help set the conditions for successful execution of the operation. Shaping operations and activities vary in magnitude, time, intensity, and forces as the operation progresses by phase. At various points in time, each specific group might characterize the main effort of the joint force. Some joint operations below the level of large-scale combat will have distinguishable groups of activity. However, JFCs may compress or not use some activities entirely according to the nature of the operation. For example, the deployment of forces associated with seizing the initiative may have a deterrent effect sufficient to dissuade an enemy from conducting further operations, returning the OE to a more stable state. Shaping activities may include long-term persistent and preventive military engagement, SC, and deterrence actions to assure partners, build partner capacity and capability, and promote regional stability. Shaping activities drawn from a fundamental understanding of the OE help identify, deter, counter, and/or mitigate competitor, adversary, and enemy actions that may challenge country and regional stability. Knowledge gained and assessment of these activities

provide a deeper, and common, understanding of the OE. Intelligence activities inform planning, execution, and assessment, and improve the JFC's understanding of the OE. Shaping activities may occur through other interorganizational participants (e.g., USG departments and agencies, PNs), with DOD in a supporting role. The joint community, in concert with multinational and interagency partners, must maintain and exercise strong regional partnerships to ensure the operational access that enables mission success. For example, obtaining and maintaining rights of navigation and overflight help ensure global reach and rapid projection of military power.

(b) Successful deterrence prevents an enemy's or adversary's undesirable actions because the threat perceives an unacceptable risk or cost of acting. Commanders weight deterrent actions toward protection and security activities characterized by preparatory actions to protect friendly forces, assets, and partners and indicate the intent to execute subsequent phases of the planned operation. A number of FDOs, flexible response options (FROs), and force enhancements could be implemented to support deterrence. The nature of these options varies according to the nature of the threat (e.g., traditional or irregular, state or non-state), the threat's actions, US strategic objectives, and other factors. Once a crisis is definitive, these actions may include mobilization, tailoring of forces, and other predeployment activities; initial deployment into a theater; employment of intelligence collection assets; and development of mission-tailored C2, intelligence, force protection, and logistic requirements to support the JFC's CONOPS. CCDRs continue to conduct military engagement with multinational partners to maintain access to areas, thereby providing the basis for further crisis response. Many deterrent actions build on SC activities. They can also be part of stand-alone operations.

(c) JFCs seek to seize the initiative in all situations through decisive use of joint force capabilities. In combat, this involves both defensive and offensive activities at the earliest possible time, forcing the enemy to culminate offensively and setting the conditions for decisive operations. Rapid application of joint combat power may be required to delay, impede, or halt the enemy's initial aggression and to deny the enemy its initial objectives. Operations to gain access to theater infrastructure and expand friendly freedom of action continue during this phase, while the JFC seeks to degrade enemy capabilities with the intent of resolving the crisis at the earliest opportunity.

(d) These actions focus on controlling the OE and in armed conflict breaking the enemy's will to resist. Joint force options include attacking weaknesses at the leading edge of the enemy's defensive perimeter to roll enemy forces back and striking in-depth to threaten the integrity of the enemy's A2/AD systems, offensive weapons, force projection capabilities, and defensive systems. Operations can range from large-scale combat to various stabilization actions depending on the nature of the enemy.

(e) These actions and activities are typically characterized by a shift in focus from sustained operations to stabilization activities. These operations help reestablish a safe and secure environment and provide essential government services, emergency infrastructure reconstruction, and humanitarian relief. The intent is to help restore local political, economic, and infrastructure stability. Civilian officials may have the lead during

part or all of this period, but the JFC will typically provide significant supporting capabilities and activities. The joint force may be required to perform limited local governance (i.e., military government) and integrate the efforts of other supporting interagency and multinational partners until legitimate local entities are functioning. The JFC continuously assesses the impact of operations on the ability to transfer authority for remaining requirements to a legitimate civil entity.

(f) Joint force support to civil governance typically characterizes enabling civil authority actions and activities. The commander provides this support by agreement with the appropriate civil authority. The purpose is to help the civil authority regain its ability to govern and administer the services and other needs of the population. The objective is typically reached during this phase, signaling the end of the joint operation. CCMD involvement with other nations and other USG departments and agencies beyond the end of the joint operation, such as CMO, lower-level stabilization activities, and FHA, may be required to achieve national objectives.

For more information on stabilization activities, refer to JP 3-07, Joint Stabilization Activities.

(4) Transitions

(a) During execution, a transition marks a change between phases or between ongoing operations and execution of a branch or sequel. This shift in focus by the joint force often is accompanied by changes in command or support relationships and priorities of effort. Transitions require planning and preparation well before their execution. The activities that are prevalent during a given phase rarely align with neatly definable break or end points. Commanders identify the need to move into another phase by assessing that a set of objectives has been achieved or that the enemy has acted in a manner that requires a major change for the joint force. Thus, the transition to a new phase is usually driven by events rather than time. An example is the shift from sustained combat operations to stabilization activities to enable civil authority. Through continuous assessment, the staff measures progress toward planned transitions so that the force prepares for and executes them.

(b) An operation's planned phases are conceptually distinct in time and purpose from one another but must build upon or toward each other. The phases should represent a natural progression and subdivision of the operation. Each phase should have a set of starting conditions that define the initiation of the phase and satisfactory conditions that mark a transition to the next phase. In planning, the ending conditions of one phase are the starting conditions for the next phase. In execution, commanders rarely experience this uniformly.

(c) Sometimes, the situation facing the JFC will change unexpectedly and without apparent correlation to a planned transition. The JFC may choose to shift operations to address unanticipated critical changes. The JFC must recognize fundamental changes in the situation and respond quickly and smoothly. Failure to do so can cause the joint force to lose momentum, miss important opportunities, experience setbacks, or fail to

accomplish the mission. Conversely, successful transitions enable the joint force to maintain the initiative and quickly and efficiently garner favorable results. The JFC should anticipate transformations, as well as plan shifts, during operations.

Refer to JP 3-05, Joint Doctrine for Special Operations, for additional information on phasing UW operations. Refer to JP 3-20, Security Cooperation, for more information on SC's role in helping set conditions for successful theater operations.

b. Balance of Offense, Defense, and Stabilization Activities

(1) Combat missions and tasks can vary widely depending on context of the operation and the objective. Most combat operations will require the commander to balance offensive, defensive, and stabilization activities. This is particularly evident in a large-scale operation, where combat can occur during several phases and stabilization activities may occur throughout the operation.

(2) In armed conflict, campaigns and major operations involve large-scale combat operations that normally include offensive and defensive components (e.g., interdiction, maneuver, forcible entry, fire support, countering air and missile threats, DCO, base defense). Although defense may be the stronger form, offense is normally decisive in combat. To achieve military objectives quickly and efficiently, JFCs normally seek the earliest opportunity to conduct decisive offensive operations. Nevertheless, during a sustained offensive, selected elements of the joint force may need to pause, defend, resupply, or reconstitute, while other forces continue the attack. Accordingly, certain defensive measures and protection activities (e.g., OPSEC) are required throughout each joint operation phase. Joint forces at all levels should be capable of rapid transition between offense and defense and vice versa. The relationship between offense and defense is a complementary one.

(3) Commanders conduct stabilization activities to maintain or reestablish a safe and secure environment and provide essential governmental services, emergency infrastructure reconstruction, and humanitarian relief. To achieve objectives, JFCs integrate and synchronize stabilization activities with offense and defense, as necessary, during the phases of an operation. Stabilization activities support USG stabilization efforts and contribute to USG initiatives to build partnerships. These initiatives set the conditions to interact with partner, competitor, or adversary leaders, military forces, or relevant populations by developing and presenting information and conducting activities to affect their perceptions, will, behavior, and capabilities. The JFC will likely conduct stabilization activities in coordination with or in support of interorganizational participants, the private sector, or indigenous populations and institutions. Stabilization activities are conducted outside the United States.

For further guidance on stabilization activities, refer to JP 3-07, Joint Stabilization Activities. For further guidance on interorganizational coordination, refer to JP 3-08, Interorganizational Cooperation.

(4) Balance and Simultaneity

(a) Commanders strive to apply the many dimensions of military power simultaneously throughout the OA. The challenge of balance and simultaneity affects all operations involving combat, particularly within campaigns, due to their scope. Consequently, JFCs often concentrate in some areas or on specific functions and require economy of force in others. However, plans for campaigns and major operations will normally exhibit a balance between offense, defense, and stabilization activities in various phases. Planning for stabilization activities should begin when joint planning begins.

(b) If the focus of the CCMD's ongoing campaign is on prevention and preparation, any stabilization activities in the JFC's proposed OA might continue, and offense and defense activities may be limited or absent. Defensive activities might be limited to providing an increased level of security. A similar balance applies to deterrence activities, whether conducted as part of the CCP or on initiation of an operation plan (OPLAN) since the intent is to limit escalation in the OA. A JFC might begin to limit stabilization activities if an enemy's or adversary's potential hostile actions are imminent. While conducting primarily offense or defense activities, the focus is destroying the enemy, while stabilization activities may diminish or increase in more secure areas of the OA. As the joint force achieves objectives and hostile acts abate, the focus shifts to actions to stabilize the OA and enable civil authority or establish a temporary military government if required. Stabilization activities increase or resume in proportion to the decrease in the enemy's hostile intent.

(c) Planning for the transition from sustained combat operations to assumption of responsibility by civil authority should begin during plan development and continue throughout a joint operation. An unnecessarily narrow focus on planning offensive and defensive operations may threaten stabilization and enabling civil authority efforts, thus negatively affecting joint operation momentum. Even during sustained combat operations, the joint force should establish or restore security and control and provide humanitarian relief as areas are occupied, bypassed, or returned to civilian control. Planning for FHA should be coordinated through the United States Agency for International Development (USAID) (if it has mission presence) and shared with the senior development advisor to the CDR to avoid duplication of effort in the HN.

9. Organizing Operational Areas

a. **General.** While the UCP assigns AORs, CDRs and other JFCs designate smaller OAs (e.g., JOA and AO) temporarily. OAs have physical dimensions composed of some combination of air, land, and maritime domains. While domains are useful constructs for visualizing and characterizing the physical environment in which operations unfold (the OA), the use of the term "domain" does not imply or mandate exclusivity, primacy, or C2 of any domain. The appropriate JFC specifies authorities and responsibilities within an OA. JFCs define these areas with geographical boundaries, which help commanders and staffs coordinate, integrate, and deconflict joint operations among joint force components and supporting commands. The size of an OA and types of forces employed depend on the scope and nature of the mission. Every type of OA has an associated area of interest

(AOI) and area(s) of influence. Understanding the relationship between the AOI, area of influence, and the assigned OA helps commanders and staffs order their thoughts during both planning and execution.

(1) An **AOI** includes the area of influence and adjacent areas and extends into hostile territory to the objectives of current or planned operations. An AOI focuses intelligence support for monitoring activities pertinent to the OA that may affect operations. The commander may describe the AOI graphically, but the resulting graphic does not represent a boundary or other control measure.

(2) An **area of influence** is a geographic area wherein a commander is directly capable of influencing operations by maneuver or fire support systems normally under the commander's command or control. The area of influence normally surrounds and includes the assigned OA. The extent of a subordinate command's area of influence is one factor the higher commander considers when defining the subordinate's OA. Understanding the command's area of influence helps the commander and staff plan branches to the current operation that could require the force to employ capabilities outside the assigned OA. The commander can describe the area of influence graphically, but the resulting graphic does not represent a boundary or other control measure for maneuver or fire support.

b. **CCMD-Level Areas.** When warranted, the President, SecDef, or CCDRs may designate a theater of war and/or theater of operations for each operation (see Figure IV-2). CCDRs can elect to control operations directly in these OAs or may establish subordinate joint forces for that purpose while remaining focused on the broader AOR. Operations that span CCMD boundaries may expose gaps in C2. DOD uses a mix of formal and informal processes to synchronize actions between AORs.

(1) **AOR.** An AOR is a geographical area established by the UCP within which a CCDR has the authority to plan for and conduct operations. CCDRs may operate forces wherever required to accomplish approved missions. CCDRs must coordinate cross-AOR operations among the affected CCMDs.

(2) **Theater of War.** The President, SecDef, or CCDR establishes a theater of war, which is a geographic area for campaigns and major operations involving combat. The United States establishes a theater of war when there is a formal declaration of war or it is necessary to encompass more than one theater of operations (or a JOA and a separate theater of operations) within a single boundary for C2, sustainment, protection, or mutual support. A theater of war may not encompass a CCDR's entire AOR but may cross the boundaries of two or more AORs.

(3) **Theater of Operations.** A theater of operations is an OA defined by the CCDR for the conduct or support of specific military operations. A theater of operations is established primarily when the scope and scale of the operation or campaign exceeds what a JOA can normally accommodate. More than one joint force HQ can exist in a theater of operations. A CCDR may establish one or more theaters of operations. Different

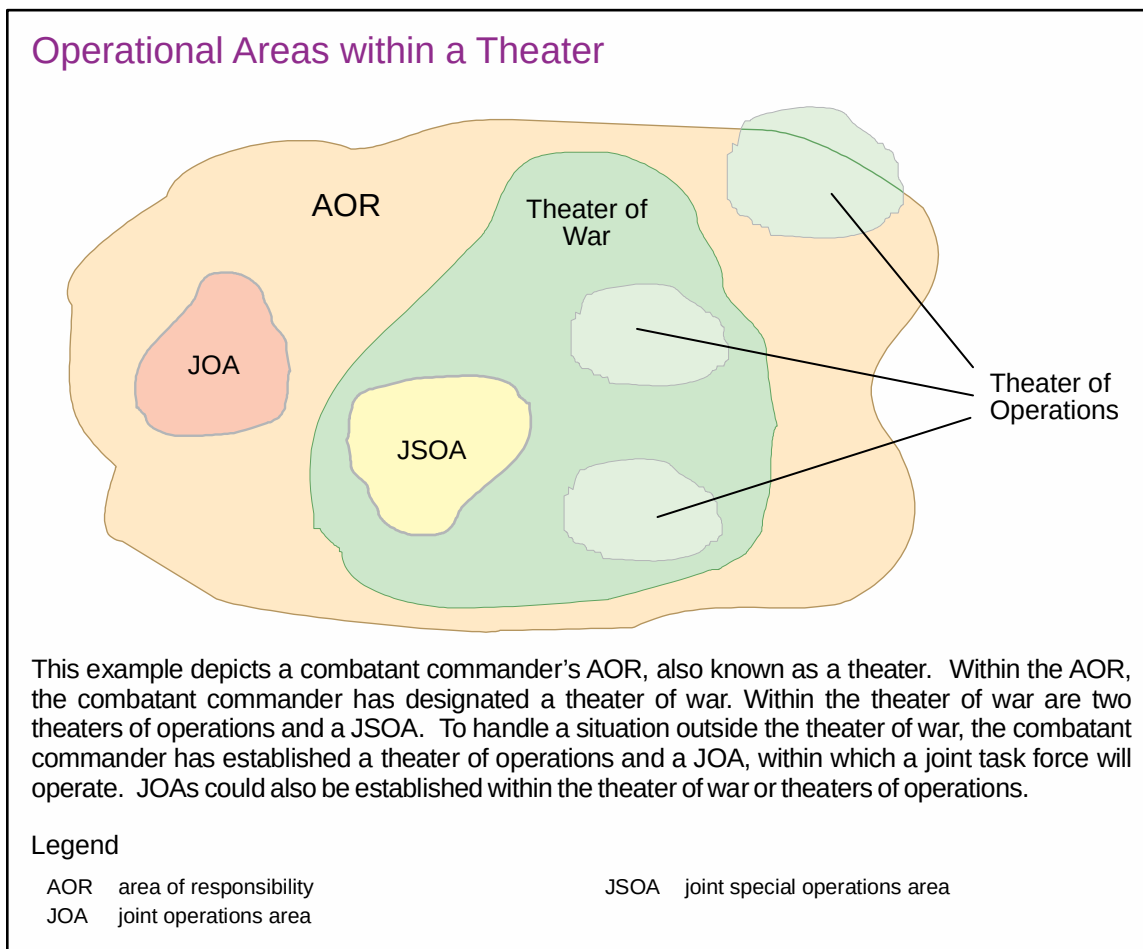


Figure IV-2. Operational Areas within a Theater

theaters will normally focus on different missions. A theater of operations typically is smaller than a theater of war but is large enough to allow for operations in-depth and over extended periods. Theaters of operations are normally associated with campaigns and major operations and may cross the boundary of two or more AORs.

c. For operations somewhat limited in scope and duration, or for specialized activities, the commander can establish the following OAs.

(1) **JOA.** A JOA is an area of land, sea, airspace, and cyberspace defined by a CCDR or subordinate unified commander, in which a JFC (normally a commander, joint task force [CJTF]) conducts military operations to accomplish a specific mission. JOAs are particularly useful when operations have a limited scope and geographic area or when operations cross the boundaries of AORs or cover geography between two theaters (see Figure IV-3).

(2) **Joint Special Operations Area (JSOA).** A JSOA is an area of land, sea, and airspace assigned by a JFC to the commander of SOF to conduct special operations activities. It may be limited in size to accommodate a discreet DA mission or may be

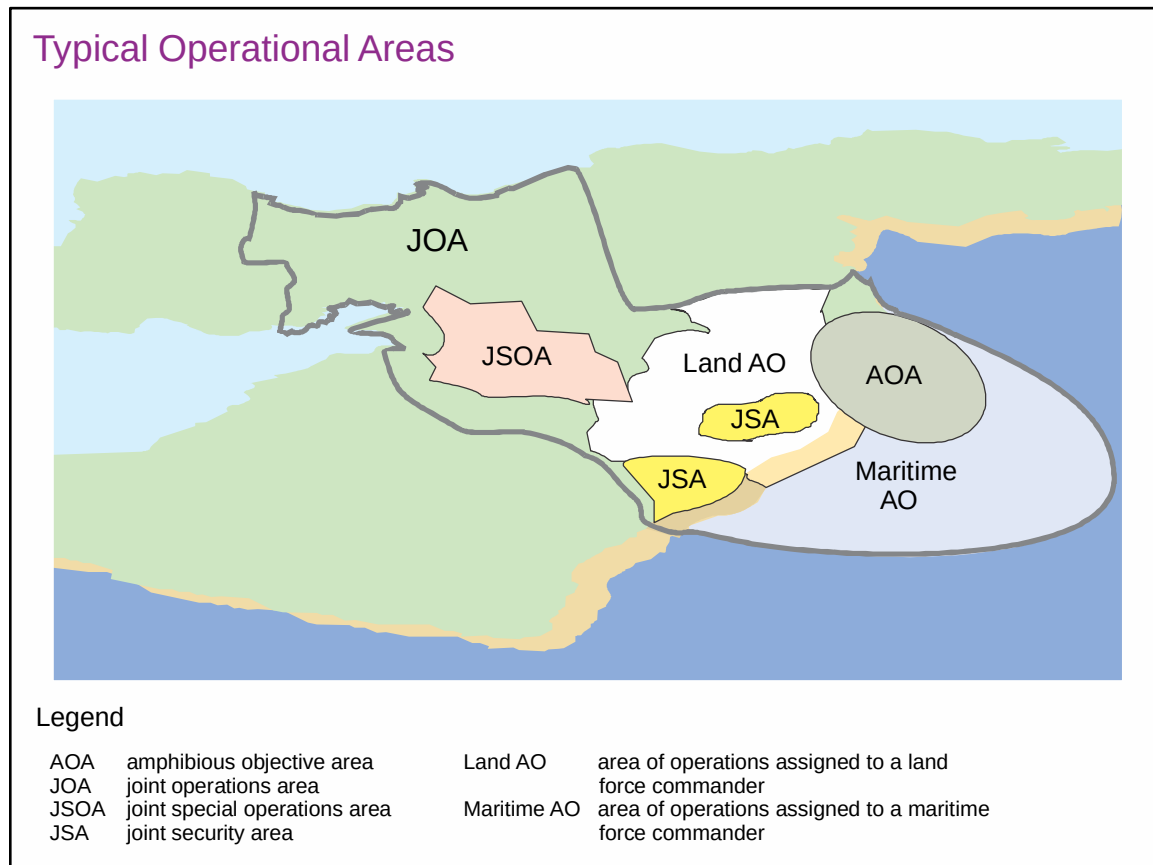


Figure IV-3. Typical Operational Areas

extensive enough to allow a continuing broad range of UW operations. JFCs may use a JSOA to delineate and facilitate simultaneous conventional and special operations. The JFSOCC is the supported commander within the JSOA.

For additional guidance on JSOAs, refer to JP 3-05, Joint Doctrine for Special Operations.

(3) **Amphibious Objective Area (AOA).** An AOA is normally established by the JFC or JFMCC for amphibious operations. The AOA is an area specifically for amphibious force operations. This area should be of adequate size to accomplish the amphibious force's mission and must provide enough area for conducting necessary maritime, air, and land operations.

For additional guidance on AOAs, refer to JP 3-02, Amphibious Operations.

(4) **AO.** JFCs may define AOs for land and maritime forces. AOs do not typically encompass their entire OA but should be large enough for component commanders to accomplish their missions (to include a designated amount of airspace) and protect their forces. Component commanders with AOs typically designate subordinate AOs within which their subordinate forces operate. These commanders employ the full range of joint and Service control measures and graphics as coordinated with other

component commanders and their representatives to delineate responsibilities, deconflict operations, and achieve unity of effort.

d. Contiguous and Noncontiguous OAs

(1) OAs may be contiguous or noncontiguous (see Figure IV-4). When they are contiguous, a boundary separates them. When OAs are noncontiguous, subordinate commands do not share a boundary. The higher HQ retains responsibility for the unassigned portion of its OA.

(2) In some operations, a Service or functional component (typically the land component) could have such a large OA that the component's subordinate units operate in a noncontiguous manner, widely distributed and beyond mutually supporting range of each other. In these cases, the JFC should consider options whereby joint capabilities are allocated at the level and placed under the control of units that can employ them most effectively.

e. Considerations When Assuming Responsibility for an OA. The establishing commander should activate an assigned OA at a specified date and time based on mission and situation considerations addressed during COA analysis and wargaming. Common considerations include C2, the IE, intelligence requirements, communications support, protection, security, LOCs, terrain management, movement control, airspace control, surveillance, reconnaissance, air and missile defense, PR, targeting and fires, interorganizational coordination, and environmental issues.

10. Linear and Nonlinear Operations

a. In linear operations, each commander directs and sustains combat power toward enemy forces in concert with adjacent units. In linear operations, emphasis is on maintaining the position of friendly forces in relation to other friendly forces. From this relative positioning of forces, security is enhanced and the massing of forces can be facilitated. Also inherent in linear operations is the security of rear areas, especially LOCs between sustaining bases and fighting forces. Protected LOCs, in turn, increase the endurance of joint forces and ensure freedom of action for extended periods. A linear OA organization may be best for some operations. Conditions that favor linear operations include those where US forces lack the information needed to conduct nonlinear operations or adequate forces. Linear operations are also appropriate against a deeply arrayed, echeloned enemy force or when the threat to LOCs reduces friendly force freedom of action. In these circumstances, linear operations enable commanders to concentrate and synchronize combat power more efficiently.

b. In nonlinear operations, forces orient on objectives without geographic reference to adjacent forces. Nonlinear operations typically focus on creating specific effects on multiple decisive points. Nonlinear operations emphasize operations along multiple LOOs from selected bases (ashore or afloat). In nonlinear operations, sustaining functions may depend on sustainment assets moving with forces or aerial delivery. Noncombatants,

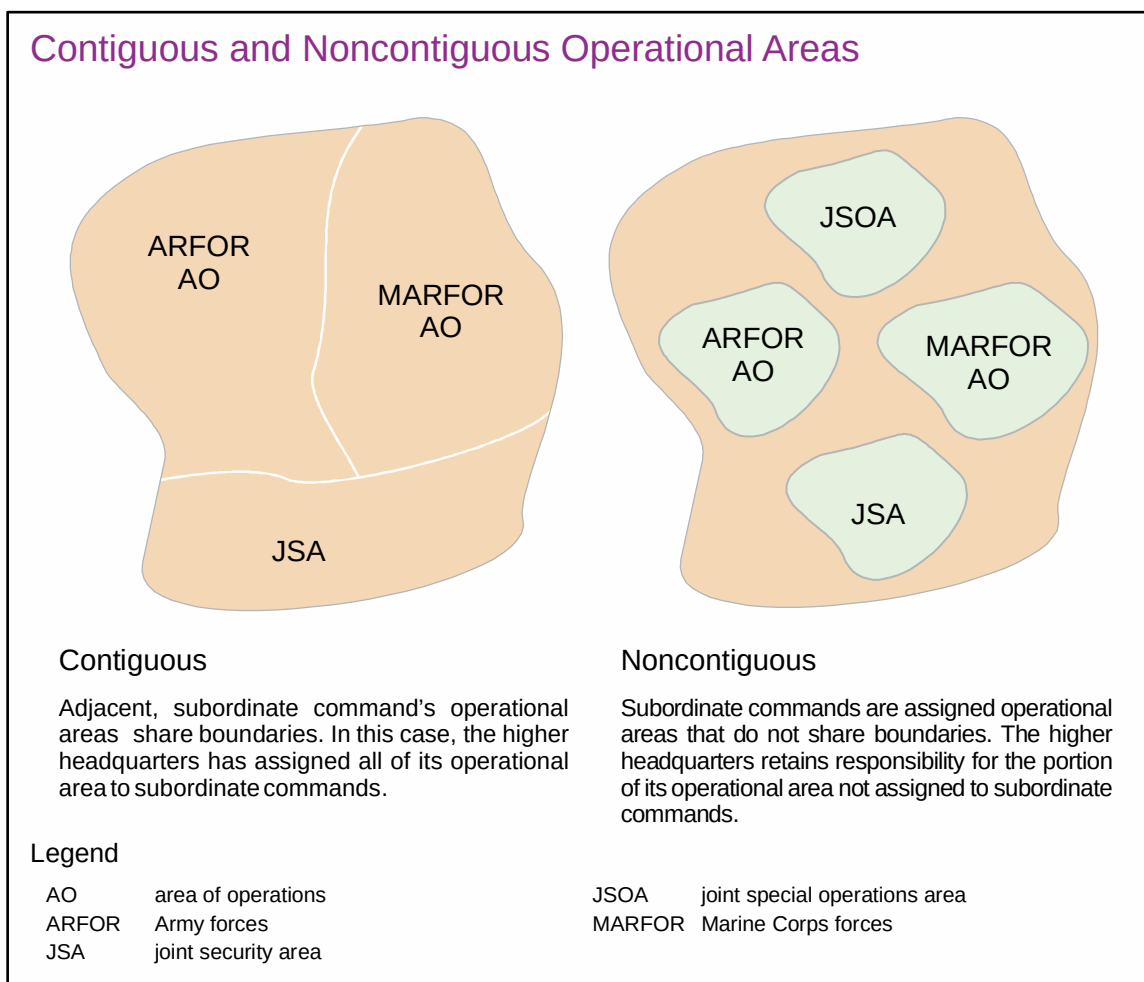


Figure IV-4. Contiguous and Noncontiguous Operational Areas

civilians, and the fluidity of nonlinear operations require careful judgment in clearing fires, both direct and indirect. Situational awareness, coupled with precision fires, frees commanders to act against multiple objectives. Swift maneuver against several decisive points supported by precise, concentrated fire can induce paralysis and shock among enemy forces and commanders. The joint forces orient more on their assigned objectives (e.g., destroying an enemy force or seizing and controlling critical terrain or population centers) and less on their geographic relationship to other friendly forces. For protection, individual forces rely more on situational awareness, mobility advantages, and freedom of action than on mass. Nonlinear operations place a premium on the communications, intelligence, mobility, and innovative means for sustainment.

(1) During **nonlinear offensive operations**, attacking forces must focus offensive actions against decisive points, while allocating the minimum-essential combat power to defensive operations. Reserves must have a high degree of mobility to respond where needed. JFCs may dedicate combat forces to provide for LOC and base defense. Vulnerability increases as operations extend, and attacking forces operate over a larger OA. Linkup operations, particularly those involving vertical envelopments, require extensive

planning and preparation. The potential for friendly fire incidents increases with the fluid nature of the nonlinear OA and the changing disposition of attacking and defending forces.

(2) During **nonlinear defensive operations**, defenders focus on destroying enemy forces, even if it means losing physical contact with other friendly units. Successful nonlinear defenses require all friendly commanders to understand the JFCs intent and maintain a COP. Noncontiguous defenses are generally mobile defenses; however, some subordinates may conduct area defenses. Nonlinear defenses place a premium on reconnaissance and surveillance to maintain contact with the enemy, produce relevant information, and develop and maintain a COP. The defending force focuses almost exclusively on defeating the enemy force rather than retaining large areas. Although less challenging than in offensive operations, LOC and sustainment security will still be a test. Securing sustainment operations and infrastructure may require the allocation of combat forces to protect LOCs and other high-risk functions or bases. The JFC must establish clear command relationships to properly account for the added challenges to base, base cluster, and LOC security.

c. AOs and Linear/Nonlinear Operations

(1) **General.** JFCs consider incorporating combinations of contiguous and noncontiguous AOs with linear and nonlinear operations as they conduct operational design. They choose the combination that fits the OE and the purpose of the operation. Association of contiguous and noncontiguous AOs with linear and nonlinear operations creates the four combinations in Figure IV-5.

(2) **Linear Operations in Contiguous AOs.** Linear operations in contiguous AOs (upper left-hand pane in Figure IV-5) typify sustained offensive and defensive operations against powerful, echeloned, and symmetrically organized forces. The contiguous areas and continuous forward line of own troops focus on combat power and protect sustainment functions.

(3) **Linear Operations in Noncontiguous AOs.** The upper right-hand pane of Figure IV-5 depicts a JFC's OA with subordinate component commanders conducting linear operations in noncontiguous AOs. In this case, the JFC retains responsibility for that portion of the OA outside the subordinate commanders' AOs.

(4) **Nonlinear Operations in Contiguous AOs.** The lower left-hand pane in Figure IV-5 illustrates the JFC's entire assigned OA divided into subordinate AOs. Subordinate component commanders are conducting nonlinear operations within their AOs. This combination is typically associated with stabilization activities and DSCA.

(5) **Nonlinear Operations in Noncontiguous AOs.** The lower right-hand pane of Figure IV-5 depicts a JFC's OA with subordinate component commanders conducting nonlinear operations in noncontiguous AOs. In this case, the JFC retains responsibility for that portion of the OA outside the subordinate commanders' AOs.

Combinations of Areas of Operations and Linear/Nonlinear Operations

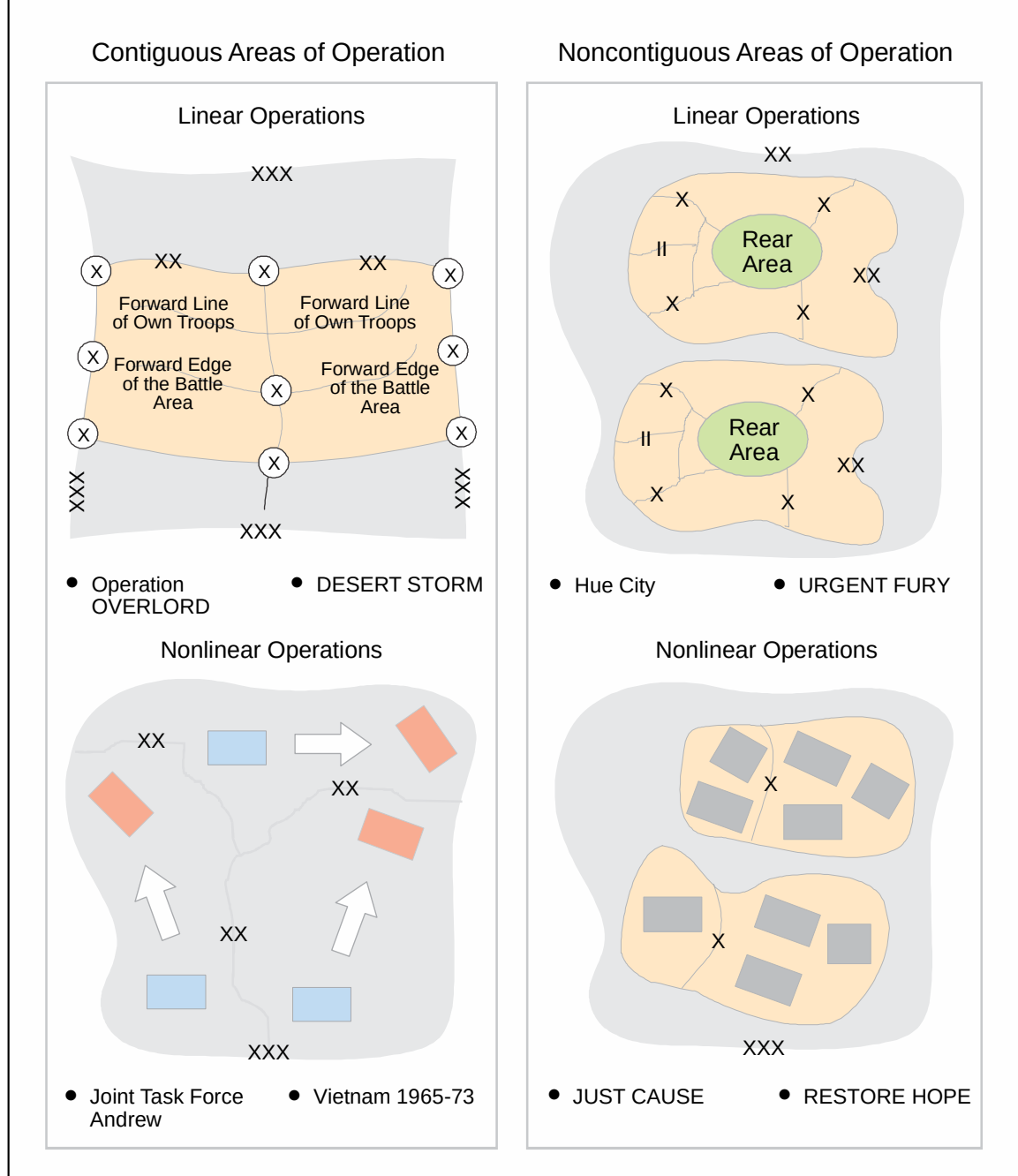


Figure IV-5. Combinations of Areas of Operations and Linear/Nonlinear Operations

11. Global Integration in Practice

a. Global integration includes the entire joint force's actions, unfolding over different time horizons, and begins with the CJCS. In execution, the joint force campaigns to achieve operational-level objectives as described in the global campaigns, CCCR

campaigns, and standing EXORDs. To oversee execution and gauge the degree of effective integration, the CJCS's JS regularly examines and collaborates with each coordinating authority's ongoing campaign activities throughout the year of execution. Refinement and adjustment of global campaigns are typical and normal. One important aspect of global integration is to assess, understand, and evaluate the impact of how a proposed change in an effort, force, or direction for one part of the overall global campaign will cascade across the force. This evaluation includes not only impacts to ongoing operations for other global campaigns but also across the planning and force development time horizons. Assessing all the global campaigns enables senior military leadership to determine the validity and utility of the current guidance and overall strategy. The regular interactions between the CJCS's JS and the coordinating authority can lead to refinements within the execution year and provide input to annual assessments and considerations for future planning.

b. Global integration provides an opportunity to adjust, revise, and reinforce individual operations, activities, and investments without modifying plans. Throughout execution, senior military and civilian leaders use global integration to modify ongoing campaign efforts across the globe. Global integration enables CCDRs to recommend shifts in direction and effort for global campaigns by connecting annual campaign assessments with force allocation planning and weave together operational and institutional considerations such as investment choices. Each CCMDs' annual campaign assessment, CCDRs' feedback, intelligence communities' forecasts, and the JSPS assessments inform readiness programming and investment choices for future force development and employment.

12. The Global Campaign, Combatant Command Campaign, and Global Integration Framework

a. Title 10, USC, Section 153, directs the CJCS to prepare strategic plans, as required, and provide for the preparation and review of contingency plans. The CJCS provides advice on ongoing military operations and the allocation and transfer of forces among CCMDs. In performing this role in global integration, the CJCS is responsible for operationalizing the national strategies and other policy guidance, aligning the actions of the joint force, balancing risk, assigning problems, and providing military advice to SecDef for adjudicating competing priorities. The CJCS, through the JSCP, assigns which sets of global challenges require GCPs and GIFs.

(1) GCPs. GCPs globally integrate the activities of the joint force to campaign against the priority challenges. GCPs contain linkages to key contingency plans, identify responsibilities, define objectives, and assign tasks. The CCDR, with the preponderance of responsibility for a GCP, generally serves as the coordinating authority.

(2) Coordinating Authority. To integrate CCMD planning for the global campaigns, the CJCS, in fulfilling the responsibilities relating to global integration, assigns a coordinating authority. A coordinating authority is generally a CCDR. The JSCP assigns the CCMD with oversight over a GCP and the role of coordinating authority, which provides collaborative authority to integrate planning from other CCMDs, CSAs, Services, USG departments and agencies, allies, and partners, as the designated lead for the problem